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Community Policing – A European Perspective

Strategies, Best Practices and Guidelines

 Springer

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Foreword

Community Policing is a long-known concept in Europe. Many countries have implemented it, depending on the problem areas that manifest and the needs that emerge from society. The various police systems and strategies in these countries also influence the way in which Community Policing is organized.

During a CEPOL course in Ireland in May 2016 one of the central themes was Community Policing. The various countries presented their implementation of Community Policing and those insights aroused curiosity and led to a nice exchange of knowledge. An important conclusion was that police organizations throughout Europe use many different forms of Community Policing. Following this course, I was asked to write a foreword for this book on Community Policing in Europe. I feel honoured and want to emphasize from personal experience the importance of this kind of research and comparisons.

As a young officer, I first came into contact with Community Policing when a community police officer explained to me how he approached certain visible and potential problem areas in his district. His main starting point was to initiate cooperation between citizens, organizations and local government, including sharing responsibilities and to motivate involvement. His vision was to cope with security issues from a problem-oriented approach and not only to focus on incident-oriented policing.

Much later, as a police chief, I used these gained insights to deal with safety and security issues in the municipalities for which I was responsible. Again, I saw that community policing officers initiate solutions for such issues by cooperating with partners in different ways. An essential difference was that the police was not always in the directing role, but the city council and various social organizations. In the Netherlands the leading role lays with the city council; the police took a more stimulating, participatory and motivating role. It was not always clear what the problem analysis was and which insights were used in the development of these initiatives. Much was taken from successful projects elsewhere, nationally and internationally. It lacked scientific research and clear indicators that can determine success.

Today we are faced with new challenges like terrorist threats and attacks, refugees, radicalization, conflicts between groups in society, the impact of (social) media and blurring boundaries between countries, resulting in the fact that security issues are not explicitly local. It is therefore important that research on Community Policing based on international orientation, finding indicators for success and insights into good practices, takes place.

This publication “Community Policing in a European Perspective” provides that insight. The wide palette of themes, profound insights, European comparisons and good practices gives many partners in security a great opportunity to expand their knowledge and possibilities to deploy solutions.



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Chapter 1

Introduction

P. Saskia Bayerl, Babak Akhgar, Ruža Karlović and Garik Markarian

Community Policing (CP) is embedded in the daily life of European citizens; e.g., when police officers aim to solve local problems to improve the quality of life and ensure a favourable state of security in the community. However, there are still debates about the difference between ‘traditional’ policing and community policing. Furthermore, community policing in Europe with its diversity of cultures, traditions, religions and practices did not evolve into a unified ‘one for all’ procedure and is continuing to develop differently in various EU countries. It is therefore unrealistic to expect that community policing in Europe could be harmonised and that the same rules and procedures will become mandatory in all EU states. Instead, different countries will continue to develop their own ways of delivering community policing, which will need to be incorporated into the daily life of EU society with its ideal of open borders and freedom of movement. This process of individual developments within an economically and socially interlinked European society brings many challenges and opens numerous opportunities for optimizing the way community policing in Europe is delivered. In this book, we outline the challenges and differences and suggest ways for developing community policing, which will meet the requirements of EU citizens in the 21st century.

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Our book is based on the premise that developing successful CP procedures depends on the overall socio-political state in each country (see Chaps. 6–10 in this book). In other words, an important determinant for public safety is the lifestyle and culture of members of that society. Citizens are expected to abide by the rules and laws and to be responsible for themselves and each other, while services and institutions care for those that are incapable of doing so. In order for a society to function, individuals must accept certain limitations to their personal freedoms allowing a minimal consensus about how to protect the public interests of the various communities in their country. Community Policing is a concept that aims to bring communities and the police together to enable co-creation of safety.

We live in an interconnected world which brings significant benefits and challenges to our society. Community Policing cannot be delivered without utilizing the benefits of this interconnected world and without addressing the challenges that it brings (Byrne and Marx 2011). Therefore, this book also considers existing and emerging information and communication technologies (ICTs), which could be used for enhancing CP operations. New and emerging technologies change the landscape for community policing, providing new opportunities for improving the effectiveness of problem-solving and partnership initiatives and for assisting in the implementation of organizational changes designed to institutionalize these processes (Scheider 2008). Secure information and communication technologies that deliver real time and accurate data to analysts and CP officers can contribute significantly to enhanced CP operations.

This book provides insights into the multi-dimensional nature of Community Policing, which varies depending on the social contexts across European countries. It provides important conceptual discussions as well as case studies and real-life examples of European Community Policing practices. It further provides insights into how the (primarily locally focused) concept of Community Policing fits into an increasingly interconnected world. Our book is intended for professionals working in Community Policing, academics and policymakers developing CP procedures. In addition, the book aims to provide information for readers who are new to the subject of CP. The large number of examples and case studies make it also an excellent source for teaching materials.

The book is organised in three parts. In Part 1 we discuss the influence of the social context on policing in general and Community Policing in particular with a specific focus on the context-specific nature of ‘European’ Community Policing (e.g., Chaps. 2 and 3). The conclusion is that CP is an ambiguous concept. The local implementation is highly contingent on the local context, mutual trust and perceived legitimacy between the police and the local community, both in the traditional policing sense and the expanded CP conceptualization. It is thus highly improbable that just simply ‘importing’ CP best practices developed in a given context and at a given time to another place and time could produce the same positive results. Still, to develop country-specific approaches it is informative to consider experiences with more or less successful practices and experiences in other countries (e.g., Chap. 6).

Part 2 therefore provides a wide range of examples and case studies of Community Policing approaches across Europe. These range from addressing radicalization using CP concepts in Germany to understanding citizens' perceptions of police in Belgium to mediation of conflicts at public events in the UK. Further examples address a review of current approaches to organize citizen participation in Austria and key changes to policing practices after the introduction of CP in Croatia. Many of these examples address modern technologies at the heart of community issues (e.g., in the case of radicalization) or as support for Community Policing efforts (e.g., Chaps. 7 and 8).

In Part 3 of this book we therefore discuss the role of information and communication technology both in terms of professional and consumer technology platforms. We show drawbacks of the existing professional technology platforms and identify ways for improving these system, enabling more efficient CP processes and hopefully outcomes. We also analyse emerging consumer technology platforms and show how these could be incorporated within the existing professional technology platforms to improve interaction between the public and police. This third part starts with an overview of Geographic Information Systems applications for CP, followed by a description of wireless communication systems and the application of social media for vital Community Policing tasks. We further pay attention to both the benefits and the challenges of cyber security in daily life in general and CP in particular (e.g., Chaps. 11 and 14). Furthermore, we present novel techniques for automated identification of unusual behaviours, which could dramatically simplify and enhance the delivery of CP. Finally, we provide a framework for the design and evaluation of technologies meant to support Community Policing (see Chap. 17).

We hope that our book can encourage 'tailor-made' CP approaches. CP requires courage and genuine interest from police and communities, and we believe that this courage can lead to resilient communities and lasting partnerships to deal with local needs in the areas of safety and security. For Community Policing to function properly, the community needs to have social capital, implying the intangible resources of a community. Recent research has demonstrated that in addition to police websites, which provide extensive information, web tools to support Community Policing should be designed to adhere to and support communication that allow residents to share personal experiences, strengthen social ties with other residents, engage in collective problem-solving discussions and to informally regulate social norms—while also addressing crime and community concerns (Lewis and Lewis 2012). Community security and social cohesion mutually reinforce each other. Overall, in order for Community Policing to support social cohesion, programmes should aim at continually decreasing tensions between police and the community, increasing the quality of police services, police visibility, efficiency in dealing with community problems and accountability to the community.

Throughout the book the reader will find an emphasis on equal accountability of all CP participants. Police and community members need to share common goals and expectations and must be held equally accountable. Police control mechanisms need to be strengthened and community members need to be included in the

processes of control and evaluation of police work, thus contributing to the strengthening of the democratic nature of police procedures and the police organisation. Police control mechanisms are very complex and vary from country to country. The police are liable when they break policing rules, the law or when they violate human rights, but are also responsible for the actions they take for protecting the community from crime, and in general for the public safety results they achieve. It is emphasized that structures of accountability are common to all police systems in Europe: Democratic accountability and the legitimacy of the police is strengthened, where both the police and the communities are accountable to each other and accountability is not enforced only by punishments but also by some kind of rewards. Our book promotes an approach based on participatory governance and accountability, where CP is managed not only by the police, but by all community stakeholders, and where accountability is mutual. The results achieved in CP, being positive or negative, are thus not only the responsibility of police, but equally shared and owned by all stakeholders.

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Part I

CP Context and Processes

Chapter 2

Community Policing in Support of Social Cohesion

Ines Sučić and Ruža Karlović

2.1 Communities and Crime—The Role of Social (Dis) Organisation, Social Cohesion, Community Cohesion, Integration and Resilience

Concepts of safety, crime, policing and community are frequently used in professional but also laypersons' discourse. However, definitions and the interrelatedness of these concepts are often very complex and vary between different theoretical perspectives and research fields. Thus, this chapter first gives a short overview of the core concepts together with the relations among them.

Higher levels of concerns about neighbourhood safety are correlated with higher levels of perceived physical incivilities (e.g., Taylor 1997), higher levels of crimes against people and property (e.g., Taylor 2002), lower levels of community care and vigilance and lower levels of place attachments/territoriality (Sampson and Graif 2009). Crime rates in communities are strongly related to the extent of community social (dis) organisation (Sampson and Groves 1989), and both disorder and crime should be treated as outcomes of disorganisation, not as causes of one another (Sampson and Raudenbush 1999). *Social capital* generally refers to the intangible resources of a community (Saegert and Winkel 2004) such as mutual trust, patterns of reciprocity, communalism, shared norms and identity (Flora et al. 1997) produced in “relations among persons that facilitate action” for mutual benefit (Coleman 1988, p. 100). Social disorganisation erodes social bonds and increases social disruption in communities

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(Brewer et al. 1998), resulting in a lack of common values and social cohesion within the community.

The level of cohesion determines the level of collective efficacy. *Collective efficacy* is the driving force for residents to take an active role in modelling their communities (Sampson and Raudenbush 1999) and in maintaining effective and collective social control of crime and security (Sampson and Groves 1989). High collective efficacy is negatively associated with crime rates and neighbourhood disorder, and it reduces neighbourhood disadvantage, residential instability and fear of crime (Sampson and Raudenbush 1999). Even neighbourhoods with weak social ties can have low crime rates if they have high levels of collective efficacy; so networks and resources may be necessary but not sufficient for social control (Morenoff et al. 2001). The breakdown of social cohesion and erosion of social capital can both be causes and consequences of increasing levels of insecurity (see also Chaps. 3 and 17).

Social cohesion is an ordering feature of a society and, according to Durkheim, represents the interdependence between the members of society, shared loyalties and solidarity (Jenson 1998). The term *social cohesion* is thus often used to describe how well people who live in the same area are integrated into their local ethnic or religious community (Robinson 2004) or as the amount of individual participation in social groups in the community. There are two principal dimensions of social cohesion: (1) *social inclusion*, i.e., the reduction of disparities, inequalities and social exclusion and (2) *social capital*, i.e., the strengthening of social relations, interactions and ties (Berger-Schmitt 2000).

The term ‘social cohesion’ has occasionally been used synonymously with the term ‘community cohesion’ though they should be differentiated (Cantle 2001). The term *community cohesion* was established following riots and disturbances in the northern towns of Bradford, Burnley and Oldham (UK) in 2001 and the subsequent *Report of the Independent Review Team* in which the problem of ‘parallel lives’ was identified (Cantle 2001; see also Chap. 7). This emerged as a policy response to the perceived need for strengthened community identity and purpose in the context of increasingly differentiated identities, transnational attachments and a general climate of fear and marginalisation (Cantle 2005). According to Cantle (2001), *social cohesion* assumes that all societal differences are essentially determined by social class and economic inequalities while *community cohesion* assumes that problems between identifiable groups, based on ethnic, faith or cultural divisions, create a sense of unfairness and undermine solidarity among community members. Community cohesion describes how well micro-communities are knitted together as a whole, and its focus is on the existence of shared social values that enable all communities to work together for common goals and to feel a sense of belonging and citizenship (Robinson 2004).

Recently, policymakers have turned their attention from ‘community cohesion’ to issues of ‘integration’ and ‘resilience’. *Integration* means creating the conditions for everyone to play a full part in national and local life (Department for Communities and Local Government 2012), while *resilience* refers to the extent to which a community is able to adapt to (economic) shocks and (cultural) changes (Centre for Local Economic Strategies 2014).

The (limited) academic literature has been quite critical of the policy of community cohesion (Lowndes and Thorp 2011). It was criticized for its lack of clarity and consistency (Flint and Robinson 2008; Joppke 2007) and seen as representing a new form of governmentality (McGhee 2003). Also, community cohesion was considered a ‘new buzz phrase in policing and community safety’ (Chainey 2005). Community cohesion is “undermined by the disadvantage, discrimination and disaffection experienced by the identifiable community as a whole” (Cantle 2005, p. 52), and a lack of social cohesion results in increased social tensions, violent crime, targeting of minorities, human rights violations and, ultimately, violent conflict, etc. (Bureau for Crisis Prevention and Recovery 2009). Socio-economic status and deprivation (90% of participants), access to services and facilities (70% of participants), and crime (58% of participants) were considered the factors with the greatest impact on community cohesion and resilience (cp. Centre for Local Economic Strategies 2014).

Enhancing community security and cohesion has been identified as one of nine outcomes under the broader Crisis Prevention and Recovery (CPR) outcome area in the UNDP Strategic Plan (2008–2013) (Bureau for Crisis Prevention and Recovery 2009). Cohesive and resilient communities are less likely to experience neighbourhood problems such as anti-social behaviour, crime and waste mismanagement (Centre for Local Economic Strategies 2014). The concepts of community security and social cohesion are mutually reinforcing. If communities feel physically secure, they are likely to act in more cohesive ways and vice versa (Bureau for Crisis Prevention and Recovery 2009). However, community cohesion does not necessarily mean that there is an absence of conflict but that the community has ‘a collective ability to manage the shifting array of tensions and disagreements’ (Gilchrist 2004). Consequently, it can be argued that to some extent the relationship between crime and collective (dis)organisation may be mediated by the role of police in community (cooperative or conflicting) (Skogan 1989), since police are society’s first-line defence in dealing with conflicts among people (Trojanowicz and Bucqueroux 1991) and the function of the police involve more than just enforcing the law (Goldstein 1987).

2.2 (In)formal Crime Control and Community Policing

Controlling crime is performed either through formal controls or informal controls. *Formal controls* are imposed by Law Enforcement Agencies. *Informal social controls* are usually imposed by family members, friends, teachers, neighbours, etc., who use sanctions such as shame, condemnation, corporal punishment, isolation and other detrimental consequences, which are not formally specified by law or pronounced by a judge (Benson 1989). The importance of informal control in shaping neighbourhood crime rates is widely accepted (Kubrin and Weitzer 2003), and there is strong evidence that social ties and social control help to lower neighbourhood crime rates (e.g., Bellair 1997, 2000; Sampson 1997). However, the

effectiveness of informal social sanctions depends on different factors including low economic status, ethnic heterogeneity, residential mobility and family disruption (Sampson and Groves 1989).

Studies also show that formal sanctions and other external institutions do not work effectively within disorganised communities (Bishop 1984; Jiang and Lambert 2009), that formal sanctions work well when they are supported by informal sanctions—the police need the support and assistance of private citizens (Meares 2002), but that the role of formal control cannot be neglected (Kubrin and Weitzer 2003).

Formal control may influence crime and disorder directly and indirectly by influencing residents' informal control practices (Kubrin, and Weitzer 2003). The amount and quality of police activity in a neighbourhood can significantly affect its crime rate. Visible proactive policing influences residents' perceptions of the probability of arrests for illegal acts (Sampson and Cohen 1988¹), and at the neighbourhood level increases in police activity in a community reduces residents' risk of crime victimization after controlling for other factors (Velez 2001). Insufficient or excessive formal control by the police may lower the residents' desire or capacity to fight crime and disorder, deflate the sense of collective efficacy among law-abiding residents and their willingness or ability to engage in informal control or/and invite illegal retributive practices by some community members (Kubrin and Weitzer 2003).

Community Policing illustrates proactive policing in which formal and informal social control can reinforce each other, helping to reduce crime (Greene 1999; Kubrin and Weitzer 2003; Skogan and Hartnett 1997). Community Policing aims to deformalize the formal mechanisms of control by emphasising resident-police interaction of social control (Hawdon and Ryan 2003) and by integrating the police into the neighbourhood's primary groups (Greene 1987). The 'police officer–community residents' interaction also diminishes the anonymity residents may have relied upon to perpetrate their illegal activities. As police officers identify with an area and become familiar with its residents and lifestyle, it is argued that their work reinforces the informal social controls of the area (Wilson and Kelling 1982). Unfortunately, however, to date very little research has addressed this formal-informal control relationship (Kubrin and Weitzer 2003).

2.3 Community Policing in Support of Social Cohesion

Community Policing emerged as a means of addressing high crime rates in the early 1990s (Lewis and Lewis 2012) and of improving the relationship between the police and the public (Eck and Rosenbaum 1994). Community Policing was

¹Sampson and Cohen (1988) found that robust arrests for disorderly conduct and drunk driving had a deterrent effect on an unrelated crime—robbery.

governed by the ideal of ‘policing as community problem solving’ and ‘policing by consent’ (Goldstein 1987) in order to be more responsive to the needs and expectations of citizens (Hesketh 1992). Today, Community Policing has become an internationally widespread paradigm of contemporary policing (Oliver 2000).

Different names have been used to capture the term that refers to a broad and heterogeneous set of policing strategies and program concepts such as problem-oriented policing, community-based policing, neighbourhood policing and service style policing (Goldstein 1990; Toch and Grant 1991). Community Policing refers to the partnership between residents and police to address neighbourhood-specific issues (e.g., graffiti, gang violence, burglaries), where residents are involved in decision-making processes and engage in local problem solving. Thus, Community Policing consists of two complementary core components: (1) community partnership with the goal of establishing and maintaining trust (Trojanowicz and Moore 1988) and (2) problem solving (Goldstein 1979), a process by which the specific concerns of communities are identified and the most appropriate remedies to abate these problems are found (Bureau of Justice Assistance 1994). To develop community partnership, the police aims to (Bureau of Justice Assistance 1994):

1. Develop positive relationships with the community (interactions with residents)
2. Involve the community in the quest for better crime control and prevention (participation of residents in their own protection by collective action against crime)
3. Pool their resources with those of the community to address the most urgent concerns of community members.

According to Meares (2002) the combination of these three substantive practices should be supplemented with organizational adaptation in the form of implementation of specific practices required by the relationship between community partnership and problem solving as well as requirements of rapid societal change (Verschelde and Rogge 2012).

Activities surrounding Community Policing serve to promote social cohesion and to reduce the fear of crime and neighbourhood disorder. These activities range from neighbourhood crime watches by residents to neighbourhood surveys that identify local problems and evaluate police satisfaction. Broader measures of police performance were partly a result of the shift from traditional policing to Community Policing (Rena et al. 2005). The management of public confidence has become almost as important as the management of crime itself (Home Office 2009), because if citizens do not have confidence in the police they are less likely to defer to police authority, to report crimes, to provide witness information or to obey the law themselves (Hough and Roberts 2004; Tyler 2004).

Research suggests that public confidence in policing is less about the effectiveness of police services to reduce crime and provide safety (Tyler 2006) than about the perception of police “as old-fashioned representatives of community values and norms—as symbols of moral authority who address everyday problems”

(Jackson et al. 2009, p. 6), and strengthen social order, cohesion and informal social control (Jackson and Bradford 2009; Jackson et al. 2009; Cooper and Innes 2009) and the belief that the police are fair in their procedure and just in their treatment and decision making (Jackson et al. 2013). Thus, public confidence is based less on instrumental concerns about crime (in terms of crime-rates, perceived chances of victimisation or fear of crime) and more on expressive ‘day-to-day’ concerns about neighbourhood stability and breakdown (in terms of cohesion and collective efficacy; see also Chap. 8).

Reiner (2000) suggested that the police are faced with the paradox that they are judged by the lack of need for them and by public diagnoses of local values and moral structures that shape perceptions of crime. In essence, low confidence in policing expresses not only an unfavourable assessment of police activities, but also an unfavourable assessment of the strength of the ties and bonds within the local community. As such, narrow attempts to reduce fear and to communicate the reality of crime did not significantly improve public confidence (Jackson and Bradford 2009). However, Community Policing strategies that look to take active part and engage more with the day-to-day social order of civil public space and civil society, seeking to increase the visibility, accessibility and familiarity of the police (Innes 2004) may address both fear of crime and public confidence in policing (Jackson et al. 2009).

Cooperation between police and citizens is the central premise of Community Policing (Goldstein 1987; Hawdon and Ryan 2003) and the key factor for successful implementation of a Community Policing programme in support of social cohesion (Greene and Pelfrey 1997; Goldstein 1987; Williams 1998). Again, there is the question whether certain crimes will ever come to the attention of police without Community Policing. Community Policing empowers citizens by enrolling them as partners in efforts to make their communities a better and safer places to live: They are expected to identify problems in their community, to give input into decision making on the forms of required police services and to provide feedback regarding the strengths and weaknesses of police services. Police officers should be sensitive and responsive to residents’ concerns.

Usually, the problems of disorder and low-level crime—and not high profile index crimes—pose an immediate and direct threat to residents and their families (Trojanowicz and Bucqueroux 1991). Thus police officers should be able to deal with the full range of community problems and not only violations of the law. They should participate in peacekeeping and/or maintaining order (Goldstein 1987) as well as supporting community-based efforts to reduce neighbourhood incivilities and improve its physical appearance (see Chap. 7) Policing also empowers police officers to be more independent and creative in developing alternate solutions to community problems and to blend aspects of social work with police work (Trojanowicz and Bucqueroux 1991) providing residents with what they really want—crime prevention, i.e., to be spared from becoming a victim (Trojanowicz and Bucqueroux 1991).

According to Lewis and Lewis (2012), two major perspectives on crime prevention can be differentiated—those based on victimization theory and those based

on social control theory (Lewis and Salem 1981). While victimization theory focuses on understanding crimes as events that occur between a potential victim, offender and the environment (Lewis and Salem 1981), social control theory suggests that social interactions influence criminal acts through the informal enforcement of social norms (Hirschi 1969). From the *victimization perspective*, a potential victim or offender assesses the risk of being victimized or caught, respectively (Lewis and Salem 1981), while from a *social control perspective*, social norms shape the morals and values of a community that influence criminal behaviour. While social control theory is the basis for crime prevention from the community perspective, police primarily embrace the victimization theory as a method to understand and prevent crime (Skogan 2006). Thus by developing prevention strategies, police mainly focus on changing the behaviours of potential victims and offenders by impacting how they assess the risk of being victimized or being caught.

2.4 Challenges of Community Policing in Support of Social Cohesion

The results of evaluations of Community Policing programs have generally been mixed and disappointing, regardless of the particular type of approach implemented (Kerley and Benson 2000). Community Policing was mostly criticised because of its failure to strengthen broader community processes of community cohesion and organization (Kerley and Benson 2000). Observed failure of Community Policing programs was attributed to structural factors such as improper implementation of Community Policing programs (e.g., officer resistance), limited community involvement, greater effectiveness in communities that are already somewhat organized and cohesive (Buerger 1994; Kerley and Benson 2000), lack of permanent assignment of police officers to a given area and lack of devotion and effort to outreach (Goldstein 1987). Failure of Community Policing programs was linked by some researchers to more substantial factors such as the flawed basic premise of Community Policing that communities exist (Jiao 1997) and that communities are easily identifiable and homogeneous, that police and community share the same interests (Walker 1984) and that residents are willing to cooperate with the police (Hawdon and Ryan 2003).

In order for Community Policing to be effective (e.g., visibility of police officer and familiarity), the community for which a patrol officer is given responsibility should be a small, well-defined geographical area (Bureau of Justice Assistance 1994). However, major technological changes (mass transportation, mass communication and mass media) have contributed to the breakdown of the geographic connection in the traditional definition of community (Trojanowicz and Moore 1988).

Community Policing assumes that residents trust the police and are willing to cooperate with the police, which is often far from the truth in many poor or minority neighbourhoods (Manning 1997), high crime areas (Bartollas and Hahn 1999) and disorganized communities (Langworthy and Travis 1999). The more crime and risk factors a neighbourhood faces, the less likely it is to develop any organized activity to fight crime, and residents are more reluctant to take the risk of intervening in neighbourhood problems (Kubrin and Weitzer 2003). In disadvantaged neighbourhoods, there is often a lack of the value consensus and resident cooperation that Community Policing needs to succeed in reducing crime (Hope 1995; Walker 1992). Their residents consider that police have an ‘outsider’ perspective of the neighbourhood (i.e., residents are often seen as ‘deserving victims’ whose lifestyles invite victimization) and they are dissatisfied with police services (e.g., police respond less vigorously to residents’ calls, there are higher rates of officers’ misconduct than in more affluent areas) (e.g. Kane 2002; Mastrofski et al. 2002; Reisig and Parks 2000; Smith 1986; Velez 2001; Weitzer 1999, 2000). Also, there is distrust, a poor relationship and low support of the police and high resistance to crime prevention programmes, since they do not see the benefit of community programs and consider those programmes to be ineffective in controlling the crime problems in their community (Stein and Griffith 2015). In disorganized communities, informal networks of social control are lacking. Thus, local offenders often try to administer their own form of informal control or ‘justice’ to others in the community (Kubrin and Weitzer 2003) or communities tend to employ more formally organized responses to crime (Skogan 1989) or the police is forced to use more traditional styles of policing (Hawdon and Ryan 2003).

Recent research speaks in favour of socio-economic deprivation as a cause of poor community cohesion in disadvantaged areas rather than differences in ethnic groups (Centre for Local Economic Strategies 2014). High crime rates exist not because oppositional values are anchored in the community, but because limited opportunities make it difficult for residents to pursue conventional goals and because they lack the willingness or capacity to prevent deviance (Kubrin and Weitzer 2003; Skogan 1989). Thus, the major challenge for the government is to mobilise communities to participate in fighting crime (Lewis and Lewis 2012).

Local authorities and police forces should take the lead in establishing effective multi-agency arrangements to develop and deliver a coordinated response to crime. Shared moral values strengthen the connections between citizens and institutions (Jackson et al. 2013), so residents should have opportunities for their conflict with or animosity towards the police to be openly addressed (Gilchrist 2004). This can be achieved by establishing channels of communication between residents and between residents and police. Sharing information related to crime among community residents reciprocally and freely is crucial to crime prevention and control (Manaliyo and Muzindutsi 2013). Shared experiences and activities allow people to identify enough of a community of interest to establish a bond of trust. People are linked by geography, but their affluence allows them access to technologies that frees them to exercise a community of interest with those who live elsewhere.

To make the effective flow of information possible, residents should be well-networked among themselves, physically or virtually. One way to enable community residents to know, interact and connect with one another is by using technology to (re)build communities (e.g., web forums or social networking sites). As information and communication technologies (ICTs) have increasingly pervaded our lives, so have they transformed Community Policing efforts. To date, there have been many efforts to design crime prevention technologies (e.g., the mobile phone application *CLEARpath* that allows residents to tag and share areas of the city on a virtual map where they feel unsafe) for increasing feelings of safety and decrease the risk of victimization by providing the user with the information that aims to influence their behaviour—in alignment with victimization theory (Lewis and Lewis 2012).

However, it was found that crime prevention technologies that give individuals information will not necessarily foster communication amongst residents, afford a richer interaction or increase active participation (Lewis and Lewis 2012). Thus, researchers shifted their focus to communication or the transmission of social norms within a community via technology (Lewis and Salem 1981). Hampton and Wellman (2003) found that electronic networks positively impacted neighbourhoods by affording access to information and resources, linking groups and providing social identities. Lewis and Lewis (2012) proposed that in addition to police websites, which provide extensive information, web tools to support Community Policing should be designed to adhere to and support communication that allows residents to share personal experiences, strengthen social ties with other residents, engage in collective problem solving discussions and to informally regulate social norms, while also addressing crime and community concerns.

Overall, in order for Community Policing to support social cohesion, programmes should aim to continually decrease tensions between police and the community, increase the quality of police services, police visibility, effectiveness in dealing with community problems and accountability to the community (Goldstein 1987; Hawdon and Ryan 2003). Police efforts should be aimed towards acting in procedurally just ways helping them to gain legitimacy in the eyes of the residents (Jackson et al. 2013). Community Policing needs strong neighbourhood associations that operate independently of the police (Friedman 1994) in order to increase resident participation in Community Policing programs (Skogan and Hartnett 1997). Therefore, if a grassroots organization does not exist, the police could encourage the creation of such an organization (Hawdon and Ryan 2003). Also, the limits of Community Policing should be more clearly defined by some articulable criteria (e.g., defining the level of a police officer's responsibility for all that goes on in the neighbourhood; Goldstein 1987) and police efforts should be accompanied by appropriate resources.

2.5 Conclusion

Community security and social cohesion mutually reinforce each other. Since along with socio-economic status, deprivation and access to services and facilities, crimes also have significant impact on community cohesion and resilience, a cooperative role of police in a community is very important in securing that communities stay safe and cohesive. Community Policing represent proactive policing in which formal and informal social control reinforce each other helping to reduce crime by employing prevention activities that serve to promote social cohesion and reduce neighbourhood disorder.

To reduce observed failure of existing Community Policing programs in their efforts to strengthen community cohesion and organization, police should overcome obstacles emerging out of its structural features but it should also more vigorously mobilise communities to participate in fighting crime by establishing effective multi-agency arrangements and communication channels to share information among community residents reciprocally and freely by using information and communication technologies. Overall, in order for Community Policing to support social cohesion, programmes should aim to continually decrease tensions between police and the community and aim to increase the quality of police services, police visibility, effectiveness in dealing with community problems and their accountability to the community.

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Chapter 3

‘One for All and All for One’: Fostering Accountability in Community Policing

Bankole Cole

3.1 Introduction

The accountability of the police is imperative if the use of their powers is to be seen as legitimate. One of the key principles of democratic policing is that the police operate in the best interest of the public; therefore, it is essential that the police secure public trust and confidence in whatever they do. Nonetheless, policing functions in Europe have, historically, been diffused with the police having been involved in a variety of duties that included the enforcement of welfare provisions and tax laws in addition to their basic crime control, prevention and order maintenance duties (Denys 2010; Emsley 1983, 1987). More importantly, European communities are increasingly becoming multicultural and multi-faith, therefore, the policing needs and demands of the ‘public’ in modern Europe have become much more complex.

Since the 9/11 terrorist incidents in the United States, the police in Europe are also increasingly dealing with security and public safety issues, as counter-terrorism progressively becomes a key part of their everyday law enforcement duties. Alongside this development has been the growth in Community Policing initiatives to bring the police closer to the communities they police and to engage the public much more in police work that is directly related to the crime, disorder, public safety and security problems experienced in specific communities. In all their duties, the police are regarded as servants of the public who are expected to police in the public interest. Accordingly, the monitoring of police activities and their accountability have become key features in policing discourse since modern policing was introduced in Europe in the 19th century. Who should the police be accountable to and what should be the role of the public in police accountability? Although structures are in place to ensure the accountability of the police, the centrality of community participation in Community Policing has raised important

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questions of the extent to which community involvement should be prioritised in police accountability.

This chapter will critically examine the concept of police accountability and its application to Community Policing in Europe. It will examine current police oversight systems in Europe in order to assess the extent to which the police are directly accountable to communities. Community policing is defined in this chapter as local policing arrangements whereby, at municipality, commune or neighbourhood level, the police work in partnership with civilian community representatives and other public agencies (such as social services, youth work, schools and businesses), in a shared responsibility to address crime prevention, public order, safety and security problems. In this definition, the police play the role of an equal partner in a network that is jointly put together to address community needs according to mutually agreed approaches in which each member of the partnership has clearly defined roles to play (see Terpstra 2005; Service 2012).

This definition recognises the fact that Community Policing does not automatically exist simply because a local, neighbourhood or municipal policing structure exists (an example of such are the UK's neighbourhood policing teams). Community policing is not local policing per se. Instead, Community Policing is a locally driven policing initiative, formally instituted with public consent. It will be argued in this chapter that accountability is crucial to Community Policing if the principles of democratic policing and the legitimacy of the police are to be maintained. However, it will also be argued that the nature of Community Policing requires new structures of accountability to be considered besides those that currently exist in Europe, to ensure that the community element in Community Policing and the equal partnership that is essential and crucial in Community Policing arrangements are reflected in the mechanisms to which the police are accountable in Community Policing (see also Chaps. 2, 4 and 5).

3.2 Accountability

The need for the police to account for their actions has been at the centre of policing debates and politics since the inception of modern policing in Europe in the 19th century. Whereas the forms of accountability varies depending on how modern policing emerged and the roles that the police are expected to play, the concept that the use of police powers is not without question is central to the development of European policing (Critchely 1967; Emsley 1991; Mawby 1999). As more European states strive towards democratic governments with the emergence of universal human rights after the Second World War, the question concerning accountability of the police and their legitimacy has become an important topic in the assessment of the growth and development of democratic governance in Europe.

The topic of police accountability has grown even more significantly in the last fifty years or so, generating substantial political interest in terms of legislation, the creation of structures of police governance and codes of professional practice and

ethics. As Walsh and Conway (2011, p. 61) argued, the reason for this growth in interest is because “policing itself has changed immensely over the past 50 years in response to the demands imposed upon it by an increasingly diverse, technological, urbanised, globalised, mobile, sophisticated, rights-conscious and knowledge-based society.” In addition, police powers have increased significantly over the years with an increase in the following: the use of new technologies, a significant shift towards intelligence-led policing, the development of highly trained and heavily armed combat units, the use of lethal and semi-lethal weaponry in forces that were traditionally unarmed, the blurring of the boundaries between civil policing and security, the adoption of managerial strategies and methods from private sector business organisations, a greater input from the private sector in the delivery of policing services and the growth in direct cross-border cooperation between police forces in Europe. All of these changes mean that professional and ethical standards have become an important and integral part of policing. Therefore, mechanisms of police accountability or oversight of policing have to be a priority if Europe is to sustain an identity of democratic policing (Walsh and Conway 2011; see also Bigo 2006; Block 2008; Cope 2004; Council of Europe 2002, 2003; Loader 2000, 2002a, b; Loader and Walker 2007; Neyroud and Beckley 2001; Reiner 2010; Rijken and Vermuelen 2006; Sheptycki 2000; Stenning 2000, 2009).

Police accountability is usually discussed alongside police governance. Both concepts are multi-faceted and multi-dimensional and they are often used interchangeably. The confusion arises from the fact that accountability and governance are frequently discussed within the broader concept of police oversight systems. In reality, these concepts are significantly different (see Ranson 2003; van Kersbergen and van Waarden 2004; Walker 2002). According to Walsh and Conway (2011, p. 62f), police governance can be defined as “encompassing the procedures and methods aimed at ensuring the efficient discharge of the policing function. As such, it includes key management issues such as: policy formation and implementation; the determination of priorities and strategies; deployment choices; the allocation of resources; the maintenance of standards. It follows that governance can be associated with the promotion of values such as transparency, responsiveness and the maintenance of professional, ethical and human rights standards in policing.” Police governance, therefore, is usually the domain of politicians (both national and local), and it relates mainly to making the police an efficient, effective force that operates according to accepted ethical and professional standards. Police accountability refers to the mechanisms in place, usually within police governance structures, under which the police can be called to account and disciplined for not complying with stated performance requirements, legal duties and professional standards (see also Chap. 12).

To be accountable to someone means that one is answerable to that person for one's actions and that obligation is subject to disciplinary action if one's actions are disapproved of by the person to which one is accountable. That A is accountable to B implies that B has the power to call A to account and to impose sanctions on A if A's actions are unacceptable to B. Accountability is much more than simply rendering the account of one's performance to another person such as a line manager or

a review body. The key word in police accountability is the disciplinary clause, which may range from direct punishment or reprimand for specific acts or omission, misconduct or abuse of power to recommendations for a change in policing approach, methods or policies following an inquiry or review into police actions. Central to police accountability therefore, is the principle that police powers are not absolute and that policing can only be fair and just where police actions are subject to democratic review. However, although accountability bestows some degree of authority on the person answerable to it does not imply a relationship of control. As Card explained, “the fact that A is accountable to B does not necessarily give B control over A” (Card 1979, p. 9f).

All European countries have oversight mechanisms in place to ensure that the police are managed effectively and held to account for their actions (see den Boer and Fernhout 2008). Indeed, police governance and accountability arrangements in Europe are quite complex—incorporating a mixture of national and local government bodies and administrative structures with varying powers to oversee police work and call the police to account. The ultimate authority over policing is of course the state, who through parliament has the supreme power to make legislation that defines the boundaries of police powers. This is significant as the police can only be called to account on points of law. However, a parliament cannot instruct the police on how to carry out their policing functions as that would be unconstitutional (see Ayling et al. 2009; Jefferson and Grimshaw 1987; Stenning 2007). Instead, powers have been delegated to state departments in charge of policing, usually the Ministries of Internal or Home Affairs such as the British Home Office, that have the sole authority for the management of the police and the provision of general direction on policing operations, nationally.

These powers vary but they generally include powers to set up policing plans and standards, discipline officers, determine police budgets and state police performance indicators. The Ministries of Internal Affairs usually act as the sole national police authority and may make decisions independently but at times may be subject to parliamentary approval. In some countries, some of the Ministers’ decisions are made only after consultation with a national advisory group such as the Polish Political Advisory Committee (Haberfeld 1997). The police are accountable to the Ministers in charge of police affairs (Ministers of Internal Affairs) in the sense that the final authority on disciplinary control of the police lies with this governmental department. These powers are exercised via regulatory laws and procedures such as those provided in Police Acts. In England and Wales, for example, the Home Secretary has wide ranging powers to dismiss chief police officers and to cut the budgets of an ‘inefficient’ local police force (Brogden 1982; Jones and Newbum 1997; Reiner 2010). In addition, the police are accountable at national levels to national bodies in charge of specific areas of policing such as public complaints against the police and police ethics (see Brodeur 2007).

Nevertheless, the accountability of the police at the national level exists beyond the domains of the Ministries for Internal Affairs. As public servants, the police are also subject to oversight mechanisms that public servants face to ensure that public funds allocated to policing are used in the best interest of the taxpayer and the

general public. In the United Kingdom, the police must additionally comply with national 'value for money' standards to ensure that the costs of policing meet specified criteria in terms of quality of service, efficiency and effectiveness in the interest of communities (see for example, Department of the Environment 1997, on the Principles of Best Value in the UK Public Service).

3.3 Local Accountability

There are very few countries in Europe where the police operate only as a national organisation. Most countries in Europe have multiple layers of police forces, operating either nationally, locally or at both levels, covering various areas of law enforcement both criminal and civil (Italy and France are typical examples). In countries where local policing exists, either distinctly or as local arms of the national police, structures to manage the police at local government level and to ensure their accountability also exist.

In this regard, it is common in European countries with diversified policing structures to have the police managed by local authority bodies or elected local political figures charged with the responsibility of administering the police on behalf of the local community. These include municipality Mayors, Police and Crime Commissioners (in the UK) or a local government body in charge of local policing such as a Police Board (e.g., in Belgium) (see Brodeur 2007). In theory, these bodies represent the local voice in policing, which includes the power to call the police to account for not complying with national policing priorities at the local level or failing to meet agreed specific local policing needs. In practice, however, research and experience have shown that the powers of these local bodies are restricted mainly to administrative governance. Local Mayors, Police and Crime Commissioners and local Police Boards cannot hold the police to account without the approval or consent of central government (for the British experience, see Brogden 1983; Spencer 1985).

In other words, the police in Europe are not directly accountable to local governments. Whereas local governments in England and Wales for example, have acquired powers to contribute to and agree local policing plans and targets with the police (Jones and Newburn 1997), the local police and crime commissioners do not have the direct power to discipline the local police chief constables where disputes have occurred over how the police are carrying out their duties locally. Any decisions to hold the police to account by direct disciplinary means must receive national consent for it to be effective. Similarly, neighbourhoods or communities have no direct powers to hold the police to account. Community grievances regarding the police are usually dealt with by locally elected representatives (Mayors, etc.) who would have to establish the normal channels for redress recognised in law by central government or take the matter to the courts (see Fig. 3.1).

Furthermore, police accountability is discussed at two levels: (1) the accountability of individual police officers for their actions on and off duty and (2) the

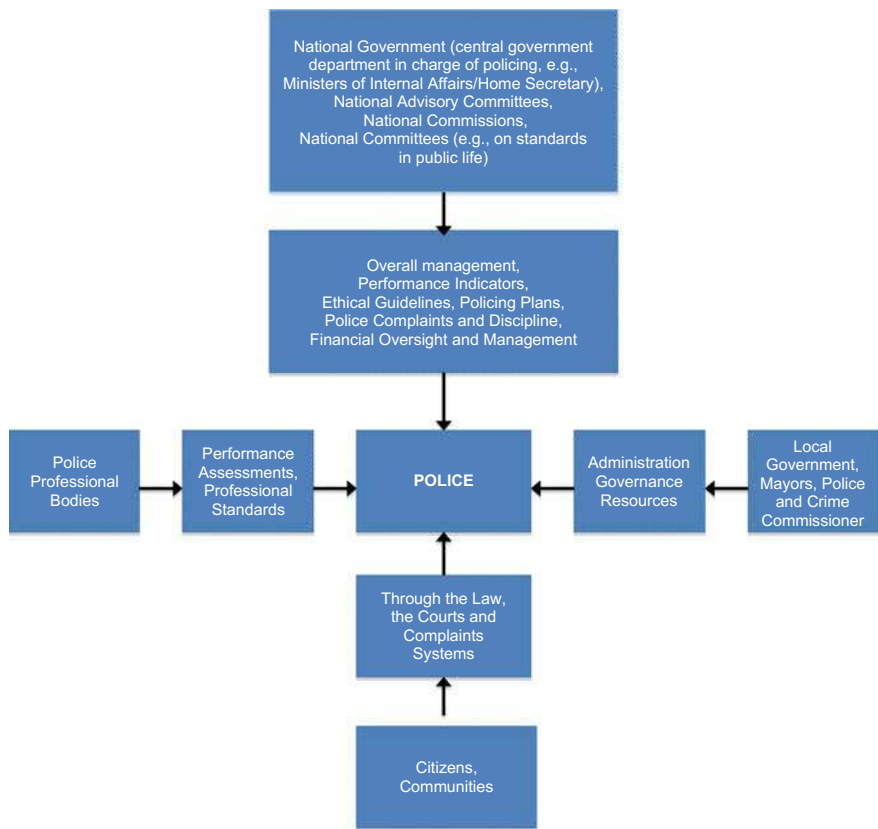


Fig. 3.1 Police governance and accountability structure in Europe

accountability of the police institution itself with regard to their overall responsibility for law enforcement and the maintenance of public order, peace and security. A police officer can be called to account only on points of law; for example, on the grounds that their actions are illegal, excessive, discriminatory and malicious or done in bad faith. The avenues for calling individual police officers to account are via established police complaints structures or the courts, both criminal and civil. Chief police officers are also accountable for their performance or misdoings that may lead to their removal from office. As mentioned above, the authority to discipline police forces as a whole or heads of police forces is beyond communities or their local representatives but lies with central government departments in charge of policing.

It is an obvious fact that the police in Europe are held accountable on several grounds. Indeed, in Europe, police accountability supersedes police governance—the structures to which the police are accountable are generally more than those

with the responsibility for their governance. In summary, the following structures of accountability are common to all police systems in Europe:

1. *Accountability to the law* that is the very basis of police powers: In this regard, individual police officers, a police department or a local police body may be held accountable for violations of the law in terms of deliberate omission, incompetence, misuse, abuse, unreasonable or excessive use of legal powers (for example, the use of unreasonable force) and misconduct or actions unbecoming of a police officer (for example, the involvement in a criminal offence or corruption).
2. *Accountability to citizens*: Where police action is in violation of a citizen's legal or human rights and measures are in place, for example, through police complaints systems and Ombudsman structures, for the aggrieved parties to call the police to account and request redress or punishment if the police are found to have misused or abused their powers, acted in a manner that is discriminatory against a particular social group or acted in excess of the powers conferred upon them by law (for example, the use of lethal force during arrests).
3. *Accountability to international laws and conventions on human rights* with regards to the administration of justice and law enforcement (for example, the UN codes of conduct for law enforcement officers, and the Council of Europe's Code of Police Ethics—see Council of Europe 2002; Crawshaw and Holmstrom 2008).
4. *Accountability to professional bodies* that monitor compliance with professional standards (for example, Her Majesty's Inspectorate of the Constabulary in the U. K.).
5. *Accountability to national treasuries* for how police budgets have been spent and resources used. This includes measures to ensure that the police use public funds and other resources allocated for policing equitably and in line with the principles of value for money in the interest of the taxpayer.
6. *Accountability to other public bodies* with general democratic oversight powers. This includes parliamentary, public or judicial enquiries, committees, civilian ombudsmen, and public or judicial enquiries with statutory powers to impose sanctions on public bodies.

A key issue with the current approach to police accountability is that questions of accountability are often raised only where the police are perceived to have failed to carry out their duties effectively according to law or where there are allegations of misconduct or abuse or excessive or unacceptable use of their powers. Invariably, the general perception is that police accountability is relevant only where the police are believed to have done something wrong and the state or whosoever has the authority to do so, calls the police to account for their actions. This approach to accountability complies with what Terpstra (2011a) described as a *Hierarchist culture of police governance and accountability*, which is a system whereby:

Problems are attributed to poor compliance with rules and procedures; remedy is more, strict procedures and rules, better coordination, more control and more 'grip' by the authorities at the top. (Terpstra 2011a, p. 90)

This presupposes a 'master-servant' police-public relationship that may become problematic where the police are expected to work with communities as equal partners, which is a key requirement of Community Policing (see Chaps. 5–10 for alternative examples).

3.4 Democratic Accountability

As aforementioned, policing in Europe is founded upon the concept that police powers are used for the benefit of the state and its citizens. This is often described as democratic policing whereby the police are managed by and accountable to democratically elected representatives of the public, both at national and local levels. However, democratic accountability is discussed in more detail and is often used to refer to the accountability of the police to representatives of the public at the local level. It could be argued that this form of accountability can only be truly democratic if there is a direct community input into police accountability. Democratic accountability does not exist simply because the police are accountable to local political representatives such as Mayors and Police and Crime Commissioners. Although it is not uncommon for these local representatives to seek local opinions on policing via different forms of police consultative processes and surveys, there is little evidence that these processes are effective in calling the police to account.

Muller (2002) argues that in the Netherlands, democratic accountability is essentially non-existent or ineffective; the Dutch police have no formal obligation of accountability to the elected municipal council. The Council only has a right to call upon the Mayor for information about decisions made in the Regional Board and to offer advice about the annual policy plan (Terpstra 2004, 2011a, b). Similar conclusions have been reached with regards to the practice of democratic accountability in the United Kingdom where the British Home Office (representing central government) is the most powerful in the tripartite structure of governance and accountability in that country. The introduction of the Police and Crime Commissioners (PCCs) in 2012 has not altered this situation. PCCs are responsible for the general administration of the local forces and may, like their Dutch counterparts, make a contribution to policing plans. Many of the provisions in the British Police Acts that allow the PCCs to call chief constables to account on policing matters must be ratified by the Home Office for these to be effective.

There is no historical or research evidence that European citizens have felt that their local or national police forces are directly accountable to them through their Mayors, local councils or PCCs. The only avenues through which citizens could directly call the police to account are through the courts or via a police complaints

structure or Ombudsman. There is no direct neighbourhood or community oversight of police actions anywhere in Europe. Hence, the extent to which the police are answerable to communities in Europe is still unclear.

Terpstra (2011a) argued that Community Policing does present its own distinct governance and accountability challenges. Many key writers on Community Policing have expressed doubts about whether making the police accountable in a Community Policing set up is workable or even desirable (see for example, Brogden and Nijhar 2005; Kelling et al. 1988). This critical view rests on several arguments:

1. The disciplinary clause that is central in the definition of accountability implies that communities will be empowered to discipline police officers for not complying with community demands. A possible consequence of this is that the constitutional position of the police as a non-political independent law enforcement authority may be compromised where they are seen to be punishable for non-compliance with community-defined policing demands.
2. It has been argued that governance and accountability are difficult to implement in Community Policing because relations between the police and members of the Community Policing networks are "horizontal and more or less egalitarian" (Terpstra 2011a, p. 99). Presumably, police accountability can only work where the relationship between the police and society is hierarchical, i.e., where governance is by command and accountability by sanctions as opposed to accountability by negotiation, persuasion, consultation or even reward.
3. It has also been argued that making the police accountable for Community Policing might incur an additional level of accountability on community police officers who, like police officers in other police departments, are already accountable on various other fronts. As Terpstra (2011a, p. 87) explains, "local community police officers, for example, can find themselves stretched between the accountability demands of the local community and those flowing from professional, managerial and central government sources."
4. Moreover, the fact that Community Policing is a partnership agreement that may include several other actors, raises important questions about how accountability would be structured as the other actors may be subject to different structures of accountability. More importantly, would the police then be expected to be accountable to all of the other partners?

Thus, a key argument in the debate on police accountability in Community Policing is whether the accountability of the neighbourhood police officer should be determined within the overall framework of existing accountability structures or whether an additional or different form of accountability should be imposed for Community Policing, to which only community police officers would be liable.

Terpstra (2011a) talked about a "democratic deficit" in current police accountability structures. Many would support the view that the community voice in the current accountability structures is minimal and therefore, democratic policing is not practiced in full anywhere in Europe. Whereas many police forces in Europe are

encouraging their police to work more closely with communities epitomised in the emergence of various modern policing initiatives such as ‘citizen-focused policing’, it is interesting that the need to make the police directly accountable to citizens has received very little or no political support.

Many authors have argued that different types of accountability may accompany different types of relationships. Indeed, accountability can take several forms —“internal and external, local and centralized, vertical and horizontal, upwards and downwards” (Terpstra 2011a, b, p. 89; see also Hupe and Hill 2007; Somerville 2009; Walker 2002).

Terpstra (2011a, p. 90) further argued that “various forms of governance and accountability may be understood as reflecting different underlying cultures: fatalist, hierarchical, individualist and egalitarian.” As discussed above, the European approach to police accountability appears to be traditionally enshrined in the hierarchist culture. Terpstra described two of the remaining three cultures of accountability: ‘egalitarian’ and ‘individualist’—as less rigid forms of accountability and governance. In the *egalitarian* culture of accountability, there is room for ‘participation’ in decision-making and in co-production of ‘equal’ members, and more trust is put “in the participation of lower-level members” (Terpstra 2011a, p. 90). An *individualist* culture would emphasise market-like incentives to guide individual action and define success. The individualist culture of accountability might further be interpreted as implying that the ‘official and bureaucratic’ approach in the hierarchist culture and the ‘people-centred’ approach in the egalitarian model are non-existent as all those involved in Community Policing are equally accountable to mutually agreed performance goals.

3.5 A Roundtable of Accountabilities: Accountability Among Equals

Community policing is about making policing “everybody’s business” (cf. Walsh and Conway 2011, p. 71). Whereas a Community Policing initiative may be managed by a local authority department, it is still essentially an assembly of equals. Thus, what is important in Community Policing is not whether police powers are being used legally or appropriately but whether agreed aims and aspirations are being complied with as expected. Implicit in this perception is the responsibility requirement that is binding on all involved. Community police officers may have to use their discretion much more than other beat officers, as the terrain within which they work is flexible and involves different partners. Accordingly, whether they are acting responsibly, considerably and fairly may be more important than whether they are abiding by the letters of the law. More importantly, the brunt of whether a Community Policing initiative is successful or not, should not lie on the backs of the police alone. Those who stand to benefit most from Community Policing are the communities themselves. Unfortunately, it has

never been a key issue whether communities themselves could be held accountable for the success or failure of Community Policing initiatives in their neighbourhoods. All those that have the power to hold others to account must themselves be prepared to be held accountable for their own actions.

The egalitarian nature of Community Policing is its key strength that makes it a part of police work most akin to democratic policing. It would be appropriate, therefore, if the approach to accountability in Community Policing embraces this egalitarian nature by making accountability in Community Policing mutual—whereby each member of the partnership is empowered to hold the others to account for actions taken in respect of meeting stated aims and objectives (see Fig. 3.2). To use a medical analogy, “it makes physician and patient accountable to each other for the patient’s health” (Kelling et al. 1988, p. 4).

Sanctions will be imposed collectively for mutually agreed misdoings or inefficiencies. Rewards might also be given in order to encourage better performance (see Kelling et al. 1988). Thus, accountability will project a less judgemental pose and will be seen as a positive approach towards effectiveness and efficiency. This approach may need to be managed or ‘overseen’ by the local authority, however, the Community Policing partners will not be accountable to the local government



Fig. 3.2 ‘Roundtable’ accountability in community policing

but instead to the policing goals that have been set for their Community Policing project. In addition to closely resembling the egalitarian culture in Terpstra's (2011a) typology, this approach to accountability also embraces the individualist culture whereby accountability is not dictated top-down but seen as the individual responsibility of all those guided by mutually agreed goals. This approach will strengthen citizen empowerment, encourage transparency and increase public confidence in Community Policing. The fact that communities themselves might be held accountable where Community Policing objectives are not being met as a result of inefficiency on their part, would be a radical departure from current practice. Community's representatives could then be called to account and made to put right what is required of them in order for a Community Policing project to run as planned. In addition, this approach allows 'face-to-face' contact with the person to whom one is accountable, not a distant Mayor or PCC and accountability is through dialogue, negotiation and consultation.

3.6 Conclusion

In this chapter, it has been argued that democratic accountability and the legitimacy of the police is strengthened where both the police and the communities are accountable to each other and accountability is not enforced by punishments alone but also by rewards. The chapter advocates what is essentially a participatory governance and accountability approach where local Community Policing initiatives are managed by the representatives of the agencies constituting the Community Policing partnership, including the police, who are accountable to each other in a 'roundtable' fashion whereby accountability is mutual and complementary as it should exist among equals. In this framework, the burden of the success or failure of Community Policing will be borne not only by the police alone but the communities also.

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Chapter 4

Community Policing: The Relevance of Social Contexts

Mark van der Giessen, Elisabeth Brein and Gabriele Jacobs

4.1 Introduction

Even though crime rates have been declining in Europe since the mid-1990s, the perception of many is that crime rates have in fact been increasing (Millie and Herrington 2005; see also Kappeler and Gaines 2015; Lee and McGovern 2014 for discussions on fear of crime). Furthermore, elevated levels of fear of crime correlate with a decreased confidence in the functioning of police forces and organisations (Millie and Herrington 2005). The feeling of insecurity combined with the perception that crime is rising in communities is also called the *reassurance gap* (Millie and Herrington 2005). Traditionally, the perceived increase of crime and corresponding decreased levels of confidence in police functioning has underpinned a need for reassurance of the public as a means of gaining legitimacy for policing decisions (Millie and Herrington 2005; see also Hamilton-Smith et al. 2014; Mazerolle et al. 2013). This change in policing climate has led to far-reaching changes in policing style and raised important questions regarding what the expansion of the traditional policing role to Community Policing (CP) means to various communities and police forces. Research shows that a reduction of insecurity or risk experienced by people has a positive impact on their perception of crime, thus reducing this reassurance gap (Millie and Herrington 2005). This means that the police should tackle volume crime effectively but also target risks identified by the public in order to address the reassurance gap and (re)define

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CP. Contemporary Community Policing is then instrumental in reassuring citizens and reinforcing trust in and legitimacy of the police (cp. Chap. 3).

Community Policing is commonly introduced as the policing antidote to contemporary problems of crime and safety and has even been called the “most important development in law enforcement in the past quarter century” (Skogan 2006, p. 3). However, CP is not a uniform concept, as there are almost as many definitions as there are books and articles published on the subject and CP has different meanings to different people (Brogden and Nijhar 2005; Kappeler and Gaines 2015). Because modern day communities are increasingly complex, diverse and multi-cultural, no one single approach to delivering public safety and security can prove successful for everyone all of the time. Community Policing invariably has to be adapted to the local context, where “history and social context add to the complications” (Brogden and Nijhar 2005, p. 230). The export of CP practices and technologies from the UK and North America to other states has shown to be problematic, as it is not clear how CP could be implemented in these different social contexts (Casey 2010; Hail 2015a).

A lack of recognition for the diversity present even within neighbourhoods, with a plurality of communities that may or may not wish to engage with statutory authorities, is a common problem among CP approaches (Skogan 2006). Because any form of collaboration and partnership requires mutual trust and understanding, trust and confidence building have been both a requirement and a goal of CP efforts across Europe (Van der Giessen et al. 2016). Care must be taken in assuming that any community wants to be involved in policing activities as many in the public may not in fact trust the police sufficiently to collaborate. Similarly, care must be taken in assuming that local police forces trust (all segments of) communities sufficiently for collaboration and empowerment. The European CP landscape is exceedingly complex because the disparate social contexts of local trust and perceived legitimacy of police roles in CP efforts do not lend themselves to a uniform operationalization or implementation of CP strategies.

With *social context*, also known as social environment, we mean the immediate physical setting in which people live. It includes the political, economic, social, technological, legal and economic conditions of a community. Although Community Policing continues to develop in both its conceptualization and implementation, providing positive outcomes for the public and the police, the lack of attention to the complexity of the European CP landscape has resulted in unintended consequences (see for example Ashforth and Gibbs 1990; Beck 2002; Dvoršek 1996; Fruhling 2002; Innes 2004; Staniforth 2015). The implementation of Community Policing has been fraught with difficulties and its effectiveness is often under dispute as a result (Kappeler and Gaines 2015; OSCE 2008). It is possible to overcome these complexities, but both practitioners and academics must take heed of the importance of local context as well as mutual trust and perceived legitimacy of the police’s role in CP. In this chapter, we offer a discussion of these requirements for Community Policing (see also Chaps. 5 and 17).

4.2 The Context-Specific Nature of ‘European’ Community Policing

Community Policing as an ideology commonly draws on two historical views: a ‘golden isles view’ where somewhere in the modern world CP works well and a ‘golden age history’ where sometime in the past the relationship between police and citizens was harmonious (Brogden and Nijhar 2005). The truth is more nuanced, however, as in reality CP has never been singularly successful anywhere. CP has developed gradually and in a very localized and fragmented manner over the past two centuries, where every instantiation has been an effort to build on previous lessons learned.

The CP philosophy prevalent in Europe today, sometimes referred to as the Anglo-American model, originated in eighteenth century England and America (Brogden and Nijhar 2005). The socio-economic backdrop throughout Europe was such that riots were occurring over food shortages, high prices, religious prejudice and a strong divide between the isolated rich and the newly made poor (Kappeler and Gaines 2015; Richardson 1974). It was during these tumultuous times that newly appointed Home Secretary for the UK Robert Peel, now commonly considered the father of modern policing, established the Metropolitan Police Act in 1829 (cp. Chap. 3). The act drastically restructured the prevalent police forces, uniting a previously fragmented policing system and establishing a police office staffed by paid constables (Kappeler and Gaines 2015). This move constituted the first contemporary instance of institutionalization of policing by consent, where the police officer is conceptualized as a local citizen who is selected from—and held accountable by—his peers and police power stems from the community (Brogden 1982; Brogden and Nijhar 2005):

Police at all times, should maintain a relationship with the public that gives reality to the historic tradition that the police are the public and the public are the police, the police being only members of the public who are paid to give full-time attention to duties which are incumbent on every citizen in the interests of community welfare and existence. (Metropolitan Police Act 1829)

Although the development of the American tradition of CP can be traced back to this English origin, the American police reform and institutionalization of CP principles did not start until later and proved to be far more gradual. There was no single event for the American police institution to trigger the transformation of policing toward a model of consent and community relationships. Instead, CP emerged over the years as historical forces set the stage: “isolation of the police from the public and a growing use of overt and symbolic violence to control select groups in society” (Kappeler and Gaines 2015, p. 89). As was the case in Europe, the backdrop was one of civil unrest, where racial tensions, civil disorder, fear of crime and a series of riots sparked and pushed the institutionalization and development of CP principles. It was 1845 when full-time police forces started forming, and 1929 when the Police Chief of Berkeley California, August Vollmer, spearheaded the American police reform movement (Kappeler and Gaines 2015).

However, even after the reform, the American police was still very much isolated from the public they served, relying on personal rather than constitutional authority, and lacking the relationship with the public necessary for the creation of safety through CP (Greene 2000; Kappeler and Gaines 2015). It was not until the 1970s that the basic issues and ideas that would ultimately be considered Anglo-American CP became prevalent in the American police discourse and practice (Goldstein 1979; Trojanowicz 1973; Trojanowicz and Dixon 1974; Trojanowicz et al. 1975). Rising crime rates, loss of confidence in traditional policing methods, increased social polarisation and city riots seemed beyond the ability of law enforcement control, sparking discussions regarding the effectiveness of traditional policing and the proper role of the police in a democratic society (Zhao et al. 1995).

Community Policing came to be seen as a suitable reaction to the perceived failures of traditional policing as police practitioners, academics and policy-makers in the Western world agreed that the traditional style of policing, which focused mainly on law enforcement, was no longer sufficient to tackle emerging crime and safety concerns of contemporary societies (OSCE 2008). The police simply did not have the resources or capabilities to deal with the increasingly complex underlying causes of crime without the assistance of other state and non-state agencies—and of key importance, the public (see also Chaps. 2, 3, 5 and 12). This is particularly the case in our increasingly multi-cultural society where certain (less privileged, low income, minority) segments are especially vulnerable to crime and disorder and enforcement demands prevention, partnership working and problem solving (OSCE 2008). The subsequent widespread adoption and further development of Community Policing during the late 1980s in Europe, America and England has been described by many as a policing paradigm shift away from a reactive, task-driven approach toward a community focused one where policing involves non-enforcement tasks and assistance for and with the community (Hail 2015a). It is clear however that, even when adopting a historical view of ‘European CP’, it has never been uniform in its underlying social philosophy, implementation or effectiveness.

4.3 Contemporary Community Policing in Europe

Community Policing has been a popular buzzword in Anglo-American policing since the 80s (Brogden and Nijhar 2005). However, as with many other policing models, Community Policing is an ambiguous concept. As European policing is comprised of multiple contexts and people, it should come as no surprise that there are also numerous strategies, practices and approaches adopted across Europe with the label of Community Policing, which sometimes have very little in common (OSCE 2008). It includes approaches such as *multi-agency policing*, *focused policing*, *reassurance policing* and *problem-oriented policing*.

Comparing different labels employed by police organisations across Europe, England and Wales have adopted the label of *neighbourhood policing* to describe their proactive local policing activities, whilst the French police have adopted the label *police de proximité* and the Spanish *policia de proximidad*. In Scotland, the label attached to locally delivered policing is *Community Policing*, including both community and neighbourhood policing concepts in the overarching concept of reassurance policing (Hail 2015a; Hamilton-Smith et al. 2014). To date, there has not been a singular definition to describe Community Policing. It is therefore difficult to determine, which developments and activities fit the definition of ‘Community Policing’.

Although the philosophy of CP has changed considerably throughout the years and will continue to develop further, contemporary Community Policing is based on the assumption that tackling contemporary problems related to crime and safety requires a reframing of the police’s role in society and (enhanced) relationships with the local community (Kappeler and Gaines 2015). Narratives on contemporary policing have evolved in recent times to situate the concept of local policing as an overarching term, which includes a variety of policing strategies: from a *reactive style* of response-based policing to a more *proactive style*, all with a focus on the local area or community. Approaches range from the grand policing philosophy of Community Policing to specific forms of problem solving by for example the local beat officer (Brogden and Nijhar 2005). At its core however, Community Policing constitutes a reframing of the role of the police in society, where a previously narrow role of reactive policing focused on crime and law enforcement is expanded to include a myriad of proactive community oriented solutions to contemporary problems of crime and safety (Hail 2015a; Kappeler and Gaines 2015; OSCE 2008; Skogan 2008).

Some authors have expanded on the ‘role for the public’ in CP, stating that it is “with and for the community rather than policing on the community”, emphasizing the police-community partnership aspect in problem solving strategies (Barnes and Eagle 2007; p. 162, see also Brogden and Nijhar 2005; Skogan 2008). Taking the roots of policing by consent to heart, Community Policing not only embodies partnership for solving local problems but can also enable the empowerment of the community rather than dictating needs and requirements from a position of authority (Kappeler and Gaines 2015). Other prominent elements of CP are the importance of proximity (Terpstra 2009), dealing with community-specific needs and problems and developing trust and reassurance through local accountability and transparency (Brogden and Nijhar 2005). Regardless of its exact form, the objective of CP is tackling criminality in all its forms and reassuring communities through partnership, problem solving and an enhanced relation with the public (Barnes and Eagle 2007; Crawford et al. 2003; Kappeler and Gaines 2015; OSCE 2008; Skogan 2008; Terpstra 2009).

When practitioners and community members across Europe are asked what they consider Community Policing to entail, they describe Community Policing practices largely in terms of building relationships of trust and understanding, working together, communication and interaction and addressing local needs and issues

(Bayerl et al. 2016; Van der Giessen et al. 2016). However, although it is clear that a common understanding of the general CP philosophy exists, there are considerable differences across countries and subgroups regarding the prioritization and implementation of specific CP elements (cp. case examples in Part 2).

Although trust and mutual understanding are almost unanimously considered important, there are still local differences in terms of how best to actually promote trust, confidence and understanding across Europe (see also Hail 2015a; Kääriäinen and Niemi 2014). In a recent study on CP practices in Europe, Belgian police officers for example operationalized the promotion of trust primarily through promoting accountability and transparency of police functioning, while local minority community members in Belgium prioritized improving social cohesion and embeddedness (Van der Giessen et al. 2016; see also Chap. 8).

In the Anglo-American model, Community Policing is often implemented in a way to contribute to a visible presence in the streets as a means of providing reassurance and a source of security to the public. Police should be both locally accountable and transparent where they must have discretion and should use this positively to maximize community confidence in the police (Brogden and Nijhar 2005). Similarly, although there is a consensus on the notion that no single agency is equipped to deal with the complex and convoluted reality of local community safety and crime problems, some emphasize law enforcement agency and service provider cooperation, while others emphasize police–community partnership (Hail 2015a; Van der Giessen et al. 2016). Combined these two approaches are commonly referred to as the *mixed economy of policing*, where the inclusion of non-police agencies in the creation of safety increases the opportunities to resolve local issues (Skogan 1994).

Ideally, Community Policing involves a combination of the two approaches. The basic premise of German CP, for example, is that a network of engaged partners is required, where the community itself will “take responsibility and do its part to prevent crime” (Marin 2011 p. 21; see also Hail 2015a). This generally involves consulting, engaging and mobilizing the community in order to identify and tackle local community problems and their underlying causes, setting priorities for actions, multi-agency policing, reassurance policing and other pro-active problem solving strategies (OSCE 2008).

When it comes to communication and interaction between the police and local communities, similar differences in prioritization and implementation occur. When Bulgarian police officers were asked about their implementation of CP, they for example predominantly mentioned actions related to information gathering and sharing between not only police and community partners but also with other local partners. This can be contrasted with the Community Policing actions desired by local community members in Finland, who preferred CP initiatives related to improving the availability, accessibility and approachability of local community officers (Van der Giessen et al. 2016). These differences can be attributed in part to specific local needs and concerns (see also case studies in Chaps. 5–11).

The traditional response to crime and disorder is *maintenance policing*. However, this requires agreement about policing priorities in specific neighbourhoods and

communities where this may not exist. There is a substantial body of research that suggests there is often disagreement even within communities on what priorities for Community Policing should be (Kappeler and Gaines 2015). Adopting a one-size-fits-all approach to dealing with these community problems would likely not deal with the different issues and priorities that exist. Depending on these local requirements, some practitioners emphasize the importance of proactive policing for Community Policing, while others emphasize the importance of cooperation to address local needs and issues reactively as they emerge (Van der Giessen et al. 2016). Police organisations in England and Wales for example have adopted the label of ‘neighbourhood policing’ to refer to proactive local services (Hail 2015a), and CP practitioners in some other European countries also prioritize Community Policing focused on prevention, protection and intervention (Van der Giessen et al. 2016; cp. Chaps. 5 and 10). On the other hand, others still maintain a reactive *modus operandi*, provided that local needs and issues remain central. ‘Soft’ policing activities related to providing assistance and service are sometimes considered as more influential to improve police-community relations than reactive or prevention oriented policing efforts (Van der Giessen et al. 2016). Such differences require different communication strategies.

In short, although countries and groups seem to agree on the main core concepts, considerable differences exist regarding what constitutes Community Policing in practice. Police forces and communities thus have differing perspectives within and across countries on what ‘community partnership’ entails (Hail 2015a). As such, the local needs, requirements and therefore implementation of Community Policing could differ drastically depending on the country, community and background of local CP officers. Hence, Community Policing efforts need to content with an inherent multi-contextuality in tasks, processes and objectives.

4.4 The Multi-contextuality of European Community Policing

A long tradition in management research shows that the social context has a major impact on the meaning, interpretation and implementation of specific governance practices (Hofstede 1993). Policing, and CP practices specifically, are no exception. For example, Terpstra and Fyfe (2015) have recently shown for the Scottish and Dutch police that policies and strategies change their meaning quite a bit on their way to implementation. Jacobs and colleagues (2008) found similar effects within the German policing context. Neighbourhoods serve as the primary focus of police organisations where community consensus and structures guide the police response to the community’s crime and security problems. Community Policing is thereby embedded in its respective communities and the success of Community Policing is contingent on the requirements and expectations of these communities. Here we refer to such contingencies as the *multi-contextuality of CP*, and it is the primary reason that the export of Anglo-American CP principles to other contexts is so

challenging (see for example Brogden and Nijhar 2005; Dvoršek 1996; Hail 2015a; Kääriäinen 2007; Van der Giessen et al. 2016).

Although differences between countries, groups and individuals are innumerable, one specific factor deserves special attention: Citizen support significantly enhances police efforts and citizen support is contingent on the trust between police and their communities (Jackson and Gau 2016; Kääriäinen and Siren 2012; Skogan 2006). The joint pursuit of safety by the police, local communities and other partners is dependent on the *mutual* trust between the stakeholders and the perceived legitimacy of the police as a partner in CP. As Myhill put it, the effective and continuous engagement of local neighbourhoods in CP requires their “willingness, capacity and opportunity to participate” (Myhill 2012, p. 1, cited in Hail 2015b).

Trust is often used synonymously with legitimacy, although there is an important distinction. According to Jackson and Gau (2016, p. 3), trust concerns “people’s predictions that individual officers will (and do) do things that they are tasked to do”, whereas legitimacy “is the property or quality of possessing rightful power and the subsequent acceptance of, and willing deference to, authority.” *Trust* thus refers to the expectation that a person will perform whatever his or her task is, while *legitimacy* refers to the extent to which that person is perceived to have the right to perform that task. For example, a local police force can be both perceived to have the right to participate in local community events (perceived legitimacy of police action in the community) and to be effective in offering preventive information during these events (trust in positive behaviours and outcomes). Vice versa, a local community can be perceived to have the right to set its own safety priorities and be trusted to deal with these safety issues when empowered to do so. It is when trust and legitimacy overlap and exist mutually between the relevant stakeholders that these CP efforts are most likely to result in partnership and cooperation for CP (see Jackson and Gau 2016 and Kääriäinen and Niemi 2014 for a more detailed discussion of the importance of these concepts combining for attitudes toward legal authorities).

There is a social contract between citizens and government, which ‘legitimizes’ the police to have moral and ethical authority (cp. Chap. 3). Citizens give up certain rights and entrust the police with the expectation that it will carry out expected activities in a positive manner (Kappeler and Gaines 2015). It is therefore important to what extent the community accepts police ‘interference’ in the sphere of community relations and safety. As Virta puts it, “the political culture (and within that, the specific police culture) provides for an acceptance of state police officers conducting activities outside more traditional public order and crime-related functions” (Virta 2002, p. 191). This is central, as Community Policing takes advantage of police discretionary powers to enable them to conduct a variety of tasks that were previously not regarded as falling within the orbit of traditional police work.

There are two presumed underlying trains of thought: *instrumental justice* and *procedural justice* (Kääriäinen and Niemi 2014). Many studies suggest that positive attitudes toward the police are predominantly due to successful police work and reductions in crime. This is known as the *instrumental approach*. Others suggest that legitimacy and trust are predominantly due to perceived fairness and respectful treatment by the police. This is the *procedural approach* (Bradford 2012; Sunshine and Tyler 2003; Tyler 1990, 2001, 2005). An important complication to note here is that the public constructs their view of the police not only through their personal experiences, but also through the experiences of others. For example, members of ethnic minority groups may not have direct, personal negative experiences with the police, but because it is common to share experiences in close-knit communities, first-hand negative experiences can be shared to create a larger culture of distrust (Kääriäinen and Niemi 2014; Weitzer and Tuch 2005). The police being viewed as a legitimate organisation not only by an individual, but also by the individual's community is therefore paramount in order for support for cooperation with policing efforts to develop (Bradford et al. 2013; Tyler 2003; Lai and Zhao 2010; Worrall 1999).

With these aspects of trust and legitimacy in place, it is possible to consider the differences between countries, communities, stakeholders and individuals regarding (mutual) trust and perceived legitimacy for Community Policing activities. Community Policing embodies a rapid change in policing where the role of police has been extended beyond law enforcement, placing additional demands on the community, which may or may not perceive this extension as legitimate (Bittner 1970; Manning 1997; Wilson 1968). The same applies to perceptions of community responsibility, where Community Policing can embody responsibilities of communities in safety issues where this was not previously the case. Therefore, when looking at the implementation of Community Policing across Europe, it is important to take into account the political history. Examples where the implementation of CP has proven difficult due to lacking police legitimacy (among other factors) include Spain and Italy, where centralized Napoleonic traditions have made it challenging for both the police and the public to accept CP roles (Hail 2015b).

Differences in perceived legitimacy and trust also seem to exist due to socio-economic factors, as evidenced by differences between countries and specific communities. Even within communities, there are numerous groups and subgroups of people, which may have differing perceptions of the police and their effectiveness in Community Policing (Brown and Benedict 2002). Nordic countries particularly evidence relatively high levels of trust in the police; according to Kääriäinen at least in part due to a generally perceived equality and fairness of society as well as a high standard of public administration, low level of corruption and even income distributions among the population (Kääriäinen 2007; Kääriäinen and Niemi 2014; cp. Chap. 5).

Furthermore, differences also exist between sub-groups within communities. In Europe, trust in police among ethnic minorities and different socio-economic layers of society have been studied predominantly in Finland, the Netherlands and Great Britain (Kääriäinen and Niemi 2014). Generally speaking, middle and upper-class layers of society show greater levels of trust for their police than do the poor and minority communities (Kappeler and Gaines 2015; see also Carter 1985; Kappeler et al. 1998; Scaglione and Condon 1980). This is attributed to several factors, including perceptions of, for example, racial profiling, frequency of victimization, injustice, lack of concern on the part of the police and ineffectiveness of policing efforts (Bowling and Philips 2003; Chan 2011; Roh and Robinson 2009; Warren 2011; Wu et al. 2009).

Kääriäinen and Niemi (2014), for example, found that the longer Somalis lived in Finland, the less trust they had in the police, predominantly due to experienced victimization, improper treatment by the police, discrimination and the general social context of their close-knit community. Another minority community in the same country, the Russian community, showed similar levels of trust in the police as the native population despite anti-Russian attitudes and prejudices (Kääriäinen and Niemi 2014). The factors underlying trust and legitimacy are highly complex, and further theory building and analysis is needed to identify the factors driving differences between minority groups in comparable socio-economic settings.

If the implementation of Community Policing occurs without considering these local requirements, problems invariably arise. For example, a highly visible and accessible police presence may help reduce fear of crime within some groups of the community (Brogden and Nijhar 2005), but it may also induce feelings of insecurity and lowered levels of trust towards the police in other groups of the community due to the perception of being discriminated against through these specific police actions (Brogden and Nijhar 2005; Staniforth 2015). Furthermore, if these visibility attempts at legitimacy management are so strong that they could be experienced as intrusive, they could be considered disingenuous or even lead to suspicion rather than to trust (Ashforth and Gibbs 1990). Community Policing can also become problematic if it deviates from a genuine problem solving ethos towards ‘pseudo’ problem solving through simply appeasing public appetites for enforcement that may function as unduly exclusionary (cp. Chap. 7). Worse yet, CP can become a vehicle for the practical implementation of local punitive attitudes against marginalized or minority groups, if the local political context allows for disingenuous policing efforts, causing a deterioration of the police-community relationship.

Other authors have highlighted that the Western model of Community Policing is often not related to the requirements of former members of the Eastern block and that the implementation has occurred irrespective of local requirements (Fruhling 2002). The danger with this form of assistance is that the agenda is set more by what is available rather than by what is needed, and it often suits sellers rather than consumers. Such attempts to transfer knowledge to Eastern European countries are shallow and generally do not bring anything new (Beck 2002; Dvoršek 1996; although see Chap. 10 for a discussion of CP in Croatia).

4.5 Integration of the European Perspectives and Context of Community Policing

We argue that integrating the above insights regarding European CP practices and the importance of local context in terms of perceived legitimacy of CP roles and mutual trust allows for a more comprehensive model of police–public CP efforts in Europe. In Fig. 4.1, described and shown below, we depict the interplay between local context, perceptions of legitimacy and trust and CP partnership for local safety discussed throughout this chapter. As previously stated, Community Policing is not a uniform concept and the local implementation is highly contingent on the local context and mutual trust and perceived legitimacy between the police and local community, both in the traditional policing sense and the expanded CP conceptualization. As such, although local CP efforts are based on Community Policing principles and generally include elements of trust, communication, cooperation and addressing local needs and issues, the exact conceptualization and implementation varies from country to country and community to community.

This variation in Community Policing conceptualizations and implementation throughout Europe can be attributed to several factors. First and foremost, the community’s readiness to cooperate, collaborate and partner with the police for CP is dependent on the community’s trust and perceived legitimacy of the police. As depicted in Fig. 4.1, a community member is willing to *cooperate* if the police is trusted and perceived as legitimate in its traditional role performance, is willing to *collaborate* with the police if the police is trusted and considered legitimate in its expanded role in the community and is willing to accept the police as a *partner* in

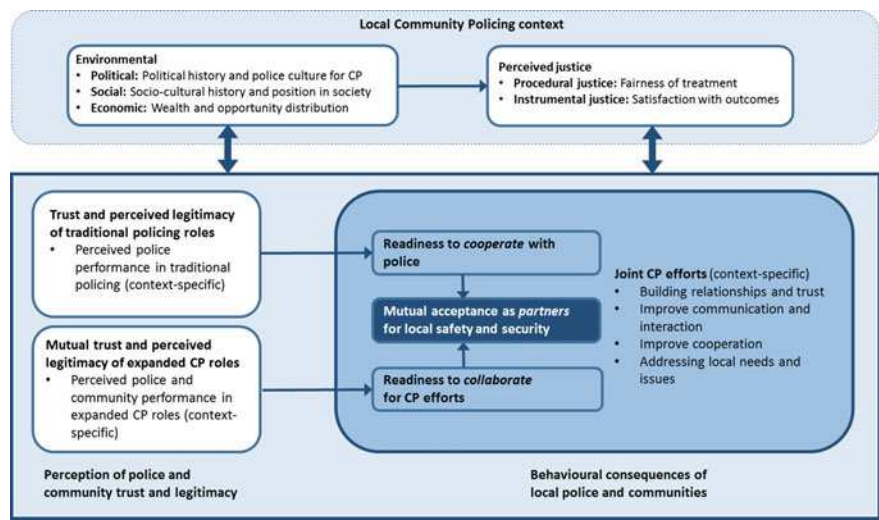


Fig. 4.1 Model of context-specific community policing in Europe

CP efforts when the police is trusted and considered legitimate *both* in its traditional role as law enforcer and in the expanded community-oriented role of CP. Similarly, Community Policing requires an acceptance of the local community role in local safety issues by the police. Furthermore, Fig. 4.1 also depicts how perceived legitimacy and trust are highly dependent on the environmental context and perceived justice, which include the political, social and economic context as well as the individual's and/or community's experiences with police treatments and policing outcomes.

Lastly, it should be emphasized that the local CP context not only has a strong influence on CP practices, but successful CP practices also influence the local context. This self-enforcing loop between the local CP context and joint CP efforts by the police, their partners and the communities (also shown in Fig. 4.1) is the goal of Community Policing. This involves partnership, shared agenda setting, problem solving and an enhanced relationship between the police in the public in order to jointly improve the local situation. As such, Community Policing has the potential to deal with contemporary problems of crime, safety and reassurance as long as the requirements of these diverse communities and contexts are met.

4.6 Summary and Recommendations

In this chapter we discussed the high context-dependency of Community Policing. Community Policing is by definition part of the community where it takes place, thus it derives its specific meaning, goals and priorities from its communities. Communities are social and complex phenomena consisting of different compositions of sub-groups and experiences with police. As a consequence, Community Policing needs to address each specific community with tailor-made approaches. We argued that a one-size-fits-all approach is not suited for CP, as no single community is like another. Furthermore, as communities change over time, Community Policing has to change with them. In this chapter we conceptualized CP as a process, which is largely determined by mutual trust and legitimacy perceptions between police and communities. These in turn are dependent on the social context of the (subgroups within) communities.

Our model leads to the following recommendations:

1. Because the local context has a strong impact on perceptions of justice (fairness of the treatment by police and satisfaction with policing outcomes) by members of the community, CP efforts have to consider the social context of each specific (sub)community in order to be successful. Community Policing needs to be defined and adapted to each social context in order to deal with local needs and issues. As such, it is not possible to simply 'export' CP best practices developed in a given time and context and assume positive results.

2. Satisfaction with the performance and outcomes of core tasks of policing and Community Policing in the broader sense strongly drive the readiness of community members to cooperate and collaborate with the police to tackle local concerns related to safety and security. Signs of dissatisfaction of community members with these core tasks therefore have to be taken seriously. This includes adequately dealing with, for example, perceptions of racial profiling, frequency of victimization, injustice, lack of concern on the part of the police and ineffectiveness of policing efforts.
3. Local communities are not homogenous entities and social complexities within communities need to be acknowledged. Pleasing the majority or over-emphasizing needs and expectations of one sub-group over another can trigger dissatisfaction within other segments of the community. This means all needs and concerns of local communities, not just those of a majority, must be taken into account when agenda setting, empowering local actors or visibly enforcing the law.
4. Community Policing involves an expansion of the social contract between citizens and government placing additional requirements on trust and legitimacy throughout the whole community. Joint CP efforts can only work when the community accepts police involvement within their community and the police accepts the community as a partner for local safety and security. It is important that all stakeholders acknowledge this, particularly when the socio-political context is such that police and community roles have historically been very distinct. Community Policing should therefore involve not only an empowerment of local actors, but it might also include an effort to embed police actors within local communities if the context demands it.
5. Though it is not possible to generalize CP practices developed in a certain context to other settings without considering the local context, it is desirable to learn from various local contexts to subsequently apply these lessons to own communities and CP practices. We have adopted a European perspective to Community Policing, as we should learn from each other's approaches to CP with specific communities in specific policing contexts and subsequently adapt and adopt those lessons learned. There is a great deal of diversity within Europe, which is reflected in the diversity within local communities.

Though to date Community Policing has had mixed results and has led to undesirable side effects, it is our hope that it is possible to overcome these complexities if both practitioners and academics consider the complexities of CP for the implementation and evaluation of Community Policing efforts in Europe. We hope we can encourage tailor-made CP approaches. Although Community Policing requires courage and genuine interest from police and communities, we believe that this courage can lead to resilient communities and lasting partnerships to deal with local needs in the areas of safety and security.

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Chapter 5

Community Policing as a Social System and Its Components

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5.1 Introduction

Community policing is regarded as a principle that guides police's efforts, together with various stakeholders, to proactively identify, address and solve those community issues that bring about insecurity, crime and disorder.

In this chapter Community Policing is approached within a systemic framework. Community policing is modelled as a concrete social system that is analysable into its four components, namely *elements*, *environment*, *structure* and *mechanism* (Bunge 1999, 2004). The purpose of this chapter is to give readers—practitioners, students or other interested individuals—some simple and general tools to understand and analyse particular Community Policing arrangements. A reader should bear in mind that Community Policing as a social system is a conceptual construct, but any particular Community Policing arrangement is a concrete real thing.

Although the idea of Community Policing is widely, even globally spread, it seems to be a generic idea consisting of shared vocabulary rather than a uniformly implemented strategy and practice (Gill et al. 2014; see also Chap. 4 and cases in Part 2). Given the possible diversity of Community Policing implementations, the advantage of this chapter is a common conceptual framework within which one can think of any particular constellation of Community Policing, regardless of whether it is a local, regional or national adaptation. Moreover, a common systemic framework makes possible comparisons between various Community Policing implementations.

The components of a system can be given the following brief definitions, which will be expanded in the next section. *Elements* or members of the system constitute a system's composition. The system is relatively autonomous and organized around

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the system's purpose, but it is embedded in an *environment* that provides a broader context with its opportunities and constraints. *Structure* is a set of relations between the system elements in addition to the elements' relations with the elements in the system's environment. Finally, *mechanisms* are various processes that keep the system running.

In the first section of this chapter these initial definitions are expanded further. The second section aims to demonstrate the power of these constructs or conceptual tools by exploring how a concrete Community Policing arrangements are implemented in the city of Helsinki in Finland. The chapter aims not so much to offer an account of what Community Policing is, or should be, but rather to give the reader some intellectual and conceptual tools to reflect on Community Policing as a practice. The systemic framework and its elements are indented to be general, neutral and abstract concepts without any specific content unless they are applied to particular cases. The tools are simple, but not superficial. To make them more complex, one should also consider more explicitly legislation, norms and beliefs in addition to available resources, capacities and capabilities.

5.2 System Components

A community can be defined both objectively and as a sense of belonging to a particular social group. Such a community can be a specific neighbourhood or some other spatial area, a self-identified social group or even a virtual social network. Nowadays, the border between the local and global, and therefore the internal and external security is changing, for instance, because of immigration across borders and the internet. More important than defining the community is that the police work in partnership with people and organizations to identify and resolve issues that affect safety and security. Particularly the movement of people requires integrative social policy measures, cultural competencies and trust between various social groups.

The 'community' can be seen as consisting of and covering all those individuals, civic associations and public and private organizations that are in some way related to a particular safety and security problem, being a victim or a producer of the problem. Thus a pragmatic approach to community has to start with the security-related problem and, rather than the community, see who are the stakeholders—individuals and groups with an interest in the issue and its outcome—and work from there to build partnerships to further identify, analyse and solve the problem (COPS 2014).

Different individuals and organizations can have a variety of relations to a security problem. First, someone can be a potential or actual source of the problem. Think, for instance, about drug dealing in a neighbourhood or potential antisocial behaviour of socially marginalized young men and women (e.g., being without jobs or schooling) in an area. Second, the problems of these individuals usually affect many other individuals such as their relatives and friends. Third, safety and property of some other people might have been directly harmed due to petty crimes

that often follow the use of drugs. Fourth, people living in the neighbourhood, although not directly involved in any of the incidents, may start feeling insecure and might want to stay at home in the evenings causing losses to local businesses. Finally, there are various organizations and associations that provide services and can help to identify the roots of the problem and find sustainable solutions. These actors can, for instance, be local civic associations, youth workers, social workers, local schools, psychiatric nurses and the police.

When we observe a concrete Community Policing system within the systemic framework, the most immediately noticeable *elements* (i.e., members) are those of police officers who are engaged in community related policing functions and their contacts within different communities. Such community members or stakeholders can be active or potential individuals, public agencies, community groups, non-profit and civic service providers and private businesses. The most pertinent elements and community members are the ones that have an interest in the outcome of the particular security problem.

Concerning the *structure* of the Community Policing system, or the relations between the elements, only such relations are relevant for our purpose that make a difference within the system in the sense that they have an important effect on the elements of the system. For instance, if individuals (elements) engage in communicative relations they change in the process. Communication is regarded as an important type of relation in Community Policing, while trust is regarded as the foundation of partnerships needed for solving security problems (COPS 2014). Indeed, trust between the police and citizens are one of the key properties of Community Policing relations. Trust is both a prerequisite for and an outcome of *relations* between members of the Community Policing system.

We are interested here in relations that involve actual or potential activities such as communication, collaboration and joint problem solving, since open and reciprocal communication between the citizens and Community Policing officers has positive consequences on trust. Increased confidence between the parties then feeds back into improved communication, which is likely to have a positive influence on other Community Policing activities and outcomes.

In a widely spread conception, community-oriented policing is seen as consisting of three key components, namely *community partnership*, *problem-solving* and *police organizational transformations* (COPS 2014; Gill et al. 2014; Keppeler and Gaines 2015). Although there are similarities, the three-component constructs should not be equated with the systemic perspective presented here. One should note, for instance, that the term *community partnership* actually merges the two components that are used here to describe Community Policing as a system—elements and their relations. With neutral terms, such as an element and a relation, we can identify all relevant individuals and organizations and also the quality of their relations, which could even include distrustful or non-existent relations.

Successful implementation of Community Policing, including partnership and problem solving, presupposes transformations in the police organization. Management, processes, skills and capabilities should support the building of

partnerships and the application of problem solving to community security issues (COPS 2014).

The relevant question here is: What is the purpose of Community Policing, and what are the *mechanisms* or processes through which Community Policing aims to achieve its expressed purposes? The prevailing purpose of Community Policing seems to be the prevention of crime and disorder, increasing police legitimacy and citizens' sense of security and wellbeing within their community through various processes of problem solving. Thus, we argue that the prevailing mechanism of Community Policing that keeps the system running is problem solving, which can consist of various sub-processes, methods and techniques. This requires the police to actively engage in various social relations such as cooperation, collaboration, communication and information exchange with the relevant community partners in order to proactively tackle factors that likely contribute to crime, disorder and fear (Gill et al. 2014; Keppeler and Gaines 2015). The outcome and quality of those active social relations such as communication and cooperation can be described with terms such as trust and confidence.

Of the three key components mentioned earlier, *problem solving* can thus be regarded as the main Community Policing process. We can also identify various sub-processes, such as building trust, that can be necessary and supportive but at the same time subordinate to the main process of problem solving. Indeed, trust building without any other purpose such as solving security-related issues becomes a pointless exercise. Problem solving means proactive and systematic identification and analysis of problems leading to crime, disorder and insecurity and then developing and evaluating effective responses (COPS 2014; Gill et al. 2014; Keppeler and Gaines 2015). Such an approach to problem solving requires that crime, disorder and fear be responded to before they occur or escalate. Moreover, problem solving requires a thorough understanding of the processes and conditions that lead to the problems. It also requires the pooling of all relevant capacities and capabilities available from different public, private and non-profit organizations. Finally, there are multiple systematic and formalized tools and techniques that can be used to support problem solving.

Social systems such as Community Policing can be seen as nested and organized into different levels (see Fig. 5.1). This gives the analyst much flexibility in selecting the object of analysis based on his or her purposes, while maintaining the systematic and neutral character of the construct of a system. This flexibility means, firstly, that Community Policing arrangements in a particular police department could be viewed and analysed as a system in its own right. Secondly, such Community Policing arrangements and activities can be regarded as a component of a higher-level system of general policing in that department. Finally, specific Community Policing arrangements, resources and methods with respect to a particular problem and community, say the use of drugs in a particular residential area, can be analysed within the systemic framework as a specific social system with its own elements, structure, environment and mechanisms (see also Chap. 2).

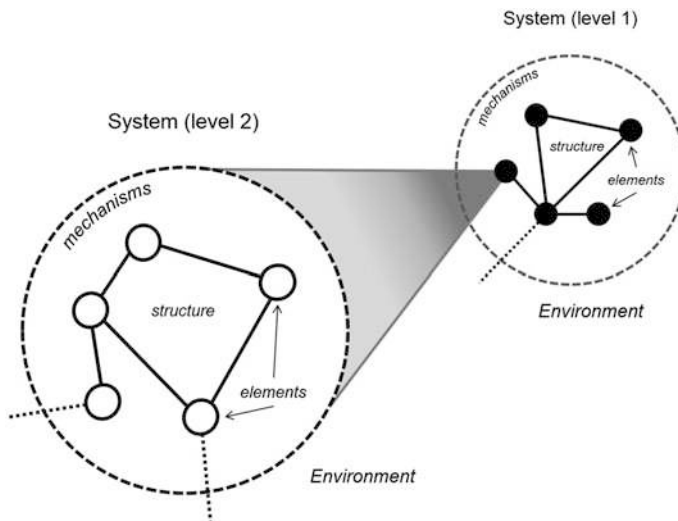


Fig. 5.1 System and its components at two levels

5.3 Community Policing in Finland

Community policing as a social system which fits our components—*elements*, *environment*, *structure* and *mechanisms*—is a conceptual construct. In the following the construct and concepts will be illustrated by describing a concrete Community Policing arrangement in the city of Helsinki, Finland.

Finland is part of the Nordic countries and a Member State of the European Union. The number of inhabitants in Finland is slightly over 5.4 million. The official languages are Finnish and Swedish. Only 5–6% of the inhabitants speak some other language as their mother tongue (mainly Russian, Estonian or Somali). Finland is often called the land of a thousand lakes, and it has a large countryside where distances between urban areas can be hundreds of kilometres. The police are a state authority under the Ministry of Interior. It consists of 11 Local Police Departments, the Central Bureau of Investigation and the Police University College. The Police Commissioner together with the National Police Board supervises these units at a strategic level. The number of police officers has been in decline due to the state's cost-saving policy. The number of police officers today is approximately 7,000, which is one of the lowest rates in Europe compared to the population. However, in comparison to other European countries recorded crime rates are fairly low (Brogden and Nijhar 2005).

The strategic goals of the Finnish Police are ensuring safety and security, preventing crime, the efficient provision of services and maintaining trust as well as influencing the overall development of the society. Preventive policing is the preferred overall approach to police work. Community policing and collaborative

security problem solving are one of the basic tools of preventive police work. They cover cooperation with other authorities, local communities and residents. Building bridges and trust between the police and citizens, especially in vulnerable communities, is seen as an important task of the police organization. Generally speaking 96% of all Finnish people trust the police very much or somewhat (Vuorensyrjä and Fagerlund 2016).

The following historical sketch outlines the changing *environment* of the Community Policing system in Finland. The concept and modes of preventive police work has been transformed through the decades. In the 1950s, when Finland was still mostly an agrarian society, village constables were a very close part of the civil society. Constables lived in their own district and knew practically all residents in their area. Village cops solved different kinds of security issues and social problems and mediated tensions and conflicts between villagers (Brogdén and Nijhar 2005; Virta 2013).

Increasing urbanization doubled the amount of crimes in the cities. As a consequence so called '*Block Policing*' was introduced. Block constables' main tasks were maintaining law and order in towns by foot or bicycle patrolling in certain blocks in the centres, i.e., they were trying to prevent accidents, disorder and crime in particular town blocks. The preferred methods of prevention were early identification and intervention in addition to youth and school policing in the form of legal education and advice (Ministry of the Interior, the Report of the Block Policing 1979).

The continued urbanization and migration from the countryside to suburbs in the 1970s brought block policing to an end. The number of police officers was reduced and foot patrols could not respond to the demands of a changing society. Foot and bicycle block patrols were replaced by car patrols, whose area of operation expanded to suburban neighbourhoods. The main tasks of *Area Policing* were equal provision of preventive police services in every region or town, rationalization of preventive policing, building bridges to the communities and gathering regional intelligence. In principle, however, the major difference between block and area policing was only the extended area of operation. Both activities were regarded as forms of Community Policing, the purposes of which were to bring the police nearer to the citizens (Mantila 1987).

Over the decades, Finland has also had other concepts of preventive policing such as youth constables, school liaison officers and community liaison officers depending on the period of time and local conditions and needs. The purpose of these diverse roles has always been to prevent crime and public disturbances by maintaining a public presence and interacting with citizens and communities (Poliisihallitus 2015).

Currently, the Anglo-American model of Community Policing has been adopted in adjusted form in Finland starting in 1996. However, an exact literal translation for Community Policing does not exist in the Finnish language. Therefore, the concept was translated as *lähipoliisi* ('Proximity Policing') when it was initially presented in 1978 (Virta 2002). In addition, partly due to a much smaller police force in Finland, the Anglo-American Community Policing model has been

transformed to adjust to the Finnish reality. Policing is generally viewed as high-quality, citizen-focused proactive policing at the local level. It is more or less a way of thinking that should pass through all policing practices so that the police can better serve citizens, meet their security needs and create a safer society (Virta 2013).

Community and preventive policing has tended to have a somewhat ambiguous position and low status within the Finnish police. In many countries, not only in Finland, preventive work is perceived as a secondary type of policing conducted by community or school constables. Preventive policing applies 'soft' methods that are seen in opposition to 'hard' methods used in 'real' crime fighting and law enforcement (Virta 2013). Furthermore, although the Ministry of the Interior has issued general strategies of Community Policing and preventive work during the past forty years (see e.g., Sisäasiainministeriö 1979, 1987; Sisäministeriö 2014), the work itself has been carried out in the absence of much guidance or supervision. The community constables have developed preventive police work methods rather independently and locally without a larger strategic framework or a general purpose. Finally, the systematic organization and management of Community Policing were neglected and resources allocated to proactive work were limited. (Brøgden and Nijhar 2005).

During the past few years the *environment* of Community Policing has changed quite drastically. The Finnish government has had to readjust the scope of public services in the context of a downward national economy and a diminishing state budget. For the police this meant austerity measures and administrative restructuring such as merging police departments (districts) and closing down police stations. The newly established National Police Board has reinforced the supervision of police departments, for instance, by standardizing the policing organization and processes (Haraholma and Houtsonen 2013). For preventive policing these administrative changes have meant efforts to unify management principles and supervision by results in order to improve the effectiveness of preventive work. In addition to administrative and managerial changes, the increasing movement of people, services and capital, and the digitalization of life have created a very complex operational policing environment. Crime has become more transnational and the forms of crime and fear of crime have diversified. This uncertain and multidimensional environment puts the police in an ambiguous situation with many options and goals. Hence, it became crucial to build a sense of a shared purpose or direction that can combine various practices, principles and traditions into a coherent whole to achieve common goals.

The Finnish Ministry of the Interior launched a new preventive policing strategy in 2014. The strategy ordered the National Police Board (NPB) to make a more detailed implementation plan. NPB decided to develop preventive policing work through a program the aim of which is to improve societal security and prevent crime. According to NPB preventive policing consists of two aspects: First, there is *general preventive work*. Daily policing work, both patrolling and crime investigation, should be carried out in ways that prevent crime and disorder and improve the citizen's feeling of security. Second, there is *specific preventive policing work*. Here preventive policing is a specific policing function that proactively improves

security. This specific type of policing should be organized, managed and supported by uniform structures and processes. Such preventive policing, or Community Policing, includes also the Internet police and annually selected specific projects such as the prevention of radical extremism (Poliisihallitus 2015).

Social and health policy measures that promote equality have a strong preventive impact against crime and disorder (e.g., Pike 1985). Effective crime prevention requires a credible criminal policy and legal system in addition to well-functioning social policies. The public, private and non-governmental organizations producing welfare services strive for equal opportunities for all to well-being and good life. These services can be regarded as the mainstay of the Nordic welfare states. Within this framework the police are not only a crime fighting tool, but also an agent together with other agents that try to prevent crime, social disorder and deprivation and increase the sense of security and well-being of citizens. As a Nordic welfare state Finland invests much more resources in the social and welfare services than public safety services including the police. The emphasis on social rather than safety services is likely one of the explanations why citizens in the Nordic countries have such a strong trust in the police (Kääriäinen 2007).

The Finnish welfare society has been quite stable so far, but now, as a result of weakening economic growth and increasing unemployment rates, politicians and the public sector struggle to ensure social integration and equality while cutting spending on public services. Growing unemployment and social exclusion increase the sense of insecurity and social tensions and complicate the integration of marginalized individuals and groups into the society.

5.4 Community Policing in Helsinki

At the turn of the year 2015, the population of Helsinki was about 620,000, while there were 1.1 million inhabitants in the Helsinki Metropolitan area. Since 2010 the annual growth was about 10,000 persons leading to a population growth forecast of 100,000 new residents by the year 2035.¹ Demographics of Helsinki differ from the rest of the country. The largest age group in Helsinki comprises young adults between 23 and 33 years of age, whereas in the whole country 56 to 66 year olds form the largest group.² In addition, the birth rate and increase in foreign-born immigrants is much faster here than in the rest of the country. Almost 90% of the Finnish migration falls upon the Helsinki region. About one third of this is immigration. In Helsinki, the proportion of people whose first language is neither of the two official language, Finnish or Swedish, is about 13.5% (Helsinki 2016).

Although there are wealth differences, the socio-economic composition of the residential areas in Helsinki is relatively equal compared with some other European

¹Statistics Finland, www.stat.fi (accessed October 25, 2016).

²Helsinki by district 2014, www.hel.fi (accessed October 25, 2016).

metropolitan areas. A well-functioning social policy in conjunction with equality in urban planning has prevented the development of grossly deprived areas. However, the current economic recession together with the increasing immigration may increase and accelerate the segregation of particular residential areas and neighbourhoods.

Finland received more than 35,000 asylum seekers in 2015, especially from Iraq, who were distributed across the country in refugee centres run under the national reception system for asylum seekers. It is likely that asylum seekers will later move to Helsinki region due to better job opportunities and already existing migrant communities. Immigrants live more likely in the outskirts of Helsinki in tenement blocks than Finns who have spread more evenly in rental flats and owner-occupied detached houses. In addition, immigrants live in cramped flats and in the margins of poverty more often than Finns (Nieminen et al. 2015).

The growth of asylum seekers in the context of weak national economy and scarce employment affects the social climate and the way many Finns perceive their social and economic opportunities. Experts do not see a swift economic growth on the horizon, while the integration of immigrants into the Finnish society due to scarce employment opportunities seems difficult. Hate speech and hate crime has been building up (Tihveräinen 2016). An anti-immigration National Socialist movement named 'Suomen vastarintaliike' ('Finnish Resistance') has become active in street demonstrations and on social media. Also anarchist and anti-fascist groups have taken part in demonstrations that have escalated into acts of violence.

All these changes in the police operation *environment* mean that capacities and capabilities have to be pooled together. The police need to identify all relevant *members* (elements) and establish operating *relations* with these stakeholders to support the goals of preventive and Community Policing. There are a number of such potential partners among governmental agencies and non-governmental organizations, the purpose of which is to prevent deprivation and social exclusion and various social and individual maladies that may result.

The new preventive policing strategy (Sisäministeriö 2014) and its implementation plan (Poliisihallitus 2015) require eleven police departments to prepare their own preventive action plans. NPB aims at clear and unified management, structures and processes, which will lead to effective preventive policing. This requires also improvements in personnel development and training, improvements in analysis and intelligence, a stronger integration of internet policing (particularly social media) into preventive work and periodically changing specific projects such as the prevention of cross-border crime or radicalization.

As mentioned above, a proactive working approach should be integrated into daily police patrolling and crime investigation. In practice, this means active and targeted interventions by the police and, if necessary, cooperation with relevant stakeholders, preferably before the occurrence of crime or disorder. Some such preventive measures have already been successful. For example, there is a noted connection between young men's alcohol consumption and street violence. Compared to other European countries Finland is characterized by above average levels of violent behaviour and alcohol consumption. In almost 80% of batteries the

victim or the offender is under the influence of alcohol. A typical battery on public streets occurs in front of a restaurant around closing time. Also about 70% of homicide offenders and victims are under the influence of alcohol. Particularly aggravated violence by young people is strongly associated with alcohol, substance abuse, mental and social problems, and hence social exclusion (Rikollisuustilanne 2015).

In 2012 police changed its intervention strategy from visible, emergency-based car patrolling to proactive intervention that meant zero tolerance for underage alcohol assumption. Since 2012 police has intervened very strictly in minors' alcohol consumption on the streets. Before, hundreds of intoxicated youngsters posed a threat to the public safety in parks during the weekends. By controlling young men's alcohol consumption, street violence reduced rapidly. This has required a change in the attitudes and working methods of patrol police and has been successful despite the inertia and resistance of old school police officers. The result is that youngsters do not consume alcohol on the streets any longer. At the same time, according to several studies, young people's attitudes towards alcohol have changed to the negative. Indeed, alcohol use has decreased and alcohol abstinence has increased among the young since the beginning of the 2000s (Kinnunen et al. 2015).

When daily work of local police patrols is done in a proactive fashion, the specifically appointed community police officers are free to concentrate on special proactive work in order to improve safety. These police specialists are able to target wider and tougher security challenges by creating *relations* with other relevant stakeholders (*elements in the system*) without the requirement to respond reactively to emergency calls. That is to say, community police officers are involved in solving proactively deep-rooted security problems. Effective proactive policing requires new problem solving methods, which can include, for instance, risk assessment, analysis and evaluation of security measures. It also requires encouraging stakeholders to take ownership and responsibility of the problems and develop solutions proactively and independently.

Virtual Community Policing is an example of special proactive police work. There are two types of preventive online police methods in Finland. First, the Virtual Community Police, established at the Helsinki Police Department in 2008, consists of three full-time virtual police officers working to solve problems and prevent crimes by using Community Policing methods online. Full or part-time virtual police officers were established also in other police departments in Finland. The second method uses social media as a Community Policing tool. Police officers have their own Facebook profiles, which they use for communication and information sharing purposes with different online communities and individuals.

A further example of special proactive police work is the multi-professional Anchor Team model. The first team was established in 2004 in the Kanta-Häme Police Department (Sisäministeriö 2014) from where the model spread to other police departments in Finland. Anchor Team is a proactive working model through which the police have establish operational working *relations* with other relevant public agencies including social work, health care, child welfare and youth work.

The initial goals were timely intervention of underage criminal behaviour, domestic and intimate partner violence, but has extended to prevention of extremism and improvement of internal security through cooperation with multiple partners.

In Helsinki the multi-professional Anchor Team works on the premises of the Helsinki Police Department. They search, offer and develop services for diverse needs of various customers. On the basis of the specific expertise and information of each member the team produces a comprehensive assessment of customers' often very tough life situation and finds customer-oriented solutions. The Anchor Team has extensive operational *relations* with many other stakeholders (*elements*) ranging from public authorities to association offering social services and support.

The Anchor Team handles about one thousand customers per year, the most of whom are young persons with minor offences. Other customers are offenders that are guilty of domestic or intimate partner violence or individuals who hold extremist viewpoints. The starting point is a customer's desire to achieve a change in his or her life. A preliminary assessment indicates that about 75% of the customers have benefited from the Anchor Team's services and have given up committing crimes.

The third example of special proactive work is the organized Proactive Policing Unit at the Helsinki Police Department. The unit was founded in 2012 and set as its main goal the enhancing of security in the city of Helsinki, the early prevention of phenomena that pose a threat to the security and the building of partnership relations with other members of the system. In practice this means cooperation with other local and national police units, public authorities, non-governmental organizations, civic association and citizens of Helsinki. An important measure that ensures that these goals are realized is to build trust with other stakeholders and collectively try to tackle possible security challenges. Security cooperation and planning is based on reciprocity that benefits all parties. Early intervention requires active and target-oriented cooperation with relevant partners. Although policy and action planning is usually developed centrally by authorities in Finland, preventive action plans needs to be adjusted to the local conditions and requirements. Consequently, local communities and their representatives need to be actively engaged in the development and implementation of action plans, and the communities need to collaborate with the police and other public authorities. In other words, local communities need to take ownership of the problems and action plans.

Proactive policing in Helsinki is organized into two different teams, both having their own focus.

The task of team one is to create and maintain relations of trust between the police and groups coming from various linguistic and ethnic groups. A special task is to prevent politically or ideologically based violence. Team two focuses on those security threatening phenomena that require more thorough investigations into the root of the problems, which may not be possible by the more traditional law enforcement methods. By means of local problem solving this team first tries to identify the factors behind crimes and disorder and then moves on to influence those factors in collaboration with other police units, public agents, civic organizations and residents of particular areas. In its work, the team especially tries to

build and maintain trusting relations between the young and the police. Young people are met during the police fieldwork and in social media. The team collaborates with schools, youth clubs and associations in the Helsinki region. The team also works with the Anchor Team focusing especially on young first-time offenders and socially marginalized individuals who are in a vulnerable position or at risk of committing increasingly serious crimes or of moving into criminal careers. Although the two teams have a somewhat different focus, they will apply similar methodologies and techniques of local problem solving that are well tested, for instance, in the prevention of extremism and multi-professional cooperation.

One of the specific tasks of the Proactive Policing Unit is to prevent violent extremism. This includes individuals that are prepared to use violence to further their ideological goals, which could be religious or political radicalism (left-wing and right-wing extremism), individuals with hardline and extremist views and lone actors such as potential school shooters.

In their daily work, police officers in the Proactive Policing Unit, who work both in uniform and in plain clothes, meet individuals and representatives of various communities, talk to young people, participate and help organize community events, work as negotiators in demonstrations and arrange seminars and Q&A sessions together with the communities. The multi-professional approach is often the preferred method when the teams encounter an individual and his or her family who tend to have a multitude of other social and psychological problems than mere antisocial behaviour or petty crime.

The effectiveness and outcomes of preventive policing work in Helsinki has not been evaluated so far. Based on Gill et al. (2014) one could expect that at least people are more satisfied with the police and the police legitimacy will become stronger, whereas it is likely harder to prove that Community Policing will reduce fear of crime or crime rates.

5.5 Conclusions

In this chapter Community Policing was approached within a systemic framework. A concrete Community Policing system can be understood as a social system consisting of *elements*, or members of the system, *environment*, or context of the system, *structure*, or relations between system elements, and *mechanism*, or processes that keep the system doing what it is supposed to do. The readers can use these simple tools to analyse local, regional or national Community Policing arrangements. The systemic framework and tools are general and neutral without any specific content unless they are applied to particular cases. In order to illustrate how this conceptual tool can be applied in a real case, the chapter also included a description of Community or Preventive Policing in Finland and particularly in the city of Helsinki.

The overall ambition of Community Policing is usually to prevent crime and disorder, increase police legitimacy and citizens' satisfaction with the police and

reduce citizens' fear of crime. In order to accomplish those purposes the police needs to build *active relations* with all relevant players among public, private and non-governmental organizations and individual citizens. The fact that the relations are active means that they are functional, i.e., they have been created for some activity goal-driven. For instance, there can be relations of communication and collaboration in order to achieve the goal. Engaging in such relations changes the parties and the quality of the relation. Thus, trust between the police and the community, which is often mentioned as a crucial aspect of Community Policing, is a consequence of communication but also a prerequisite for engaging in communication in the first place. *Mechanisms* are processes through which community policy attempts to achieve its purpose. The most generic mechanism in Community Policing is problem solving, which can include various sub-processes or particular methods and techniques such as multi-professional interventions, prevention of radicalization or facilitated invention of solutions.

The operative *environment* of a Community Policing system is constantly changing and Community Policing has to be aware and adjust to the demands of the environment. One important sub-process of problem solving is the strategic analysis of the operational environment to identify the opportunities and challenges the organization has to come terms with. Such environmental forces and trends are often analysed into political, economic, social, technological, environmental and legal aspects. Strategic planning and analysis includes also the exploration of the environment inside the organization in order to identify strengths and weaknesses. Through this type of strategic analysis of external and internal organizational environments one can suggest improvements in Community Policing services and thereby create more public value for citizens and fulfil the police mission (Bryson 2004).

Adding new components into the model can further develop the systemic framework presented in this chapter. Consequently, the analysis becomes more detailed. For instance, the model could be extended by various actual and potential organizational *capacities* and *capabilities* that various members can bring into the system and thereby improve the effectiveness of a community. These capabilities and capacities include, for instance, management, organizational structures and processes, personnel and information technology.

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Part II

European CP Practices and Case Studies

Chapter 6

Community Policing and Radicalization: Evaluation and European Examples

Holger Nitsch and Sarina Ronert

6.1 Introduction

The 21st century Europe is marked by various challenges, ranging from war in the Middle East to a tremendous refugee crisis to the omnipresent threat of terrorism. The large migration of the Muslim population to Europe, triggered by war and terror in Syria and Iraq, entails next to challenges also risks. On the one side, radical Islamist Groups are trying to win traumatized, lonely and therefore easy to influence refugees for their ideology. On the other side, radical left and right wing groups are taking advantage of the refugee crisis to underpin their propaganda and to spread their body of thought. In order to prevent individuals from the germination of radical ideas and the drift into a radical group, security authorities throughout Europe need a new approach to meet the threat at an early stage and successfully. Stakeholders and Law Enforcement Agencies (LEAs) need to cooperate and communicate, because radicalisation that leads to terrorism is a threat to community security and not only to state security.

Communities are stakeholders and partners of the police in preventing radicalisation and therefore need to be involved into the workflows to reduce the risk of radicalization. Community Policing with its multidisciplinary approach seeks the cooperation of local communities and the broad range of public authorities to counter radicalisation that leads to terrorism. The interaction between police and communities can not only provide an important source of information about crimes and suspicious behaviour, it can also prevent all kinds of radicalisation, be it right, left, politically or religiously motivated.

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6.2 Community Policing

Community Policing (CP) can be understood as a strategic method within traditional policing practices. Its objective is to establish a partnership between the police and the citizens and to strengthen the cooperation between the entire police organisation, all governmental agencies and the communities they serve in order to solve problems more quickly and efficiently (Bureau of Justice Assistance 1949). To enable the building of ties and the close interaction with members of the community, the police needs to be visible and accessible to the public, listen to the citizens' concerns, respond to the communities' needs and to know and be known to the public. Community Policing aims to interlink Law Enforcement Agencies with other organizations like government agencies, community members, non-profit service providers, private businesses and the media. Especially the media, with its quick and far-reaching transfer of information, can strengthen the communication between police and communities. Many LEAs have already recognised the opportunities of media and use the internet and social media to spread information as well as strengthen their image and communicate with citizens (cp. Chaps. 11 and 13).

All in all, Community Policing aims to change the role of LEAs from a static, reactive, incident-driven bureaucracy to a more dynamic, open, quality-oriented partnership with the community (Brown and Wycoff 1987). Common elements within different community-oriented approaches are the exchange of trust, an increased officer-accountability to civilians and the fostering of trust. These police-citizen partnerships will strengthen the cooperation and communication between LEAs and communities and will improve the prevention and the investigation of crimes, increase the subjective feeling of safety and reduce the risk of radicalisation (OSCE 2014). Especially in times of a refugee crisis and social changes, these aims are more important than ever. Law Enforcement Agencies are regularly facing different forms of radicalisation, which are arising in all kinds of social classes, age groups, nationalities and political groups (cp. Chaps. 3 and 4).

6.3 Radicalization

The term radicalization originates from the Latin word *radix*, which means root. Radicalization can be understood as a process, i.e., a progress in the course of which people or groups change their point of view and/or their behaviour (Mandel 2009).

6.3.1 *The Process of Radicalization*

Radicalization describes all political orientations, which are aiming to change the existing social order fundamentally. However, radicalization does not necessarily mean that a person is on the way to becoming a violent extremist. In the past, there were also examples for non-violent political movements like organisations advocating for women's suffrage or civil-rights (Leuprecht et al. 2010), which were also classified as radical. Therefore, the term radicalisation is describing a process, which is not always ending in violence and extremism and is used in various contexts. While radicalism identified liberal reformers and freedom and democracy movements in the 19th century, in the early 20th century it often was a description for Marxist, Leninist and anarchistic groups (Mandel 2009). Accordingly, central characteristics of radicalism are striving to realize a social utopia and its inconsiderate enforcement.

Today the term radicalism can be understood more as an insistence on an initial position, which rejects every other position, opinion or value and which supports acts of violence. However, of course the process of radicalization can also lead into violent extremism and violent political behaviour like jihadi Salafis or extreme right-wing groups are demonstrating today. The increasing amount of people who are travelling from western countries to Syria in order to support and fight next to the Islamic State make this abundantly clear. At the moment of writing, experts consider that 4500–5000 Europeans travelled to Syria with the intent to join the radical terrorist group.

To reduce this kind of radicalization, LEAs and stakeholders need to understand the process of becoming an extremist with violent behaviour. Unfortunately, no one can explain this process in an accurate and extensive way. However, many experts on the subject of sociology agree on the view that people are shaped by their social surroundings. That means that an individual is formed by its immediate social conditions mostly within a group (Schulze 2000). Imagine that a young Muslim is on the search for his/her identity, because s/he grew up in a non-Muslim society and doesn't know where s/he belongs to—a typical identity crisis; a group of radical Muslims would assign him/her to a role and give him/her an identity. S/He would be surrounded by people with the same opinions and experiences. This familiar structure will lead to a feeling of strength and moral superiority against outsiders (Abou-Taam 2011). By promoting the solidarity of a radical group, members will begin to distinguish between fellows and non-fellows, between 'we' and 'they'. The group will develop a collective identity, which eventually will overshadow the individual identity.¹ The fusion with a radical group will isolate the individual from its 'normal' surrounding in a psychological and physical way² and relationships of

¹This group dynamic also simplifies the strength of recruitment.

²One example is the full body veil of the Salafis. The women will literally be isolated from their surroundings, which will lead little by little to a total encapsulation from her former social environment.

trust will only exist within the group (Abou-Taam 2011). But of course there are numerous other factors that can lead to radicalization.

6.3.2 Factors and Mechanisms of Radicalization

As mentioned above, radicalization is a sometimes slow, sometimes fast process, which changes the point of view and the behaviour of an individual. But which factors are encouraging or initiating this process? In the last years, scientist tried to explain this phenomenon of radicalization and developed a number of radicalization models from different scientific fields and perspectives. Even though some of these models are very different in many aspects, they all agree on the principle of multiple levels (see Fig. 6.1).

6.3.2.1 Individual Level

Considering the age of modern terrorists, it is striking that young people seem to be more susceptible for radicalization than elderly people. Most of the people, who join a radical group are between 16 and 59, the average age is 25. This is also supported by general criminological investigations stating that *young people* are more vulnerable for criminality than the elderly (Fuchs and Mähler 2015). The same investigations also indicate that the male gender is predominant considering radicalization and violent extremism (Fuchs and Mähler 2015). The reasons for this may be a gender-specific perception or a different attitude towards violence in men and women. Another significant factor for radicalization is the *social environment*. According to different studies, family relations play a significant role in the process

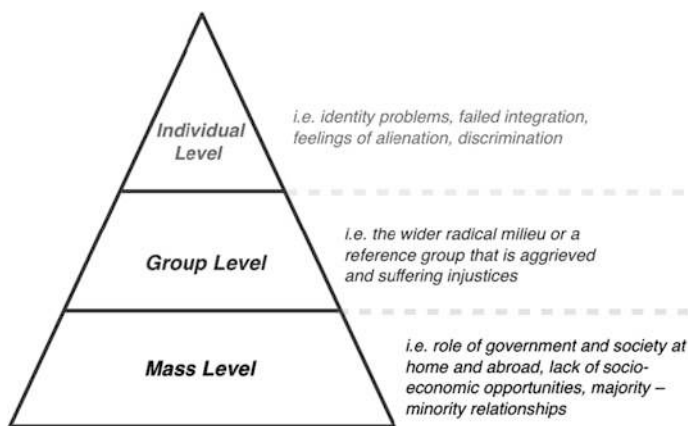


Fig. 6.1 The different levels of radicalization

of radicalization, especially the loss of a family member or the absence of a father figure in the moulding and imprinting years of childhood. Such a link cannot be established regarding the *level of education*, as the educational background is covering the entire spectrum. Nevertheless, it can be said that a poor education supports the process of radicalization for numerous reasons. For example, it is more difficult for poorly educated people to have success in the working world or to integrate themselves successfully in a foreign society, which both may lead to resentment. This also applies for migrant backgrounds, as migrants may have the feeling of social inequality and an economic disadvantage (Fuchs and Mähler 2015).

Contrary to public opinion, in the majority of cases *religion* is not the trigger for radicalization. Even though religion plays a central role in the process, religiousness itself is not sufficient for the development into a violent extremist, as many extremist lived a secular life before their radical transformation. Indeed, strictly religious people are less susceptible for radical opinions, as the religious naivety is missing. In many cases, the ‘religious renewal’, which leads to radical religious ideas, arises with the beginning of the real radicalisation. On average, the *tendency towards criminality* makes individuals more receptive for propaganda and radical ideas than a religious attitude. Considering different terrorists’ biographies it is striking that many of them had a long criminal carrier before they became an extremist or terrorist (Fuchs and Mähler 2015).

In addition to these supporting factors, each individual passes a *trigger moment*, a mechanism of radicalization, before s/he became addicted to an extremist or terrorist body of thought. On the individual level, this includes inter alia the individual resentment by which a person feels victimized and seeks revenge for someone’s—in many cases the government’s—actions that harms himself or loved ones.³ Similarly, an individual who has not personally experienced grievances may radicalize him/herself by identifying with a group perceived as victims. This phenomenon is called *lone-wolf terrorism* and appears more and more frequently in the 21st century (Fuchs and Mähler 2015). Another negative trigger or mechanism is the feeling of fear. Especially in an environment of war, people may feel safer and protected within an armed group. This can be observed in Syria and Iraq, where numerous people join militant groups like the Islamic State, the al-Nusra Front or the Free Syrian Army (Volkan 1999). Next to these negative feelings, love can also be a mechanism to start the process of radicalization. Individuals may join a radical group because someone they love asked them or they want to aid and protect a loved one. In recent years, various women travelled to Syria with the desire to join the Islamic State and marry a *mujahid*,⁴ and in the majority of cases a member of this radical group cultivated a personal connection with these young women and

³An example are the so-called Black Widows. Black Widow is a description for widowed members of Islamist terrorist groups, who are revenging the death of their husbands. This term first became known at the Moscow theater hostage crisis of October 2002.

⁴A person performing Jihad.

pretended love (Erelle 2016). And last but not least, mechanisms like thrill, status and money are driving individuals of each age-category into the clutches of radical groups (Leuprecht et al. 2010).

6.3.2.2 Group Level

As mentioned earlier, group phenomena play a significant role in the process of radicalization. An individual may focus on peer groups and makes him/herself emotionally addicted to a radical group, which will cause *peer pressure* and *group dynamic processes*. On the one hand, discussions among members of like-minded people move members further in a radical direction because the individual does not want to fall behind in representing group-favoured values. On the other hand, peer dynamics can lead to radicalization, when different groups are competing; e.g., when non-state actors compete with a state or when factions of the same group compete with another, as we have previously seen in 2014, when a small group detached from al-Qaida and established an independent organization—today known as the Islamic State. These peer dynamics can be multiplied, when a group is exposed to different influences such as isolation or threats (Leuprecht et al. 2010).

A peer group may give the long-desired *support* and *attention*, so that the group will turn into a personnel, spiritual and sometimes also financial supporting system. For example, 80% of German jihadists were radicalized within social communities like associations or mosques (Fuchs and Mähler 2015). These modern networks often are very adaptable and dynamic and are often guided by a very charismatic leader.⁵ By joining a peer group, individuals are surrounded by like-minded people. We can observe this phenomenon, when we look at the hundreds of young men and women who left their homes behind in order to travel to Syria and Iraq to join the Islamic State.

However, some of these Syria travellers came back to their home countries and some of them are languishing in jail, serving prison terms for the membership in a terrorist organization. This makes prisons potential breeding grounds for radical ideas. On the one hand, imprisoned people are isolated from society, which may enhance their personal crisis and their resentment. On the other hand, they may be in direct contact with radicals. Therefore, a *prison environment* can thoroughly support active recruitment and passive radicalization (Bianchi et al. 2008; Fuchs and Mähler 2015).

Considering this significant amount of variation in the socioeconomic frame, it remains very difficult and highly controversial to broadly label individuals or groups as being ‘at risk’ (Saltman and Smith 2015).

⁵Ibrahim Abou-Nagie, a Salafi preacher in Germany, is such a charismatic leader. With his community ‘Die wahre Religion’ (engl.: The true religion), Abou-Nagie is converting juveniles to Salafi Islam. He became known through campaigns called “LIES!” (engl: Read!), where he and his followers distributed their interpretation of the Quran to passengers.

6.3.2.3 Mass Level

External threats can lead to increased group identification and magnify the power of leaders on both levels, the group and the mass level. An example for mass impact to *external threats* is for example the reaction of American citizens after 9/11 (Leuprecht et al. 2010). Anti-Islamic and islamophobic communities and associations sprung up in the U.S. and won people like never before. We can observe a similar reaction in 21st century Europe, since millions of Muslims fled from terror and war in Syria and Iraq and settled down in the countries of Europe. After the Paris attacks in 2015 and the Brussels bombing in 2016, people felt an external threat which caused a shift to the right, which spread throughout Europe.

But there are also mechanisms within migrant communities in western societies that can support the process of radicalization. As we know, the *integration* of Muslims into western societies does not always succeed, and integration policies are often perceived by Muslims as anti-Islamic. Current *public policy debates* about Muslim communities and their probably failed integration are enhancing a feeling of segregation and a negative attitude towards democracy among migrants. As a result, especially Muslims who are living in the 3rd or 4th generation in a western country are feeling a kind of rootlessness, as they often also lost contact to their countries of origin. At this point it is very easy for recruiters or radical groups to catch the person on the search for identity and to win her/him for their ideologies by giving a new identity and affiliation (Fuchs and Mähler 2015).

But there is yet another mechanism on the group level. In most cases, individuals in the process of radicalization develop a feeling of hate, because hate allows an essentialized and *dehumanised view* at self-appointed enemies, which in turn facilitates violating and killing of human beings (Leuprecht et al. 2010). This can be seen in the ideology of radical Salafis who declare the whole western society as an enemy of Islam and who are inciting hate against the West in all their recruits.⁶ Radical groups succeed in spreading this hate by talking directly to potential recruits and by uploading their propaganda to the internet, where millions of people will have access to this material.

6.3.3 The Internet

Only a few technological innovations had such far-reaching effects as the internet and the World Wide Web, which revolutionized the communication by making the exchange of information quicker, easier, cheaper and above all global. Because of the easy access, the (potential) anonymity of communication, the fast flow of information and many other advantages, internet usage by extremists and terrorists is growing (Whine 1998). They are using this method of communication for

⁶cf.: Osama bin Laden's Declaration of War.

psychological warfare by spreading disinformation, threats or horrific images of executions, but they are also using the internet for publicity and propaganda, data mining, fund raising, recruitment and mobilization, networking, planning and of course for coordination (Weimann 2004). The internet establishes a kind of social connection to like-minded people, and especially in the frame of Islamist extremism and terrorism it also represents a ‘visual trainings camp’.

Individuals have access to all kinds of ideological texts, instructions and guidance, which is supporting potential radicalization within vulnerable communities. However, it is very unlikely that an individual radicalizes him/herself to a violent extremist just through the use of the internet. Exceptions are in fact the earlier mentioned *lone-wolf terrorists* who identify themselves with a group perceived as victims without having made a triggering experience before.⁷ Therefore, the internet cannot be underestimated when exploring the process of radicalization (Bayerl et al. 2013).

6.4 De-Radicalization and the Role of Community Policing

The term de-radicalization, also called counter-radicalization or disengagement, has been used to imply a range of programs and projects. These programs are generally directed at individuals who have become radical and aim to reintegrate them into society or at least dissuade them from using violence (Saltman and Smith 2015). In simple terms, de-radicalization describes the reversal of the process through which a person became an extremist. To turn this process around, experts need to know which influences lead to an individual’s radicalization, in order to create appropriate impacts to counter the progress. As we have seen, the processes of radicalisation are not universal, but individual, even though there exist similarities and common elements from time to time. Indeed, there are no doubts that the experience of resentment, discontent and conflicts contributes to the process, next to the assumption of an ideology and the involvement into a radical group (Della Porta and Diani 2006; Wiktorowicz 2005).

The de-radicalization of a person, i.e., an individual liberating him/herself from a radical environment, giving up his/her extremist behaviour and ideological way of thinking, is a very individual process. The radical person needs to relearn tolerance and acceptance for dissidents and the nonviolent handling of conflicts. To achieve these objectives there needs to be a network of experts and stakeholders—which means police, youth welfare officers, schools/teachers, social workers, representatives of religious communities and others must cooperate and communicate to win

⁷Arid Uka can be identified as a *lone-wolf terrorist*. After he radicalized himself by watching Islamist propaganda videos on YouTube and reading Salafi ideological texts in different forums, he attacked US-American Soldiers at the airport of Frankfurt and killed two people (cp. Leenaars and Reed 2016).

the extremist's trust and liberate him/her from their radical surrounding and thinking. These partnerships of police, stakeholders, experts and citizens would not only be able to take appropriate measures in the case of an extremist, but also to recognize the radicalisation of person at a very early stage and to counteract this process. For this purpose, it is necessary to cooperate with schools, to start prevention projects in affected communities, to develop opt-out programs and information channels and to train multipliers. Here it is, where Community Policing can find its main role and purpose.

6.4.1 Engaging with Youths

Considering that the average age of individuals being susceptible for radicalization is 25, it is necessary for the police to engage with youths. But while it is easy for the police to contact young people, it is often difficult to build up a cooperation. Reasons for this may include grievances against the society and the state, which lead to negative perceptions of the police and a reluctance to have any contact with officers. But a positive perception of the police among young people is a prerequisite for a successful police-citizen partnership, as young men and women who feel respected and valued by the police are much more willing to cooperate and communicate.

Youth engagement activities are key components in the framework of Community Policing, not only because they are susceptible for radicalization, but also because they tend to use different methods of communication and get information from different sources. Therefore, young people often have an excellent network and can provide useful and important information. However, the communication among youths takes place primarily on the internet and social-networking media. For that reason, the use of social media can be an effective way to reach young people and to convey messages or awareness-raising activities that can prevent young men or women from being drawn into the process of radicalization. In addition, the police can also establish a presence on social media to engage with youths, to improve the image of the police by giving an insight into the daily police work or by organizing information events (OSCE 2014; see also Chaps. 11 and 13).

6.4.2 Engaging with Faith-Based Organizations and Religious Leaders

To implement de-radicalizing efforts in a successful way, it is important to avoid stigmatization or discrimination against any particular religion or belief. Because even if terrorists are justifying their actions with religion by referring, for example, to the Quran, religion itself is not responsible for terrorism. In any case, there are

numerous reasons for Law Enforcement Agencies to engage with religious leaders or faith-based organizations. One of these reasons is the fact that religious communities may be potential targets of terrorist attacks. In the beginning of 2016, for instance, an attack was made on a Sikh temple in Essen, Germany during a wedding celebration by two offenders of Turkish origin.

Next to the need for protection and security, religious communities can provide crucial feedback on how de-radicalizing measures have affected their community and how they are perceived. But religious leaders or faith-based organizations can also help Law Enforcement Agencies to better understand their community, their religion and their culture. And this in turn could facilitate the development and implementation of counter-terrorism measures. However, the most important reason to engage with religious communities is the opportunity of information exchange. Especially religious leaders may be aware of individuals who are vulnerable for or already are in the process of radicalization or of propaganda material circulating within their community.

However, engaging with religious leaders or faith-based organizations should not be underestimated, as there are some challenges. For instance, there may be a history of tensions and distrust between the state and religious communities due to real or perceived injustices like discrimination. Further, each religious community has its own complex dynamics and characteristics regarding ethnicity, culture, linguistic usage and regulations. Therefore, the multidisciplinary approach of Community Policing is essential for Law Enforcement Agencies in order to construct a new relationship based on mutual respect, solidarity and partnership (OSCE 2014).

6.4.3 *Engaging with Minorities*

Especially in times of the refugee crisis and large demographic changes, it is more essential than ever to engage with minorities. Still, as is the case for engaging with religious leaders and faith-based organizations, there are challenges in creating relationships and partnerships with minorities. There may also be distrust between police and ethnic minorities, especially as the result of practices perceived as discriminatory by minority members. An exemplary case is the strained relationship between the police and people of African and Latin origin in America, as in recent months there were frequent incidents of real or perceived discrimination; and therefore such communities may often have a negative attitude towards the police.

In the case of immigrants, negative experiences with the police sometimes are imported from abroad. Various social workers stated that immigrants often feel negatively towards or are even afraid of the police, as they have had negative experiences with police officers in their country of origin (Egharevba 2014). Therefore, it is important not to unwittingly stigmatize any particular ethnic minority, turning them into a ‘suspect group’, as this behaviour will lead to a feeling of displeasure, alienation and animosity towards police. This in turn will reduce the

willingness of ethnic minorities to engage with and support police in preventive measures.

Nevertheless, engaging with minorities can provide numerous opportunities. Firstly, police may be able to build on existing efforts to implement good practices for policing in multi-ethnic societies and other initiatives. On the other hand, ethnic minority communities can help LEAs to better understand their culture and needs and may have knowledge and information about individuals who are vulnerable for radicalization or about people who try to recruit members of their community.

Yet, successful engagement activities with minority groups require some pre-requisites. Police officers should be provided with clear guidance and training on intercultural competence. In addition, complaint mechanisms should be made sufficiently known and be accessible to the public, and cases of discrimination by police officers should be dealt with quickly and transparently. Afterwards, outcomes should be communicated to members of the concerned ethnic minorities to prove that they are taken seriously and in turn to increase their trust in police. In engaging with minority communities, the police may be able to encourage ethnic minorities to support de-radicalizing measures and to jointly denounce terrorist violence (OSCE 2014).

6.5 European Initiatives in the Field of De-radicalization

As there exists no specific methodology for the work within the scope of de-radicalization, countries' approaches differ greatly. But it can be said that European de-radicalization strategies tend to differ from strategies outside Europe, as they tend to focus more on deconstructing radical theologies that lead to radicalization than prosecuting supposed terrorists or extremists (Saltman and Smith 2015). In addition, counter-radicalizing strategies are often influenced and triggered by major events like terror attacks.⁸ Nevertheless, certain European countries have been streamlining efforts that are combining official counter-terrorism strategies and Community Policing approaches by increasing the responsibilities of stakeholders like teachers, social workers, NGO's, associations and authorities (OSCE 2014). In the following we describe some approaches to give an overview of current practices.

6.5.1 Germany

The first official development of German prevention strategies began in the year 2003, which mainly entailed the distribution of informative material to education

⁸For example, the large expansion of the preventive strategy in the UK was planned and implemented shortly after the bombings in central London in 2005.

institutes and the civil society. In addition, workshops and trainings for stakeholders were organized on recognizing extremism. In 2010, a hotline was established for individuals who wanted to exit radical or extremist groups—which, however, remained strikingly underused. In relation with the Syria crisis and the high amount of individuals that left Germany to fight,⁹ the *Department of Information on Radicalization* (Beratungsstelle Radikalisierung) was established within the German government and the development of the before mentioned exit mechanisms was delegated to de-radicalization programs and society groups (Saltman and Smith 2015). In 2015, the *Bavarian Criminal Investigation Agency* (Bayerisches Landeskriminalamt) established the *Competence Centre for De-Radicalization* (Kompetenzzentrum für Deradikalisierung) and at the same time brought the *Network for Prevention and De-Radicalization* (Netzwerk für Prävention und Deradikalisierung Gegen Salafismus) into life to counteract radicalization in the field of Salafism. Their aim is to coordinate de-radicalization approaches in order to minimize the danger of religiously motivated radicalized individuals.

For this purpose, the Competence Centre cooperates with the Bavarian counselling centre of the association *Violence Prevention Network e. V.* Within the work of de-radicalization, the Competence Centre firstly acts as the coordinator for de-radicalizing measures. In addition, the Centre is a contact point and advisor for all public authorities concerning questions of de-radicalization in Bavaria and ensures the exchange of information between partners of the prevention network. Furthermore, representatives of the Competence Centre are cooperating and fostering the dialogue with Muslim communities. In this context, the Bavarian counselling centre of the association *Violence Prevention Network e. V.* also assumes the role of contact point and advisor for relatives of possibly religiously motivated extremists. Moreover, it offers anti-violence and competence trainings in youth prisons for vulnerable inmates and an assistance program for persons who want to leave the Salafi scene.¹⁰ Therefore, the *Competence Centre for De-Radicalization* combines various partners and stakeholders in the field of Salafism and de-radicalization in order to prevent and counteract the increase of religiously motivated radicalized individuals. The Competence Centre is also actively contacting stakeholders and communities to inform them about their work and their activities. This Community Policing approach opens a communication channel with otherwise difficult to reach minority communities.

⁹Experts suggest that by now about 800–900 Germans travelled to Syria with the intention to fight and about 300 of these came back to Germany (see: <https://www.verfassungsschutz.de/de/arbeitsfelder/af-islamismus-und-islamistischer-terrorismus/zahlen-und-fakten-islamismus/zuf-is-reisebewegungen-in-richtung-syrien-irak>, 09.10.2016).

¹⁰See: <http://www.violence-prevention-network.de/de/aktuelle-projekte/beratungsstelle-bayern>, <https://www.polizei.bayern.de/muenchen/schuetzenvorbeugen/index.html/232038>.

6.5.2 Denmark

Denmark has a long history of targeted intervention strategies, mainly using mentoring schemes next to prevention talks and awareness raising campaigns and to counsel individuals disengaging from a radical or extremist group. This allows the creation of natural resilience towards violent extremism within young people with the help of mentors and through education. In this framework, a mentor is expected to cater for the needs of their clients and this particularly in the early stages of the de-radicalization process. Currently, mentors provided with centralized training schemes from Denmark's biggest cities, Copenhagen and Århus, are selected to align their approaches and safety procedures. This approach is very different to many de-radicalization strategies in Europe; for this reason it gathered considerable international media attention in the past two years and became known as the *Århusmodel*.

Summarized, the *Århusmodel* uses a soft-handed approach, which aims to reintegrate returned fighters into Danish society by treating returnees more like rebellious teenagers than terrorists. This approach is rooted in the concepts of social inclusion and reintegration rather than legal prosecution. This concept works because it is not illegal in Denmark to engage in combat abroad and to fight with outlawed groups like the Islamic State. Through this 'forgiving' approach it is possible to offer extensive support towards the returnees and efforts to reintegrate into the society and the local community. In addition, it is no longer an objective to force individuals to renounce their extremist and radical views, they rather are encouraged to disengage from the social networks that proliferate these views and reject the use of violence to establish their objectives this way. Through the cooperation of police, social workers and stakeholders, this community-oriented approach encourages a more balanced viewpoint and allows the individual to feel that their beliefs are compatible with living in a Danish society (Saltman and Smith 2015).

6.5.3 Sweden

Historically, the Swedish government concentrated upon extremism in the context of extremist threats to Swedish domestic security. This attitude changed after numerous threats and attacks by domestic violent jihadists in response to the publication of Muhammad cartoons by the Swedish artist Lars Vilks in 2010. The Swedish security service *Säpo* stated that threats posed by individuals engaging with overseas conflict—physically, mentally or financially—are of growing concern and have been prioritized by revising their preventive and de-radicalization approaches towards Islamist extremism (Saltman and Smith 2015). In the subsequent years, various initiatives have been developed and funded in order to intensify the preventive de-radicalization work. Since the Syria crisis, numerous

individuals left Sweden to fight and several returned, which added new challenges for organizations on how to de-radicalize returnees.

One of these organizations dealing with prevention and de-radicalization is called *Exit Sweden* and is located within the large youth centre *Fryshuset*. It originally was established in 1998 to support individuals who wanted to exit neo-Nazi or racist groups, provided that they are attracted to white supremacist groups more as a product of social and emotional conditions rather than by ideology. The aim of this project is “to help individuals leave White supremacy groups, and to support them in establishing new lives with economic and social support structures to make their new lives sustainable.”¹¹

Exit Sweden concentrates on aiding the disengagement process by dealing with radicalization supporting issues like the search for identity or power, looking for a reason in life and social exclusion. The majority of the *Exit* employees have experiences with far-right extremism, which gives credibility and legitimacy to their voices for the purpose to de-radicalize others. In addition, a number of qualified psychotherapists support individuals and encourage their families to ensure sustainable support to the networks. Experiences made by these employees are relayed directly to stakeholders in order to better inform policy and practices around countering radicalization and violent extremism on the ground. Considering this multidisciplinary approach in the framework of far-right extremism and de-radicalization, the project *Exit Sweden* is also qualified to confront Islamist extremism in a similar manner (Saltman and Smith 2015).

6.5.4 England

After the 9/11 attacks the UK brought the *Contest* programme into life, which is based on the four P's *prepare, pursue, protect* and *prevent*. In 2015, the UK government elected to pass the Counter-Terrorism and Security Bill in response to the 700 individuals that left the UK to fight in Syria and Iraq and the 300 returnees that came back. This decision gave new life to the de-radicalization programme *Channel*, which was established in 2007 and aims to provide support to people who are identified as being vulnerable to being drawn into terrorism. During 2012, the *Channel* project was extended across England and Wales with the remit to adopt a multi-agency approach to identify and assess cases of radicalization and to support the de-radicalization process. This approach intends to be adaptable to different forms of extremism and radicalization, as it deals with individuals on a tailored-as-appropriate basis.

This counter-radicalization process begins with the identification or the referral of an individual at risk of radicalization to their local police. This referral can come from different stakeholders like community members, social services, family

¹¹See: www.exit.fryshuset.se.

members or school authorities. The government then tries to determine potential indicators of vulnerability like peer pressure, influence from other people or via the internet, family tensions, anti-social behaviour, lack of self-esteem or personal or political grievances. The panel of *Channel* then collectively decides the suitability of the case and, depending on the detail, refers the case for example to the local authority representative, social workers, an educational institution, youth offending services, the Home Office Immigration Department, the Border Force or prison. A requirement for these panel members is the completion of an eLearning course in addition to a 1.5 h lecture called WRAP ('Workshop to Raise Awareness of Prevent') in order to acquire concrete knowledge on the issue of radicalization.

Activities offered by *Channel* are, like many de-radicalization initiatives, quite varied. They range from direct, one-on-one mentorship, housing support and anger management to family support. Thereby the mentorships are administrated by the Home Office, which is tasking certain individuals as appropriate for providing ideology or theology intervention. Like the mentors of the Swedish *Århusmodel*, they often are former extremists and have experiences with being a member of a radical group or with sharing a radical ideology. Because of this, the mentors of *Channel* can leverage their knowledge and experience of their own de-radicalization process to guide clients to a healthier attitude towards social issues (HM Government 2015; Saltman and Smith 2015).

6.6 Conclusion

War, terror and demographic changes are creating new challenges and issues that cannot be met by police on its own. Almost every European country faced serious threats from domestic terrorism, be it left, right or Islamist over the past years. Because of the various different religions, cultures, ideologies and attitudes that exist within every society, it is almost impossible for Law Enforcement Agencies to prosecute the numerous cases of radicalization and to prevent individuals from sliding into a radical group or into a radical ideology. In addition, many police authorities have a lack of in-depth knowledge in the fields of religion, culture and ideology and simply lack sufficient resources. At this point it is inevitable to integrate the multidisciplinary concept of Community Policing into the daily police work to support preventive approaches. Each community with its multi-dimensional nature, knowledge and influence can provide a powerful and active support for preventing and countering radicalization. Police-citizen partnerships are necessary to cover the wide spectrum of monitoring radicalization, implementing de-radicalization measures, supporting dropouts and preventing individuals from being radicalized. The approach of Community Policing will therefore not only strengthen the effective engagement and cooperation between police forces and the communities, it will also support the creation of safer communities for all.

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Chapter 7

Police Liaison Approaches to Managing Political Protest: A Critical Analysis of a Prominent UK Example

David Waddington

7.1 Police Liaison: Contemporary Nature and Origins

This chapter focuses on a highly illuminating example of the way in which the principles of Community Policing have recently been incorporated into the police handling of major protest throughout the United Kingdom. This highly significant sea change regarding the nature and underlying philosophy of public order policing in the UK was induced by controversy surrounding the Metropolitan Police Service's (MPS's) handling of the anti-G20 demonstration in London on 1 April 2009. Mass media and 'citizen journalism' coverage of this event emphasised how police officers had reacted to protesters in a sometimes violent and allegedly indiscriminate manner and had resorted to the controversial tactic of 'kettling' (corralling or 'containing') demonstrators into a confined space and detaining them for several hours (Greer and McLaughlin 2010; Rosie and Gorrington 2009).

A subsequent official inquiry urged the police to adopt more tolerant methods of handling political protest with the aim of *facilitating*, rather than subjugating, the 'right' to protest (HMCIC 2009a, b). This directive was wholeheartedly embraced by the Association of Chief Police Officers and Association of Chief Police Officers in Scotland, whose *Manual of Guidance on Keeping the Peace* (ACPO/ACPOS/NPIA 2010) stipulates that crowd order tactics and strategy must be designed and implemented in such a way as to facilitate protest, adequately differentiate between the 'innocent' and 'guilty', and generally aspire to a 'no surprises' approach to engaging with the public.

Underpinning the contents of the new manual was a justificatory social psychological rationale (Stott 2009), predicated on the *Elaborated Social Identity Model* (ESIM) (e.g., Drury and Reicher 2000; Stott and Drury 2000). The basic tenet of the ESIM is that any form of police intervention perceived as indiscriminate

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and/or illegitimate by crowd members will almost certainly induce a strongly unified opposition towards all attending officers. Such feelings of solidarity and ‘common identity’ will, consequently, make it easier for advocates of social conflict to exert their influence and make it less likely that appeals for restraint will be heeded by the crowd.

The ESIM model has given rise to four specific principles of effective public order policing (Reicher et al. 2004, 2007). These are:

1. *Education*: understanding the various ‘social identities’, values, beliefs and objectives of the different sections of the crowd
2. *Facilitation*: striving to help protesters to achieve their legitimate aims
3. *Communication*: maintaining contact and employing negotiation, both prior to and during the event, with the intention of forging agreements and avoiding any misunderstandings or unpleasant surprises
4. *Differentiation*: avoiding the tendency to treat all members of the crowd in a uniform manner, regardless of their actual ‘guilt’ or ‘innocence’.

It is indisputable that the ESIM itself and the associated prescriptions advocated by Reicher and his colleagues have become a hegemonic component of contemporary UK police doctrine for the management of protest. Stott’s (2009) commissioned review of relevant literature scarcely alludes in fact to alternative theoretical approaches. “There are”, he maintains, “other important and influential theories of public disorder most notable of which is the ‘Flashpoints’ model of David Waddington. But whilst consistent with ESIM these do not focus upon the social psychological dynamics of the events themselves rather the broader contextual determinants” (Stott 2009, p. 8ff).

One major purpose of the present chapter is to present further evidence in support of Reicher et al.’s four principles. However, it is a further intention in what follows to take issue with Stott’s downplaying of the relevance and significance of the Flashpoints Model (Waddington et al. 1989) by arguing that it is precisely this focus on ‘broader contextual dynamics’ that is required if we are to fully understand the reasons why particular forms of police communication and liaison with the public—both prior to and during protest events—are likely to have the effect of preventing (or, at least, limiting) the occurrence of disorder. The first substantive part of this chapter will attempt to consolidate this argument by outlining a particular application of the present author’s *Flashpoints Model of Public Disorder* in a case study of the policing by South Yorkshire Police (SYP) of the ‘anti-Lib Dem’ protest rally, held in the northern city of Sheffield in March 2011.

7.2 The ‘Anti-Lib Dem’ Protest Rally in Sheffield, UK, 2011

The demonstration in question was called and organised by a coalition of local trade union groups and political activists calling itself the *Sheffield Anti-Cuts Alliance* (SACA). Following the formation one year earlier of a Coalition Government between the Conservative and Liberal Democratic parties, Nick Clegg (the newly appointed Deputy Prime Minister, Lib Dem leader and MP for Sheffield Hallam) had nominated Sheffield City Hall as the venue for his party’s Annual Spring Conference in what was regarded, at the time, as a benevolent gesture to his ‘home town’. It is fair to say, however, that the perceived part played by Mr. Clegg and other Lib Dem members of the Coalition cabinet in endorsing a series of highly contentious ‘austerity measures’ had served to generate considerable local anger and indignation.

To SYP’s great relief and satisfaction, the two days of protest were virtually trouble-free. A relatively small crowd of 800 protesters gathering on the afternoon of Friday, 11 March, in anticipation of the arrival of Lib Dem delegates, posed no real problems for the police. Then, on the following morning, a larger crowd of 2000–3000 people (which subsequently grew in size to around 5000) set off on a two-mile march through the city before finally assembling on Barker’s Pool, a pedestrian concourse directly in front of the City Hall. The only noteworthy incidents occurred when 30 members of *UK Uncut* were ejected from a handful of stores and the branch of a well-known High Street bank, and when a 24-year-old man ignited a firework flare and scaled a police protective barrier in what resulted in the only arrest of the entire event.

Fundamental to the success of SYP’s ‘Operation Obelisk’ was a newly-created and assigned 15-person Police Liaison Team (PLT), which was centrally co-ordinated on the day of the event by a remote ‘Silver Command’ team consisting of the Silver Commander himself and an assistant Negotiator Co-ordinator (a female colleague of equal rank). This pair worked in close conjunction with a 5-person Social Media Team (SMT), led by a female inspector, whose function was to monitor and respond to relevant messages appearing on Twitter, Facebook and the Sheffield Forum blog, and to transmit informative and reassuring messages to protesters and members of the wider general public (cp. Chaps. 11 and 13).

While immediate overall authority over the PLT was assigned to a Bronze commander at Chief Inspector level (the ‘PLT Bronze’), during the protest proper the team was divided up into equal sub-groups of five. The first of these consisted of four lower-ranking officers (sergeants or police constables) under the direct supervision of the PLT Bronze, and the remaining two of similar groups of junior officers, which each reported to a ‘sub-Bronze’ commander of Inspector level. In addition to each having experience of public order leadership, the PLT Bronze, two sub-Bronzes and Negotiator Co-ordinator were all highly trained ‘crisis negotiators’. It will soon become apparent that, just as important as the role they played on the day of the actual rally, was the work carried out by the PLT Bronze and his two

sub-Bronzes in liaising with the demonstration organisers in the build-up to the event.

The relevant data on which the following discussion of the nature and effectiveness of the police operation is based derive from an ethnographic study (see also McSeveny and Waddington 2011; Waddington 2013, 2016), in which the author and ten volunteer academic colleagues acted as participant observers, while a full-time research assistant engaged in retrospective and contemporaneous tracking of police Twitter messages and other social media channels of relevance to the protest (e.g., Facebook, Indymedia and the local Sheffield Forum). Eleven in-depth interviews were also carried out with police personnel (the Gold, Assistant Gold and Silver Commanders, a Silver negotiator/co-ordinator, two Public Order Bronze Commanders, the Bronze, two sub-Bronzes and a police constable forming part of a 'Police Liaison Team' and a Social Media Officer) and three protest organisers (the SACA Chair, a SACA Steering Committee member and the President of Sheffield Hallam University's Students' Union).

This body of research will also be used as evidence in the second substantive section of this chapter, which addresses a related controversy, highlighted in a recent article by Baker (2014), who is justifiably concerned with the issue of whether the growing emphasis on 'liaison' or 'dialogue policing' represents a sincere police commitment to promoting the 'right' to protest or should be more realistically regarded as a form of 'symbolic theatre' by the police or—to put it even more bluntly—a 'ritualistic sham'. Certainly, the latter position resonates with the views first expressed more than two decades ago by PAJ Waddington (1994), whose in-depth study of the Metropolitan Police Service (MPS) highlighted the extent to which senior MPS public order commanders routinely employed various forms of 'guile' and 'interactional plays' in order to induce (or even outfox) protest organisers into staging their marches and demonstrations more often in accordance with police interests and objectives than those of the protest participants. This arguably more cynical side of police liaison work will be addressed, according to the same body of interviews and observations outlined above, once we have completed the following explanation of the nature and effectiveness of *Operation Obelisk*.

7.3 Operation Obelisk: Understanding Its Nature and Effectiveness

The Flashpoints Model of Public Disorder (e.g., Moran and Waddington 2016; Waddington 1992, 2007, 2010, 2011a; Waddington et al. 1989) provides a general framework for explaining those contextual factors and dynamic processes, which help to determine why it is that disorder breaks out or, alternatively, fails to ignite in any given instance. It incorporates seven interdependent levels of analysis: *structural*, *political/ideological*, *cultural*, *institutional/organizational*, *contextual*,

situational and *interactional*. These levels encompass the broadest societal context to specific patterns of face-to-face interaction. The fundamental premise of the model is that public disorder cannot be reduced to a single explanatory variable: “To understand why a ‘spark’ sets off a ‘fire’ we need to analyse the principles of combustion. It is not the presence or absence of an individual element which is important so much as how elements fuse and interact” (Waddington et al. 1989, p. 167).

7.3.1 *The Setting*

The first five levels of analysis are concerned with the ‘setting’ in which the protest took place. The model’s most macro-social *structural* level refers to the various forms of material inequality, inferior life chances and political impotence underlying the collective grievances in society, which induce protest activity and have the potential to bring dissenting groups into conflict with the police. The relevance of this level to the present study is reflected in the fact that SYP preparations for the rally were predicated on their existing knowledge that the local standing and popularity of the Lib Dems (and of the Deputy Prime Minister, Nick Clegg, in particular) had progressively nosedived since the general election, due to the part they had played in agreeing to massive cuts in public spending and a raising of university tuition fees. Each of these measures ran contrary to Lib Dem pre-election promises and were looked upon as treacherous acts of betrayal in a city, which provides a home for two major universities and whose economy is disproportionately reliant on public sector employment in comparison to other cities of such size.

The model’s second tier of analysis—the *political/ideological* level—is concerned with the way in which various forms of political and ideological pressure are influential in shaping police policy towards those sections of society who may be harbouring such grievances. Sometimes this pressure is *implicit*, as on those occasions when the police feel an almost instinctive professional obligation to resort to firm—and, if need be, confrontational measures—in defence of politically symbolic ‘occasions, locations and personalities’, such as government buildings, national monuments, foreign embassies and royal ceremonials. A classic example is the fortification mentality surrounding the protection of the Internationally Protected Persons attending world summit meetings. On other occasions, political pressure is more *overtly* exercised—as in the form of direct governmental intervention, or where public opinion is brought to bear by (say) local politicians, the mass media or local pressure groups. It is possible that such policies will be further guided, and possibly constrained, by relevant aspects of domestic and international law or pronouncements or documents issued by legal authorities, also obliging the police to act in particular ways.

Several such overt and more tacit factors of this nature were in evidence in the build-up to the Lib Dem rally:

Among the various and often contradictory *political/ideological* pressures influencing SYP's strategic and tactical approaches to the demonstration were local political briefings emphasising the City Council's determination both to exploit the economic benefits of hosting the event (in terms of enhanced hotel and restaurant bookings and retail trade), and showcase its potential as a conference and tourist centre. Implicit pressure on the police to ensure the safety of visiting Lib Dem delegates (several of them cabinet ministers), and the security of expensive and symbolically significant civic and retail property in the vicinity of the protest were underscored by relevant aspects of the law. Counterbalancing the legal obligations on the police under the European Convention on Human Rights to uphold the rights of property and business owners during a protest, and avoid any foreseeable risks to life during such an event (Article 2), was a similar onus on them to protect people from the possibility of arbitrary arrest and detention (Article 5), and promote the right to peaceful assembly (Article 11) (Waddington 2013, p. 53).

Interviews with senior SYP personnel confirm that the force commitment to adopting a relatively permissive (i.e., facilitating) approach in their handling of the protest was further influenced by important *institutional/organisational* factors. This level of analysis encapsulates a range of formal structures, systems, rules, regulations and documentation, concerning such variables as the availability and nature of public order legislation, the degree of police paramilitarism inherent at local and national levels, the extent and quality of relevant training regimes and methods and of police accountability and the nature and pervasiveness of any policing traditions, philosophies or 'missions' embodied at national or local levels of policing.

It was one such formal mission statement—exhorting all SYP staff to do their utmost to re-establish and uphold public confidence and trust in the wake of the force's controversial handling of the 1984-5 miners' strike and the 1989 Hillsborough stadium disaster (Waddington 2011b)—which, according to interview respondents, consolidated their enabling approach towards the protesters. There is no doubt that the abiding influence of this statement was recently reinforced by the publication of the 'Keeping the Peace' manual, which was signed off by the Chief Constable of South Yorkshire in his capacity as Head of ACPO Uniformed Operations Business. The chief officer's personal endorsement of such a liberal police doctrine was commonly held to have strengthened the local ethos towards a tolerant style of public order policing.

Equally liable to affect police attitudes and conduct towards protesters are factors residing at the *cultural* level of analysis. Here we are concerned with the ways in which sections of society make sense of the social world based on shared material conditions, experiences and position in the social structure. This includes not only people's definitions of themselves and others, but also incorporates the rules informing their attitudes to using violence and recipes of action of relevance to particular situations. For all their underlying similarities, the particular cultural outlook, which any group of police officers might harbour is likely to be moderated according to, among other things, generation or career trajectory or more structural factors such as their rank, assignment and specialisation.

Thus the overall predilection towards a permissive style of protest policing, resulting from key factors at the *institutional/organisational* level was further underscored by the *cultural* composition of the Police Liaison Team. Indeed,

The occupational values adhered to by members of the PLT emphasised a preference for using communication and gentle persuasion, rather than direct force, as a way of gaining compliance. Both the (female) Silver negotiator/co-ordinator and her (male) Bronze counterpart who had overall charge of the PLT were trained police negotiators, as well as experienced public order commanders. These two PLT Leads had chosen a further 14 colleagues to form the basis of three sub-teams of five officers, one led by Bronze, and the others by sub-Bronzes who were also trained negotiators. The remaining members of the team were hand-picked on the grounds that they were ‘people with a certain communicative warmth who wouldn’t be slow about talking to the public’ (Waddington 2013, pp. 54–55).

It speaks volumes about their cultural orientation that, in choosing what they considered to be the most appropriately coloured bib to wear over their conventional uniform, the PLT universally opted for a ‘softer’ pale blue tabard with the objective of making it apparent that they ‘were somewhat different in role and character to their colleagues’ (ibid.).

The *contextual* level concerns those dynamic communication processes occurring in the build-up to an event, which can serve to elevate or attenuate any potential for disorder. Examples of this might include a negative history of interaction and/or controversial incidents between the police and a dissenting group or the arousing effects of rumour, media sensitization or threatening statements by one or both sides. The possibility of disorder is more likely to be averted due to the presence of advance liaison and negotiation between police and protest organizers.

The model recognises that, when carried out successfully, this process helps to generate mutual trust, safeguard against the possibility of police over-preparation and pave the way for a set of mutually understood ‘ground rules’ designed to accommodate both parties’ objectives. The absence of such dialogue generally involves the police having to resort to preliminary intelligence and surveillance gathering (inevitably varying in terms of accuracy and authenticity) and making contingency plans based on ‘worst case scenarios’ with the accompanying danger of creating a self-fulfilling prophecy (see also Chaps. 2–4).

It is in this particular regard that the Police Liaison Team was to play such a highly significant role. The PLT could count itself particularly fortunate in that they already enjoyed extremely confiding and cordial relationships with local students’ union officials at both main universities. Moreover, organisers of the SACA coalition were already well-known to, and respected by, the police, and it came as no surprise when the protest leaders fulfilled their legal obligation by informing SYP of their intention to stage a march. This presented ample opportunity for the PLT Bronze commander and two of the trained negotiators to discuss with student union and SACA representatives the idea of employing officers in such a way as to liaise between the crowd and their own public order commanders. The marsh organisers and student officers were entirely receptive to this proposal and were equally accepting of the need to erect perimeter fencing around the City Hall.

The PLT clearly strove to accommodate and/or facilitate the type of activities likely to be engaged in by the various protest groups. One potential sticking point concerned the fact that at least one protest organiser was eager for the march to set off from the city's customary gathering point on Devonshire Green and proceed along Devonshire Street in keeping with local tradition:

And we said, 'Well, you can't because that entrance is going to be where the delegates go in,' so what I tried to do was to present it as honestly as possible in terms of: 'Well, I'm afraid you can't really go that way. However, if you look at this route, there are some distinct advantages to it. The roads are much wider, so the police can keep you safe, and from a photographer's and TV camera's point of view, whenever they take a picture or shot of you, it's going to look like there are more people here than there are.' Also, when they got to Charter Square, which is raised slightly, the photographers would be able to focus down on them with their cameras and emphasise the length of the march. The other thing I discussed with them was that, 'You're passing the front of the Town Hall, which is the seat of local democracy, and then you're passing into the rear of the designated safe area' (PLT Bronze Commander).

It was within this general climate of mutual co-operation and problem-solving that the march organisers also volunteered such information as the number of people likely to be present and who (if anyone) was likely to cause trouble. It was at this point in the proceedings that both students' unions and SACA reiterated their commitment to a non-violent form of protest. The preliminary briefings, which were presented to attending officers of all ranks, were correspondingly geared towards ensuring that the forthcoming protest would be peaceful but effective. Such briefings emphasised that at least two possible forms of behaviour—the ransacking of shops or the breaching of the perimeter fence—were not to be tolerated, since they each constituted important strategic 'lines in the sand'. Otherwise, as the Public Order Bronze Commander explained in interview, "I think it reflected the ethos of the operation, which was 'Come on, then. Let them shout, let them have a meaningful protest.'"

7.3.2 *Situated Interaction*

This host of significant factors residing at the first five levels of the Flashpoints Model were pivotal to the creation of a favourable context for the protest, which was highly conducive to the emergence of beneficial instances of situated interaction (Waddington 2013). In order to fully understand this assertion, it is necessary to dwell on remaining variables at the *situational* and *interactional* levels of analysis.

The *situational* level draws attention to relevant physical, dynamic and subjective aspects of the spatial location or setting in which the event actually occurs. Most fundamentally, it might relate to the degree to which a particular location facilitates accurate police surveillance and therefore improves the police capacity to intervene with due reasonableness and discrimination. Equally, the presence of

targets of derision (e.g., representatives of a rival political faction or detested foreign politician) may enhance the prospect of disorder.

Of corresponding importance, however, are the ways in which the relevant space is perceived and managed by those present. Regarding the former, it is often the case that police and protesters will arrive at discrepant interpretations of each other's behaviours. Thus, while police officers may justify their decision to clear the road of protesters and provide a protective cordon for delegates entering a National Front meeting as 'upholding the right to free speech', on-looking demonstrators might regard such conduct as disgracefully pro-fascist. These and related actions, such as the speed with which serials are introduced, send out important (and often unintended) messages to protesters regarding police motives and their willingness to accommodate the former's goals and interests.

Disorder is generally more likely to be averted where self-stewarding has been agreed, crash barriers are deployed to limit direct contact between police and protesters, policing is avowedly 'low-profile' with reinforcements in riot gear kept well out of sight of protesters, and where there are clear lines of communication and command, not only between police units but between senior police and demonstrators (thus ruling out the possibility of misunderstandings or unpleasant and disconcerting surprises).

Many of these important prescriptions were in evidence during the Lib Dem rally. It is indisputable, to begin with, that the presence of the steel barrier was fundamental to the success of the police operation, insofar as it helped limit direct contact between police and protesters, while still enabling the latter to remain within seeing and hearing distance of the arriving Lib Dem delegates. The close proximity of tall buildings offered the police welcome vantage points from which to observe the crowd and therefore complement the Closed Circuit Television (CCTV) pictures reaching Silver Command from a variety of different angles.

Perhaps most crucially of all, the presence of the PLT provided Silver Command with an unerring communications platform from which he could confidently gauge the mood and intentions of different sections of the crowd, make accurate risk assessments and deploy his resources accordingly. A second major advantage accruing from the use of the PLT is that liaison officers were able to provide feedback on the nature (and likely consequences) of police actions from the perspective of the crowd. At one point, for example, the PLT Bronze contacted his Public Order Bronze counterpart to inform him that a humorous conversation he appeared to be having with a Lib Dem delegate outside the City Hall was potentially inflammatory:

It was like having an extra insight through the eyes of the crowd. At one point in the proceedings, [the PLT Bronze] phoned me up while I was stood with somebody on the steps at City Hall, watching what was going on with two other people behind us, and he said, 'I'm sure you'll tell me he isn't, but from here it looks as if the person behind you is laughing at the crowd.' So I turned to this person and said, 'Just pay a bit more attention to what you're saying and how, because it might be misread as contempt for the crowd' (Public Order Bronze Commander).

This ability to create a favourable protest atmosphere by affecting the situated definitions being formulated by protesters was reflected in the particularly vital role carried out by SYP's Social Media Team, who not only scotched such highly pernicious rumours as the allegation that a police 'spotter' positioned on the roof of the overlooking John Lewis department store was an armed sniper, but also took charge whenever it was being suggested that a potentially uncompromising police intervention was imminent. As one students' union officer explained,

It tended to accentuate the positive and was generally reassuring; and whenever any gossip started running round the grapevine, they were very quick to interject that 'There's been no arrests', 'There won't be any kettling', and other messages of that nature to help defuse any simmering controversy. It was very upbeat and positive, and it helped to clarify any confusion or misapprehension regarding their tactics, particularly in relation to kettling... In fact, we tweeted back to them that we felt they were doing really good work, and that sort of friendliness soon became contagious.

This brings us on to the final, *interactional* level, which is concerned, as its name suggests, with the quality of interaction (whether respectful, co-operative, provocative or restrained) between the parties involved. This is the level of analysis where 'flashpoints' (precipitants of escalatory conflict) are apt to occur. The model maintains that consistently fraternising and non-confrontational behaviour by police officers will induce the type of tolerance and co-operation, which will ensure that, even where police interventions are necessary, wider conflict will not occur:

The turning point is when one side sees the actions of the other as unreasonable. What is defined as unreasonable on the day depends on what has gone on before. What is reacted to violently in one setting, with particular structural, political/ideological, cultural, contextual and situational features, may evoke a less dramatic response in another (Waddington et al. 1989, p. 166).

The activities of the PLT in the build-up to the demonstration clearly had an important bearing, insofar as they had endeavoured with the help of the organisers to propagate a set of 'ground rules', extensively communicated before and during the demonstration, which forbade the mounting of the protective barrier. The solitary arrest that occurred when the protester lit up a flare and scaled the perimeter fence was in clear violation of these mutual expectations. Thus, it came as no surprise when both the resulting arrest and a further police intervention when a second flare was ignited went unopposed by the crowd. Clearly, these outcomes were a testament to the rapport established between the crowd and the PLT as well as the overall perceived legitimacy of the police operation.

7.4 Sincerity or Sham?

It is debatable to what extent the type of police liaison strategy and tactics employed by SYP can justifiably be regarded as innovative or seminal. Students of public order policing will no doubt recall the considerable insights provided by Peter Waddington's two-year participant observation study of public order policing in the Metropolitan Police Service (MPS) (PAJ Waddington 1994, 1998). This study skilfully highlights the methods employed by senior officers during pre-event negotiations to ensure that, on the day of any given demonstration, groups of protesters not only obligingly followed the police's preferred route of the march, but invariably did so in a peaceful manner, which caused minimum disruption and inconvenience to everyday city life.

Such outcomes were typically achieved as part of a process whereby, in the build-up to a protest, experienced police negotiators would draw upon a repertoire of 'communicative ploys'—such as displaying spurious friendship towards organisers, donating helpful guidance and advice or extending apparently unconditional favours:

Thus, negotiations are conducted with the amicability and good humor [sic] that would seem more appropriate to arranging a loan from a bank...Such amicability is not the product of genuine liking for or agreement with the organizers, the campaigns they represent, or their cause. It is a studied performance designed to dispel any tension, hostility or antagonism that the organizer might harbour [sic]. Once negotiation begins, the police stance is one of proffering help and advice—"How can we help you?"—"help you," that is, to 'do it our way.' Many organizers are inexperienced and so the police 'organize it for them.' They recommend routes along which to march, provide the telephone numbers of officials in other organizations that need to be contacted and suggest how difficulties might be resolved (PAJ Waddington 1998, p.120f).

Waddington further emphasises how, on the day of the march itself, the police assign only their most trusted and experience commanders and ensure that junior officers are thoroughly briefed beforehand in terms of the requisite ethos and objectives. Such commanders deliberately exude an ostentatious bonhomie towards protest leaders and ceaselessly propagate a friendly and collaborative relationship with civilian stewards and their marshals. Both they and more senior police strategists are aware that studied benevolence of this nature is fundamental to police attempts to engaging protest organisers in a position of 'mutual responsibility' for any problems that might occur.

While pointing out that police public order commanders are sincerely committed to 'recognising the unquestioned right' to protest and would automatically 'recoil from the suggestion that they are sometimes deceitful' (PAJ Waddington 1994, pp. 102 and 129), Waddington nonetheless recognises that, by virtue of the fact that demonstrations are generally conducted on police terms, the interests of the protesters are apt to be compromised: "Protest is [thus] emasculated and induced to conform to the avoidance of trouble. In police argot, protest organisers are 'had over'" (PAJ Waddington 1994, p. 198).

Echoes of this underlying philosophy and approach clearly resound in the interviews conducted with SYP officers involved in *Operation Obelisk*. We have already alluded to the fact that, in his preliminary briefings of the PLT, the Silver Commander outlined a preference for the direction of the march to depart from custom and practice by taking an unusually circuitous route to the City Hall via the lower end of town, rather than following the traditionally shorter and more direct path from nearby Devonshire Street. Pre-event liaison with organisers was therefore carried out according to the types of scenario observed by PAJ Waddington twenty years previously. Similar sets of negotiating skills were duly brought to bear in such a way as to not only gain the demonstrators' compliance with the preferred route, but also to optimise police intelligence and thereby ensure that there would be 'no surprises' on the day of the event.

We have these things called 'bunches of fives' in negotiator terms, which are basically reasons to do something. If you're negotiating with someone over the phone or face-to-face, it's always good practice to have these bunches of fives: five reasons not to kill yourself; five reasons to go this way down the street; five reasons to let hostages go, and so on. We also have something else called PPAs—'Positive Police Actions'—where it's a kind of reciprocity thing, really: 'This is what we've done for you. What can you do for us?' So, we were looking round in terms of, 'What can we bring from negotiating, from crisis and hostage intervention, into dealing with people who aren't overtly hostile, but who are not anticipating police in their midst'. It was a case of: 'How can we sell what we want to happen on that day, rather than enforcing it?' So, we'd got rehearsed bunches of fives as to why they should take that route (PLT Sub-bronze).

As planned for and anticipated, this pre-event liaison gave rise to a mutually beneficial exchange relationship, on the basis of which SYP received such high-grade intelligence as to enable them to formulate a very good idea of what to expect on the day of the demonstration and to reassure themselves that the main groups of protesters were seeking both to avoid and, indeed, distance themselves from the type of violence that might prove detrimental to the messages they were hoping to convey:

We certainly had groups who weren't that open in their communication and were quite covert in their ambitions, so there was always that element of the unknown. But overall, we felt pretty secure from meeting their representatives that we knew just how 80 per cent of the people wanted the protest to turn out... The brief was to come up with a way to communicate more effectively with the protest groups... to show that, as a police service, we'd made a measured approach and been sort of *proportionate*. If people then chose not to listen to what we were asking them to do to work together with us in what we were trying to achieve, then we'd at least have some legitimacy for any more robust police action that might eventually prove necessary (Negotiator Co-ordinator).

On the actual day of the march, the most senior PLT commander exchanged first names and phone numbers with any organisers and stewards he had not previously come into contact with. Considerable effort was then devoted to maintaining an amicable working relationship for the duration of the event. The above sentiments and activities are very much in keeping with those described by PAJ Waddington, insofar as they reflect a sincere commitment to upholding the 'right to protest',

whilst ensuring that the event is conducted strictly in keeping with police objectives.

Other findings of this study are consistent with those of Swedish academics such as Holgersson and Knutsson (2011) and Wahlström (2007), who highlight feelings of animosity and resentment on the part of more conventionally deployed public order officers towards their counterparts in ‘dialogue policing roles’, based on perceptions that the latter invariably become over sympathetic towards, and far too tolerant of, even the most unruly of protesters. In contrast to the view shared not only by their colleagues in the PLT, but also by their Gold, Silver and Bronze commanders—that a communication-based ‘dialogue’ approach was best suited to the objective of ‘facilitating the right to protest’—rank-and-file officers in ‘traditional’ police support units were highly critical of the “over-appeasing attitudes being extended to protesters, accused their PLT colleagues of implicit disloyalty, and objected to being asked to stand around while sections of the public were allowed to behave in a sometimes unlawful and atrocious manner” (Waddington 2016, p. 41).

Related British studies highlight an enduring reticence within UK police forces to cede the requisite degrees of operational authority and autonomy to dialogue or liaison teams resembling those deployed in Sheffield, with the result that such initiatives have been consistently ineffectual (Gorringe et al. 2012a and b). In the minority of cases where more latitude has been allowed, most notably in the cases of the MPS and Sussex constabulary, police liaison methods have contributed significantly to more effective police decision-making and simplified the task of defusing potential conflict (Stott et al. 2013).

Even the most ardent proponents of police liaison methods would not regard their distinctive approach to public order policing as somehow utopian—a panacea in itself. Rather, they would prefer to look upon their relevant skills as complementary to more traditional forms of managing protest and disorder. Few if any of the officers we interviewed would object to the presence of adequately equipped riot-trained colleagues, available on stand-by; neither would they contest the right of conventional public order commanders to assume ultimate authority in the context of political protests. Indeed, PLT officers accept that a large part of their function is to help establish and constantly remind protesters of the existence of ‘lines in the sand’, which may be used to legitimise and politically justify uncompromising police interventions (cp. Chaps. 3 and 4).

These final remarks are generally in accordance with the conclusions drawn by Baker (2014 p. 100) who maintains that liaison-based public order policing typically “creates the context for a better understanding, a greater chance of negotiated outcomes, and protester compliance, and enhanced predictability for the parties involved.” This comment clearly re-emphasises the value of adopting a Community Policing orientation in the handling of large-scale public protest.

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Chapter 8

Community Policing and Public Perception: Belgian Expectations and Images of the Police

Isabel Verwee

8.1 Introduction

In this chapter we start with the contextualization of the implementation of community oriented policing in Belgium. This model was written down in legal documents in which, amongst others, the police needs to adjust her functioning to the interests of society and her communities. This means it is necessary to gather an insight into the expectations and needs of these communities (Frank et al. 2005; Mastrofski 1998).

We continue this chapter with the study of the role of the police in today's society. Three *orientations* are distinguished, which contributed to an important knowledge in the police field:

1. Reducing the role of police to maintaining order and fighting crime
2. The servant of the state and the monopoly of violence
3. Attention for police tasks

However they deal with some reductionism and partialities. In our research the role of the police was studied from a sociological viewpoint. From this point of view the role is defined as a bundle of expectations (Elchardus 2007). If we look at the broad range of who can expect something of the police, the citizen is an important factor in this domain. Moreover they determine police work to a large extent. The relation between the public and the police became important from a policy and academic perspective. The police needs the public and vice versa. The importance of having good relations between both was made explicit by taking Community Policing (CP) as a police model in Belgium.

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This chapter presents research results of the expectations and images people have of the police in Belgium. By means of interviewing 120 citizens of different ages and living in a rural or urban area, we discovered a kaleidoscope of expectations and meanings.

8.2 Community Policing in Belgium

In the nineties, the Belgian government, like in other countries, became more and more aware of the importance of the perception of the Belgian public towards the police. This was enhanced by the lack of trust between the public and the police as a result of major incidents caused by the compartmentalized way of working of the former police forces. Although there were specific incidents in the mid-nineties that lead to the CP police structure, there was already a long debate on CP in Belgium. As in the USA, the UK and other countries, CP in Belgium is a reaction to the dominant classic police model that is referred to as bureaucratic, centrally organised, quick response on law enforcement but low on interaction with the public, reactive, not preventive, etc.

New ideas were improving the relationship between the police and the public and implementing a more democratic, participative police model. A wider range of police tasks became equally important (Van den Broeck and Eliaerts 2002).

In 2001, the Belgian police underwent a fundamental structural reform that created a new police system. By law, the Belgian Integrated Police is organised on two levels: the local and federal police. Together they provide CP to the public, in that they provide basic police services (local police) and specialized police service (federal police). To guarantee a minimum service to the population, Belgian law specifies seven basic functions for the local police: Community Policing, responsiveness, intervention, victim support, local criminal investigation, traffic and maintaining public order. Community Policing consists of developing neighborhood relations and maintaining police visibility. This mission is not merely one of maintaining a physical presence, but also of local dialogue, exchange of ideas and personal relationships.

The community oriented policing model prefers a police organisation in which a policy is developed related to the needs of the community (Ponsaers 2001). The new relationship was characterised as, *“the relationship between the police and the public, although a concern since the formalization of the police function, has taken on added significance under Community Policing with its emphasis on police-citizen reciprocity. Community policing seeks to build trust between the police and the communities and influence the perceptions of citizens”* (Frank et al. 2005). The police wants to adjust her functioning to the interests of the society and all her communities. That is why it is necessary to gather an insight into the expectations and needs of the community (Frank et al. 2005; Mastrofski 1998).

This resulted, amongst others, in the creation of the *Security Monitor*. By means of this monitor people were questioned on police and security topics. For the first

time, the public was seen as an important partner in the creation of a new vision on policing, the community oriented police model. Yet, although opinion surveys were done, they had some problems like surveying people in a quantitative way, which is not going in sufficient depth (Verwee 2012). This was one of the reasons our research preferred a qualitative approach by means of interviewing people in depth on their expectations, meanings, thoughts, emotions, perceptions, etc. of police.

8.3 Perspectives on the Role of the Police

A thorough literature review of police theory and research with regard to the role of the police points to a rather narrow perspective, wherein the role is often reduced to three main aspects. The police and what the police are doing are often reduced to the *force for maintaining order and fighting crime*. This is considered as a first reduction, because the police are involved in a much more complex area of tasks, for example, social tasks. Punch and Naylor (1973) even talk about a ‘social secret service’.

By pronouncing the importance of the monopoly of violence, the police are perceived in a very state-centric way. Using the argument of a power monopoly as a core element with regards to defining police, however, leads to a second reduction. The police force is considered as the *servant of the state*, while research points out that police mainly meets the demands of the people (e.g., Bittner 1980; Brodeur 2007; Eliaerts et al. 1987; Ericson 1982; Hauge 1979; Lundman 1980; Manning 1978, 1997; Newburn 2005; Reiss 1971; Van Alpert and Enhus 2009; Verwee 2009; Wadman 2009). Hence, the tasks police are doing are mainly asked by citizens instead of the state (e.g., administrative instances). The reactive character of police work is very large.

A third reduction can be found in research which was putting police tasks as a central subject. The question ‘what does the police do?’ became an important research theme, which made it possible to shift from the normative debates (*What should the police do?*) to a more neutral study of daily police practice (*What does the police do?*) (Bayley 1994; Bittner 1980; Monjardet 1996). The way police corps are *registering tasks and try to define which kind of mission task A or task B is, is not uniform*. In this way it can be considered as a reduction of the reality (cp. Chaps. 3–5 for alternative perspectives of CP).

Although the three discussed orientations to study the police role suffer in our opinion from partiality and reductionism, they have provided important knowledge for understanding the role of police. In the search to tackle the above mentioned problems, we started from the definition of the role concept. We found answers in a sociological perspective defining roles as bundles of expectations (Elchardus 2007).

8.4 Police as Viewed Through the Glasses of the Citizen

Starting from the sociological definition of a *role* as a *bundle of expectations*, we reflected on which kinds of partners have expectations of the police: e.g., local and federal authorities, companies and the citizen. Research on what is happening in daily practice shows that the citizen determines daily police work to a large extent: The general public obviously initiates a lot of day-to-day police tasks. The police force mainly responds in a reactive way (e.g., Bittner 1980; Brodeur 2007; Eliaerts et al. 1987; Ericson 1982; Hauge 1979; Lundman 1980; Manning 1978, 1997; Newburn 2005; Reiss 1971; Van Altert and Enhus 2009; Verwee 2009; Wadman 2009). Because the work of the police is determined to a large extent by the citizen, one of the conclusions is that the police role is strongly related to what citizens expect of the police.

The role, as a bundle of expectations, is in an inherent relationship with social meanings. Loader (1997) suggested that if we want to study the role of the police, we need to focus on the social meanings people give to the police. By means of offering a sociological insight into the role concept and its interweaving with meanings, two central research questions can be differentiated:

- What do people expect from the police?
- What does the police mean to people?

These research questions can be separated in an analytical way, but are in an inherent relationship and in permanent interaction with one another.

8.4.1 Methodology of the Research

The research, of which some results are presented in this chapter, can be described as a qualitative research with an inductive character. The goal of this research is to explore the expectations people have of the police and to offer an insight into the meanings people give to the police. This helps to understand the implementation of Community Policing. The central concepts of expectations and meanings need to be studied in a very profound way, because of the precarious and multi-layered character of these concepts. This involves doing in-depth research into expectations, meanings, images, values, norms, etc. In the literature a number of indicators are described, which influence citizens' attitudes towards the police: demographic characteristics, the contact one had with the police and neighbourhood characteristics (Schafer et al. 2003). These indicators influenced the decision process of which kind of people would be interviewed.

A disproportional stratified sample was drawn in a rural and urban area. The stratum on which was stratified was age. Three age categories were distinguished: young people (between 16 and 20 years), middle aged people (between 40 and 50 years) and elderly people (between 65 and 75 years). We did not have any other

Table 8.1 Research sample

	Urban area	Rural area	Total
16–20 years	20	20	40
40–50 years	20	20	40
65–75 years	20	20	40
Total	60	60	120

information such as language¹ or experience with the police in advance. In total 120 people were interviewed in a face-to-face way. Table 8.1 represents the number of respondents, which were interviewed differentiated in terms of age and living in a rural or urban area.

The questions asked to respondents were based on a checklist. We asked open questions (e.g., What do you expect of the police? What does the police mean for you? Which symbols do you think about?) and closed questions (e.g., Which police tasks are the most important ones? Do you make a difference between local and federal police? How do you evaluate the functioning and behaviour of police?) and presented also some vignettes with daily police practices and photo material with images of the police.

All 120 interviews were typed word by word and integrated in the software programme Maxqda 2. This is a qualitative software programme, which makes it possible to code text parts of the interviews and analyse them in a very accurate way. The researchers' analysis is based on coded text and words, perceptions or emotions expressed by the respondents. This resulted in following research outcome.

8.5 Research Results

8.5.1 What Does One Expect from the Police?

The expectations, which were expressed by the interviewees could be differentiated at three levels: *behaviour*, *task* and *contact*.² There was a consensus amongst the respondents that behaviour was the most important expectation. At the level of tasks and contact we found a lot of variation. First, we explore the behavioural expectations, which respondents agreed upon, namely a police officer needs to be friendly, objective and neutral. This last behavioural expectation refers to the idea that a policeman/woman needs to treat people in an equal way regardless of their race or gender. Being correct is another expectation, which was often expressed. This is related to honesty, integrity, respect, etc. While there was a consensus on the behavioural expectations, the respondents did not agree upon the tasks the police should do and the contact they want with the police.

¹The letter which selected people received was made up in Dutch, but contained also a small French and English explanation.

²A general remark can be made that it is often not very clear if the respondents are talking in terms of expectations, which they express with regard to themselves or with regard to others.

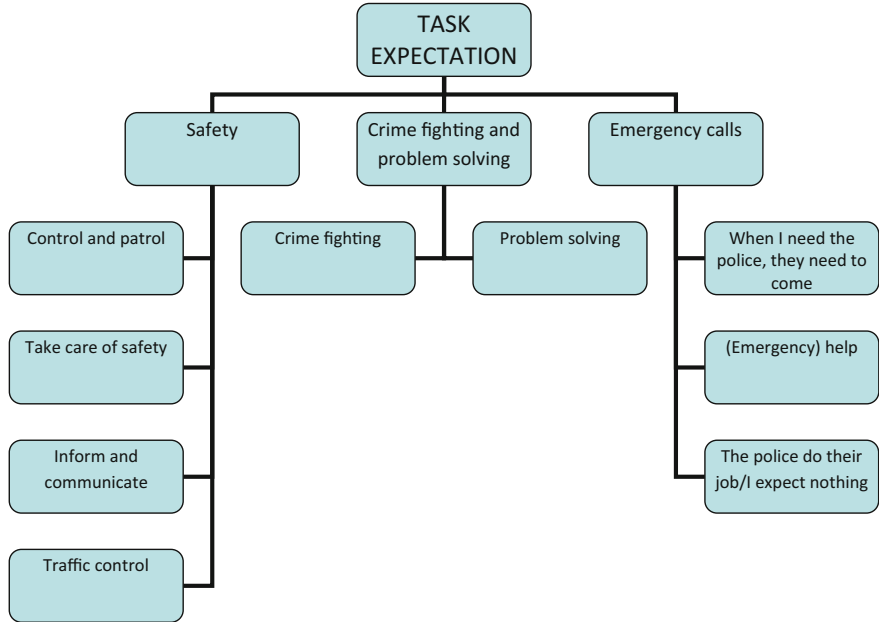


Fig. 8.1 Summary of task expectations mentioned by respondents

Figure 8.1 represents the task-related expectations. Three main tasks are distinguished: The police need to provide *safety*, *fight crime and solve problems* and react to *emergency calls*. By means of exploring what the respondents meant by concepts like safety, criminality, help, control, patrol, information, communication, etc., Figure 8.1 was created and these levels were differentiated.

The task ‘safety’ consists of four levels. It involves the fact that the police need to control and patrol, take care of the safety of citizens, inform and communicate and control traffic. The respondents not only talked about a *safety* task, but also about the idea that the police need to *fight crime and solve problems*. Lastly, a major police task is responding to *emergency calls*. This means that the police need to come when necessary and/or offer help when people are in an emergency situation. Those who answered that the police need to do their duty are also placed in this category.

Lastly, a clearly pronounced expectation of the respondents was the *contact* they want with the police. Many respondents prefer to have more contact with the police. This contact is often related to concepts like street visibility, the wish for more control, more patrolling and more communication. A police, which is communicating with the public is considered very important. Mainly elderly people prefer to have more contact with the police. The reasons for this are threefold. Firstly, they prefer close contact because they think it is important; this is not necessarily associated with problems. Secondly, respondents believed that by having good or close contact with the police, they are better informed about what is happening in their local area. Thirdly, the respondents hoped that, by means of close contact, the police would be able to respond more quickly when problems arose.

Two expectations which were expressed can be explicitly related to the ideas of Community Policing, namely the task of safety and the wish for more contact with the police.

8.5.2 Which Image Do People Have of the Police?

A second major research question was related to meanings people give to the police. By means of presenting pictures representing different situations with police involvement respondents were asked which picture corresponds with their image of the police.

Five pictures³ were presented to each age group: a traffic situation, a public order situation, an arrest, a water cannon and two police officers who have a friendly talk in the park. Three of these five pictures were different and adapted to the age group (for example, the picture of an arrest given to a youngster was representing an arrest of a youngster). The reason why pictures were adapted to the age group was to avoid conversations like 'it is always youngsters who are driving too fast' by for example elderly people.



Fig. 8.2 Typical police behaviours according to respondents 16–20 years of age

³©federal police.

The question was asked which picture does (not) present the image you have of the police. The images which are closely connected to the youngsters' ideas of police are traffic control and arrest shown in Fig. 8.2 (pictures with a green border). The reason why traffic control was chosen is because youngsters often see and meet police in a traffic situation. The arrest was chosen, because it corresponds to their expectations towards the police: youngsters want a more reactive and repressive police.

Their image does not correspond with a police who is friendly and talks in a more spontaneous way to people (picture with the red border in Fig. 8.2). They consider this activity as strange, and some youngsters even talked about 'a waste of time'. *"They need to catch criminals instead of walking in the park"*, was said. The friendly talk is not representing the model of Community Policing as such, although the close and good contact between the public and the police is an important factor of the Community Policing model. This research result suggests that the youngsters who were interviewed do not want a police, which is investing into the relationship between the public and the police. The question arises if the ideas of Community Policing are sufficiently related to what young people want from the police.

Within the age category of 40–50 a lot of respondents indicated the picture of traffic control as the picture, which is closely connected to their police image (Fig. 8.3, picture on the top left with green border). The traffic task is dominating the other tasks as on overall widely present image one has of the police. This can not only be concluded from the picture question, but also in the open questions traffic was almost a synonym of the police. In the eight months of participant observation we did in two local police corps,⁴ the traffic task was often a part of discussions amongst police officers and the researcher. Police officers think people perceive the police as a very negative instance, which is pre-occupied with giving fines. In the open questions related to the image of the police, there were indeed a lot of traffic related answers. Though this was not only related to fines; traffic is more than fines and related to aspects such as traffic accidents, control of papers, alcohol or drug control, safety of their kids, etc. Besides the traffic picture also the friendly talk was indicated as an image this age group has of police (Fig. 8.3, picture on the top right with green border). A very remarkable thing in general is that more than half of the respondents of all age categories are looking for a negative aspect in the friendly talk picture. They actually do not expect the police to be busy with 'positive' things. The picture which is not representing the image of 40–50 year olds is the one of the arrest (Fig. 8.3, picture with red border). It can be related to the gender issue, namely that a woman is arrested. The arrest picture was the one closely connected to the youngsters' image. A clear difference is thus found in how the two age groups perceive the police.

For the age group of 65–75 again the picture of the traffic control is seen as the picture, which presents the police (Fig. 8.4, picture on the top left with green border). One of the reasons was that a lot of elderly people have already met a

⁴During the preparation of the interviews phase, we observed 8 months in two local police corps.



Fig. 8.3 Typical police behaviours according to respondents 40–50 years of age

police officer who is busy in traffic: accidents, control, fines, etc. A remarkable discourse is taking place: on the one hand elderly think there is enough control and on the other hand they want more control, for example, on youngsters who are driving too fast. The friendly talk is the second picture which was marked by 13 respondents in this age group (9 of them living in the city) as their image of the police (Fig. 8.4, picture on the top right with green border). While youngsters say they never saw this kind of task, elderly participants considered this as a task, which is often seen and closely connected to their police image and to the expectations they have of police. Elderly people start to talk about the fact that it was better in earlier days, when a police officer knew everybody, had a chat, had a coffee, had some time to talk with people and prevented problems in this way. In general a lot of the expectations of this age group are related to the wish for more contact between citizens and the police. This contact-issue is central in the CP model. The question rises if the CP model is only serving the elderly people? The picture with red border in Fig. 8.4 was the picture, which did not correspond to the idea of the police of this age group, i.e., this age category does not prefer a too reactive police.

A remarkable difference is noticeable between respondents living in the city and those who are living in rural areas. While the people who are living in rural areas preferred the traffic picture, respondents from the city referred to the friendly talk picture as their image of the Belgian police. Are police officers more occupied with traffic in the rural area than in the urban area? Are police inspectors more occupied with a friendly talk in the city than in the country? Or is it what people do not have, what they want more of?



Fig. 8.4 Typical police behaviours according to respondents 65–75 years of age

8.6 Conclusion: A Kaleidoscope of Expectations and Meanings

The community oriented policing model prefers a police organisation in which a policy is developed related to the needs of the community (Ponsaers 2001). It is necessary to have an insight into what people think and want from police. This was one of the reasons why a research was set up, which explored the expectations and meanings people have of the Belgian police.

We found that the respondents had a kaleidoscopic view of expectations and meanings of police. Concerning the expectations a consensus was found on core behaviours, yet there was no consensus on the level of tasks and contact. The respondents agreed on the behaviour-related expectations, namely that the police need to be friendly, neutral, objective, correct, etc., but the interviewees did not agree about the tasks the police should do. A large variety of tasks was distinguished on the level of safety, crime fighting and problem solving and responding to emergency calls. A last expectation was related to the contact people want with the police. While some people want to have very close contact with police, others do not want to have contact with the blue uniforms at all.

The second research question ‘What does the police mean to people’ was strongly related to these expectations. The young interviewed people in Belgium

prefer a police that is fighting crime and consider the police as a traffic service. The picture of traffic corresponded to the image youngsters, middle age people and elderly people have of the police, so there was a consensus on the traffic issue amongst the interviewees. The friendly talk in the park corresponded more with the idea of people between 40 and 50 year and even more with the image of people between 65 and 75 years. The friendly talk picture did not at all correspond to the image youngsters have of the police. Some considered communicating, contacting, talking, etc. with people as a waste of time. This result is not only based on the *meanings* expressed by the interviewees, but corresponds to the *contact-related expectations*. This communication and contact issue is important from a CP perspective, but does not fit into the idea of the interviewed youngsters. The question arises, if the CP perspective is adapted to all communities? Besides, it generates questions for the implementation process of CP: If it is not adapted to the needs of the community, it will be difficult to implement the CP model.

To make it even more complex, we point out that this kaleidoscopic view is influenced by many factors: age, gender, rural or urban living area, context, situation, contact, life stage, meaning of the police, etc. Some expectations and meanings are expressed, which can switch depending on one of these factors into another expectation or meaning. This study of expectations and meanings suggests a complex story which can be influenced by a lot of factors (Verwee 2012). By means of studying the role from a basic perspective, we want to encourage discussions and debates in this context.

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Chapter 9

Joining Forces for Our Security in Austrian Community Policing

Barbara Pusca, Gerhard Lang and Ricarda Kutschera

9.1 Introduction to Community Policing in Austria

Strengthening and developing closeness and confidence in the law enforcement authorities is one of the key concerns and tasks of modern police work. Until the 1970s a comparatively strict law-and-order approach prevailed within the Austrian police forces, de facto linking any contact with the population to a legal mandate and dissociating the police from the general public. Following the 1968 movement, voices were raised in the late 1970s and in the 1980s calling for opening up social structures and challenging conventional attitudes and stereotypes. As a result, traditional ways of thinking and acting changed, and civil society representatives called for a ‘co-operative State’ (Pusca 2013). The government’s law-and-order approach was gradually supplemented with an *adaptive strategy* aimed at popular responsiveness, crime prevention, partnership and involvement of the general public (Becker-Oehm 2010). This development also changed the police self-conception to the effect that justice and protectiveness were combined in a new policing strategy (Behr 2008).

If the current level of public security is to be maintained and enhanced in times of growing requirements due to socio-demographic developments like increasing life expectancy and growing diversity of the Austrian population through migration, it will be necessary to further open police activities to the civil society. In light of the aforesaid, police organizations are requested to frame sustainable concepts and grasp the nettle of public security jointly with the citizens with a view to dispel fears and build confidence. Safety is an important individual basic human need that can only be established through joint efforts by the stakeholders, including law enforcement. This approach is supported by the thesis that the police holds the monopoly on force, but not the monopoly on security (Olschok 2010).

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The concept of Community Policing is based on the idea of bringing together public actors to form a ‘community partnership’, which serves as a framework for crime prevention and effective crime control close to the citizens (Frevel and Kuschewski 2008). The idea of a partnership involving the citizens in crime prevention and crime control is echoed in the Austrian pilot project ‘Joining forces for our security in Austria’: “*The initiative ‘Joining forces for our security [in Austria]’ is intended to proactively advance a dialogue of equals between citizens, the municipal authorities and the police*”, the Austrian minister of the Interior Mag. Wolfgang Sobotka said during a presentation in Eisenstadt on 23th of April 2016 (cp. also case studies in Chaps. 6, 7, 10 and 11).¹

When public security is seen as a societal task, interested citizens should be given the possibility to participate in the project. To that end, the communication between the population, the stakeholders and the law enforcement services needs to be stepped up in order to strengthen the feeling of safety and to reduce the level of reluctance to pass on observations of deviant behaviour and negative developments to the competent public authorities and private institutions.

The challenge is to solve various regional problems, which do not necessarily fall within the exclusive competence of the police and which are based on the participation of citizens. Under the coordination of the police a specific situation is analyzed, the nature of the problem is identified and agreement is reached on a problem solving process involving all stakeholders. The role of the police in this context is that of coordination and exchange of information with both governmental and private actors. This understanding of Community Policing is closely related to crime prevention, which has been an integral part of crime control in Austria for many years.² The ultimate goal of crime prevention is to create a climate of solidarity and to take measures preventing citizens from becoming offenders or victims, bolstering up potential victims and supporting and encouraging moral courage in public life. Such activities are necessary to create a feeling of safety and bring about a positive influence on behaviour of the public (cp. Chaps. 2, 4 and 5).³

This chapter provides an introduction to Community Policing in Austria, expanding on the structure and the communication methods used in the pilot

¹Initiative Gemeinsam Sicher in Eisenstadt vorgestellt, (BMI Website Artikel Nr: 13567), 2016, http://www.bmi.gv.at/cms/bmi/_news/bmi.aspx?id=3763346E502F54636C514D3D&page=0&view=1. Accessed 5 July 2016.

²See Bundesministerium für Inneres, Innen Sicher. Für Sicherheit. Für Österreich. 2013, Wien (2013).

³See Sect. 25 Public Security Police Act, „Bundesgesetz über die Organisation der Sicherheitsverwaltung und die Ausübung der Sicherheitspolizei (Sicherheitspolizeigesetz SPG) StF: BGBl. Nr. 566/1991 idF BGBl. I Nr. 5/2016 §25“, <https://www.ris.bka.gv.at/GeltendeFassung.wxe?Abfrage=Bundesnormen&Gesetzesnummer=10005792>. Accessed 6 July 2016.

project. Subsequently, it discusses the necessity and the standardization of citizen participation as a fundamental element of Community Policing. In the light of these theoretical considerations, the recruitment of security citizens in the test districts of the project and their activity profile are described further on, and the measures that have been implemented are detailed. Finally, further developments and the implementation of the Community Policing project in Austria are examined.

9.2 The Pilot Project ‘Joining Forces for Our Security in Austria’: An Example of Community Policing in Austria

Community policing was introduced in Austria after international projects had been evaluated and pertinent expertise had been obtained from countries with experience in Community Policing such as Canada, Great Britain, Hungary, the Netherlands, France and the USA. The results of this evaluation were integrated in the findings made in Austria. In April 2016 a Community Policing pilot project styled ‘Joining forces for our security in Austria’ was set up and implemented in the following Austrian regions: Mödling, a populous administrative district, selected urban districts in the city of Graz, Schärding, a rural border district, and the provincial capital of Eisenstadt. In July 2016 the Austrian capital Vienna was included. All of these regions take part on a voluntary basis. This pilot project has been academically supervised and evaluated.⁴

9.2.1 Structure of the Project

The project was given a legal basis and built around the principles of transparent information and voluntary participation of civil society in maintaining public security. The focus is on institutionalizing a dialogue between state and citizens at local level as far as security in their living environment is concerned, rather than the state imposing and the citizens resisting. This dialogue involves building confidence and collaborating in finding solutions for local and regional security issues and is considered a cornerstone of Community Policing in Austria.⁵

⁴See Richtlinie für die Aufgaben, Organisation und Vollziehung des Probebetriebes Gemeinsam Sicher in Mödling, Schärding, Graz Stadt und Eisenstadt – Bundesministerium für Inneres Generaldirektion für die öffentliche Sicherheit, Wien (2016), p. 1ff.

⁵See Ibid., p. 2ff.

New structures and workflows were integrated in day-to-day police work, so as to ensure the proper functioning of Community Policing, even in the medium and long run. The following central actors were established⁶:

1. Community citizen
2. Community police officer
3. Community policing coordinator
4. Security councillor.

These actors provide a framework for standardized procedures involving citizens, public and private organizations as well as law enforcement services and for delimiting responsibilities within and outside the police services. Community police officers and Community policing coordinators are the law enforcement interface with the population or civil society.

Community police officers are personal contacts for security citizens within the police forces. They can be found at each police station in the four test districts and deal with safety-critical issues that the security citizens report to them. Such an issue may be, for instance, a feeling of unsafety in a dark park, where drunken teenagers are accosting people. Furthermore, they initiate working groups for finding solutions for identified problems jointly with the security citizens and the representatives of public and private bodies concerned (e.g., local authority, youth welfare service, employment agency or police services). This process is intended to result in an arrangement that is binding for all stakeholders and is implemented by the responsible persons or bodies. A close cooperation between different groups of population is, therefore, imperative to achieve this goal. The societal approach to the prevention of crime and deviant behaviour has been adopted by 1200 crime prevention officers in Austria for many years now. These officers stand out by their dedication and commitment for the benefit of the population, as they instil in the population security expertise in different specialist areas.⁷ In order to make the best possible use of their skills they will be recruited as community police officers.

Community policing coordinators are used as an interface between community police officers and crime prevention officers on the one hand and local authorities and the general public on the other. In this capacity they maintain contacts, take part in public meetings and events and coordinate security-related activities in their district. They benefit from their knowledge of regional conditions and from their local contacts when coordinating prevention activities in the district.⁸ The creation of a dedicated position for Community Policing coordination can be seen as a commitment of the law enforcement sector to the entrenchment of Community Policing in Austria. The community police officers and the Community Policing

⁶See Ibid., p. 1.

⁷See Bundesministerium für Inneres, Bericht der Kriminalprävention, 2015, Wien (2016), p. 8.

⁸See Richtlinie für die Aufgaben, Organisation und Vollziehung des Probebetriebes Gemeinsam Sicher in Mödling, Schärding, Graz Stadt und Eisenstadt – Bundesministerium für Inneres Generaldirektion für die öffentliche Sicherheit, Wien (2016), p. 4ff.

coordinators are required to receive a modular training developed by the Criminal Intelligence Service and covering the principles of Community Policing and crime prevention, communication, moderation, intercultural dialogue, conflict resolution strategies and legal knowledge.

The mayor or the local council of a community appoints a *security councillor* as a liaison between the local police stations and the local government. This standard procedure is, however, dependant on the regional conditions.⁹

9.2.2 *Communication Methods Used Within the Project*

A core element of the on-going Community Policing project is the creation and expansion of responsiveness to citizens at grassroots. In addition to tried-and-tested methods of communication such as meetings, appointments and platforms, social media like Facebook are used for communication between the police and the general public, reflecting modern communication behaviour and the modern self-conception of the police.

In 2010 the Criminal Intelligence Service started using the private network Facebook, which is a key communication tool of the twenty-first century, especially for young people. Social media bring added value, because citizens interested in public security need no longer make great efforts to find pertinent information, but can retrieve it directly through their Facebook accounts. The only requirement is that they are registered Facebook friends of the Criminal Intelligence Service. Facebook had been used previously for prevention purposes, as it facilitates communicating with members of the public (see Chaps. 11 and 13).

Within the framework of the project 'Joining forces for our security in Austria/Community Policing' a Facebook profile named 'Joining forces for our security in [name of district]' is created for each participating district, so that each community police officer can make regional information available for the Facebook community and thus to the general public.

In June 2013 the Criminal Intelligence Service made available a police app for the most common smartphone and tablet hardware and operating systems (Apple, Android, Windows). Initially, it contained the following functions: news, wanted persons/stolen items, police finder, prevention, reporting, feedback and crime map. In future, 'Joining forces for our security in Austria' will be included in the app as an additional function. It will provide users with information on Community Policing activities and contact persons in their region. At a later stage, it is envisaged to integrate WhatsApp groups as a direct communication gateway between community police officers and security citizens ensuring smooth time scheduling and easy information sharing. Furthermore, it is planned to use the video portal YouTube as a communication and information channel. According to recent

⁹See Ibid., p. 1ff.

statistics the uploading of video clips on the YouTube platform has risen from an average of 48 clips per minute in May 2011 to 400 clips per minute in July 2015.¹⁰ This is an increase of more than 670% in five years. Given this five year increase, there is every reason to expect a further increase in the years to come. Consequently, short films and video clips will be placed on YouTube, so as to provide the public with information about Community Policing in general and the implementation of the strategy in Austria in particular. In addition, information on Community Policing and crime prevention is available on a dedicated Website.

9.3 Community Policing and Citizens' Participation in the Project

Citizens' participation is generally understood to be the "voluntary and gratuitous participation of citizens in policy-forming and decision-making processes".¹¹ In the law enforcement sector, volunteering citizens should be involved in prevention activities on the basis of transparent information and targeted co-operation.¹² In the Austrian pilot project citizens are involved in the form of what is called *security citizens*. These are members of the public who are interested in collaborating in organizing public security and in acting as 'seismographs' for security-related concerns of the population and for social problem areas as well as liaison between the general public, the police and other public and private organizations concerned. It is hoped that the police can thus reach groups of populations that typically have little or no contact with law enforcement and public organizations. Regular contact and exchange of information is expected to create a relationship of trust between the police and civil society.

While security citizens are participating in civic life and voluntary projects, they do not receive any orders from law enforcement authorities, nor do they carry out any official acts; that is to say the role of police as state security body preventing dangerous attacks on life, health, liberty and property remains unchanged.¹³

¹⁰See Upload of videos on YouTube per minute from May 2008 to July 2015 (in hours), (Statista) (2016), <http://de.statista.com/statistik/daten/studie/207321/umfrage/upload-von-videomaterial-bei-youtube-pro-minute-zeitreihe/>, (accessed 6 July 2016).

¹¹Was bedeutet Bürgerbeteiligung, (Landeszentrale für politische Bildung Baden – Württemberg) (2016), <http://buergerbeteiligung.lpb-bw.de/begriff.html>, (accessed 6 July 2016).

¹²See Richtlinie für die Aufgaben, Organisation und Vollziehung der Kriminalprävention– Bundesministerium für Inneres (GZ.: BMI-EE1500/0017-II/2/a/2005), Wien (2005), p. 4ff.

¹³See Sect. 25 Public Security Police Act, "Bundesgesetz über die Organisation der Sicherheitsverwaltung und die Ausübung der Sicherheitspolizei (Sicherheitspolizeigesetz SPG)" StF: BGBl. Nr. 566/1991 idF BGBl. I Nr. 5/2016 §25, <https://www.ris.bka.gv.at/GeltendeFassung.wxe?Abfrage=Bundesnormen&Gesetzesnummer=10005792>, (accessed 6 July 2016).

Security citizens are invited to take part in public briefing sessions and to act as multipliers, passing on the information obtained to other citizens. When security citizens approach the police with criminal information, the principle of ex-officio prosecution applies.¹⁴

The role of security citizens is not conclusively defined in the directives for the trial operation 'Joining forces for our security in Austria' in Mödling, Schärding, Graz Stadt and Eisenstadt. However, they clearly stipulate that confusion and uncertainty among the population and the creation of private patrolling groups are to be avoided. They state that security citizens are

multipliers who present the security-related concerns of the population to community police officers and who receive crime prevention information from the community police officers and the Community Policing coordinators, which they pass on to their fellow citizens on a voluntary basis and in a targeted way.¹⁵

The Directive is a framework that describes general structural elements and leaves scope for taking account of local circumstances such as the number of inhabitants, the crime rate, urban or rural structures and a different rationale behind operations, when putting the concept into practice. The essence of Community Policing is regional security work. If this principle is disregarded it will not be successful and accepted by the general public. As a result, there are different local approaches to implementing Community Policing, selecting security citizens and defining their role.

9.4 Investigation of Specific Cases

In what follows the different selection procedures for security citizens in the four trial districts of the project 'Joining forces for our security in Austria' are described. In the few months since the project has started some measures have already been carried out and successfully completed. One measure for each district will be described. For our study the single case study was chosen as analysis tool. This research design is characterized by the fact that a contemporary phenomenon is investigated in depth, using a real-life social unit, which may be a person, a group, an organization, a political party or a behavioural pattern and which is observed at a single point in time or over some delimited period of time (Lamnek 2010). In this particular instance, the security citizen was chosen as the object of investigation, because citizen participation is a key element of the Community Policing strategy. Reports forwarded by the community coordinators to the Austrian Criminal Intelligence on a monthly basis were used as material for the analysis.

¹⁴See Richtlinie für die Aufgaben, Organisation und Vollziehung des Probebetriebes Gemeinsam Sicher in Mödling, Schärding, Graz Stadt und Eisenstadt – Bundesministerium für Inneres Generaldirektion für die öffentliche Sicherheit, Wien 2016, p. 7.

¹⁵Ibid., p. 6.

9.4.1 Trial District Mödling

9.4.1.1 Analysis of the Recruitment and the Specific Activity Profile of Security Citizens

In the trial district Mödling a large number of inhabitants volunteered to become security citizens in the first and second month of the trial operation, following media coverage on a regional and local level and security meetings in the six most populous communities. Most of them were proposed by the local governments and police services. Those who made themselves known because of the media coverage were contacted personally by the Community Policing coordinator after consulting the local government representatives and were invited to an interview held in the presence of the district police commander. In that interview, the project and the role of a security citizen were presented, questions of the candidates with respect to tasks, rights and obligations, cooperation with the police and expenditure of time were answered and their interests were addressed.

The key selection criterion was an honorary function in the community, e.g., as a volunteer for a charitable organization or the fire and rescue service, as a parent representative in a school, as a coach in a sports club or a former political office as mayor or local councillor. If a candidate has no honorary function, particular attention is paid to his or her background and motivation.

9.4.1.2 Example of an Implemented Operative Measure

A successful operative measure that was implemented in the trial district Mödling are 'regional security meetings' attended by the mayor, a member of the local council, the security councillor, the district police commander and his deputy, the Community Policing coordinator, the community police officer, the commanders of the police stations, all active security citizens and local stakeholders. The current security and crime situation and crime statistics are presented and topical security problems are addressed. Recent topics were the sociocultural challenges linked to the sharp rise in the occupancy of the reception centre for refugees located in the district and the fact that most asylum seekers come from African and Arab countries and have cultural peculiarities and display special behaviour patterns. The cultural differences have resulted in an increased feeling of uncertainty among the local population.

The general objective of the regional security meetings is networking among local stakeholders. In addition, they are intended to give a realistic picture of the security and crime situation and the police activities related to it and to rectify any distorted image created by the media with a view to bring the participants up-to-date and to reduce fears. When there are specific problems, the participants are invited to contribute to problem-solving.

9.4.2 Trial District Eisenstadt

9.4.2.1 Analysis of the Recruitment and the Specific Activity Profile of Security Citizens

In Eisenstadt a call to become a security citizen was published in the official gazette of the town and in local printed and broadcast media and was additionally made during a public information session. Likely candidates were approached directly. For the actual selection of candidates hearings were conducted and subsequently a workshop was organized for the future security citizens. Strong emphasis is placed on the communicative and social skills of the candidates. Selection criteria are voluntariness, sociableness, reliability and seriousness. Most candidates attached great importance to having their tasks specified and not to be considered a kind of ‘acting sheriffs’.

9.4.2.2 Example of an Implemented Operative Measure

Two landholders from Eisenstadt applied to their community police officer and reported an increasing instance of disturbance of the peace. They alleged that homeless people were making unauthorized use of a decrepit garden shed on their land and would steal vegetables from a neighbouring plot of land. A number of talks between the property owners and the community police officers took place and revealed that the decrepit garden shed was no longer needed and could be pulled down. The community police officer also talked to the homeless people, who were subsequently referred to social institutions. This was a typical Community Policing approach leading to the restoration of public order and the feeling of safety among local residents.

9.4.3 Trial District Schärding

9.4.3.1 Analysis of the Recruitment and the Specific Activity Profile of Security Citizens

In Schärding a two-stage procedure was used for recruiting security citizens: First, the mayor proposed potential security citizens to the Community Policing coordinator, then the mayor and the Community Policing coordinator jointly conducted interviews with the candidates and met with them again to collect contact details (e-mail addresses, mobile phone numbers, etc.) and to define the tasks for the security citizens in the following months. The mayor often proposes local

government employees, because they are in regular contact with citizens and are actively involved in community life and enjoy the confidence of the local population. In an increasing number of instances civil defence commissioners are proposed.

Candidates sought clarification of their tasks and roles, expenditure of time and were afraid to be labelled as police informers or deputy sheriffs. One volunteer was rejected, because he seemed to have a radical political attitude. Experience has shown that it is important to involve all those with responsibility when selecting security citizens and to conduct interviews following a presentation at a briefing session.

9.4.3.2 Example of an Implemented Operative Measure

A security citizen contacted his community police officer and informed him of a road safety problem. At a road intersection the insufficient mounting height of a traffic mirror had brought about a situation in which visibility was obstructed for motorists. The informer and the community police officer advised the mayor of the problem, who immediately arranged for a higher mounting position of the traffic mirror. This measure resulted in improved visibility at the intersection and thus in enhanced traffic safety.

9.4.4 Trial District Graz

9.4.4.1 Analysis of the Recruitment and the Specific Activity Profile of Security Citizens

In these districts verbal propaganda and word of mouth in social media were used to present the concept of security citizens to the public, yet no permanent security citizens were appointed. Instead, they are selected on a case-by-case basis. Whenever a security concern is reported to the police, an investigation is opened and the stakeholders are contacted when the concern proves to be a security problem. Subsequently, they are involved in identifying the cause of the problem and possible solutions and in implementing measures. From then on the persons involved are considered security citizens. They include municipal councillors, county commissioners, members of senior citizens' associations, residents of large settlements, educators, school spokesmen, representatives of religious institutions as well as private company staff and members of the Graz municipal fire brigade.

The following checklist has been drafted for solving problems:

- What is the (alleged) problem?
- What are its causes and impacts?

- What are possible solutions?
- Can the envisaged solutions be funded? Are they feasible? Are they in compliance with the law and with human rights? Are they useful or do they merely shift the problem elsewhere?

This procedure has proved effective.

As security citizens are no longer active once the problem has been solved, there is a permanent fluctuation in that district. To date this approach has not led to any problems. Personal communication between community police officers and security citizens goes smoothly. Nevertheless it is envisaged to appoint members of the Graz fire brigade as security citizens, because they have a broad insight into the societal challenges due to their wide-ranging professional activities and their varied operations. It should be noted that a private association styled ‘Safety in life’ has existed in Graz for many years and now collaborates in Community Policing.

9.4.4.2 Example of an Implemented Operative Measure

Recently, a resident reported to the police that there was a growing number of unemployed adolescents loitering in his vicinity and approaching passers-by without reason. Particularly elderly citizens and women felt uncomfortable in this situation. Community police officers brought the issue forward at a meeting of the youth network in Graz and discussed possible corrective measures including the creation of common facilities and employment measures for young people. The community police officers try to establish a relationship of trust between youth welfare workers and young citizens to enhance the subjective feeling of safety among local residents and to exchange different worlds of experience.

9.4.5 Trial District Vienna

9.4.5.1 Analysis of the Recruitment and the Specific Activity Profile of Security Citizens

The capital Vienna is composed of 23 districts and has more than 14 CID offices and police commands, five of which take part in the present Community Policing project. The security citizens are appointed by the county commissioners for each district, who have proved to be competent and reliable cooperation partners in public security matters. The security citizens selected are chiefly local government councillors, but also other citizens. Their tasks are outlined in a decree issued by the Vienna Police Directorate:

Security citizens act as seismographs for ensuring a general feeling of safety and are required to report observations, to make suggestions, to provide feedback to the police and to help solving problems and ensuring safety in their local environment.¹⁶

The party spokesmen on public security in the regional parliament are considered security councillors, because they permanently deal with public security issues in the city of Vienna.

9.4.5.2 Example of an Implemented Operative Measure¹⁷

More than 400,000 people from 170 countries live together in social housing complexes in Vienna. In 2014 this situation led to increasing neighbourhood conflicts and a declining feeling of safety there. The housing cooperative contacted community police officers—then called networking officers—within the Vienna police. The latter found that the problem could only be solved by a package of measures: networking with the general public, information sessions, increased police patrolling, preventive measures and an early warning system for administrative, criminal and security-related problem areas. Advertisements were placed in the printed media and on television calling for mutual courtesy and respect for other cultures and lifestyles. Although the police measures offered were only reluctantly accepted, a significant, lasting reduction in police operations was recorded (in a particular residential complex police operations decreased by more than 60%).

The Vienna Police Directorate is conducting a dialogue with a major German coffee house chain about the organization of regular security sessions in their branches for interested citizens to exchange and obtain information from local community police officers and security citizens in matters relating to public security in the districts.

9.5 Outlook

A broadly positive assessment can be reached from the three months trial operation, the monthly evaluation reports, numerous personal conversations and project activities so far, both inside and outside the law enforcement services. Community Policing has proved to be an added value for both police officers and members of the public. The joint measures taken have resulted in enhanced mutual acceptance, legitimacy and understanding for the Community Policing strategy among the

¹⁶Kurzbrief LPD Wien “GEMEINSAM SICHER Aufgaben, Organisation und Vollzug des Probebetriebs bei der Landespolizeidirektion Wien”, GZ P4/157530/2016 (2016), p. 4.

¹⁷Note: The Vienna Police Directorate is still in the preparation phase for the projects and no operative measures have been taken yet. Therefore, the authors draw on an example outside the project, where the Community Policing strategy has been partly applied.

population and within the police forces. The guiding and coordinating role of the police makes it a key actor in the field of public security.

From the outset the project was academically supervised and evaluated by students from the Wiener Neustadt University. In addition, it is evaluated by the Project Office within the Austrian Criminal Intelligence Service. The findings will be incorporated in the planning process for a nationwide implementation of the project 'Joining forces for our security/Community Policing'. In fact, based on the positive experiences it is envisaged to terminate the trial operation in late 2016 and to incorporate the Community Policing strategy in the police organization in 2017. The Director of Public security Konrad Kogler has emphasized the commitment to Community Policing during a 'Joining forces for our security in Austria'-themed event as follows:

We would like to see our citizens approach the police with their concerns. The community police officers will make sure that these concerns are dealt with in cooperation with the competent bodies and the security citizens.¹⁸

Enhanced involvement of key players at regional level is expected to lead to closer cooperation with interested citizens. In fact, crime prevention and cooperation in the public security sector can only be fully effective, if all those involved act in the interests of public welfare. Interior Minister Sobotka put it as follows: "A permanent exchange between police, local governments and citizens will create a higher level of security."¹⁹

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¹⁸Gemeinsam Sicher in Eisenstadt – Landeshauptstadt Teil des Pilotprojektes des Innenministeriums, (Eisenstadt Landeshauptstadt) 2016, <http://www.eisenstadt.gv.at/home/news/details/article/gemeinsam-sicher-in-eisenstadt.html>, (accessed 7 July 2016).

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Chapter 10

Security as the Basis Behind Community Policing: Croatia's Community Policing Approach

Ruža Karlović and Ines Sučić

10.1 Introduction

Security is of vital interest, not only for those dealing with it professionally, but also for laymen around the world. It covers every aspect of life, and its importance can be seen in its wide-spread use in daily life and in a range of scientific disciplines. The need for citizens' security is shared by all cultures. *Security* means the range of measures taken to protect humans and property from danger such as accidents, disasters or crime, while *safety* is the state in which someone or something is safe from danger or harm (Coursen 2014). Security is the process of ensuring our safety, or more accurately the measures performed to maintain our protection and to prevent danger, so we can enjoy the feeling of safety. However, the fact is that the *security standard* has become the central and fundamental value in society and is accompanied by political measures, technology, rights and insurance (Čaldarović 2011).

Every society, including Croatia, has its own culture, its specificities and mentality, all of which reflects upon the cooperation between the police and citizens. In democratic societies, security is based on the protection of social values and the fundamental rights and freedoms of its citizens. Those dealing with the issues of security—or the lack thereof—agree that it is necessary to consider the broadest social changes, which are the consequence of the recent globalisation of society. If security is jeopardised at the global level, it will also be jeopardised to a certain extent at the local level (Giddens 2007). In 2010, the European Union adopted the

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Internal Security Strategy in Action: Five steps towards a more secure Europe. This Strategy is based on the values of the European Union and lists all areas that should be integrated in order to face specific security challenges: law enforcement, justice, border management and civil protection (EU International Security Strategy in Action 2010, 2015). However, security is a multi-dimensional construct (Ziegleder et al. 2011) and also a subjective category, as it is subject to constant change that implies the feeling of security or the absence of fear or threats to the values of a society. Social changes, such as the political situation, cultural processes, population, migration, other needs and issue of modern society (e.g., alienation in big cities, anonymity) affect police work. The mechanisms of informal social surveillance are failing and are becoming weaker due to the present day lifestyle and are even disappearing in large cities (cp. also Chap. 8).

Today's society is marked as an unsafe society and is characterised by risk (Beck 2004). In the context of *personal security*, which refers to the creation of conditions in which people do not suffer threats such as crime, violence or discrimination, the partnership between police and the community has been recognised. In a survey conducted by the Special Eurobarometer (2015), a sample of 28,082 respondents from different social and demographic groups in all EU Member States were interviewed face-to-face at home in their mother tongue. About nine in ten respondents stated that they felt the police and the judicial system were chiefly responsible for ensuring the security of citizens. Data from surveys conducted in 2014, 2015 and 2016 on nationally representative random samples of adults in Croatia (1,000 in 2014 and 2015; and 750 in 2016) showed that citizens when asked how much they trust each of the eight institutions *army, president, police, UN, European parliament, legal system, Croatian parliament, government and political parties* have relatively stable levels of trust in police over time, and that they only trust the army and the president more than police. But since levels of trust of Croatian citizens in institutions is generally relatively low, they actually neither trust nor distrust police (Pilar's barometer of Croatian society 2014, 2015, 2016).

It is possible that such an ambivalent attitude towards the police is more the consequence of the prior, strictly traditional work of the police in which the police had a more distant stance towards citizens. Therefore, the concept of Community Policing, as a modified model of police work, facilitates the return of citizen faith in the police. The modified role of the police in Croatian society has been based on cooperation with citizens and creating better conditions for life without fear for one's personal safety. Police aim to include citizens, so as to work together to contribute to designing and implementing prevention measures and activities, to reduce problems and the crime rate and to create a stronger sense of personal security among citizens, which in turn improves the overall quality of life of the community as a whole (see Chaps. 2 and 3). The development of Community Policing in Croatia together with the most relevant programs is presented in this chapter.

10.2 The Croatian Community Policing Approach

In Croatia, the police, as part of the Interior Ministry, is traditionally responsible for public safety, and its tasks above all are the protection of life, rights, liberty and security of persons, protection of property and protection of public order and peace (OG 76/09, 92/14). In terms of organisation, the Police Directorate has been established at the national level and police administrations at the regional level for the performance of police tasks. Police stations are responsible for citizen security at the local level and for the resolution of local issues.

The democratisation of Croatian society, in the sense of changes to the political system from a Socialist regime to a democratic system, began in 1990. The new democratic Constitution of the Republic of Croatia was adopted in December 1990. In addition to changes to the political system, the democratisation of society also implied the establishment of democratic institutions. The basis for this new approach to the work of police were laid down in 2000 with the *new Police Act*, which introduced new provisions defining the cooperation of police with local government bodies in order to achieve the security of persons and property. The law also prescribes that police are required to cooperate with other bodies, organisations, citizens, associations and self-organised citizen groups, in order to develop cooperation aimed at preventing or detecting illegal behaviour. Therefore, the *2000 Police Act* (OG 34/11, 130/12, 89/14, 151/14, 33/15) laid the foundations for the work of the police in the local environment. These legal provisions gave certain guidelines for the creation of tighter bonds between the police and society, the local community or city. Today this is present in Article 8 of the Police Duties and Powers Act (OG 76/09, 92/14).

The *Strategic Plan* of the Interior Ministry of the Republic of Croatia, which encompasses the work of police and other institutions for the purpose of protection for the period 2014–2018 outlines that the scope of the Interior Ministry and other institutions in the function of protection comprises tasks of maintaining public order and security (Strateški plan MUP-a 2016). The Legal Dictionary (2007) defines public security (Croatian: *javna sigurnost*, German: *öffentliche Sicherheit*, French: *sécurité publique*) in a narrow sense (state, divided into internal and external) and a wider sense (situation free of illegal activities and actions that can have a consequence of jeopardizing the fundamental rights and freedoms and fundamental factors of the public social order) and finally states that pursuant to the Act on the Organisation and Scope of Central State Administration Bodies and the Police Act public security affairs imply police duties.

The objectives of the Strategic Plan are to improve the prevention of criminal behaviour, improve the combatting of crime, increase road safety, strengthen the security of state borders in air transport and navigation, improve services to citizens in administrative matters, improve relations in the internal and foreign spheres, etc., while the prevention of crime is listed as a specific objective.

The Strategic Plan states that for every society the prevention of criminal behaviour is more economic than combatting crime or dealing with the

consequences of criminal behaviour. For this reason, the Croatian police has increased its proactive principles in its activities. The bodies of the Interior Ministry responsible for prevention and the bodies of other organisational units are entrusted with the implementation of the objectives of the Strategic Plan and for the preventative activities as listed in other strategic national documents of the Government of the Republic of Croatia that include the Interior Ministry. Therefore, all organisational units are obliged to focus on the *prevention of crime* within the scope of their authorities.

In terms of the organisation, the Crime Prevention Service was established in the police within the Police Directorate in the year 2010 and is primarily entrusted with the prevention of crime. This service is in fact a successor of the Community Policing Strategy that was adopted in 2003 (Cajner Mraović et al. 2003). Community police officers were introduced to police organizations with the addition of two positions added to the police work force, i.e., the community police officer and the police officer for prevention.

The activities by which the Crime Prevention Service plans to strengthen the prevention of crime in Croatian society include strengthening and improving the work of the *Council for Crime Prevention* at the local level, initiating the foundation of new councils within local communities, continuing the implementation of prevention programmes at the local level, improving the capacity of information centres for crime prevention, educating police staff with secondary school qualifications about the content and tactics for crime prevention, adopting the good practices of other police services in crime prevention, etc. The public order service within the police administrations lists certain activities for the prevention of crime and other illegal activities. This includes the monitoring and analysis of objective safety indicators relating to the security of persons and property, certain subcultural groups, intensive collection of operative information and accordingly proposing or taking preventative measures to remove threats.

In the Republic of Croatia, there is no national crime prevention strategy, though for the purpose of achieving the set goals in the area of public security, there are national strategies and programmes in which the Ministry of the Interior participates as the leader or sub-leader in the implementation of measures and activities. Based on these, the Prevention Department within the General Police Directorate undertakes prevention activities. There are several such strategies: the *National Strategy* to combat domestic violence, *National Road Safety Program*, *National Roma Inclusion Strategy*, *National Strategy for the Prevention of Drug Abuse*, *National Strategy to Combat Human Trafficking* and others (MUP RH 2016).

A decade after the adoption of the document 'Community Policing Strategy', the Police Directorate adopted the *Guidelines for Crime Prevention*. These guidelines describe the premises for crime prevention, the leaders in crime prevention in the police, cooperation with external partners at the national and international level, etc. It should also be stressed that the Croatian police is centralised in terms of its organisation, meaning that organisational units for prevention in police administrations must request the consent or opinion of the Prevention Service of the Police Directorate for all prevention activities that include work with the media, for the

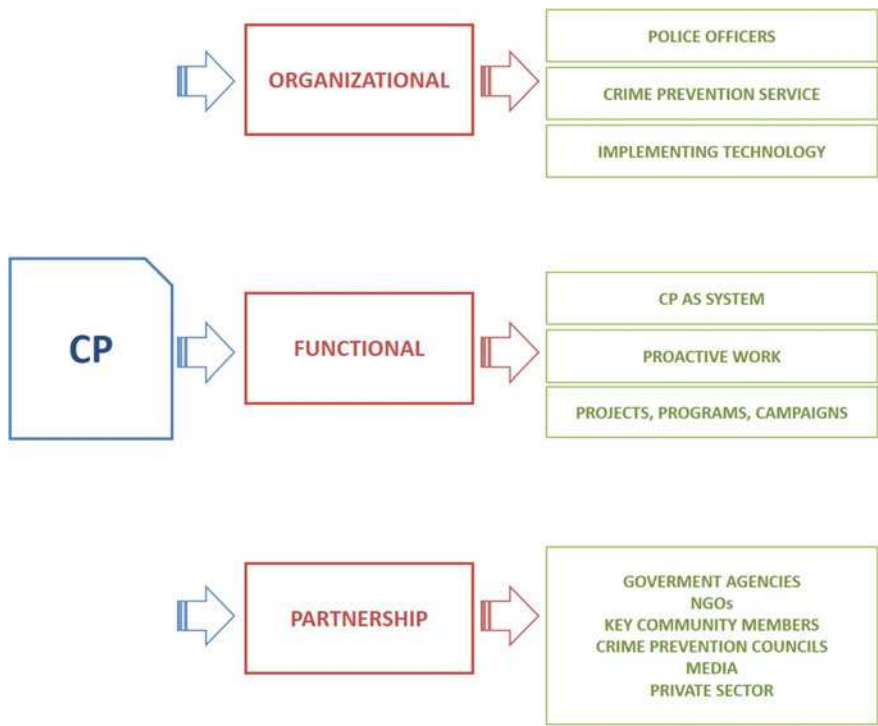


Fig. 10.1 The concept map of the Croatian community policing approach

creation of promotional materials, when planning joint projects among multiple police administrations, etc.

With the adoption of the Community Policing Strategy 16 years ago, the Ministry of the Interior opted to continue the development and sustainability of this Strategy. The Croatian Community Policing approach is based on three dimensions (see also Fig. 10.1): organizational, functional and partnership.

10.2.1 Organizational Dimension

The organisational dimension implies the introduction of police officers, called contact police officers in Croatia. These officers have passed special training with an emphasis on communication and social skills. Therefore, the implementation of the Community Policing Strategy in 2003 has been continued through the project ‘Reforms to the operational and prevention work of uniformed officers’. Following this, a work unit for crime prevention was organised at the level of the Police Directorate and police administrations. One of the most recent aspects implemented by the Croatian police was the introduction of new technologies to improve

interaction with citizens and to facilitate police work (reducing the amount of time police officers spend doing paperwork). An example of these new technologies is an application called the e-reporting application (webmup 2015). In general, for different countries and organisations it makes sense to include technological advances into the community in form of Community Policing applications to enhance and strengthen bonds between the police and communities, because in the community most individuals will have a smartphone (James et al. 2016).

10.2.2 *Functional Dimension*

The functional level of the Croatian Community Policing approach is seen in the fact that Community Policing consists not solely of contact police officers and prevention officers, but that it is an overall modification of the traditional model of the Croatian police into the model of Community Policing. In other words, the relationships result in changes in the organisational culture and the individual conduct within the organisation. Community policing is a contemporary method of performing police duties, and it is a demanding method. The work model for community policy *propagates the proactive work* of the police and the community. In the relationship between proactive and preventative, the proactive is a form of preventative action that aims to minimise the appearance of the fundamental risk factors for criminal behaviour.

The range of proactive action in crime potential is very broad: from various educational activities for children and youth to various projects directed at empowering children and youth in order to prevent their readiness for criminal conduct to participating in urban planning and creating urban infrastructure and architecture (Karlović 2012). This is perhaps the reason why some police officers at all levels continue to feel uncomfortable with and show resistance against the further development of Community Policing. It is possible that they are bothered by the idea of ‘community police’, since at a superficial level it may have an association of police that deal with exclusively non-police tasks and are more involved in the work areas of other services.

However, cooperation with the community and mutual trust based on integration, responsibility and partnership is necessary, because otherwise citizens will not provide information to the police. In today’s technologically advanced society information is a key instrument in police work. For example, the most offending criminal acts (murder, rape, assault, burglary) are rarely discovered by police patrols. Police spend the majority of their time in passive patrolling and responding to emergency calls. A rapid appearance at the scene after a call does not significantly raise citizen satisfaction, as citizens expect the police to, above all, prevent crime and then to arrest offenders. The perpetrators of criminal acts are most often revealed when and if police receive useful information from witnesses who have observed an important detail. If the police do not receive such information, there is only a 1:10 likelihood of discovering the perpetrator. Therefore, the police must

improve relations with residents, victims and witnesses in order to obtain information and to be able to better prevent crime (Palmiotto 2000).

In the context of implementing Community Policing in Croatia, in cooperation between the police force of the Federal Republic of Germany and the Istrian Police Administration in Croatia, the *typical tasks of Community Policing* were described in detail. These include: contact with citizens, resolving local issues, monitoring the state and trends of crime, providing assistance to victims of criminal acts, emergency situations, etc. Another important point discussed regards the *fundamental conditions* for performing these tasks, which are: constancy of contact, support of superiors, motivational contact of police and the support of the local community (Borovec et al. 2013). Of course, all local centres have their specificities and problems, and police officers are required to modify their work accordingly.

As the most important resource in the implementation of the Community Policing strategy, police officers are mostly responsible for the success they achieve. In other words, the competency and selection of police officers is of critical importance, not only in the explanation of Community Policing in these three dimensions, but also for the protection of other police officers and for the purpose of protecting the communities they serve (Coutts 1990). Orlović (2013) stresses that supervisors, in the context of managerial functions, have standards at their disposal as instruments that can act on the motivation of the employees within the Croatian police.

10.2.3 *Partnership Dimension*

The partnership dimension implies the development of mutual relations among all interested parties: the police, government institutions and citizens and cooperation at the international level (IPA HR 2008 IB JH 04 TL 2013). Different authors stress that there is no unified definition of community policy, though there are some definitions that are commonly used (cp. Chap. 4). In the Community Policing Strategy, the Croatian experts refer to the definition of Trojanowicz and Bucqueroux (1990): “*Community policing is a new strategy of the police action based on the idea that the police officers and community members work together, and they use different innovative ways to solve ongoing problems at the local community level in connection with crime, fear of crime and other different social deviations. Achieving these goals requires from the police the development of new relationship with law abiding citizens, in which they will get the opportunity to define priorities and to include themselves in different activities in order to improve the quality of life in their neighbourhood. So, the Community Policing moves the focus of the police work from reacting to incidents to proactively solving the problems*” (cited in Cajner Mraović et al. 2003).

The new work model for uniformed police officers has been implemented in all 20 police administrations with about 700 community police officers in the field and some 60 police officers working on prevention. As part of the project ‘Organising

prevention in the local community' 225 Prevention Councils have been established in Croatia, of which 114 councils were formed at the city or county level and 111 at the municipality or neighbourhood level (Buchheit and Karlović 2015).

10.3 Significant Examples of Prevention Projects, CP Programmes and Campaigns

In the following we present a range of projects in the context of the Croatian Community Policing approach. Additional information about them can be found on the website of the European Crime Prevention Network (EUCPN).

The European Commission gave its remarks to the Council and the European Parliament on crime prevention in the European Union (COM (2004) 165; 2004/C 92/02). Following this, the Council Decision on the adoption of the European Network for Crime Prevention (2001/427/JHA) was adopted and explains the concepts of crime prevention, preventative measures and activities. For the purpose of these remarks, the Commission proposed the use of the definition of crime prevention as presented in the 2001 Council Decision at the time of the establishment of the *European Union Crime Prevention Network* (EUCPN). The Council Decision (2009/902/JHA) of 30 November 2009 outlines the objectives, tasks, responsibilities, structures and means of activities and the evaluation of the European Union Crime Prevention Network. Of particular importance is Article 2 of this document, which requires that the EUCPN contributes to the development of various aspects of crime prevention at the level of the European Union, which also requests that this body supports the European Union Crime Prevention Strategy. The EUCPN is expected to support the crime prevention activities at the national and local level. Paragraph 2 of the same Article states that crime prevention should include all measures that can contribute, in any way, to reducing crime and feelings of insecurity among citizens, both qualitatively and quantitatively.

It is important to stress that through its multi-year strategy, the European Union Crime Prevention Network envisages the development of a *general concept of crime prevention*, as based on the cited Article 2 of the 2009 Council Decision. It is also necessary to stress the continuity of this approach, considering the fact that crime prevention is regulated in an identical manner in Article 1, paragraph 3 of Council Decision (2001/427/JHA) of 28 May 2001, and that this is the platform upon which the EUCPN is founded:

Crime prevention will encompass all measured directed at reducing crime and the feeling of insecurity among citizens, qualitative and quantitative measures, through any direct detection of criminal activity, through any policies or interventions directed at reducing the potential and possible causes of crime. It includes the joint efforts of government, relevant institutions, law enforcement agencies, local authorities, specialised institutions, the private sector, non-governmental organisations, and scientific and research institutions, and is supported by the media" (MUP 2005 and Council Decision 2009 Article 2, paragraph 2).

As a new European Union Member State since 2013, Croatia has become an active and equal member of EUCPN. As such it is worth mentioning several of the projects that have been implemented, particularly those for which the Croatian police won awards from the European Crime Prevention Network.

10.3.1 ‘Less Arms, Less Tragedies’

The project started in 2007 and is ongoing. ‘Less Arms, Less Tragedies’ is a national prevention campaign initially carried out in collaboration with the UNDP and now implemented in cooperation with local and regional governments and relevant entities.

It is conducted throughout the territory of the Republic of Croatia, especially in areas where there is a certain risk of unexploded explosive devices. The project also aims to raise awareness of the dangers of improper handling of weapons, mines and explosive devices.

The aim of the campaign is to encourage citizens to voluntarily hand over any weapons they have in their possession. During its implementation, over 50,000 pieces of different types of weapons and explosive devices were collected from citizens in a one-year period. With education carried out by police officers for prevention in cooperation with police officers from the Bomb disposal department, organized in certain areas in the Republic of Croatia, the project aimed to raise awareness among citizens, especially parents and children, of the potential dangers of mines and explosive devices left behind in their surroundings.

The campaign message is that illegal weapons endanger human lives, leave lasting consequences and represent a potential tragedy that could happen to anyone, especially children. An educational comic book was created for children and a number of public events were held to introduce these risks and procedures to take if such a weapon was encountered.

It should be emphasized that one of the EU’s strategic priorities is ‘Reducing the risk of firearms, including combatting illegal arms trafficking’, which is precisely the goal of this campaign. Meanwhile, the project contributes to the fulfilment of policy measures on the EU scene in this area as follows: ‘Strengthening prevention by building awareness, collaboration and sharing best practices and knowledge between all interested entities.’ More specifically, since the launch of the campaign in September 2007 until 31 December 2015, the following amounts of weapons were collected:

- 3681.32 kg of explosives
- 10,385 pieces of firearms (rifles and short-barrelled weapons)
- 95,534 pieces of various explosive devices
- 4,340,820 pieces of ammunition of different calibre

10.3.2 ‘Living Life Without Violence’

The National Prevention Programme, active since 2010, is aimed at preventing violence against women, domestic violence, peer violence and building a culture of non-violence and tolerance. The project is being implemented in partnership with the Ministry of Science, Education and Sports, celebrities, NGOs and Crime Prevention Councils. The target group is primary school students. The Programme is tailored to children and includes three components:

1. Interactive workshop
2. Artistic and educational programme
3. Interactive discussion (‘parlaonica’)

All three Programme components have been implemented in all 20 of Croatia’s counties and the City of Zagreb, including 35 primary schools for a total of 3768 students between the age of 13 and 14, 1661 of which actively participated in all three programme components. The Programme has been officially evaluated, and all activities have been rated as high quality and appropriate for the target group. In fact, the project received the European award for crime prevention as the best project in the primary prevention category (ECPA 2013). There is a Facebook page for photographs and news about the Programme: <https://www.facebook.com/zivim.zivot.bez.nasilja/>.

10.3.3 ‘Healthy for 5’

The national prevention project ‘Healthy for 5’ was launched in 2012, and since 2013 it has been implemented in partnership with the Ministry of Science, Education and Sports, the Ministry of Health (Croatian National Institute of Public Health) and the Ministry of Environment and Nature Protection. The project is designed and adapted for children and youth aged 14–16 years. Its goal is to prevent addition to alcohol, drugs and gambling and to raise awareness of the importance of environmental protection and nature with the promotion of healthy lifestyles.

The police, doctors and teachers are working together to implement the project activities in all educational institutions across the Republic of Croatia with educational lectures and interactive workshops with students aged 14–16 years. In addition to education, children are participating in public events designed to raise awareness on the preservation of the health and safety of ourselves and others. To date, 70,000 students have taken part in the project, and the joint national survey has been conducted among students about their habits and attitudes regarding the harmful effects of alcohol, drugs and gambling.

10.3.4 ‘Together’

The project started in October 2013 and is ongoing. The Ministry of Interior in cooperation with other competent government bodies, institutions and NGOs is strongly focused on the establishment of an efficient national referral mechanism of prevention and repression of trafficking of human beings (THB) as a part of organized crime. Coordinated, proper and targeted education, awareness raising and systematic prevention are the crucial and most efficient instruments in resolving this issue, which are incorporated within the preventive project ‘Together’. It combines numerous relevant expert institutions, NGOs and the private sector, which contribute jointly within the scope of their competences to achieve the planned objectives.

The project activities and target groups are, in accordance with the characteristics of each county (defined as critical points with respect to THB recruitment, transit and/or exploitation), determined for each police administration separately through 20 components containing different preventive measures and are always accompanied by the application of four key modules:

- Module 1: Police officers should be proactive
- Module 2: Together in the community
- Module 3: Knowledge is power
- Module 4: Don’t be passive

The primary objective of this project was to connect the key components of society and to motivate them to act jointly to prevent THB through a multi-disciplinary and alternative approach, alongside developed cooperative and targeted initiatives and the systematic activity of all relevant participants. Secondary objectives encompass striking the dark number in terms of ensuring a timely reaction of responsible institutions, NGOs and the private sector, thus having real insight into the actual situation and types of crime, elimination of potential critical points, motivation of passive individuals and social subjects to react to socially unacceptable behaviour and empowerment of potential victims in terms of enhancing their self-protection.

The evaluation of the project showed that the project and its activities were well received with positive results. Of particular note is the evaluation that was conducted among the adolescent population aimed at determining the position of secondary school students on the role of the police in daily life and in the prevention programmes the Zagreb Police Administration implemented in conjunction with the City of Zagreb in primary and secondary schools in the city. Among the population of first grade students in Zagreb’s secondary schools ($n \approx 11,200$), a sample of 1705 young men and women participated in the survey. In general, the position of students on the role of the police was very positive. A large majority (78%) mostly or completely agreed with the claim that “*The police help to prevent crime*”, 71% agreed with the statement “*The police is an important part of society*” and 73% with the statement “*The police protect citizens.*” A similarly high

percentage (60%) stated that they believe that “A *community police officer would really do something if approached with a problem.*” However, only 46% of the students surveyed mostly or completely agreed with the statement that “*Community police officers are important in my neighbourhood.*” It can be observed that the youths feel that community police officers have a role and would do something to help if approached with a problem, but that a significantly smaller number considers community police officers to be an important and useful part of their own neighbourhood (Razum et al. 2015).

10.3.5 ‘Tours’

Another example worth mentioning is police cross-border cooperation—an interesting project that the Croatian police has been implementing from 2006 on. ‘TOURS’ (Safe Tourist Season) is a project aimed at making tourists in Croatia feel safer and more comfortable. Tourism is one of the most developed activities in the country, especially on the coast and the islands (which number more than one thousand). That is why every year for the past 10 years, the Croatian police brings foreign police officers (e.g., 74 in 2016) to major tourist destinations during the tourist season. For that reason foreign nationals and tourists are usually very happy; they stop and have a chat with their police officers, they know where to find them and they feel safer. This is what policing should be about, making people feel safe. There is a Facebook page for photographs and news about the project: <https://www.facebook.com/sigurna.turisticka.sezona>.

10.4 Conclusions

The objective of this chapter was to provide an overview of key changes in the work of the Croatian police after the implementation of the Community Policing Strategy. Security is the reason for the existence of the police, and security is the state that all societies strive for and an essential need for all individuals with the exception of those who place other priorities before their own security. Reforms to police work in the Republic of Croatia began after the transformation of the political system from a Socialist region into a democratic system. In order to resolve the poor characteristics of the pseudo-military model of the former police system, which was marked by a large distance between police and citizens, the experts in the Croatian police developed the Community Policing strategy, which has since become an official document.

The concept of Community Policing was primarily developed in democratic environments, and the introduction of this model into the Croatian system, still a young democracy, has truly proven to be an ongoing process. Community policing, as a modified model of police work in comparison to the traditional model, differs

in the social interactions and structural components. In the Croatian Community Policing Strategy the differences between these two models in the approach to certain duties is outlined. For example, the focus of police activities in the classic model implied the exclusive enforcement of the law, while the modified Community Policing model implies improving the quality of life through activities to prevent crime. Furthermore, with regard to the flow of information, the classic model implies the one-way flow of information, i.e., from the police towards the community, while Community Policing implies a two-way flow of information, i.e., mutual flows between citizens and police (Green 2000).

The current state of the Community Policing concept in the Croatian society and Croatian police is shown through three levels: the organisational, functional and partnership level. This is the result of the strategic commitment of the Croatian police to ensure the further development and sustainability of the key elements within the levels of the concept of Community Policing. In today's society, citizens are increasingly acting as individuals, they are more informed and they will not facilitate police work and work to build the ties between police and citizens if they feel the police are not responsible towards them. Citizens will not trust the police if they feel in any way that the police culture and organisational structures are not aligned with the Community Policing strategy. This forms the foundation for the continuation of more comprehensive work in Community Policing.

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Chapter 11

Community Policing Case Studies: Proposing a Social Media Approach

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11.1 Introduction

Community policing (CP) is not a general and coherent model, but rather an ambiguous concept, not adequately defined and open to multiple interpretations. The lack of clarity has led to a marked diversity in its application in different contexts and has contributed to misunderstandings, frustrations and confusion in the implementation of CP reforms (cp. Chaps. 4 and 5). From one perspective CP is a strategy of the police, which facilitates intelligence gathering; from another, it is a philosophy, which is based upon accountability and public participation in the setting of policing agendas. Whilst the former perspective focuses upon increasing the productivity of existing institutions, the latter necessitates a fundamental transformation of governance provision where communities have a normative voice in how they are policed. Both perspectives will be studied with a number of selected case studies.

A case study is defined as “a process or record of research into the development of a particular person, group, or situation over a period of time”¹ and is recognised as a research tool in community based problems (Johnson 2006). As a method it enables researchers to closely examine data related to the CP context. In most cases,

¹<http://www.oxforddictionaries.com/definition/english/case-study>.

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a case study method selects a small geographical area or a very limited number of individuals as the subjects of study. Yin (1984) defines the case study research method “as an empirical inquiry that investigates a contemporary phenomenon within its real-life context; when the boundaries between phenomenon and context are not clearly evident; and in which multiple sources of evidence are used” (p. 23).

The examination and documentation of each test case is based on work completed as part of the INSPEC²T research project.² Data was collected through desk research of documents, online surveys aiming to capture citizens, academia, police practitioners and their trainers’ views, focus group discussions, reports and other available written materials and through follow up meetings and interviews with members of an external advisory board made up of experts in CP topics like police practitioners, CP visionaries, criminologists and neighbour watch associations. The external advisory members are currently involved with CP practises and have a sound concern in ethical, legal, societal and data privacy topics sourced from the application of different CP approaches.

11.2 Methodology

The eight case studies in this chapter will look at existing CP implementations for different CP approaches and for a variety of residential environments. The purpose is to extract valuable knowledge from the study of real life CP implementations and understand the conditions of why and how a CP project was/was not successful and how it met the intended outcomes. Central to this will be an understanding of how the various actors involved in a CP project define its success and how their different interests intersect and produce a change process.

Wherever possible, the most diverse examples of CP implementations will be selected for investigation in order to highlight the variety of practices. The case studies will be situated within the broader policing context of the country. Specific focus is important in allowing researchers to examine in depth the political, societal, economical and other underlying factors of why community–police relations are formed the way they are and what is required from national/local governments, police and communities to improve those relations. Specifically, for a small number of case studies an overview of the following (where data are available) will be attempted:

- How are community–police relations defined?
- What are the objectives of the various actors involved in a CP program?
- What does the Community Policing practice/initiative look like/involve?
- What is the effect of the Community Policing practice?

²<http://www.inspec2t-project.eu>.

11.3 Case Study Selection

The *Belgium West Coast* case study was selected as a good example to showcase that implementing a successful and recognised CP methodology is not enough. The special context is affecting the implementation and its success. A well performing CP initiative was adapted and enriched with nodal orientation. Although the case study was successful, it outlines a number of ethical, societal, legal and data protection issues that should be addressed.

Next, three pre-reform case studies from *Scotland CP projects* are presented to highlight a number of concerns arising from CP initiatives. The subsequent *case study from Netherlands* showed similarities with the case studies from Scotland regarding the CP officer's role, responsibilities and overlapping duties with front line policing officers. However, the case study in the Netherlands presents a policing transformation and an approach to overcome the aforementioned restrictions. Next in sequence are two case studies from England. The case study from the *Manchester police in the UK* is about the successful implementation of a community based strategy. The case study presents the results of an ambitious program to restore the feeling of safety and increase the security in a dense urban area. The case study from *Lancashire constabulary, UK* which in 2015 was rated as 'outstanding for CP', is focused on the use of social media in a modern Community Policing program.

The final case study presents an EU-funded *research initiative for a next generation and social media based* Community Policing project.

11.3.1 Nodal Orientation in CP, West Coast, Belgium

The first case study is focused on CP impacts resulting from the Schengen agreement. The reduction and removal of barriers between national borders in order to facilitate the flow of goods, capital, services and labour has demographic impacts. This case study examines the seasonal variation of population and how it affects the CP program.

Belgian police during the 1998–2001 reforms decided to adopt the UK and the Dutch Community Policing model. CP demands that police departments reform their relationship with local communities and that police officers change their attitudes and behaviours toward citizens and police work (Law Library, n.d.). In this respect, the West-Coast Police Department (WCPD) has implemented a CP program, which has proven successful. The police department's jurisdiction spans across three municipalities and serves a population of 44,000 residents. The majority of them are senior citizens (60% of the population is older than 55 years). Given the location of the area (the border with France is located 20 km away) during the summer months hundreds of thousands of tourists visit the area on a daily basis to enjoy themselves. Furthermore, the area also serves as a transit zone,

as the motorway A18 is part of the European route E40 that connects Northern Europe with the United Kingdom via the tunnel in Calais, France. Therefore, there is a seasonal variation of the community population, mainly in the summer months, with the number of visitors outnumbering the local population.

The fact that the local community is dependent upon tourism makes it extremely important to effectively combat safety and security issues with a recognised CP program. For a uniform type of population the CP model works properly, as the local community is enjoying their life in a nice and tranquil environment. However, on a seasonal basis, when the number of seasonal residents outnumbers the local community, the results of the CP program are questioned. Frequently both the criminals and victims are only visiting the area for a limited time (often a few hours); therefore it becomes extremely difficult to proactively address safety and security issues effectively. For example, consider the theft of a purse of a tourist by a hit-and-run criminal who is most likely commuting across the Schengen area. If both the perpetrator and the victim do not linger at the crime scene, it becomes extremely difficult to prevent or even solve this crime.

To overcome the underperformance of a well-known to work CP model, the WCPD decided to compliment and enrich their activities with the introduction of *Nodal Orientation Policing* (van Sluis et al. 2010). Nodal orientation offers awareness of the incoming and outgoing citizens and vehicles and information about their movement within a monitoring area. The nodal orientation introduced at WCPD consists of the following steps: (1) monitor flow of vehicles, (2) identify vehicles of potential criminals, (3) evaluate information and (4) take appropriate action (Acknowledge—Do not take action, Intercept, Monitor).

11.3.1.1 Case Study Outcomes

The introduction of a CP program necessitates the transformation of a police department:

1. The WCPD adapted their CP program and transformed it from a narrow community model to a broader community model. This was achieved by adopting a nodal orientation to monitor and control the flow of movement within parts of the community.
2. A successful approach to combat crime is unthinkable without the coupling of local action (signalling in the community) with relevant (inter)nationally known movements/traffic of offender groups, money, information and goods.
3. Communities are not bound by borders and are not geographically limited. Therefore, what is needed is a community model of policing combined with a nodal orientation that can be applied at different levels within any community, irrespective of its size and/or location.
4. The system would be much more efficient if it could be implemented nationally or internationally in the EU, as this would allow the movement of offenders to be tracked over the whole of Belgium or the EU.

5. There is a number of Data Privacy, Ethical and Societal issues that need to be addressed on the local, regional and continental level considering the possibilities of misuses of such a system to minimise the possibility of evolving into a police state. However, if closely monitored, this can be detected at an early stage, so that corrective action can be taken.

11.3.2 Three Pre-reform CP Case Studies, Scotland

Over the last decade, developments in Scotland have brought CP to the forefront of the government and policing discourse. The *Public Reassurance Strategy* (ACPOS, 2007) had considerable influence on the direction taken both by individual Scottish forces and national policies. The Scottish Parliament Justice Committee report (2008) on its inquiry into CP in Scotland set out³ how CP could be improved and, in light of the Committee's view that the majority of the eight forces did not have clear CP strategies, made more consistent across Scotland. The publication of the Scottish Community Policing Engagement Principles⁴ aimed to establish this level of consistency and called for each police force to produce its own Community Policing engagement standard based around the seven principles listed below:

1. Being visible, accessible, present and readily identifiable in the community and discrete when that is appropriate
2. Communicating as widely as possible using all appropriate means
3. Consulting, listening and responding
4. Recognising individual needs and prioritising support to those groups of people most vulnerable to harm
5. Working closely with other public and voluntary services and businesses to encourage people to take responsibility for their actions and how they affect others
6. Being involved in a problem solving approach to local crime issues and accountable to communities for local policing
7. Working in partnership with other public and voluntary services and businesses on the ground to make people feel safer.

These principles appeared to generate a significant amount of re-organization of CP activity around Scotland and an expansion in the number of officers involved in CP.

³http://www.sipr.ac.uk/downloads/Research_Summaries/Research_Summary_18.pdf.

⁴Scottish Government, 2009. <http://www.gov.scot/Resource/Doc/254432/0081965.pdf>.

11.3.2.1 Dumfries and Galloway

Policing in Dumfries and Galloway was delivered by operational officers and a smaller number of CP officers in a 'traditional' manner. The local community displays a commitment for engagement with police. Although members from the community participated in police consultation for outlining priorities and jointly identifying the police strategic priorities, the outcome of this process and its impact on CP strategy was not fed back to citizens.

11.3.2.2 Grampian

The implemented CP approach involved the key activities of 'Consult, Listen, Respond and Feedback' (third and fifth CP principle). The CP initiative was delivered through the assigned police officers who were additionally assigned with CP duties.

11.3.2.3 Strathclyde

The CP approach aimed to improve visibility and accessibility within communities to ensure communities had a role in the identification of local policing priorities and to enable working with the community and other partners to deliver sustainable solutions. Problem solving would be achieved through enforcement, public reassurance and focused response policing.

11.3.2.4 Case Study Outcomes

There was a combination of roles and duties within all the case studies' police departments. Where local policing was delivered by separate response and CP teams, there was a lack of understanding of the community role. As a result, police forces failed to cooperate internally and approach the local community. Another source of conflict was the time spent on foot patrolling between the operational and CP officers. In conjunction with the coexistence of operational and CP officers in the force, the conflict extended to the use of vehicle over foot patrol. A number of factors such as tenure, staffing levels and time spent on paperwork were seen to constrain local policing activity. No CP training was offered to assigned police officers, nor were CP training requirements defined.

In all case studies, police officers conveyed different inputs about the community expectation from a CP program. Moreover, there was no indication that the effectiveness or the achieved results of the CP program were communicated to participants (CP officers and residents).

Policing within local communities has again become a central focus of attention in the new single force. These case-studies demonstrate that there is much good

practice on which Police Scotland can build. However, the constraints imposed by the need for cost reduction and the tendency towards standardization of policing styles generated by national strategies pose significant challenges in this crucial area of police work.

11.3.3 *The ‘Police in Evolution’, Netherlands*

As seen in the previous case studies, there are different policing structures with respect to the integration of the role of CP officers. In many police departments CP officers are part of the basic unit, while in others they operate as rather isolated individuals or as part of a neighbourhood team. Another common difference is that in a number of police departments, community officers only perform specific CP tasks, while in others their job includes front line policing tasks like criminal investigations and emergency assistance.

Over the years, the image of the CP model in the Netherlands (van Sluis et al. 2013) has changed substantially. The new vision of CP was articulated in the strategy document called *the Police in Evolution*⁵ (PIE). According to PIE, CP officers not only have to act as sources of information for criminal investigations, but they have an important ‘signalling and advice’ function in that they are responsible for providing administrative authorities with information and early warnings about significant societal trends, emerging problems, signs of terrorism and radicalization. Moreover, CP officers frequently deal with social disorder caused by youths, road safety issues and petty crime. The CP officers are now seen more as police officers and not as social workers. They contribute to law and crime investigations by taking on criminal investigations, enforcement and emergency services as well as by working on prevention and problem solving. Furthermore, intelligence-led policing has been incorporated in the CP officers’ duties.

The latter of the new CP assignments (intelligence-led policing) comes into conflict with their mandate to solve problems by cooperating with representatives of the community. Their role as law enforcers means that they are obliged to pass privileged and sensitive information to other police departments for purposes often outside of why it was provided to them. Community officers often report that this dual role harms the relations they have developed in their neighbourhoods. Furthermore, CP officers experience disappointment when they have to penalizing the residential areas there are engaged in.⁶

Another topic, which required corrective actions is the ratio of time spent on CP activities over the non-CP related police work. The PIE planned that CP officers should spent approximately one fifth of their time on tasks related to neighbourhood

⁵Retrieved from <http://hdl.handle.net/1765/50960>.

⁶International Police Executive Symposium, Geneva Centre for the Democratic Control of Armed Forces, Working Paper no 25.

policing. It has emerged that CP officers are one third of their shift hours (32%) occupied on duties related to emergency response, surveillance and other front policing tasks. Therefore, efforts planned and allocated to CP duties including administrative tasks like maintaining contact through email or writing a weblog to keep in contact with their neighbourhood is allocated to non-CP related activities (see Chap. 13 for other examples in the context of Netherlands).

11.3.3.1 Case Study Outcomes

CP officers should have a good understanding of the concrete results they want to achieve and perform their duties accordingly. This is required to set realistic expectations and demands from their partners and the public. To this end, detailed information about what is going on in communities is crucial. This is especially so in efforts to fight radicalization and terrorism (cp. Chap. 6). CP officers are the first link in the safety chain because they have ample access to community intelligence, and it is through them that CP can effectively be combined with front line policing. Special crime investigation units were assembled in most police districts in order to improve the current level of collaboration and exchange of information between front line police and CP officers as well as to deal with all kinds of petty crime. This approach integrates better criminal investigations with CP.

There are some specific demarcations between the roles of the community officer and specialists. As a rule, neighbourhood teams only deal with criminal offenses that do not require imprisonment (so-called 6-h cases); however, CP officers also serve as experts in community affairs during criminal investigations. Despite these initiatives, only 12% (instead of 20%) of the CP officers' time continues to be spend on criminal investigations.

11.3.4 The Manchester Community Safety Program, England

Manchester's reputation as a tolerant and welcoming place for new arrivals results in its growing population from 423,000 in 2001 to 518,000 in 2014. Although, this is an indicator of the city's development it brings additional challenges such as the increasing pressure on school places and an enlarged demand for community services. Furthermore, tensions can develop in communities that undergo rapid demographic change, and these must be effectively managed. The city's growing population is also becoming younger, with a major increase in the number of working-age residents.

The Manchester's Community Safety Partnership (CSP) brings together the local Council, Greater Manchester Police, Offender Management Services, GM Fire and Rescue Service, Public Health Manchester, the universities, housing providers and

community and voluntary organisations. Collectively, the agencies of the CSP work with one overriding objective—to make Manchester a safe place to live, work and visit (Manchester City Council 2014). When Manchester city council produced their first community safety strategy back in 1999, they managed to reduce crime by 45%, with the total number of crimes falling from 94,829 in 1998/99 to 51,828 in 2013/14. The new CSP strategy (Communities and Equalities Scrutiny Committee 2016) is focused on the following eight strategic objectives:

1. Tackling anti-social behaviour (ASBO)⁷
2. Tackling alcohol and drug related crime
3. Changing offender behaviour
4. Protecting vulnerable people
5. Tackling serious and organised crime
6. Tackling the crimes of highest impact
7. Tackling hidden crime
8. Making the city centre safer.

11.3.4.1 Actions for a Safer and More Secure Community

The CSP worked closely with the Ministry of Justice to develop a toolkit and set of principles around *neighbourhood justice panels*. These panels aim to address low-level offending behaviours and bring together the victim and offender of certain crimes to agree a remedy to repair harm caused. *Local vulnerability panels* were also established to prioritise and respond to cases that cause the most harm to vulnerable people. The aim of the panels is to support victims and bring perpetrators to account, thereby increasing resilience and confidence in neighbourhoods. Lastly, there is a strong emphasis on encouraging people to resolve differences and conflicts through communication and mediation, rather than relying on public agencies to intervene in minor disputes.

Violent crimes such as assault and domestic violence and abuse often involve alcohol. Drug misuse and crimes such as burglary and robbery are closely linked, and ASBO can also be related to alcohol and drug misuse. The CSP will develop and implement the Local Alcohol Action Area (LAAA) program and ensure that the LAAA supports the most effective services.

Reducing the number of offenders and the number of offences they commit remains a significant priority and a significant challenge. This work stream is led by three organisations: Manchester Youth Justice, the National Probation Service (NPS) and the Cheshire & Greater Manchester Community Rehabilitation Company (CRC). Collectively these three organisations are responsible for: (1) reducing the harm caused to victims, offenders' families and the wider community, (2) reducing re-offending amongst offenders, (3) ensuring that initiatives

⁷<https://www.gov.uk/asbo>.

such as restorative justice are victim-led, (4) improving rehabilitation prospects by developing access to accommodation, employment and health opportunities for offenders and (5) reducing the number of young people entering the justice system.

Since mid-2014 the adult offender management is shared between the public sector National Probation Service (NPS) and a series of private sector Community Rehabilitation Companies. The NPS predominantly manages cases assessed as posing high risk of serious harm and having significant complex needs such as mental health concerns, drugs and alcohol dependency and relationship issues that contribute to offending behaviour. Manchester Youth Justice Service supervises those children and young people who have been charged with offences and sentenced by a court. There has been a national drive to keep young people out of the formal criminal justice system when a different approach can achieve a good outcome. Many of these 'out-of-court' cases can be dealt with more effectively by means of a Restorative Justice disposal.

The work of both the adult and youth offender management services is supported by a number of initiatives commissioned by the CSP. This includes Community Led Initiatives (CLI). CLI works with adult offenders to help them achieve a more stable lifestyle away from offending. Typical activities include: (1) advocacy through the benefits process, ensuring correct benefits are being claimed and commitments are being met reducing the possibility of being sanctioned, (2) obtaining identification to allow clients to open bank accounts and complete exams to improve employability, (3) exploring and applying for voluntary work and colleges to improve employability and constructively fill time and (4) accessing local resources including medical and leisure facilities.

The detailed plan of the CSP (Communities and Equalities Scrutiny Committee 2016) describes in detail the actions planned for the strategic objectives 4–8. The CSP is focused on developing action plans associated with performance indicators, and these continue to be monitored in order to measure the impact of the activity. Furthermore, the strategy will contribute to the development of the Integrated Neighbourhood Management (INM) programme. INM focuses on the improved delivery of public services through public sector agencies strengthening their partnership working arrangements at a local level. There are several key drivers to change the way police works including:

- Greater community engagement
- Reduced duplication and waste
- Creation of more proactive services
- Reduced demand on services
- Reduced costs
- Improved outcomes for residents.

11.3.5 Lancashire Constabulary Community Engagement and Social Media, England

Recently, the Lancashire Constabulary (LC) have been restructuring to become more effective in communication and engagement both internally and externally. It should be noted that Lancashire Police was rated ‘outstanding’ in 2015 for Community Policing in the UK by Her Majesty’s Inspectorate of Constabulary (HMIC). The main external initiative is better engagement with local communities as well as the wider public of Lancashire in an attempt to discover the public’s values and priorities of policing. The first step in this initiative is gaining an insight into how the public wants to find out about and contact the police, if at all. This restructuring is part of the larger Future’s Programme in which there are four key elements: *local policing, crime investigation, resource management and business support*.

The findings of the ‘Surveying Lancashire: Expectations and experiences of LC and its associated partners’ (Birdsall et al. 2015) indicated that the public within Lancashire believes information from the police on crime in the local area and that their local policing team is more important than them having their say to the police (information out, rather than information in from a public perspective). When they do have a say in the way policing works, the preference is for this to be focused on their local area only. Many of the responses were around attempting to help the police by providing information and reporting crime, but with little awareness regarding who to contact and how.

LC utilises social media to engage with a vast number of people in one go. Conversations are public, which promotes openness and transparency. The Constabulary uses social media platforms to:

- Inform the public of Lancashire about what they are doing and why they are doing it
- Publish news and information
- Appeal for help in solving crime and to find missing people
- Send out warnings and information to assist people in protecting themselves when the need arises
- Encourage conversation, feedback and challenge where appropriate.

Additionally, the Constabulary uses a community messaging system called ‘In the Know...about Lancashire’. It provides the community with a channel of closed communication by encouraging people to subscribe to the system and to opt into information about issues they are interested in. This can range from recruitment to business crime and allotment watch to emergency alerts. This messaging system is used to reach people with a certain interest or located in a defined geographic area. This system promotes targeted, local information to people who can then take action as a result of the communication.

The Constabulary's main website⁸ has been redesigned with a user-centric approach permitting its users to localise content, explore their area using interactive maps, get directions to police stations, browse the events in their areas and contact their local officers directly. It also provides people with the option of contacting police online—via the *Do It Online* section—instead of having to call 101. Online services include:

- Reporting crime (non-emergency)
- Reporting incidents
- Contacting an officer
- Giving compliments
- Making complaints
- Reporting lost or found property.

Another digital engagement approach used by LC is *Police and Communities Together* (PACT). PACT are physical meetings, which are intended to highlight the community issues that are having an impact on residents' quality of life. These meetings are now held online to encourage more people to get involved from the comfort of their own homes or workplaces. Online meetings are held in a number of different ways including:

- On local policing Facebook pages
- Via Google Hangouts
- Via Periscope.

11.3.5.1 Case Study Outcomes

The LC is continuing to see rapid growth in the use of its social media channels with an on-going increase in likes and followers. LC is opening new accounts, particularly Twitter accounts, to meet engagement gaps/needs (e.g., rural crime issues, football supporters), and they are also exploring the use of new channels to extend their reach and address specific issues; for example, an Instagram account to target the younger demographic. The below are indicators of the achieved digital media engagement:

1. LC social media channels are still seeing significant growth with no current indication that they are reaching saturation point. Total Facebook likes grew by over 50% in the 12 months from September 2014 to September 2015, whilst the number of people following LC on Twitter increased by 80%.
2. LC regularly reaches around 5–6 million people on Facebook each month with approximately 15% of people on average engaging with LC posts in some way. In addition, over two million people see LC tweets each month (September 2015: 1.8 million; October 2015: 2.5 million). The regular increase in likes and

⁸<http://lancashire.police.uk/>.

followers is very consistent with Facebook and Twitter, both growing at between 2.5 and 3% per month.

3. Over a one-month period (figures from May 2015) the following number of online forms were submitted to the LC website: Contact an Officer 3662; Report a Crime or Incident 1133; Join us 4403; Lost Property 310; Complaints 186; Compliments 136.

11.3.6 The INSPEC²T Approach and Next Generation Community Policing Initiatives

This section aims to provide a foresight about the new trends in Community Policing. *Next generation Community Policing* (NGCP) approaches do not constitute a case study in the traditional sense, since the proposed practices to adapt Community Policing efforts into the 21st century have not yet produced any transformational impacts and case study outcomes. The proposed NGCP systems are structured from best practices, lessons learned and the collaboration and partnership between law enforcement and other community stakeholders. NGCP solutions⁹ aspire to provide modern, innovative and cost-effective means to CP via leading technologies and social media platforms.

The EU via the funded second topic of FCT-14 research call is actively involved with ‘Enhancing cooperation between law enforcement agencies and citizens—Community Policing’. A number of proposals¹⁰ was selected to develop a technology, which will facilitate, strengthen and accelerate the communication between the police and communities by making it possible for community representatives to identify risks and immediately report them to police forces. The actions necessitate that community representatives and law enforcement agencies should be actively engaged in the research to ensure that their perspectives are well embedded in the design of new technology and innovation. Further to the above, trainings for law enforcement agents by means of serious games or simulations as well as on awareness raising activities about Community Policing for all stakeholders should complement the proposed NGCP solution.

One of the funded proposals is the INSPEC²T initiative,¹¹ which bases its conceptual foundations on EU crime prevention and member states’ specific internal security policies and best practices from cooperation between police and local, regional and national communities. The INSPEC²T consortium composed of CP researchers, ELS experts, police academia, European police forces and technology pioneers after desktop research, online surveys and interaction with

⁹<http://www.iacp.org/Portals/0/documents/pdfs/AnnouncementofGrant.pdf>.

¹⁰http://cordis.europa.eu/programme/rcn/666332_en.html.

¹¹<http://inspec2t-project.eu/en/>.

stakeholders established the operational framework of the project. The review of the research literature served as reference to design online surveys aiming at specific beneficiaries of the NGCP system. Four online surveys were conducted, compliant with EU Directive 1995/46/EC for data protection and handling. Each survey was structured to aim at specific stakeholder groups.

The first survey was launched aiming at users from the ‘general public’. Citizens across European countries are considered as potential users of the INSPEC²T platform, so it is imperative to capture their needs and wants and understand the reasons behind them. A second survey was aimed at NGOs, community workers, city administrators and other actors who either professionally or on a voluntary basis are involved with security and safety in communities. The participants were asked to provide their experiences about CP and the use of social media. The third and fourth survey sought to capture the views of police colleges/universities/academies involved in the training of police students and active CP practitioners from EU member states.

Further to the online surveys, focus group discussions and interviews were conducted. These physical sessions were divided into two phases to assist researchers in capturing experiences, lessons learned, best practices and also recording suggestions. The focus group discussions took place in Greece, UK, Cyprus, the Netherlands and Spain. The participants were selected from two distinct groups: (1) the ‘official’ CP practitioners, which are LEAs assigned with CP tasks and received appropriate training and (2) the general public consisting of citizens with diverse backgrounds who may or may have not been accustomed to CP terms and applications.

In addition to the online surveys and the focus groups, INSPEC²T utilised a Stakeholder Advisory Group committee (SAG). This committee is made up of LEAs (at national and EU level), government organisations, active citizen groups, community organizations, commercial associations and CP visionaries. The well experienced CP committee members participated in a workshop and discussed with researchers the findings of the online surveys and the focus groups interviews. Furthermore, they conveyed their professional view on certain CP topics via a questionnaire and shared their vision for the Next Generation CP (NGCP) roadmap.

The result of the above was that against the background of cultural and ethnic diversity the spread of new technologies injects an element of homogeneity and seemingly a level playing field. Using social media for CP purposes provides the opportunity to interact with all members of a community. However, differences have to be taken into account with regard to language, technology, relations with and image of the police and cultural understandings of crime, police, law and order. Driven from accommodated transnational and multicultural best practices, it adheres to an approach where social, cultural, legal and ethical dimensions are embedded into core user-centric design specifications and implementation procedures. Its conceptual architectural view is shown in Fig. 11.1.

The architecture of the INSPEC²T system is modular, expanding easily, while information is not lost even if some internal process does not succeed or a processing subsystem fails. The system operators are offered the maximum information

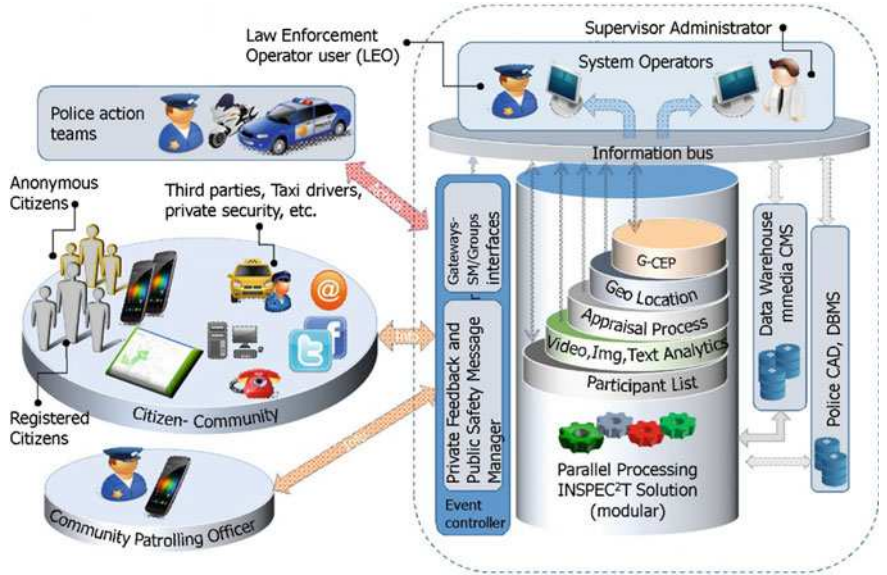


Fig. 11.1 INSPEC²T solution view

in real-time at each stage of processing and maintain total control on the information to be published. Additionally, the operators have access to offline information for investigating incidents ‘a posteriori’, perform data correlation, issue reports and build expert knowledge for future alertness and CP actions. Additionally, the system is designed to drop pseudo evidence, ‘decoy’ attempts and to present information, alerts and maps. The differentiating factor of the system, compared to commercial and enterprise social and data analytics platforms, is the extensive and real-time handling and presentation of GIS (location, areas, navigation, maps) and multimedia (text, voice-audio, pictures, video) data. This is a core functionality, embedded in a unified environment all over system blocks.

One of the key lessons learnt during the stakeholder requirements analysis and architectural specification phase was that it is rather difficult to apply a single, unified solution to all contexts or environments. There are a number of legal, ethical, social and cultural factors that make a single approach difficult to apply, for example, across the whole of the EU. This is why the INSPEC²T solution follows a modular approach. The platform’s modularity allows various components to be plugged and unplugged depending on the context applied. For example, the existence of a multimedia analysis component to process registered or unregistered user supplied data within their reports, taking advantage of relevant technologies, may not be specified in a legal framework for a given country or province. The respective component will be disabled, while the remaining subsystems would continue to interconnect and operate as per their design.

INSPEC²T enables direct communication and collaboration with community members in real time. Police departments will use the system to disseminate information to the public as well as to obtain information, especially for tactical purposes such as gathering information about threats of mob violence, riots or isolated criminal activity during otherwise lawful mass demonstrations. Citizens, on the other hand, may be informed in real time about any incident in their neighbourhood as well as report or give information back that may be of any use for their local police department by a simple post, comment, photo or video (captured by mobile smart devices). The whole concept builds on the bidirectional information flow, so as to promote participation, motivation and engagement of citizens and empower them to assist in their own public safety and security.

One of the weaknesses of current CP programmes is the establishment, and most importantly, the preservation of a critical mass of participants. This is why popular technologies like social media are being used allowing bidirectional and fast communication between police and citizens. Serious games are also part of this scheme raising awareness and attracting user participation. Additionally, a reward system is included. Citizens that have aided in fighting crime, for instance, when they have provided useful information to the police, are rewarded with thanking messages from the police (additional, customizable information is also forwarded after manual approval).

Interconnection of the CP system with already existing systems is also important. In the examined system, an existing Computer Aided Dispatch (CAD) system and connectivity to existing CADs of the police will be integrated to ensure smooth migration to next generation initiatives and guarantee backwards compatibility with existing incident reporting subsystems. Moreover, a web portal and a mobile application focusing on bidirectional exchange of information and promoting collaboration between citizens and the police while serving as information, opinion and idea exchange platforms is developed. Furthermore, multimedia processing tools, case based reasoning, GIS systems and correlating tools are examples of capitalizing on the benefits that technology can offer. Any Next Generation of CP programs should provide such functionalities, of course respecting legal and ethical barriers. The complete system is supervised from a secure portal, where system operators are in control of CP operations making use of submitted intelligence and controlling efficiently the assigned CP resources.

INSPEC²T will be demonstrated and validated in five EU cities by a wide range of relevant stakeholders in 2017. INSPEC²T engagement and active participation is stimulated through fully dynamic, interactive and immersive training Serious Game applications that empower players to familiarize themselves with the system, gain an intuitive understanding of its functionalities and motivate their engagement in Community Policing activities. Special focus will be given to Community Policing awareness raising activities for both police and citizens. The above activities and associated results will provide a solid foundation for the evolution of the Next Generation Community Policing roadmap in Europe.

11.4 Conclusion

A selection of case studies was introduced to make clear that CP initiatives are not limited to partnerships between the citizenry and the police. Often organizational and sometimes administrative changes are required to make a CP program effective. The implementation of successful CP programs is not an assurance that it will produce the same results elsewhere (cp. Chaps. 4 and 17). For a CP program to be effective, further to conducting literature reviews before selecting it, it needs to be adapted to local contexts and take into account factors like the community demographics, culture and societal issues and the main source of crime (cp. Chaps. 2 and 5). Furthermore, a CP program applied to transforming a community in terms of population, culture, ethical values, etc. can be very effective if carefully planned and exercised to produce the desired results.

A CP project also requires police adaptation. Over recent years more people file reports for crimes such as domestic abuse, child sexual abuse and modern slavery, which have previously been under-reported. There is an urgent need to do more to tackle the victimisation of vulnerable people and the devastating impact these crimes can have (UK Home Office 2016). Furthermore, clear roles and responsibilities should be given to police officers who will be assigned with CP duties, and special attention should be paid to cases where normal policing duties will contradict the friendly and approachable image of a CP officer. On the other hand, CP is about partnership for safer neighbourhoods. Over the last 12 years the Neighbourhood Watch movement has recorded a decline of more than a third in membership (Neighbourhood Watch 2015). At the moment the movement is not attracting enough new members, so the EUNWA¹² should urgently plan a new membership retention strategy. As the neighbourhood watch is a supporting mechanism for many CP initiatives, a transformation program is required.

To conclude, a CP initiative should be based on the outcomes of community consultative forums to facilitate public input. Any CP introduction will require the reorganisation of the local police structures to ensure equality within the service and to facilitate problem solving. Reducing crime and antisocial behaviour is an important element in improving the lives of residents. Ways to achieve this are through partnership working, particularly through early intervention and prevention, challenging and changing behaviours and through the use of technology. Increased openness and transparency are becoming increasingly mandatory—social media platforms must be as effective when used by the police as they are by those who seek to evade them. NGCP initiatives should use these new channels to help identify priorities and targets and understand how well they are responding to citizens' needs.

¹²http://www.eunwa.org/front_content.php.

In the current economic climate possibly the biggest challenge a CP initiative faces is how to deliver its ambitious vision during a period of finite public sector resources. A necessary reform strategy should promote new evidence-based interventions to be developed to reduce dependency on public services. A community strategy should be resourceful to identify new ways that will have a positive impact on community safety. Moreover, a long term safety strategy should include work with repeat offenders, perpetrators of domestic violence and abuse and young people who are persistently absent from school and committing ASBO.

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Part III

CP in an Interconnected World

Chapter 12

New Crime Landscapes and New Technologies for Community Policing

Bogdan Vasile Dițu

12.1 Introduction

Police represents the institution empowered to ensure compliance with the law and to maintain public order, to prevent, investigate and solve crimes and offenses. A fundamental aspect of crime prevention activity is represented by police relations with the community. To prevent crime, police is constantly looking into new ways of achieving their main objectives, while continuously improving existing methods in order to ensure greater efficiency. As mentioned in earlier chapters (cp. Part I), Community Policing is an integrated part of policing focusing specifically on community. From both a theoretical and a practical point of view, three ways of delivering Community Policing have been identified:

- *Reactive*: in response to requests
- *Proactive* using specific means
- *Co-active/interactive*: based on community consultations and common actions.

The co-active (interactive) method consists of improving relations between police and community, leading to true partnerships. This method aims at helping citizens to better understand police activities, to build trust between citizens and police, to engage them in supporting the fight against crime and to improve safety and general well-being of the community.

Community Policing, or community-oriented policing, is a strategy focused on police forces building ties and working closely with members of the community. This involvement relies on their willingness to cooperate with all members of the community to improve quality of social life. While positioning itself as a partner, along with other organizations, the police is aiming at identifying the issues that the community is facing and the causes that can lead to committing crimes. Some of the

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issues identified within these activities may not relate directly to the core police activities, yet often reveal states of tension, urgent personal problems or simply the despair of an individual (see Chaps. 2, 3 and 5).

Community Policing is a policy that requires police to have a *proactive* approach in addressing public safety concerns. It creates partnerships between Law Enforcement Agencies and other organizations like government agencies, non-profit organizations, private businesses, community members and the media. The media are a very powerful partner, as they afford almost instant interaction with the community.

From previous experiences in Romania and other European countries, we can conclude that the main ways of achieving positive results in Community Policing and crime prevention partnerships, are:

- Initiating national and local programs
- Developing targeted projects on specific issues
- Performing advisory and consultation activities
- Public discussions and interaction through direct meetings or surveys
- Media campaigns on crime prevention.

These steps help the community to be actively involved in the development of problem solving solutions. The general objectives of such partnerships in general, and Community Policing in particular, are:

- Reducing the number of crimes, offenses and the degree of hazards
- Lowering the number of participants (victims as well as perpetrators)
- Strengthening public safety
- Greater confidence in the police
- Awareness of tense situations in the community and efforts to prevent degeneration into conflicts by attracting the parties involved to a dialogue.

As an integrated part of Community Policing, police provide information, initiate and participate in programs to prevent crime and ensure the protection of citizens in cooperation with other institutions. Community Policing partnerships with other institutions (e.g., schools, church, local authorities) are helpful for citizens, as they build mutual and beneficial cooperation between them (e.g., police can inform these institutions to ensure immediate action). It needs to be emphasised that police do not and cannot intent to substitute the activities of other services and social institutions, but to support their actions. The main criteria regarding such partnerships are:

- Legality
- Respecting the fundamental rights and freedom of people
- Equal treatment for partners, individuals and institutions involved in crime prevention activities
- Community consultation in decision making over public and individual safety

- Continuity in operational activities
- Flexibility in adapting to diverse community problems

The philosophical, tactical and organizational characteristics of Community Policing have generated a great deal of innovation in how we think about police and how police work is performed. With this creative energy, there is every reason to be optimistic about the possibility of improving policing in general and Community Policing in particular in the next decades. New technologies as well as technology-driven practice play an increasingly important role in this respect.

12.2 New Technologies and Practices in Support of Community Policing

Today's Law Enforcement Agencies are faced with numerous challenges to protect life and property and to provide community safety. Police professionals must cope with ever increasing demands including growing communities, tighter budgets and limited resources to meet their goals. The rapidly changing social, economic and political environment, both domestically and internationally, complicate these problems.

12.2.1 Geographic Information Systems

In order to provide a successful and effective service, Law Enforcement Agencies are using the best technology systems to deliver mission critical services. *Geographic Information System* (GIS) technology is a powerful tool increasingly used by agencies for daily operations and to optimize both strategic and tactical planning. By adding GIS to their capabilities, they can transform their data into actionable intelligence: "GIS is the software tool or a set of computer-based tools that allow the police analyst to map crime in many different ways from a simple point map to a three-dimensional visualization of spatial or temporal data" (Santos 2013).

Law Enforcement Agencies use GIS for crime analysis, criminal intelligence, vehicle/personnel tracking, traffic safety, community corrections and many other areas including Community Policing. GIS extends the capability of a simple map by making the map intelligent, interactive and easily available.

Even more important, GIS provides the required information when, where and how it is needed. For instance, all emergencies begin locally and elevate to county, regional, state or national levels depending on the severity, complexity, size and nature of the event. Therefore, GIS often operates in conjunction with the wireless communication systems utilised by emergency services (see Chap. 14"). Throughout the world, Law Enforcement Agencies use GIS to understand crime,

traffic and community issues. Many agencies are using geographic profiling to determine the offender's area of residence or the next crime target based on history and patterns. Law enforcement managers need the right information at the right time to deploy resources, to implement plans and to manage the incidents as they unfold. GIS is used around the world in order to develop technology that vastly improves the efficiency of law enforcement. It integrates and visualizes data to help provide a comprehensive understanding in all types of emergencies.

GIS in law enforcement and Community Policing is not just about creating attractive layouts for the annual report or slides for the budget presentation; it is about helping agencies in their core mission of maintaining public safety, in which Community Policing plays an important role. Geographic crime analysis enhances the efforts of officers on the street and helps them do a better job. Additionally, Law Enforcement Agencies can enhance the safety of their personnel not only through the real-time tracking, for instance, of responding vehicles, but also by real-time tracking of an individual officer in a foot pursuit. GIS provides command staff, including watch and incident commanders, with the ability to visualize and share a common operational picture or situational awareness in the event of a large-scale disaster or when a major crime occurs. GIS can further be used to provide automated emergency notification for evacuations, missing people or any other incident simply by creating a message and selecting the appropriate geography. In short, virtually all problems Law Enforcement Agencies are confront with have a geographic component, and GIS provides the visual, analytical and data management capabilities to more effectively manage resources and to provide better service (ESRI 2008).

12.2.2 *Open Source Intelligence*

A second development, *Open Source Intelligence* (OSINT) lies at the basis of the current transformations experienced by the intelligence segment, being both a rich source of information and a technological innovation, responding to agencies' various current challenges. It has been estimated that 90% of all data in the world has been generated over the last two years (Dragland 2013), and an increasing amount of data is becoming available on the internet. Each and every one of us is constantly producing and releasing data about ourselves. We do this either by moving around passively—our behaviour being registered by cameras or card usage—or by logging onto our laptops and surfing the net.

Besides the operational advantages provided, open sources play an important role in public communications, functioning both as a PR platform, encouraging the relations with beneficiaries and academic circles and as a promoter of security culture. OSINT manages to accomplish the transition from secret sources to open sources, enabling a specific symbiosis between classified and public information.

The ability to disseminate information to large groups in real time has made Twitter and Facebook important communications tools when major events take place

(see Chaps. 11, 13 and 16). For instance, when hunting for the Boston terrorists in 2013, the police, other authorities and traditional media used social media like Twitter, Instagram, Reddit and Facebook to actively collect and disseminate information about the incident (Helman and Russell 2014). Several volunteer groups were also set up via social media in order to try and help the police (Helman and Russell 2014). However, social media as communications channels proved not to be entirely beneficial, as they were also an important source of confusion and misinformation (Brandtzag 2013).

Further, the World Wide Web is a rich source of information, but not all content is easy to access. For instance, the *deep web* is the part of the internet that is not necessarily malicious, but simply too large and/or obscure to be indexed due to the limitations of crawling and indexing software such as like Google, Bing or Baidu. The *dark web* is the part of the non-indexed part internet (i.e., deep web), which is used by those who are purposefully trying to control access, for instance, because they have a strong desire for privacy or because what they are doing is illegal. Figure 12.1 illustrates this concept and interrelation between the various webs.

Because users are protected by a veil of technological anonymity, the dark web is often portrayed as a space beyond the reach of law enforcement, where criminals can run wild without fear of prosecution. This could not be more wrong. In fact, police forces all over the world have deployed a wide array of different techniques to identify and ultimately convict dark web drug dealers, weapon buyers, producers of child pornography, etc. in the past years. If anything, Law Enforcement Agencies have become more accustomed to working in this space and are likely to develop even more ways to ‘bust’ technologically savvy criminals (Miessler 2015). To achieve its goals and objectives, Community Policing needs to embrace these trends and activities and utilise monitoring of dark web for the benefits of communities they are protecting.

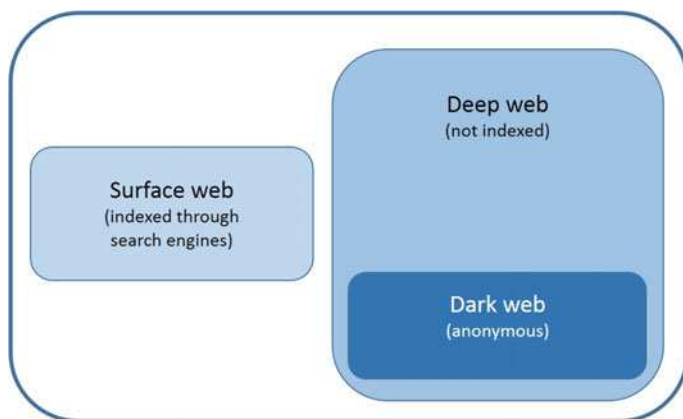


Fig. 12.1 Graphic representation of the World Wide Web and its components

12.3 European Union Cooperation in Community Policing and the Fight Against Crime

For 20 years, European Union Member States were faced with the phenomenon of criminal diversity on an alarming scale, targeting citizens and their property, businesses and the public sector. This phenomenon is expensive for our society (loss of life, social and political costs, economic costs, etc.). Globalization and open markets for goods, services and capital acted as growth factors in Europe, but they have also facilitated the expansion of cross-border organized crime.

Often developing independently from crime itself, a major problem is the feeling of insecurity by individuals or the community of citizens. This feeling does not necessarily correspond to reality, but it still is fundamental in evaluating the quality of life of EU citizens. Against this phenomenon authorities became aware of the limits of traditional measures and criminal sanctioning systems and have developed, although in different degrees, additional initiatives to prevent and combat the crime. Community Policing is one of the key elements of these proposed measures.

Many physical and legislative barriers were removed from the European Union. However, in terms of criminal law, each Member State has its own regulations. This makes the procedures for cross-border crime investigations more difficult. Therefore, often vital time is lost and communication between the involved states hampered. To simplify these issues—especially the legislative ones—a range of European institutions such as Europol and Eurojust were created. They also ensure coordination and cooperation for the fight against crime with major impacts on the European Union or the Member States including in cases of serious crime (Ambrozic 2014).

Organized crime, just as is the case with crime in general, does not spread randomly. It is often a planned and deliberate activity. Accordingly, it depends a great deal on the presence of motivated offenders, on the existence of the opportunity for crime and on the orientation of the work of those who seek to control organized crime. In line with this so-called *situational approach*, the Member States are exploring ways to ensure that committing crime is made more difficult, that committing crime involves greater risks to the offender (in particular the risk of detection and apprehension) and that the possible benefits to the offender of committing a crime are decreased or eliminated.

Yet, even if the European Union Member States could effectively develop their laws and systems to prevent and control organized crime within their borders, this would not be enough. Preventing and controlling cross-border (organized) crime requires global cooperation. We have come a long way from the period when countries ignored crime beyond their borders. The speed with which the European Union Member States have agreed on cooperation—and the commitment that is being shown on a high political level on implementation—show that the Member States are very mindful of the dangers that organized crime poses to the individual, the community, the country and the international community. Over the past few years, there has been remarkable, indeed unprecedented progress in the national and

international response to organized crime, as shown by the strengthening of legislative frameworks, the reorganization of the criminal justice system, the growing network of bilateral and multilateral agreements and the strengthening of formal and informal international contacts. In the prevention and control of organized crime, we all still have a long way to go. Nonetheless, the first steps have been taken, and the experience in the European Union can help in charting out the possibilities as well as pitfalls on the road ahead (Joutsen 2002).

12.4 Conclusion

This chapter describes the ways in which Law Enforcement Agencies and Community Policing apply policies, models, managerial philosophies as well as new technologies to facilitate the reduction of crime while ensuring greater efficiency. More specifically, these issues are discussed in conjunction with challenges and problems faced by Community Policing. These new tools ensure that managers take the best possible decisions and enhance the efforts of police officers in the street by helping them do a better job. The chapter further discusses the European Union Cooperation in its fight against crime. Countries are aware of the fact that crime goes beyond their borders and that they cannot limit themselves to the national level in taking steps for the prevention and control of (organized) crime.

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Chapter 13

Social Media: Facilitator and Stimulator of Community Policing

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13.1 Introduction: Meet Wilco Berenschot, Modern Community Policing Officer in Heart and Soul

Meet the Dutch neighbourhood officer Wilco Berenschot, the police officer in Fig. 13.1 below. The picture reflects his nature, his personality. In an automatic response he connects with a kid. It is important to make contact and build relationships through which trust can be gained. Police officers like Wilco prevent the society from falling apart. That's the power of the neighbourhood officer.

For Wilco social media are a crucial 'tool on his belt'. On a daily basis he informs people about his experiences and what keeps him busy. He uses Twitter (@WT_Berenschot) to announce where his pop-up police station is located. He invites residents to pass by for questions or a simple cup of coffee. The pop-up police station is his way to eliminate all barriers for residents to contact the police. People come over to discuss diverse topics with him: These vary from nuisances with neighbours to advice on theft to drunken wanderers. He also uses Twitter to ask at whose place he is welcome to have his lunch (see Fig. 13.2 for examples from his Twitter account).

In the same city of Rotterdam, the second largest city in the Netherlands, the emergency control room of the police organized a 'Twittathon': from 7am until 10 pm on June 7th, 2012 all emergency calls¹ that came in were tweeted (@politie24 and #politie24). As a consequence residents got a better picture of the diversity of the work of police officers on an average day.

¹In case criminal investigation or privacy would be seriously harmed the call would not be shared on Twitter

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Fig. 13.1 Wilco Berenschot, neighbourhood officer in Rotterdam (NL), helping a kid

These are just some simple examples of how social media can contribute to Community Policing. Social media could be considered as a—or even as *the*—critical success factor for implementing Community Policing (CP). This chapter will show why social media are this critical for successful CP. After elaborating on the characteristics of social media, the role of social media in implementing and performing Community Policing is discussed. We further will elaborate on implementation of social media for security purposes in general. Next, we move towards practice, fitting social media in operational police tasks according to Community Policing philosophy. The subsequent section presents best practices of the use of social media supporting Community Policing. In all, this chapter illustrates benefits social media bring for Community Policing, but also dilemmas and challenges to be dealt with. However, we conclude that they are key to the successful implementation of Community Policing (cp. Chaps. 7 and 11).

13.2 Social Media, the Game Changer

The introduction and wide adoption of social media, offering services from Twitter, WhatsApp and Facebook to Instagram and many more, have had a huge impact on society. Social media are widely adopted in all cultures and countries with an estimated number of 2.2 billion users worldwide in 2016 (Fig. 13.3²).

²<http://www.statista.com/statistics/278414/number-of-worldwide-social-network-users/> retrieved on 07-13-2016.



Fig. 13.2 Examples of tweets sent by Wilco Berenschot

The impact social media has had on society is much larger than for example the impact of text-messaging (SMS). Social media provided a new range of possibilities; opportunities, which before were not possible or only for a few people. Social media enabled people to reach anyone in the world at any time and within seconds. Until then, this was a privilege only of journalists and mass media. Social media enabled everyone with access to the internet to reach all others. Social media affected the nature of information and information sharing itself (Goldsmith 2015).

13.2.1 *Strength and Weaknesses of Social Media for Community Policing*

Characteristics of social media can be identified using the SWOT method, mapping Strengths, Weaknesses, Opportunities and Threats Figure 13.4. Putting the SWOT method in this context enables us to analyse why and how social media are useful for Community Policing, and what threats should be dealt with. Several strengths of social media can be identified such as the low barrier (to send messages), accessible anytime and anywhere, direct communication channel (no intermediary is needed, anyone can reach anyone and everyone), transparent, people can easily have a

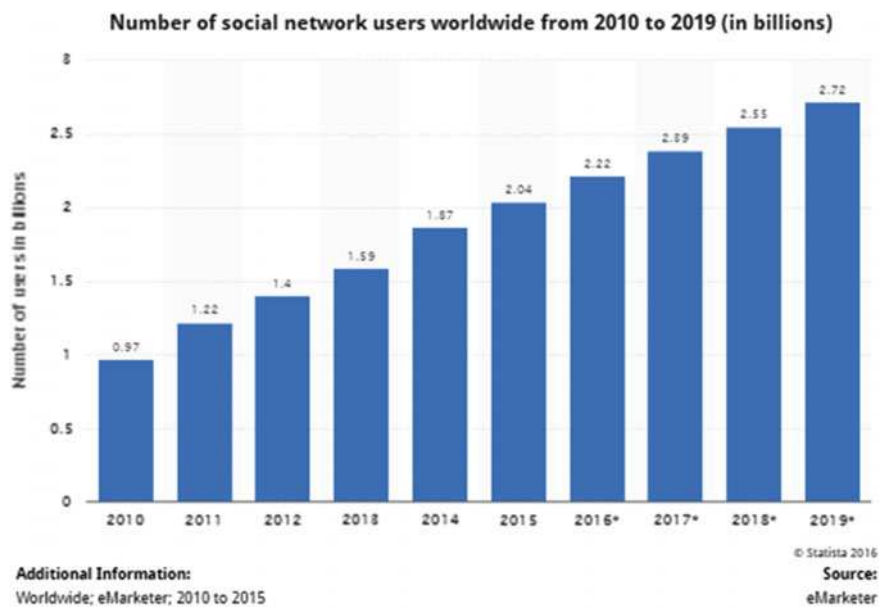


Fig. 13.3 Number of social media users world

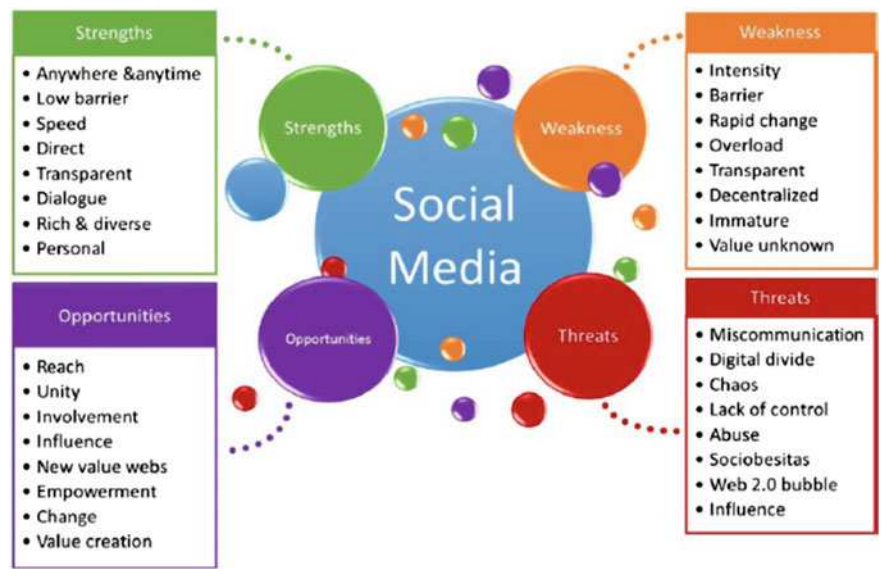


Fig. 13.4 SWOT of social media, presenting the Strength, weaknesses, opportunities and threats of social media

dialogue (instead of one-way communication), enriched communications with not only text but even videos and personal communication (de Vries 2011a).

Opposing to these strengths stand the weaknesses of social media. Since they are available anywhere at any time, social media can take lots of time. One can get lost in the overload of messages. And even though there is a low barrier to use social media for most people, to some people, for example the elderly, the barrier is (too) high. This can lead to a small ‘forgotten’ group. Another weakness relates to the high diversity of social media. Since the introduction of social media many different types of social media have been developed: Facebook, Instagram, LinkedIn and Foursquare are only a few of the popular media, all providing different features. Due to the diversity of social media and people using all kinds of media, it does not suffice to send a message via one platform alone when the objective is to reach all. A reverse side to transparency (one of the strengths) is traceability: social media leaves many digital tracks, and privacy is often debated. Though social media grows and evolves fast, it is still very immature and the general public still has to learn how to use it, e.g., they have to learn to realize there is no such thing as ‘delete’ on social media (despite of the new EU ‘right to be forgotten’). Once a picture or message is on the internet, ownership of and control by the original sender is lost (de Vries, 2011b, c). presents the complete SWOT analysis of social media.

This collection of strengths and weaknesses of social media enables the identification of opportunities for social media, but also of threats. Social media offer public security planners and citizens new communication channels for contesting, challenging, debating, aligning, organizing and participating in security processes, independent of location and at minimal costs. One of the opportunities is the support of Community Policing: It will increase chances for swift collaboration between the police and the community, together aiming for a safe and secure society. Collaboration of the police with the community can evolve into successful, more effective and efficient policing. This can be achieved by informing the community about how they can help and by explaining the legal boundaries for their contributions. The police can make use of the strengths of social media, e.g., anywhere and anytime, low barrier, speed, richness and dialogue to support the interaction with the public. Because of their characteristics social media make applying Community Policing strategies easier. In fact social media can be considered a basic element in Community Policing. The next paragraph will show how social media can positively effect Community Policing.

13.3 How Social Media Boosts Community Policing

Community policing and social media have one important element in common: They are both not bounded to hierarchical structures. Where police organisations traditionally are organised hierarchically, social media enable anyone throughout the organization to broadcast messages (Meijer and Thaens 2013). This is in conflict with the hierarchical police organisation. However, it is exactly in line with more innovative Community Policing practices in which local officers almost autonomously engage with the community. Social media not only assist Community Policing, they even stimulate the introduction of Community Policing. Authentic,

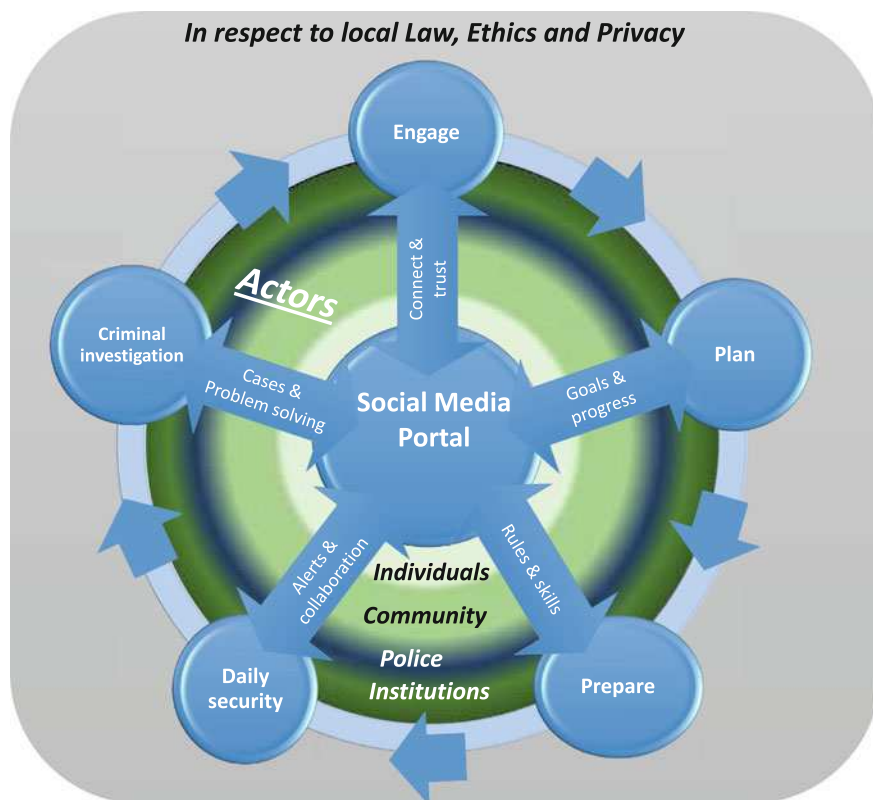


Fig. 13.5 The wheel of community policing reflects the core activities for (organizing) community policing (Source INSPECT project, www.inspec2t-project.eu/en/blog)

individual communication has a positive impact on the relation between a police officer and a community member and accordingly also on Community Policing (Meijer and Thaens 2013). Improving the type and the nature of communication is one important objective of Community Policing (Lieberman et al. 2013). Communication is a way to mobilize citizens and to motivate them to become active community members. Lastly, communication enables community members to offer suggestions for solutions to community problems (Lieberman et al. 2013).

In the research project³ INSPEC²T (cp. Chap. 11) the core elements of Community Policing are organized in a model (the *wheel of Community Policing*; cp. Fig. 13.5). Based on this model, and the core elements it presents, this paragraph will analyse where and how social media can add to introducing and executing a Community Policing strategy.

³Horizon 2020 project. Grand Agreement no 653749. Website: www.inspec2t-project.eu.

The *wheel of Community Policing* reflects the core elements, or activities of Community Policing. In the heart of the model a social platform is depicted supporting all activities. Around this platform the five core (policing) processes, crucial for introducing and maintaining Community Policing, are defined. Social media have a key role in every single process, and support the interaction between all actors involved.

13.3.1 Engage

Firstly, the community and the police need to become engaged. Brainard and Edlins (2015) stated that engagement should be the core element of Community Policing. Connections and trust are the basis for this engagement, and social media are crucial to connect and form trust. Social media can facilitate contact between police and community and between citizens amongst each other to get to know each other and hence to create social capital (Brainard and Edlins 2015). Social media can help police and community to develop a shared sense of purpose and a shared understanding of problems. These are crucial elements for Community Policing (Brainard and Edlins 2015). In doing so, social media can help in the continuous engagement between police and community.

Further, social media make it easy to find people with a specific interest (longtail⁴). For example, people with an interest in criminal investigation can find each other. Moreover, social media enable the police to be transparent and show the community what activities keep them busy (Jamieson 2016). The Twittathon which was organized by the control room of the Rotterdam police and the tweets Wilco Berenschot sends are good examples of providing transparency on daily activities. In reaction to the Twittathon many people responded on Twitter showing their surprise about the number and variety of activities the police is working on during the day (Kok 2012). The hashtag #Respect was used massively. The EU research project COMPOSITE suggested that the use of social media can raise public trust in the police by improving accessibility and transparency (Denef et al. 2012).

Social media are also useful to motivate local stakeholders and community members in becoming enthusiastic about Community Policing. Members of the community or police officers sharing their success stories on how they (were) helped—for example, in solving a crime—inspire others to help as well. Community members or other local authorities can use social media to ‘poke’ fellow community members to join in Community Policing efforts. Suggestions to invite fellow community members can be based on interests of a person or this could be matched automatically based on profile settings—while respecting privacy legislation.

⁴https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Long_tail.

13.3.2 Plan

Once there is a community, a plan has to be made: Goals need to be specified and the progress of meeting these goals should be monitored. People tend to share messages on things that bother them, amongst others on safety and security topics. The municipality of Utrecht—in cooperation with TNO—conducted an experiment to find out whether the so-called *Veiligheidsmonitor*⁵ (an annual survey assessing amongst others the subjective safety for cities and regions in the Netherlands) could be replaced by monitoring social media. Their experiment showed that, although replacement will probably lead to missing some insights, social media provide much relevant information on both subjective and objective safety and security issues (de Vries 2015). In addition to monitoring what is sent by the public, police can ask for specific input. If this option would be applied, it is crucial to communicate the frames and limitations to the community. This holds for follow-up procedures as well: to ensure community members, who put effort in providing input, will not become disappointed when follow-up procedures are not in line with their expectations. Moreover, social media can be used for big data analyses, which can also be input for prioritization of the safety and security agenda. Finally, social media can be useful to share updates on progress in realizing the goals.

13.3.3 Prepare

Once the plans are on the table, preparations can start. Rules have to be set and communicated and skills for Community Policing activities (e.g., engaging with the community, problem solving for police officers and rules of the engagement for community members) should be identified and developed or improved (e.g., with training). Social media are a perfect medium to communicate the rules of engagement. Furthermore, social media can be used to promote the diverse trainings community members can follow. Relevant trainings could be suggested based on skills summarized in a community members' (e.g., LinkedIn) profile. Also profile information and location information can help in suggesting what trainings might suit a person, again respecting proper privacy settings. The activities above support the operationalization of Community Policing. In order to make Community Policing a continuous process, and not a one-time event, these activities should be managed and measured continuously.

Operations of Community Policing can be split into: (1) daily security where time is a crucial element with more short-term planning and (2) criminal investigation, which per definition looks into past events and could take up to years. These two are discussed below.

⁵<http://www.veiligheidsmonitor.nl/>.

13.3.4 Daily Security

Daily security may be defined by maintaining and getting back to peace as a status quo and minimizing negative impact of disturbances. In daily security, social media can be used to collaborate and share alerts. Transparency and communication should lead to increased subjective safety and positive attitudes (Meijer et al. 2013). Social media can be monitored for messages people shared, information can be sent, questions can be asked, and police can easily start collaborating with the community on social media. Section 13.4 will further elaborate on these options for using social media.

13.3.5 Criminal Investigation

In processes related to criminal investigations real-time is less of an issue than in processes related to daily security: The golden hour has passed already. Social media can be used to share (cold) cases or to ask for (eye) witnesses. Further, data posted on social media by users might contain relevant information. Social media can also be used to share updates of specific cases (if this is possible). Just as for daily security, relevant information might be found in messages people send through social media but specific questions can be asked as well, and collaboration can be started easily with many community members. Although sending information is also an option, this possibility is less likely for criminal investigations.

The following three paragraphs will zoom in even further into the uses of social media for daily security and criminal investigations from a Community Policing perspective. The next section will elaborate on the options for using social media: monitor, send, ask and cooperate. The subsequent section will show how social media usage can fit into a Community Policing strategy, while the final section will provide best practices.

13.4 It All Starts with Monitoring

The prior sections analysed the characteristics of social media using the SWOT analysis method, and how social media can add to introducing and executing a Community Policing strategy. This section will present how using social media should be implemented using the social media cycle (Fig. 13.6), and provides examples of how social media can be relevant for Community Policing.



Fig. 13.6 Social media cycle: activities to use social media

13.4.1 Monitor: There Is Too Much Information Available to not Constantly Monitor Social Media

People share all kinds of information through social media, making this an extremely rich source of content for authorities such as Law Enforcement Agencies. People share what they see, smell, hear but also what they think, conclude, plan, what they consider to be dangerous, suspicious, etc. Hence, social media not only provide police officers with extra eyes and ears but also with extra intelligence. All this information can be accessed by (intelligent) monitoring of messages, photos and videos shared on social media. For example, information on crowdedness or a tense atmosphere amongst the crowd during events can be found on social media or information on stolen items but also irritations of people about garbage standing in the way or people smelling gas.

In the Netherlands, messages on Twitter are used as an early warning system for earthquakes. Analyses of the tweets sent by people living in the villages involved can confirm the occurrence of an earthquake sooner than any official organization can (de Vries 2014). It is evident that the large amounts of relevant information on social media make it crucial for law enforcement to monitor social media with proper filtering mechanisms. Accordingly, monitoring is in the centre of the social-activities cycle (cp. Fig. 13.6). Two of the challenges that come with

monitoring social media are that the overload of messages create a lot of (manual) work, which is scarce in police organisations, and that there are many different social media—so which platforms should be selected to monitor? The first conclusion of an experiment in which social media were used for early warnings during events was not to expect to be able to see everything. Secondly, it became clear that it is important to use proper social media monitoring tool(s) (Broekman and Menkhorst 2013). Some tools are better in providing a general picture based on many keywords, other tools are more focused on monitoring one or limited specific keyword(s) or are specialized in monitoring the image of the police. The goal of monitoring social media should be kept in mind in the selection of monitoring tools (see also Chaps. 11, 12 and 17).

On social media different target groups can be found in different places as in the physical world; for instance, one group of people may be Twitter users, while another group uses Facebook and a third group can mostly be found on Instagram. In a pilot at summer carnival in which Twitter was monitored many visitors were Facebook users instead of Twitter users. Consequently, although Twitter was still used frequently, some information came in later or not at all (Broekman and Menkhorst 2013). In order to know which social media to monitor, one should start with a target group analysis.

Moreover, different social media are used for different purposes (Jaitner and Kantola 2014). People tend to use Twitter at specific times (e.g., during a festival), while they use Facebook for planning activities and blogs to express opinions (Jaitner 2013, cited in Jaitner and Kantola 2014). In order to use social media for situational awareness it is crucial to have a complete overview of the platforms used, by whom and for what purposes (Jaitner and Kantola 2014).

13.4.2 Send: At Minimal Cost and Directly Reaching Anyone Information Can Be Shared

Secondly, the police can broadcast messages themselves and so share information with the community. Similar to monitoring social media, the selection of social media platforms depends on what the target groups are. An example of efficient ‘sending’ took place during the Summer Carnival in Rotterdam 2012 (Broekman and Menkhorst 2013). Moreover, there are challenges in sharing uniform information and not infringing on people’s privacy. A rumour was making the rounds online that someone was shot during the festival and this ‘news’ spread very fast on Twitter. After having verified that this was only a rumour, the police sent a tweet stating that no one was shot. It appeared that the public identified that this tweet was coming from a trustworthy source: The police message was retweeted massively, and the rumour was refuted in a short time.

Another initiative of ‘sending’ was organized by the police of Manchester: They sent tweets on all emergency calls in a timeslot of 24 h⁶ (#GMP24, #GMP24_2 and #GMP24_3), similar to the *Police 24* initiative in Rotterdam mentioned in the introduction of this chapter. Many people responded to the tweets, and they gained a better picture of the work done by the police and tried to help where relevant.

13.4.3 Ask: The Wisdom of the Crowd Can Be Accessed at Any Time

Thirdly, police can ask questions. This is where real Community Policing starts. When police officers intentionally ask questions to the community, they access the wisdom of the crowd and use social media in one of its strengths—as a bidirectional communication channel. The concept of ‘asking the community’ is not new: For many years television and radio shows have been broadcasting shows in which the public is asked to help the police with all kinds of cases. Social media, however, make it a lot faster and easier decreasing the threshold and the time it takes to ask the community questions. An example of ‘asking’ is the police crowdsourcing to access the cumulative knowledge of the community on cold cases using ‘webbed investigations’.

13.4.4 Cooperate: Not Only the Wisdom but also Time Can Be Accessed Directly and Worldwide

The fourth and last activity for which law enforcement can use social media is cooperation: continuous back and forth communication between police and citizens/community, debating and aligning and actually collaborating in security processes. Social media are aimed to enhance dialogue and ‘many-to-many interaction’ (Bertot et al. 2012). The diverse neighbourhood-WhatsApp groups⁷ are an example of using social media for cooperation in public safety. In these groups, police and citizens cooperate on a structural basis to assure safety and security in their neighbourhood. ‘Citizen journalism’ is another example of how the capacity of the crowd can be activated and utilized. The MH17 report (Bellingcat 2015) co-constructed by the crowd and initiated and led by the Bellingcat group, is a perfect example of what a community can accomplish and how the crowd can be an extension of the police.

⁶<http://www.gmp.police.uk/content/WebsitePages/653E722EAFEFB92780257D7300365D60?OpenDocument>, retrieved at 10-03-2016.

⁷A WhatsApp-group among neighbours to share remarks related to safety and security of the neighbourhood.

Box 1 provides a summary description of the four activities with examples of social media usage in the Netherlands. The following section will fit the usage of social media into the daily activities of policing using a Community Policing strategy.

Box 1. Descriptions of the four activities in the social media cycle together with examples of activities

Monitor: What do citizens publish on internet, without any question being posed by the safety and security organizations? What concerns citizens (content network)? And who are the people that make up the social network of those citizens (actor network)?

Send: The government sends information but does not expect an answer per se. Citizens are informed. They are asked either to take action or not. For example: "There is a major fire: keep doors and windows closed."

Ask: The security organization poses a question to citizens. Initiative and question come from the government. Like an AMBER Alert: "Missing: Jan de Bruin: 14 years old from the Hague. Blond hair, black jacket, white shoes. Missing since 26-10-2011. Photo at <http://amberalert.nl>. If you have any information, twitter: #missing @JandeBruin, Phone 0800-6070".

Cooperation: A citizen or safety and security organization poses a question with the aim of starting a dialogue or multilogue. This is not a one-off answer.

For instance, a tweet from @noniem: "@politie Why so many police at the #Dam in #Amsterdam?" and the reaction "@noniem, nothing going on. Police present because a #demonstration is expected today in #Amsterdam". Citizens can react again (dialogue) or more people can do that simultaneously (multilogue). (de Vries et al. 2011)

13.5 Fitting Social Media into a Community Policing Strategy

About two-thirds of the neighbourhood officers in the Netherlands state to have had valuable information from Twitter. This can be related to diverse topics such as nuisance, suspicious situations or tips on criminal investigations. One third of the officers even stated to have had a golden tip on a crime case through Twitter (Meijer et al. 2013). In their study on usage of social media for Community Policing Brainard and Edlins (2015) found that:

- Facebook had a dominant role and was by far the most popular platform for the police
- Police used YouTube only as a channel to send information
- Citizens were more active on social media than the police was

- Police did not actively respond to citizens and so tended to end possible conversations
- Only few threads were qualified as communication

Not only Brainard and Edlins (2015), but also Heverin and Zach (2010) concluded that the police tends to broadcast information through social media rather than interact and communicate with the community. If social media usage started outside of the communications department, the usage had a stronger relation to real police tasks (Meijer and Thaens 2013).

Social media can help in diverse police tasks, even more when a Community Policing strategy is applied. This section elaborates on using social media for the main police tasks *daily security* and *criminal investigation* while applying a Community Policing strategy. In order to respect the diversity of the task of daily security, it is split into the following sub-tasks: (1) prevention and surveillance, (2) early warnings and (3) law enforcement after an incident or crisis. The section concludes with observations that illustrate that the community does not always know best.

13.5.1 *Prevention and Surveillance*

In the Netherlands, neighbourhood police officers were introduced in the late seventies to get in touch with the community at a neighbourhood level. Today, almost all of them use social media to get in touch with people they would not as easily meet on the streets. The evaluation of the Dutch so-called ‘Twittercops’ showed that residents are enthusiastic about police officers’ use of Twitter (Meijer et al. 2013). Furthermore, in several neighbourhoods a neighbourhood group app, mostly using WhatsApp, has been introduced. In most cases these groups were initiated by the residents themselves; e.g., neighbours use their social media connection to warn each other in case they see something suspicious. Often the neighbourhood police officer is somehow connected to the group. He or she can answer questions or receive an extra patrol request from the neighbourhood. Also the neighbourhood police officer can send tips, for example, on burglary prevention. *Nextdoor*⁸ is a similar solution that is a great success in the United States and was recently introduced also in the Netherlands. This app enables exchanges about all kind of topics, next to safety and security related issues.

Another initiative of Community Policing using social media was introduced by the security region of Utrecht. They initiated the WAAKS⁹ project in which Community Policing would not cost any or only limited extra time for citizens. This can enhance durable participation in Community Policing. Extra eyes and ears are useful for the police. The idea is simple: People who have a dog regularly walk their routes and know the neighbourhood well. They ‘patrol’ (walk the dog) on a daily

⁸www.nextdoor.nl.

⁹<https://www.utrecht.nl/wonen-en-leven/veiligheid/wat-kunt-u-doen/doe-mee-aan-project-waaks/>.

basis including at night times. They can report not only on irregularities but also, for example, the status of maintenance of a street. An app has been developed for the security region of Utrecht aimed at dog owners to stimulate Community Policing. Based on a similar philosophy neighbourhood officer Kor de Jong, who serves in Rotterdam, started another initiative. In autumn 2016 he started a neighbourhood WhatsApp group for PokémonGo hunters. The players of this popular game are walking and searching the streets for Pokémons and might signal something suspicious or shoo criminals (NOS 2016).¹⁰

If local citizens share suspicious activities with each other or with the police, these weak signals can be valuable information for police officers. Either citizens or Law Enforcement Agencies can decide themselves whether they want to take further action or not. And if citizens take action, law enforcement should keep an extra eye, because solving an issue can be fine but can also move into citizens taking the law in their own hands.

13.5.2 Early Warning

The community can function as an early warner for emergencies or emergent risks. Open source data, social media being one of the significant contributors, enable big data analyses. Incidents that emerge such as panic caused in and by crowdedness can to a certain extent be signalled early by monitoring and analysing social media. During the 2012 summer Olympics in London social media were monitored, and when messages suggested unrest or conflicts police would check them out (Knibbs 2013). Sudden events, however, for example an explosion, are hard to predict based on big data analyses (Bouma et al. 2012).

13.5.3 Law Enforcement After an Incident or Crisis

Especially in the so-called ‘golden hour’—the first hour after an incident or robbery occurred—Community Policing can be of crucial help. It has the potential of contacting high volumes of local ears and eyes around an incident. No medium can activate these ears and eyes as quickly as social media can. Moreover, apps (e.g., an SOS alarm app) are being launched to alarm bystanders who are able to provide first aid in emergency situations. Social media are effective tools to reach out to a broad audience. After the storm at the festival Pukkelpop on 18th August 2011 in Belgium,¹¹ victims and people living around the festival area found each other on

¹⁰<http://nos.nl/artikel/2124822-politie-werkt-samen-met-pikachu-en-co.html>.

¹¹Dutch: https://nl.wikipedia.org/wiki/Noodweer_tijdens_Pukkelpop_2011, retrieved at 9-27-2016
English: https://nl.wikipedia.org/wiki/Noodweer_tijdens_Pukkelpop_2011, retrieved at 9-27-2016.

social media. People living in the surroundings of the festival area offered help and also offered their WiFi to make sure victims had access to the internet (Terpstra et al. 2012).

During a crisis social media can be used to ask the community for help in sharing information, e.g., on their situation, in order to create better situational awareness. The website www.ushahidi.com is an initiative aimed at exploiting this possibility, and digital humanitarian groups are increasingly involved. During crises considerable information is provided by citizens (de Vries et al. 2011). Another example of a crisis, where social media had a large impact, is the shooting incident at Virginia Tech in 2007. Only two hours after the shooting found place university students began a Facebook group called ‘I am OK at VT’, and within 24 h all missing persons had been traced. Traditional authorities would have needed much more time to make sure everyone was accounted for (de Vries et al. 2011).

13.5.4 Criminal Investigations

Social media can facilitate criminal investigations in different ways. Martine Vis, at the time of writing national director of social media for the Dutch police, stressed that social media are indispensable for both small and complex cases (de Vries 2012). Collaborating with the crowd can make the police more effective. Through social media the community can help in the collection of evidence. Often, the police are not the first at the scene of a crime, while bystanders share photos and information with the world. Research shows that the chances that a crime is solved by the police increases considerably based on the quality and quantity of information provided by the public (Meijer et al. 2013). Foster (2016) found that 54% of the responders in his study received information from the community through social media.

Social media can help to easily and quickly share questions with the community, and they help in letting the community know what exactly the police is looking for and channel citizens’ efforts. Based on the number of retweets in a vast numbers of cases (Heverin and Zach 2010), the community is willing to help in solving crimes and incidents. For receiving information, social media might not always be the best platform as an intake channel to receive reports or tips. It is arguable that the transparency of social media, in case of providing (witness) information, is a risk. In those cases social media can be used to spread the request for (eye) witness information, while alternative secure intake channels can be offered to report information to the police. The community can also help in validating (evidence) material, as they can add information to information already gathered.

On the other hand, criminals also use social media. They leave traces of themselves or of plans for a crime. Either smart searching software tools or crowdsourcing with the public can help the police to find and validate missing pieces of a puzzle. For example, the photo of a wanted person passing by on social media can provide valuable information on where this criminal might be caught.

Finally, the community can also help in solving cold cases. Not hampered by any kind of tunnel syndrome they can help defining new scenarios. Meijer et al. (2013) stated, based on their study on the effectiveness of social media usage by the police, that social media increases effectiveness of police-work thanks to better information-exchange between citizens and police. Box 2 showcases examples of how social media have supported criminal investigations.

Box 2. Success stories of using social media in criminal investigations

"A teenager was taken into custody after bragging about a boozed up hit and run on Facebook ... Officers were alerted about the crime thanks to a private Facebook message from another user." (Knibbs 2013)

An arson could be solved thanks to a message through Twitter

Through a Direct Message sent on Twitter a man asked to meet. He told about his suspicion of a weed plantation. (Meijer et al. 2013)

13.5.5 Community not Always Knows Best...

Sometimes, however, the community is moving in the wrong direction. Incorrect information provided by the community can be shared massively online, and this is how rumours are born.

In 2011 there was a shooting in the Ridderhof shopping centre in Alphen aan den Rijn, the Netherlands, and several people were shot.¹² Very quickly inaccurate information spread via Twitter. The name of the shooter was revealed, but he appeared to have a namesake which created confusion about the actual perpetrator. Another rumour circulated as well: The shooter had also shot his mother. The safety and security organisations were able to share their information online and quickly dispel the rumours. Another example of a rumour making the rounds in the community was during Project X in Haren,¹³ the Netherlands (de Vries 2013). Two rumours with great impact were created: One was that the Hell's Angels were on their way to join the riots, and the second was about a girl being killed during the

¹²https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Alphen_aan_den_Rijn_shopping_mall_shooting.

¹³A girl in Haren aimed to invite friends for her birthday party over Facebook. However, she forgot to click the button 'private' for the message. A massive number of people went to the small town of Haren, and the event ended in riots. For more on the events around Project X see: https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Project_X_Haren; accessed 10th March 2016.

riots. Because of incomplete information and difficulties in validating, the police was not able to refute the rumours.

Especially during a crisis, incorrect information that is spread widely in a community is a challenge and causes extra pressure for operational policing activities, particularly if media picks up on them. Panic can be caused by rumours that are spread, which adds to the many reasons for monitoring social media. Moreover, in case of an evident rumour, the best way to refute it is to stop it where it started: on social media.

Elaborating on how social media can be used in a Community Policing strategy as presented in this section, the next section will show some best practises of using social media for Community Policing.

13.6 Best Practices of Social Media Use for Community Policing

Many police officers in the United Kingdom and in the Netherlands successfully integrated social media into their daily work and post messages online on a daily basis. Social media became one of the common tools to use (Deneff et al. 2012). This section paragraph will presents some of the best practices.

13.6.1 Many Eyes and Ears Activated in Burgernet ('Citizen-Net')

Burgernet ('citizen-net') is a national Community Policing initiative of the Dutch police. Citizens can use both the text messaging broadcast and the app to receive location-based messages on missing or wanted persons. *Burgernet* was first introduced after a successful pilot in 2009, and in 2011 around 280 Dutch municipalities and 615.000 citizens (on average 6% of a municipality) were members (Meijer et al. 2013). Over 400 cases are broadcasted on a monthly basis, of which 40% concern a missing person. Other messages shared may be about burglaries, raids or tips for prevention. Information sent in by *Burgernet* members is in 10–11% of the broadcasted messages relevant for solving a case (Meijer et al. 2013).

13.6.2 Amber-Alert: The More People Are Looking for a Child that Is Missing the Better It Is

Another police initiated initiative is *Amber Alert*. *Amber Alert* is dedicated to missing children. Again both text messaging and social media are used to spread a

message about a missing child, and community members are asked to look for it. *Amber Alert* counts over one million Dutch members on a total population of 17 million. Moreover, some public organizations help spread the message (Meijer et al. 2013). A third police initiated Community Policing initiative that makes use of social media is the app ‘police searches’ (*de politie zoekt*). Being downloaded over 100.000 times within the first three weeks, this app initiated by de police of Amsterdam, was a success right from the start (Meijer et al. 2013). In half a year (November 2011–May 2012) 665 cases were broadcasted. Some cases got a response within only a few minutes. The Amsterdam police estimates that for between 15 and 25% of all cases that were broadcasted community members sent crucial tips for solving the case (Meijer et al. 2013).

13.6.3 Social Media Usage Is Much Appreciated by Citizens

Police activity on social media seems to be appreciated by the community. Meijer et al. (2013) found a spectacular increase of citizens contacting the police and in providing relevant information thanks to broad social media adoption by the Dutch police. In a pilot in 2011, one neighbourhood officer saw his number of followers on Twitter increase with 300 after just a few months. More than two-thirds of these followers had not had any contact with the police before (Haan 2011). A positive effect of police’s presence on Twitter is the image of the police being positively affected (Mauritz 2011). The community members appreciate the transparent character of Twitter, which provides a better picture of the everyday activities of the police.

13.6.4 Large Scale Adoption of Twitter Allows Officers to Reach All Types of People

Besides apps, the Dutch police uses social media massively with Twitter and Facebook being most popular. Meijer et al. (2013) found that over thousand police officers have a Twitter account. Hence, the Dutch police might well be the organization that holds the most Twitter accounts worldwide. According to M. van Leeuwen (Dutch police), Dutch officers use their Twitter accounts a lot: In one year over 400,000 tweets were sent. Followers of these accounts are diverse: They differ in education, age and gender (Meijer et al. 2013). Meijer et al. (2013) also found that community members consider contacting the police through Twitter as easier and with a lower barrier than through the regular channels. Especially when a community member is in doubt whether a suspicious circumstance is worth reporting, Twitter is experienced as a channel with lower barriers.

13.6.5 *Thousands of People Can Easily Find the Needle in the Haystack*

The Dutch police uses Twitter and YouTube to gather information and use it to solve crimes. They use social media for high profile cases, such as the Project X riots in Haren, but also for petty crimes. For example, the police in The Hague could identify the perpetrator of a crime after citizens recognised the perpetrator on a YouTube video the police had shared (Meijer et al. 2013). In 2010 a girl was indecently assaulted in the city Eindhoven. Camera footage of the assailant was broadcasted on the local TV's Crime watch program, which generated ten tips. When the same footage was disseminated via Twitter three times as many tips came in (de Vries et al. 2011). A further example of the power of crowdsourcing through social media is provided in Box 3.

Box 3. Example of a Dutch case solved with the help of crowdsourcing through social media

'The head-kickers'

In January 2013 (Eindhoven, the Netherlands) eight teenagers started a fight with one 22-year old student. They punched and kicked the victim, and left him for dead, unconscious. But the whole fight was taped by surveillance cameras.

The police was clueless about the offenders and decided to ask the community and shared the shocking video material. The community responded massively, the video went viral, being referred to as 'the head-kickers'. Within three days all eight of the teenagers had turned themselves into the police.

Although asking the community was very effective, there were also downsides to this case. In no-time the crowd took over control. The video was shared by many twitter-accounts. The teenagers were on, what one could call a digital public pillory. One innocent boy who appeared to have the same name as one of the offenders was threatened. In the end the judge decided to reduce penalties on all perpetrators, because their privacy was seriously affected.

Source: social media DNA (<http://socialmediadna.nl/kopschoppers/>)

This best practice chapter section showed a collection of examples on how social media successfully stimulates Community Policing practices. Although social media enable Community Policing, and although they can be considered a core element, they also bring challenges and dilemmas. The next section will debate some important dilemmas that come with everyday use of social media for Community Policing.

13.7 Dilemmas and Challenges

Considering the impact social media can have on our current lives, one might easily forget that they were adopted only a few years ago. The fact that social media are such ‘young’ media is a good explanation why diverse dilemmas and challenges still exist. This final paragraph will reflect on some of these dilemmas.

13.7.1 *Rules of Engagement*

Law and legislation are trailing behind, jurisprudence is scarce and ethical boundaries are vague and fickle. Social media are new to society. Neither individuals, nor organisations or society can oversee the real impact of social media. Privacy is a hot item, of course, but so are for example citizen’s rights. The web gives citizens more resources and information to find out about and take action on all kinds of crime on their own. Not so long ago the Dutch government decreed that business owners may not share their surveillance camera footage on the internet. This caused dissatisfaction among citizens. If Community Policing strategy is the aim, what are the (legal and ethical) options for the community members? The agenda setting research project Medi@4sec¹⁴ looks into these dilemmas asking questions like: To what extent are current ethical codes and laws and legislation also valid in the new, partly digital, world? Do other standards and values apply, and do we have to interpret things differently in the virtual domain? And if you want to enforce standards and values, how do you deal with violators, especially serious ones? There is always the possibility that a message is posted by someone else or from an anonymous profile.

13.7.2 *Liberty Above All or Limits and Restrictions?*

Society’s general opinion is that criminal activity, offline and online, must be restricted as much as possible. Having so much information online, should it be allowed to constantly monitor criminals and terrorists or anyone? Where do you draw the line? Is it permissible to monitor the digital behaviour of repeat offenders and other risk groups? And when is someone a repetitive offender, and when do they belong to a risk group? When can the community be asked to share images? Are all community members allowed to make videos of other people? Where do we draw the line with regard to privacy? And who decides to draw that line? Should the police be allowed to examine all internet traffic, observe and record suspicious conversations or behaviour or even record these? And can commercial

¹⁴Horizon 2020 project, grand agreement no 700281. Website:<http://media4sec.eu/>.

organizations do the same aiming to help the police (but possibly have a hidden agenda)? Up to what limits do social media create an environment in which people can communicate freely, happily and without consequences as is generally accepted at home or in a bar? At what point may or must security organizations intervene?

13.7.3 Future-Proof, but Still Highly Capricious

Not all citizens are familiar with an officer online. Not everyone knows how to find the police via social media. Similarly, many (neighbourhood) officers have a social media account but definitely not all of them. Should it become mandatory? Most officers use Twitter or Facebook, but what about other platforms used by other target groups?

New technological possibilities (future internet) and transparency (open innovation) are rapidly changing the landscape of social media. Increasingly, new media with new up- and downsides are launched. Early adopters make full use of all the applications and easily jump to new social media platforms. Within safety and security organisations, too, there are significant differences in the extent to which new media and new applications are being embraced. This results in inequalities to police services and accessibility. Furthermore, policy departments as well as law and legislation are late adopters. New applications are already in use before wider adoption is officially allowed. The 112 notifications on Facebook are a good example of what citizens expect from security organisations when it comes to the speed of adopting social media.

13.7.4 Home and Work: Strict Separation or a Generally Accepted Grey Zone?

New ways of working have already been blurring the line between home and work for some time. Social media accentuate this blurring. Work is taken home, messages are sent outside of work times and a response is easily sent. The same goes for personal affairs being done in between jobs in a work environment. Finding a good balance or separating work and home is not easy. One of the risks is that social media can draw conflicts into the personal atmosphere and vice versa. For instance, an angry citizen can use social media to find many personal details of a safety and security service employee and can then post threats, or worse. Unfortunately this is an increasing problem for civil servants in general.

13.8 Conclusion: Social Media Are Key to the Successful Implementation of Community Policing

The speed and accessibility, anytime and anywhere, enabling anyone to contact everyone and the transparency of it all make social media a facilitator and stimulator of Community Policing. In every element in the *wheel of Community Policing* social media can fulfil a significant role (cp. Fig. 13.5). Police officers can use social media to engage with the community. They can do so by giving insights on what keeps them busy during the day (transparency), being accessible (accessibility) and create a shared sense of purpose and problems or solutions. Messages on social media give information on subjective and objective safety and can lead to collaborative planning of community activities. Rules of engagement can be communicated through social media in the preparation phase. Moreover, necessary trainings can be suggested to community members based on target group analysis. Finally, social media are useful in executing operational activities of Community Policing: daily security and criminal investigations. They can be used to monitor or search for relevant information, send information, ask questions to the community and start collaboration.

When starting to use social media, it is crucial to start with monitoring. Too much information is available on social media; not paying attention to what is going on online can be a risk. Once monitoring is started, and there is a picture on where which (target) groups go at certain moments it can be fruitful to also share information, ask questions and/or start collaboration with the community.

Social media usage fits well in the diverse police tasks when applying a Community Policing strategy. Many police officers who use social media received useful tips from the community. For prevention and surveillance social media multiply the eyes and ears on the street. Analysing messages on social media can provide early warnings of potential incidents, and during a crisis these analyses often provide crucial situational awareness. Social media can show relevant pictures of incidents more quickly than police can arrive at the scene. People in the surroundings of an incident can be asked for help or as eyewitnesses. Also for criminal investigations social media can be used and have shown repeatedly to be valuable, e.g., for (anonymous) tips. Several best practises that were mentioned in this chapter proved the usefulness of social media. The introduction and wide adoption of social media is, justly, praised by Community Policing advocates, but dilemmas and challenges have also arisen. Amongst others the immaturity and recent adoption of social media seems responsible. Lack of regulations on social media usage by law enforcement is one of the reasons these dilemmas and challenges still exist (see also Chaps. 2, 3, 4 and 5).

Although there is still much to discover and regulations and legislation are not up to date yet, the safety and security domain should profit from the opportunities social media has to offer. Starting with searching and monitoring on social media, most police officers can start to benefit fairly risklessly. As a next step, they can start sharing messages about their daily activities to gain presence and personality

and/or ask the community for help in low-profile cases. Moreover, Community Policing can be boosted and justly receives much attention. Now is the time for practitioners and academics to work together for best practices in the next generation of Community Policing.

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Chapter 14

Mobile Communications for Community Policing

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14.1 Emergency Services Mobile Communications in Europe

Community Policing is an emerging concept, which is utilising experience and traditions of conventional policing (cp. Chaps. 3–5). From a technological perspective, it is unlikely that dedicated wireless communication systems will be built for specific use of Community Policing (CP), especially as in the last decade significant expenditure was allocated to the development and installation of the wireless communication systems specifically dedicated to emergency services. Therefore, common sense dictates that Community Policing will rely on the existing wireless communication infrastructure developed for emergency services. However, due to the nature of Community Policing, it is required that CP officers should be easily accessible by the general public who have no access to the dedicated professional networks. Therefore, it is necessary that CP officers have access to consumer technologies for communication with the general public.

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In this chapter we consider *only* wireless emergency communication networks that enable communications between the first responders in the field, people affected in the incident and command control staff. The focus of this chapter is on wireless communication technologies, which are being used by the first responders in Europe and worldwide and are intended to be used by Community Policing in their day-to-day operations. We leave organisation procedures of how these networks are being utilised and what kind of information is transmitted over these networks outside the scope of this chapter. Emergency dialling numbers (like ‘999’ in the UK or ‘911’ in the USA) and automated dialling broadcast emergency notification services are also not considered here.

The emergency services networks can be classified as infrastructure-based and infrastructure-less networks (Markarian 2016; Goldsmith 2005; Heine 1998). Infrastructure-based wireless networks, as follows from their name, require a certain infrastructure, which needs to be installed (and maintained) prior to any services to commence. The most typical examples of infrastructure-based networks are cellular networks and wireless local area (LAN) networks, which have base stations installed in the required geographical area (in the case of LAN utilising wireless fidelity (WiFi) networks these base stations are called access points/AP). Installation of these base stations requires thorough planning (including radio frequency (RF) planning, selection of best locations, etc.) and constitutes a significant part of the overall cost of the network (Heine 1998). Such base stations enable radio access for mobile terminals to a backbone network, which is also responsible for control of the base stations. A typical infrastructure-based topology is shown in Fig. 14.1 (Hossain and Leung 2008) and the following abbreviations are used: Base Station (BTS), Base Station Controller (BSC) and Mobile Switching Centre (MSC).

Infrastructure-based networks have no backbone infrastructure, they do not require costly installations and maintenance and could be established on an ad hoc basis, as required. Typical infrastructure-less topology is also known as mesh networks (Markarian 2016; Hossain and Leung 2008), where each user (also known as *node*) is capable of relaying data for the network to other nodes by cooperating in the distribution of data with the help of routing protocols (Campista et al. 2008). A wireless mesh network is a wireless local area network (WLAN) that utilises decentralised connection arrangements. The most common topologies are known as *full mesh topology* and *partial mesh topology*. In a *full mesh topology*, each node is connected directly to each of the other nodes in the network. In a *partial mesh topology*, only a few nodes are connected to all the others, while most of the nodes are connected only to nodes with which they exchange the data. These topologies are presented in Fig. 14.2.

Each of the architectures (infrastructure-based and infrastructure-less) have their advantages and drawbacks. Infrastructure-based networks utilise network resources more efficiently and can provide the required quality of service (QoS) to the registered users (Markarian 2016; Goldsmith 2005). In infrastructure-based networks mobile terminals communicate directly with the base station; there are no multi-hop paths and as a result these networks have lower delay and loss, higher data rates and more flexibility compared to infrastructure-less networks (Markarian 2016). Therefore, the performance of infrastructure-based wireless networks in general is much better than

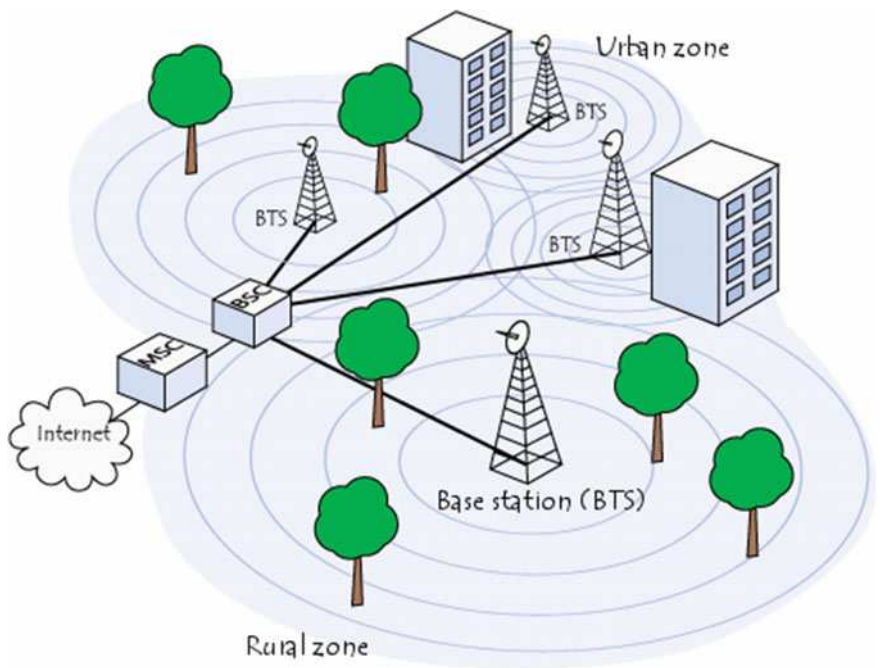


Fig. 14.1 A typical infrastructure-based network topology

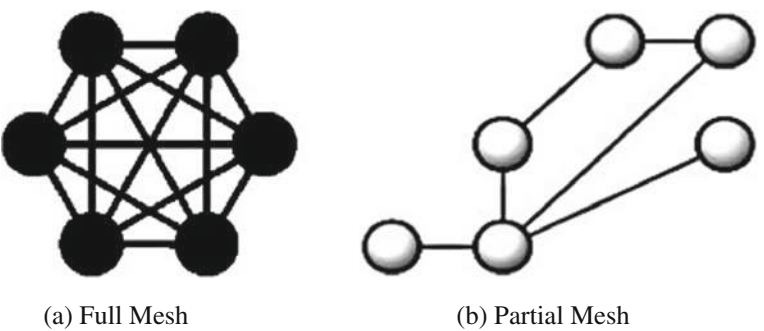


Fig. 14.2 Infrastructure-less mesh network topologies

in networks without infrastructure (Goldsmith 2005). However, these advantages are delivered at a significant cost of capital expenditures (CAPEX) and operating expenses (OPEX) and even with these high costs, it is not always feasible (or practical) to install these networks in certain locations. This is where infrastructure-less networks are the best (and sometimes the only) option (Markarian 2016).

Currently, infrastructure-based emergency services mobile networks deployed by various agencies in Europe comprise a mix of analogue and digital professional

mobile radio (PMR) and trunked mobile radio networks. In most countries the legacy analogue networks, which were prone to eavesdropping and provided little or no data capability, have been migrating to digital technologies such as TETRA¹ and TETRAPOL.² The TETRA standard has been specifically developed to have a scalable architecture allowing economic network deployments ranging from single site local area coverage to multiple site wide area national coverage (see Footnote 1).

In the UK, for example, Airways Solutions Ltd. provided the first public safety network based on the TETRA technology standard since 2001. The deployed Airwave network is based on terrestrial trunked radio specifications, as defined in the European Telecommunications Standards Institute (ETSI), TETRA standard (see Footnote 1). Initially, the TETRA standard provided an attractive alternative to analogue radio networks by delivering critical mobile voice communication services supported by other specific services required by emergency services.³ These included (but were not limited to) a group calling mode in which a single button push will connect the user to the users in a selected call group and/or a dispatcher. It also supports the use of the terminal in a one-to-one walkie-talkie mode, but without the normal range limitation since the call still uses the network (see Footnotes 1 and 3). TETRA terminals can act as mobile phones (cell phones) with a full-duplex direct connection to other TETRA users or the public switched telephone networks (PSTN). Emergency buttons, provided on the terminals, enable the users to transmit emergency signals to the dispatcher, overriding any other activity taking place at the same time. In addition to voice and dispatch services, the TETRA system supports several types of data communication such as status messages and *short data services*. Unlike legacy analogue systems, TETRA provides for authentication of terminals, protection against eavesdropping, air interface encryption and end-to-end encryption.

Figure 14.3 shows the current status of TETRA networks in Europe.⁴ As follows from Fig. 14.3, European countries predominately are deploying (or planning to deploy) either TETRA or TETRAPOL, the exception being Latvia, which has recently decided to upgrade its First Responder (FR) communications with a Motorola ASTRO 25 system based on the North American Project 25 (P25) standard (see Footnote 4).

The specific services offered by TETRA networks can be summarised as follows (see Footnote 1):

- Wide area fast call set-up ‘all informed net’ group calls
- Direct Mode Operation (DMO) allowing ‘back to back’ communications between radio terminals independent of the network
- High level voice encryption to meet the security needs of public safety organisations

¹ETSI EN 300 392-2 v3.2.1.

²www.tetrapol.com.

³“TETRA Association”. TETRA Association. 2012-03-22. Retrieved 2012-03-28.

⁴PPDR-TC White Paper. The Strategic Roadmap for Next Generation (Broadband) PPDR Communication Systems (Final Report by the EU FP7 PPDR-TC Project).

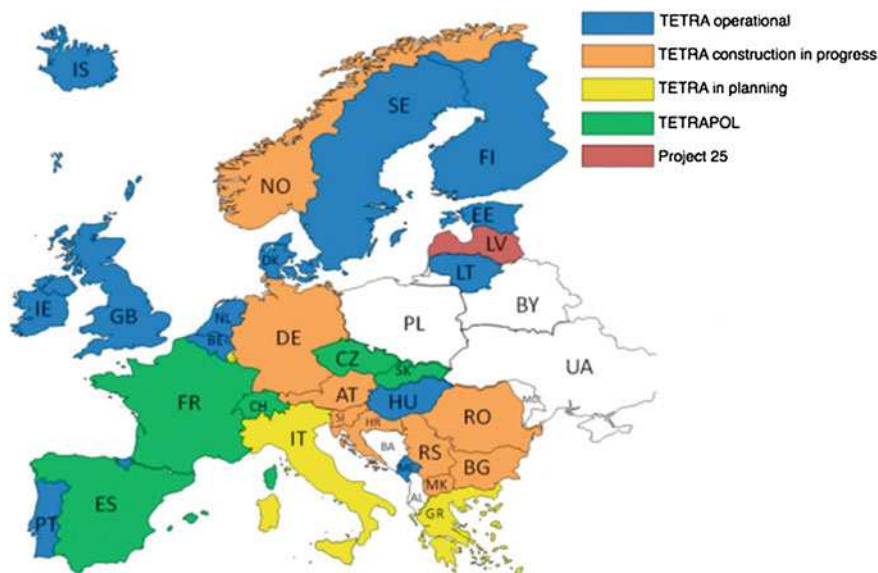


Fig. 14.3 Current status of digital mobile networks in Europe

- An Emergency Call facility that gets through even if the system is busy
- Full duplex voice for PABX and PSTN telephony communications.

However, requirements of emergency services and Community Policing are growing fast (e.g., streaming live mobile video, upload/downloading high resolution still images, location based real-time services) resulting in the need of on-demand mobile broadband services, and neither TETRA nor TETRAPOL can meet these requirements in full. Therefore, emergency services around Europe are looking for alternative solutions, which potentially could replace the existing TETRA and TETRAPOL networks.

The infrastructure-less networks are not widely used, with an exception of a few WiFi-based mobile ad hoc network systems (MANETs) (Loo et al. 2012; Boukerche 2008; Toh 2002), which were obtained for trial and piloting purposes. A MANET is defined as a continuously configured infrastructure-less wireless network of mobile terminals (nodes). MANET allows free movement of each node in any direction and as such supports the establishment of new links with other nodes. Each node forwards all the traffic to corresponding nodes according to a routing protocol, which constitutes a core part of MANET, as it defines its overall performance. MANET could operate as a self-contained network or be a subnet in a larger network. Combined with a capability for rapid configuration of network architecture, MANETs are ideally suited for rapidly deployable scenarios faced by first responders and Community Policing officers. However, as the total throughput is shared between all users, the performance of MANETs deteriorates as the number of users in the network grows dramatically (Loo et al. 2012; Boukerche 2008; Toh 2002).

14.2 Requirements for the Next Generation Emergency Networks

Limitations of the existing TETRA and TETRAPOL networks were addressed by various governments in the EU and in a number of research projects sponsored by the European Union FP7 Programme. For example:

- Project INFRA (Innovative and Novel First Responders Applications)⁵ developed interoperability layer allowing collaboration between the TETRA, TETRAPOL and broadband networks.
- Project HIT-GATE (Heterogeneous Interoperable Transportable GATEway for First-Responders)⁶ was concerned with the development and verification of the gateway allowing communications across the various networks currently used by first responders.
- Project PPDR-TC (Public Protection and Disaster Relief Transformation Centre)⁷ was concerned with the definition of the most typical user scenarios and identification of the most suitable candidate technologies for future emergency service networks.

In the UK, after in-depth consultation with all stakeholders, the decision was made in 2011 to initiate the Emergency Services Mobile Communications Programme (ESMCP). This is a Home Office led, cross-government programme to address the need to provide a new mobile communications capability to the emergency services and other users in the UK, representing approximately 250,000 users. It is required that these new services support interoperability with the existing systems, geographic coverage and availability. As it is stated in the relevant documents (Emergency Services Mobile Communications Programme (ESMCP) 2011), one of the main Programme's objectives is to replace the existing TETRA networks with an emergency service network (ESN) provided on a standard 4G LTE (4G Long Term Evolution) commercial network, enhanced by special features required by public safety, resulting in cheaper, better and smarter networks and services.⁸

In the USA, the National Public Safety Telecommunications Council (NPSTC) decided on LTE in 2009 as its platform for a national network operating in the 700 MHz band (Jackson 2009). Similar requirements were developed in the ECC FM49 Report 199 (see Footnote 5) where eight generic operational communication

⁵**INFRA:** Innovative and Novel First Responders Applications (Project reference: 225272).

⁶**HIT-GATE:** Heterogeneous Interoperable Transportable GATEway for First-Responders Project reference: 284940.

⁷**PPDR-TC:** Public Protection and Disaster Relief Transformation Centre (Project reference: 313015).

⁸<https://www.gov.uk/government/publications/the-emergency-services-mobile-communications-programme/emergency-services-network>.

scenarios are defined for emergency network subscribers. These services are presented and grouped as following (see Footnote 9 and 13):

- **Voice (common voice services)**
 - Push-to-talk
 - Private call
 - Group call
 - Emergency/priority call
 - Call retention/busy queuing
 - Direct mode operation
 - Ambience listening
 - Voice over the public switched telephone network (PTSN)
 - Area selection/dynamic group number assignment (DGNA)
- **Narrowband data (data transmission up to 384 kbps)**
 - Messaging and notifications
 - Low resolution photos
 - Automatic telemetrics
 - Location-based information
 - Mobile workspace applications
 - Access to internal databases
 - Access to external sources
- **Broadband data (data transmission above 384 kbps)**
 - Rapid file transfer
 - High resolution photos
 - Remote operations
 - Mapping with geographic information system (GIS) layers
 - Mobile workspace applications
 - Access to internal databases
 - Access to external sources
- **Video (data transmission with tighter latency and coding requirements)**
 - Video transmission
 - Video file transfer
 - Video call
- **Transversal services (extension of voice and data capabilities and performance)**
 - Extension of coverage
 - Extension of availability
 - Security tools

- **Challenging services (services enabled by the next generation of technologies)**
 - Proximity services
 - Augmented reality.

The operational needs for emergency services networks can be summarised in the following categories (see Footnote 4):

- **Typical coverage area requirements:** The coverage area of the emergency service network needs to encompass the whole geographic area of the mission, which may have the dimensions of a metropolitan area network or be even wider. In addition, on-demand indoor coverage configurations [utilising infrastructure-less networks, (Markarian 2016)] must also be available, especially in basements, tunnels or large and crowded environments. If different communication networks are implemented, effective interoperability or hand-over conditions must exist.
- **Required network topology:** Availability and reliability are crucial for CP applications, implying that the network topology must be resilient and self-organising. The ideal in terms of performance is to have an infrastructure-based network. However, if an infrastructure-based network is not available (damaged or no coverage in the particular area), an infrastructure-less configuration will be required in which all the nodes can be interconnected to each other as well as with the command and control centre (CCC).
- **Data throughput:** The capacity requirements of CP applications vary depending on the type of data and time required for transmissions. Uplink and downlink bandwidth may vary from a few to several Mbps.
- **Mobility requirements:** Emergency services networks (both infrastructure-based and infrastructure-less) can be deployed in highly dynamic environments with a wide variety of mobility requirements.
- **Interoperability requirements:** Ideally, backward interoperability with legacy networks and ability to roam from one type of network to another using different technologies and protocols is required.
- **Service availability, reliability and resilience:** Service availability for mission-critical applications must provide low start-up times and high levels of operational availability (higher than 99.5%). Service reliability and resilience depend on the mobile technology to be used, which must have sufficient levels of built-in redundancy.
- **Performance requirements:** Emergency services networks should provide low latency and high QoS in delivering real-time data communications.
- **Security:** Security requirements are dependent upon the nature of the data exchanged. Using frequency bands exclusive to security agencies may not be enough to ensure security. End-to-end encryption and the use of secure device operating systems may be required. The implementation of data encryption algorithms and user authentication methods is therefore essential to comply with the security level of most PPDR applications.

- **Specific voice communication requirements:** Mission-critical voice communication should consider push-to-talk (PTT), full-duplex voice systems and group call. Key elements for the definition of mission-critical voice communication are direct mode, talker identification, emergency alerting and audio quality.
- **Specific data communication requirements:** Requirements capability to transmit narrowband data (messaging), broadband data (images and video) and location-based services (asset tracking and mapping).

14.3 Future Emergency Services and Community Policing Networks

14.3.1 Infrastructure-Based CP Networks

Long Term Evolution (LTE) (Cox 2012) is the most promising networking technology capable of meeting all the requirements for ESNs. LTE or the E-UTRAN (Evolved Universal Terrestrial Access Network) was developed by the 3GPP standardisation group and finalised in release 8 (R8) of the standard.⁹ It has been developed as a next generation of wireless mobile communication systems in response of demands for high spectral efficiency, high peak data rates, short roundtrip time as well as flexibility in frequency and bandwidth.¹⁰

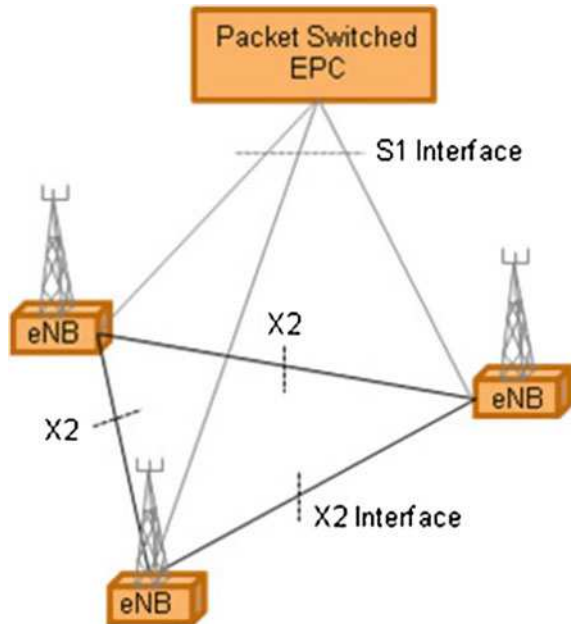
The LTE access network is simply a network of base stations, also known as evolved NodeB (eNB), generating a flat architecture as shown in Fig. 14.4 (see Footnote 9). Unlike GSM or UMTS networks it has no centralised controller, and the eNBs are normally interconnected. Such an architecture allows redistribution of the network intelligence amongst the base stations leading to significant reductions in the connection set-up and faster handover. This allows better user experience during real time data sessions (see Footnote 9; Sesia et al. 2011; Dahlman et al. 2014). In a simplified explanation: unlike UMTS it is possible to install just one (or a few) LTE base stations (eNBs) with evolve packet system (EPC) software and organise a broadband wireless communication services between mobile terminals without having a backbone network. This is a particularly attractive feature of LTE for emergency services and CP applications, which often require rapid installation of temporary base stations.

The attractive features of LTE for emergency services and CP applications and the general improvements in real-time data services were achieved due to the introduction of the evolved packet core (EPC) (see Footnote 9). Unlike UMTS (Sesia et al. 2011) networks, where a subscriber is assigned an IP address when data

⁹www.3gpp.org.

¹⁰<http://www.3gpp.org/specifications>.

Fig. 14.4 Architecture of a typical LTE network



service is established and released from this IP address when data service is terminated, in a LTE network each subscriber unit is assigned an IP address during the switch-on and released from this IP address when a device is switched off. Therefore, EPC is purely IP based and both the real time and data communication services are carried by the IP protocol with all its inherent advantages (Kevin et al. 2011).

Another strong argument in support of LTE for emergency services and CP applications is a wide spread of already installed LTE networks, as shown in Fig. 14.5.

The wide availability of deployed LTE networks opens opportunities for first responders and Community Policing efforts to lease a publicly operated LTE infrastructure instead of managing their own private network infrastructure (see footnote 4). This option may not be as easily found for alternative wireless broadband technologies such as WiMAX¹¹ (Noordin and Markarian 2007), which is capable of delivering similar performance but is limited to a few specific applications such as airport surface data links (AeroMACS)¹² and telemedicine (Zvikhachevskaya et al. 2009). As follows from Fig. 14.4 and LTE specifications (see Footnote 9 and 10), LTE is the most promising technology for future emergency services and CP applications as it is able to provide specific public safety requirements and supports a high data rate, low latency network as outlined earlier.

¹¹<https://standards.ieee.org/about/get/802/802.16.html>.

¹²<https://www.eurocontrol.int/sites/default/files/article/content/documents/communications/aeromacs-ectrl-briefing-012016.pdf>.

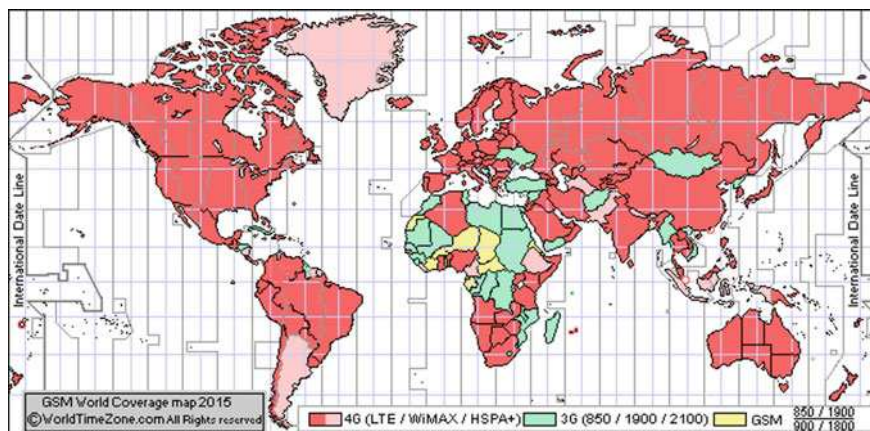


Fig. 14.5 LTE world coverage map *Source* <http://www.worldtimezone.com/4g.html>

To ensure that an LTE system can meet first responder and Community Policing requirements and deliver the desired features and services, certain modifications to the existing 3GPP specification are required. Such a modified network, called enterprise private network, constitutes communications infrastructure that connects computers and mobile devices being used by first responder and Community Policing across the command chain, facilitating continuous rich data accessibility. The key purpose of an enterprise private network is to interconnect both single users and groups of users providing satisfactory performance of voice/video/data signals combined with reliability and security. In the commercial world, enterprise private networks are used by companies for enhancing and protecting business operations (Minoli and Minoli 2002).

In response to market demand, HUAWEI has developed enterprise LTE (eLTE)—LTE Broadband trunking system for first responder and CP operations¹³ (Enterprise LTE 2013). This is the first LTE broadband trunking solution to provide voice and video dispatching, which meets almost all requirements outlined earlier and greatly increases efficiency of first responder and Community Policing operations. The eLTE System utilises advanced wireless broadband technology, providing unprecedented data rates (100 Mbit/s downlink and 50 Mbit/s uplink) and enabling previously impossible services. As a result, a single network can support multimedia trunking, voice and video scheduling, high-definition video surveillance, ultra-remote data acquisition and mobile office services.

Other features include a compact core network, distributed base stations and terminal devices that can be used in harsh outdoor environments. The supported services include:

¹³<http://e.huawei.com/en/products/wireless/elte-access>.

- Mobile office
- Remote data acquisition
- VoIP
- Mobile Video streaming and video surveillance.

These services, combined with their ease of deployment, low CAPEX/OPEX and high maintenance efficiency, make eLTE a strong candidate for future infrastructure-based wireless networks for first responder and Community Policing applications.

14.3.2 Infrastructure-Less Networks

As mentioned earlier, infrastructure-less ad hoc mesh networks cannot compete with infrastructure-based networks on QoS characteristics. However, infrastructure-less networks are finding more and more applications in scenarios where either extension of the existing infrastructure-based networks or temporary coverage is required (Markarian and Singh 2008; Panitzek et al. 2011). Typical examples include rapidly deployable applications in the areas of no coverage (basement, underground, rural areas) or scenarios where infrastructure-based networks are switched off deliberately (to prevent remote activation of explosive devices) or due to natural disasters (flooding, earthquake, tsunami, etc.). There is also a special case when infrastructure-less communication systems are used for covert surveillance by security agencies as shown in Fig. 14.6.



Fig. 14.6 Infrastructure-less communication system in a typical covert surveillance application (Picture courtesy of Rinicom Ltd [www.rinicom.com])

The most common type of infrastructure-less communication system are IP based ad hoc networks, which unlike conventional infrastructure-based wireless solutions constantly monitor channel state information and reconfigures communication paths according to the predefined criteria and instant channel condition. The system is intrinsically capable of self-healing, meaning that if one node can no longer operate or its communication link is not suitable for the selected service (e.g., real-time video transmission), the other nodes in the network can still communicate with each other, directly or through one or more intermediate nodes, which is done with the help of a routing algorithm.

As mentioned earlier, most of the legacy ad hoc mesh networks are WiFi based and as such did not find a wide usage in first responder and Community Policing applications due to well-known drawbacks of WiFi systems:

- *Security*: There were a number of reports proving limitations in WiFi security.
- *Speed*: Since WiFi has no provisions for QoS, users cannot be guaranteed the desired data rates.
- *Range*: WiFi is developed as a LAN, and hence its range is limited to a hundred metres.
- *Reliability*: When the number of users in the network exceeds the limit, WiFi MAC implements the 'First In First Out' route, meaning that users could be kick-out from the network without any prior warning.

However, recently a number of proprietary solutions have appeared on the market utilising advanced technologies to eliminate drawbacks of WiFi systems (Markarian and Singh 2008; Panitzek et al. 2011).¹⁴

The two most widely accepted infrastructure-less systems are those provided by Rinicom Ltd. (UK) and Persistent Systems Inc. (USA). Both systems are capable of supporting different types of services by allowing service priority that considers various factors including radio path stability, expected battery life, packet loss, jitter, delay, etc. This allows special applications that adapt to network conditions, while service aware routing aligns to provide the desired quality of experience (QoE) for the user, as shown in Fig. 14.7 (Markarian and Singh 2008; Panitzek et al. 2011).

Typical characteristics of these systems are shown in Table 14.1.

Acceptance of these ad hoc mesh systems by first responders and for Community Policing efforts is clearly divided by geographical areas, where majority of Wave Relays are utilised in the USA, while the majority of PodNodes is used in the UK and Europe (Marco et al. 2015).

¹⁴<http://www.logicbuy.com/features/7-disadvantages-of-using-public-wifi-and-public-wifi-solutions>.

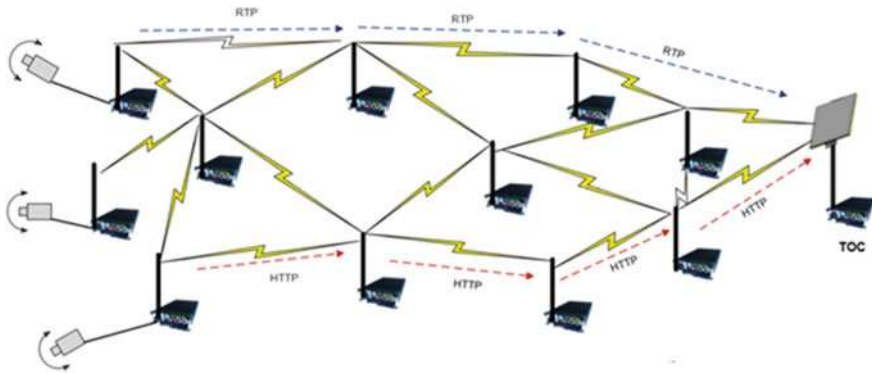


Fig. 14.7 Service oriented routing

14.3.3 Hybrid Infrastructure-Based and Infrastructure-Less Networks

As already outlined, both infrastructure-based and infrastructure-less systems have their own strong and weak points, and are widely used by first responders around the world, while the selection of a system depends upon the existing operation scenarios. However, there are still a number of scenarios where neither of these systems can meet end-user requirements and provide the desired performance. Some of these scenarios are listed below:

- Rapid installation of infrastructure-based system does not allow sufficient time for installation of microwave or satellite-based backhails.
- LTE base station (eNodeB) is installed on a vehicle and is moving or changing its location in relation to other base stations in the network.
- eNodeB is installed at a challenging environment (relatively low height, near line of sight (NLOS) or non line of sight (LOS)) and microwave point-to-point link cannot provide the desired performance due to RF propagation limitations.
- A temporary ad hoc network needs to be seamlessly integrated with the existing infrastructure-based network.

The above scenarios (and many more not mentioned here) can be summarised as scenarios where mobile ad hoc mesh backhaul is required by the infrastructure-based networks, which could be considered as a hybrid network consisting of infrastructure-based and infrastructure-less components.

The idea of mobile mesh backhaul is not new and first publications have appeared since 2007 describing various scenarios and solutions (Romain and Navid 2015; Marco et al. 2015; Rayment 2007; see Footnote 12). Figure 14.8 illustrates current network topologies with mesh backhauling (Romain and Navid 2015).

Table 14.1 Characteristics of the leading IP-based Ad-Hoc mesh systems

Category	Variable	PodNode-R-SD	Wave relay 4	Wave relay 5	PodNode-R-HD-MIMO
Connectors	Camera	12 pin female (neutrik MRF12)	N/A	Fully integrated H.264 HD video encoding/decoding	Fully integrated H.264 HD video encoder/decoder
	Network	12 pin male (neutrik MRM12)	10/100 ethernet (2)	USB host, ethernet	10/100 ETHERNET (2), USB
	Battery	4 pin male (binder 99 9207 00 04)	3-pin twist lock	Standard twist-lock connector	4 pin male (binder 99 9207 00 04)
Power	Power consumption	22 W max	Average –4.2 W Peak –16.5 W	Not on datasheet	15 W max
Physical	Dimensions	20.2 cm × 12 cm × 5.6 cm	19.8 × 7.6 × 3.2 cm	3.81 cm × 6.6 cm × 20.07 cm	5.6 cm x 8 cm × 21 cm
	Weight (excl., including) battery	1047 g, 1618 g	499 g, 844 g	490.5 g, 839.1 g	<1 kg
	Enclosure	IP rated	IP67 rated	IP68 Rated	IP rated
	Temperature	–10 to +45 °C	–40° to 85°C	–40 to 85 °C	–25 to +45 °C
RF Interfaces	Antenna	TDMA transmit and receive	Transmit and receive	3 × 3 MIMO technology	2 × 2 MIMO
	RF frequency	UHF, L-Band, S-Band	Full spectrum from UHF to 4.9 GHz	UHF, L-Band, S-Band	Full spectrum from 450 MHz to 6 GHz
	Modulation	COFDM, QPSK, 16 QAM, 64 QAM (adaptive)	OFDM, DSSS, CCK	OFDM (64-QAM, 16-QAM, QPSK, BPSK)	COFDM (with adaptive modulation up to 256 QAM)
	Output power	30 dBm max (1 W)	33 dBm max (2 W)	6 W	30 dMm as a standard, higher output powers are available on request
	Output power tuning	0.5 dB steps	1 or 5 db steps		0.5 dB steps
	Bandwidth	5–20 MHz in 1 MHz steps	5, 10, 20 or 40 MHz	2.5 MHz, 5 MHz, 10 MHz, 20 MHz, 40 MHz	2.5–40 MHz in 2.5 MHz steps
	Throughput/mesh capacity	Up to 50 Mbps (PHY layer throughput)	41 Mbps UDP	150 Mbps	180 Mbit/s

(continued)

Table 14.1 (continued)

Category	Variable	PodNode-R-SD	Wave relay 4	Wave relay 5	PodNode-R-HD-MIMO
MESH	Routing	Smart routing proven in over 500 installations	Proprietary wave relay [®] MANET routing	No information	Proprietary smart routing, proven in over 500 installations
System control		Through standard web browser	Secure web interface	Android applications	Web browser, dedicated network management system
Audio compression		Embedded within video codec and/or dedicated android/windows app (PodCom)	16 channels of Push-to-talk (PTT) Voice n; G.711 codec with toll-quality audio	16 channels of voice, dual active PTT voice - key 2 channels & monitor up to 16 channels at once	Embedded within the video encoder and/or dedicated android/windows app (PodCom)
Video encoding	Video compression	MJPEG/H.264 (MPEG-4 Part 10/AVC) and/or dedicated app for peer-to-peer voice/video/data communications		Fully Integrated H.264 HD video encoding/decoding	An option to use build in H.264 video codec and a standalone proprietary app (called PodCom) for secure peer-to-peer video/voice/data communications

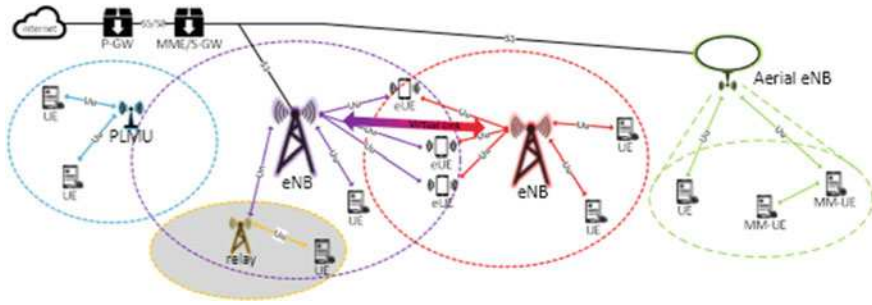


Fig. 14.8 Network topologies with mesh backhauling

A number of solutions have been developed, including satellite based mesh backhauling¹⁵ yet they are not able to meet mobility and ease of installation requirements. One of the proposals is based on a solution where mesh backhauling is achieved by transferring a share of network capacity from mobile users to backhauling.¹⁶ In simple terms this means that each eNodeB includes a mobile device, which communicates with the neighboring eNodeB and this link is used as a backhaul. Although this partially solves the problem this solutions has the following drawbacks:

- Throughput reduction for mobile users, as some of the bandwidth initially assigned to mobile terminals is now used for backhauling (eventually reducing the number of supported mobile terminals)
- Overlapping of the cells, leading to a larger number of required base stations (eNodeBs)
- Limited capacity of backhaul link, which constrains the achievement of full performance offered by LTE.

Recently, Rinicom Ltd (UK) together with Horsebridge Defense and Security Ltd (UK) have developed a novel hybrid infrastructure-based and infrastructure-less system utilising LTE eNodeB and PodNode mesh technology described earlier. The solution was developed as an integral part of the Dual Use Technology Exploitation (DUTE) programme, sponsored by the UK Government and currently being tested and validated in various operation scenarios.¹⁷ The topology of this solution is shown in Fig. 14.9.

As follows from Fig. 14.9, each eNodeB incorporates a PodNode, which provides robust, mobile and secure broadband backhaul networking with other eNodeBs by

¹⁵http://www.gilat.com/dynimages/t_whitepapers/files/Cellular%20Backhaul%20with%20Mesh%20-%20White%20Paper-2011-11.pdf.

¹⁶<http://deltenna.com/products/lte-basestations/>.

¹⁷<http://www.dute.co.uk/news/>.

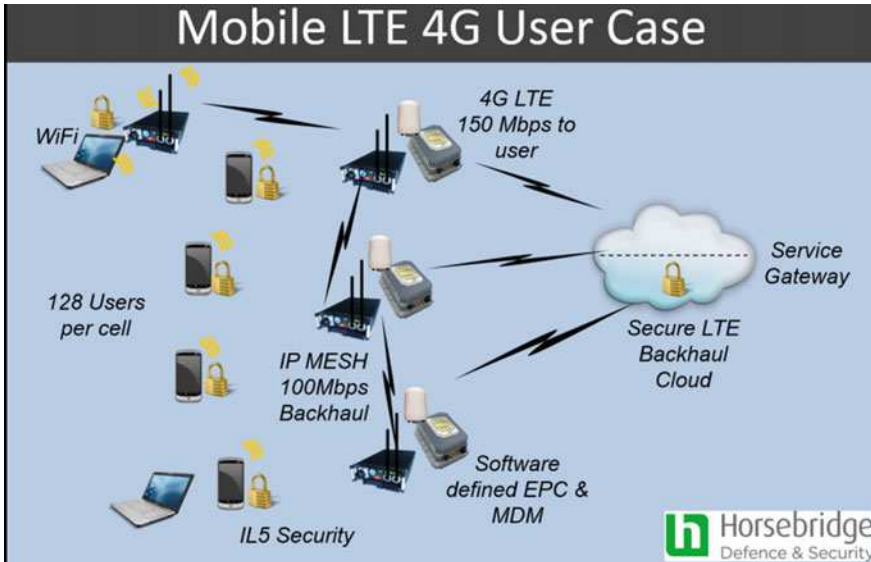


Fig. 14.9 Topology of LTE MESH backhauling with PodNodes (diagram is provided by Horsebridge Defense and Security Ltd.)

utilising an alternative frequency band. Such a solution eliminates drawbacks¹⁸ and enables first responders and CP applications with a solution, which meets all their communication networking requirements.

14.4 Conclusions

In this chapter, we consider wireless communication systems for first responders, which also can be used for CP applications. We provide an overview of the legacy systems and show that the existing TETRA/TETRAPOL trunked systems cannot meet the ever-changing operations requirements. We present both infrastructure-based and infrastructure-less network topologies and outline their advantages and shortcomings. More specifically, we show that infrastructure-based networks in general provide better the desired QoS, while infrastructure-less systems have benefits of flexibility and rapid installation.

Furthermore, we point that current trends in Europe and the USA are geared towards utilising wireless broadband LTE systems as infrastructure-based solution, while IP-based ad hoc mesh networks are very attractive as an extension to these networks in a number of operational scenarios. We describe key performance

¹⁸<http://deltenna.com/products/lte-basestations/>.

parameters for LTE systems and provide a comparison between the two most widely used infrastructure-less ad hoc mesh networking solutions.

Finally, we show that new solutions are emerging on the market, which utilise advantages of both topologies by combining infrastructure-based and infrastructure-less topologies in a hybrid network architecture. We outline main advantages of these solutions in new, previously impossible services in challenging operational scenarios.

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Chapter 15

Importance of Cyber Security

Alex Tarter

15.1 Introduction

The 21st century has seen society embrace computers and the information age at a staggering pace. In much of our daily lives we are never really more than a few feet away from a computer, excluding the smartphone in our pockets and the PC on our desk. We may not consciously realize it, but computers are embedded everywhere from the cars we drive and the traffic lights we follow to the power and water utilities we rely on every day. Society has welcomed the efficiency provided by computer automation to the extent that we now rely on its security and integrity for much of our lives. Unfortunately, as the early hacking community realized, the way a computer was designed to work and how it actually works are typically two different things. And what started as a fun underground activity has since evolved into a multi-billion dollar cybercrime industry. As Community Policing (CP) is closely correlated with the daily lives of citizens, it could be affected by the cyber threats in the same way as the citizens it is supposed to support. Furthermore, combating cybercrimes or dealing with its aftermaths could become integral part of CP operations. Therefore, it is essential to understand the main concepts of cyber security together with existing and emerging threats it possesses (see Chaps. 2–4).

This chapter outlines the genesis of cybercrime, their changing incentives and the challenges involved in combating it. As we demonstrate, cybercrime has many similarities and parallels with traditional fraud; however, cybercrime benefits from two unique elements: scalability and anonymity. The same technological advances,

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which have allowed an account holder to check their bank balance anywhere in the world, have also allowed criminals from around the world to target that person's bank account. Similarly, the same technologies that allowed distribution of news and information are utilised by terrorists for radicalisation of certain groups in society. Geography and time have traditionally constrained a criminal's potential target list; for instance, there are a limited number of houses a burglar can rob in a single night. Therefore, criminals must choose their targets carefully. A cyber-criminal, however, can reach thousands of targets at the push of a button, completely altering their incentives.

This creates new types of challenges for Community Policing, which needs to take into account the possible geographical separation of criminals and victims while perpetrators of the crime are often unreachable to Community Policing due to geographical constraints. Just as computing has made legal businesses more efficient, it has done the same for criminal ones as well. The internet has made large scale cybercrime possible, switching a cyber-criminal's incentive from only targeting smaller numbers of high value targets to also targeting large numbers of lower value ones. In many ways scamming a small amount from a lot of victims is less risky and more profitable than scamming a large amount from a few victims. And this also brings new challenges to CP operations.

Technology and cybercrime are often viewed as intimidating and complicated due to the lack of understanding of how computers work, and the way they are portrayed in entertainment (e.g., TV shows and movies). This chapter clarifies common terms and techniques from hacking and ransomware to the dark web and cryptocurrencies like BitCoin and makes them accessible to a wider audience. More importantly the chapter outlines why cyber-criminals have embraced these technologies, how they use them and how law enforcement—and more specifically Community Policing—can realistically investigate and operate in this new age. Simply put, the internet has made the world a smaller place with few adherences to national borders and a higher degree of anonymity. This makes criminal attribution, evidence collection and CP investigation more complicated, but not impossible (see also Chap. 6" on radicalisation).

One of the key concepts outlined in this book is that technology does not exist in isolation. The cyber world and the physical world are intertwined. We use the cyber world to communicate between people in the physical world, and we use it to control physical processes and machinery. Policy and procedures that affect the cyber world ultimately also affect the physical world. For instance, encryption can be seen as a double edged sword. It provides a high degree of protection to both national agencies, corporations, citizens and criminals alike. Despite the desire and technical feasibility of requiring legal intercept 'backdoor' into commercially encrypted devices, this type of solution is destined to fail in practice leaving everyone except the criminals worse off. As society continues to integrate and rely on the cyber world for their everyday life, cybercrime will only become more prevalent and detrimental. The scalability that computers and the internet provide gives cyber-criminals the ability to have an

impact on society and citizens that is bigger than ever before. And this certainly will be reflecting in CP operations of the future.

Now more than ever the physical and cyber worlds are becoming increasingly intertwined. Without always realizing it, society is becoming increasingly reliant on the security and integrity of computer systems. Almost all aspects of regular life from shopping to banking or correspondence to socializing take place online and via a computer. This means that for the general public, their online persona can easily be as important as their real world one. Cybercrime that targets the privacy and security of their online activity can have real world impacts on reputations, job security, identity and finances. While this is becoming more well-known and appreciated, the public often fails to realize just how dependent the real world is on computers and cyberspace. Our power stations, cars, sewage systems and petrol pumps are all computer controlled, and cybercrime that targets these computer systems has the potential to impact large sections of society up to and including nations (Zetter 2015). Protecting our critical infrastructure (financial markets, utilities, healthcare, government and transportation) from cyberattack is therefore a national priority and one that as we shall see requires an international response.

Hacking and cybercrime has been with us for almost as long as the internet itself. However, it is only recently, as society has become reliant on cyberspace, that the financial rewards of cybercrime and its effectiveness have become serious. Unfortunately, as with most types of crime and malicious behaviour, there is not a simple solution or technology that can mitigate the problem. In fact, in many cases the technology used to benefit society has been repurposed by criminals for their own gain. This chapter attempts to outline the different aspects of cyberspace and some of the technologies used within it that can be used for both good and evil. The better informed and comfortable society and law enforcement are at operating securely within cyberspace the harder they make a malicious actor's job.

15.2 Cybersecurity and Hacking

Cyber refers to anything involving computers—which is why, when people discuss or think about ‘cyber’, they think of computer devices such as laptops, desktops, smart phones and smart TVs. But as we have seen, cyber devices are much more prevalent than laptops and smart phones; they also include cars (engine management systems), elevators and medical pace-makers. However, cyber encompasses more than just computing devices. There is the data that the computers process and store, the networks that they communicate over and the interactions with the people who use them. All together—data, devices, networks and people—create cyberspace. It is the interactions between cyber/computer elements that defines cyberspace, and it is this that hackers try to interfere with.

Computers and cyber systems have been designed by someone for a specific purpose and to perform a specified task. However, these designers, being people, are fallible and they do not always design systems that can only be operated as

intended. As a result these systems can be operated and used in ways the designer never imagined or anticipated. This is not always a bad thing; for instance, the telephone system was originally designed to carry human voices, but some clever engineers realized that you can use telephones also to carry machine voices (digital data) and from there we created the internet. As such a hacker can be defined as someone who attempts to make a cyber system work in a way that it was not intended or designed to. The motivations, mission and actions of a hacker determine whether they are a good (whitehat) or bad (blackhat) hacker, rather than the philosophy itself of finding and exploiting flaws.

As we shall see, what makes hacking so dangerous is not the act of discovering a flaw in a system, but the fact that it can be so easily reproduced and performed by non-technical actors. As with most technical activities, finding flaws in a computer system is both difficult and time consuming. To become good at it takes time, skill and patience. However, once a flaw is discovered the predictable nature of computers makes it easy to reproduce.

One of the early famous and reproducible ‘hacks’ was performed by John Draper aka ‘Captain Crunch’. John realized that the US telephony system was controlled by computers that used different tones to indicate different actions, from the fact that money had been put into a telephone box to setting up a long-distance connection. Therefore, if they could replicate these tones (or notes), they could make the telephony system do whatever they wanted from making free phone calls to routing other phone calls around the world. One such tone was 2600 Hz that, if whistled into a telephone handset, would allow them to make free phone calls. Discovering how the telephony system worked was complicated and not something just anyone could do, but what made these hackers (or *phreakers* as phone hackers are called) famous was that at the time ‘Cap’n Crunch’ cereal included a whistle in boxes as a free toy that exactly produced the 2600 Hz tone. Now any child with the cereal box whistle, a phone line and some simple instructions could make free phone calls whenever they wanted (Rosenbaum 1971). While this is a fun story, it demonstrates that, while the inner-workings of a ‘hack’ can be complex to discover and understand, reproducing it once known and documented is pretty easy. In the same way that it takes a skilled armourer to create a gun that works, once created anyone can fire it.

If hacking is all about making cyber systems work in unanticipated ways, cybersecurity is the process of ensuring that technology only operates as intended. Cyber security has fast become a buzzword in almost every industry and a concern for everyone, and it is easy to see why. No matter how skilled a burglar is, there is a real world limitation to how many buildings they can break into in a given night. There is no way for the same thief to target lots of people in lots of countries around the world at the same time. But in the case of a cyberattack it certainly is possible; the attacker can program a machine to do the work and have it attack lots of people at the same time all from the comfort of their home. As we shall see, technology has made cyber-related crime scalable in a way that physical-related crime could never be. As with every other industry, cybercrime has benefited from the information revolution. Cybercrime is now more efficient, scalable, anonymous and

international than pretty much any other criminal enterprise, which is why its prevalence has dramatically increased in recent years (Goodman 2015).

The underlying principles of cyberattacks are not that different from fraud—it is about tricking someone or something into acting in a way that is not in their best interest. Cybersecurity attempts to prevent and detect when such a fraudulent request is made and to protect both the data, devices, networks and people from the attacker. While this seems straight forward it is in fact extremely difficult, because computer systems are now so complicated and complex that their interactions cannot always be fully understood even by their designers.

Thinking of hacking as fraud is a useful analogy, because an attacker will very rarely target their victim directly. Instead they will first compromise an interim system or computer and use that as a go-between (also called a proxy) to the target system. In many cases there can be multiple layers of proxies, each providing a degree of separation between the attacker and the victim. These proxy systems are typically unaware that they have been compromised and so their owners fail to realize that their systems are not completely under their control. As computers do not remember anything unless instructed to do so, this can make cyber forensics (i.e., the collection of cyber related evidence) challenging. Accurate and auditable logs need to be maintained throughout cyberspace in order to track an attacker back through their proxies. However, this challenge can be worth attempting, as there have been many cases where an attacker has slipped up and left a footprint such as a name, handle, credit-card number or other identifying information in the creation and maintenance of their proxies.

When malicious hackers attack cyberspace, they can target a victim's data, devices, networks or the victim themselves. By sending them spam pretending to be from their bank the attacker is attempting to hack (social engineer) the victim themselves into revealing private and valuable information. In some of the early days of criminal activity in cyberspace malicious hackers blackmailed gambling sites into paying protection money (Menn 2010). If the sites did not pay, the attackers would unleash a denial-of-service attack during large sporting events that prevented legitimate users from placing bets, and the firms would lose a huge amount of business. Denial-of-service attacks are attacks on a victim's networks; the servers tasked with handling customer requests are sent an overwhelming amount of fake data so that the servers spend all their time handling the bogus requests such that legitimate requests are ignored. The same style of attack was also used recently as part of the cyberattack on the Ukrainian power grid on December 23rd 2015. The attackers launched a denial-of-service attack on the power company's customer service centre telephone lines, so when the attack occurred none of those affected could phone up and report the incident impacting the company's ability to provide a coordinated response. This attack demonstrates that cyber attackers do not just target PCs and private data, they can also impact the supply of electricity to people's homes and their telephone lines.

However, it is attacks on data within cyberspace that has attracted cyber-criminals the most, from stealing private or proprietary information to manipulating bank transfers or encrypting someone's data for ransom. Digital data

is great from an attacker's point of view, because it is easily duplicated, transportable anywhere over the internet and stored in a USB drive no bigger than a thumbnail. Data such as credit cards, company secrets, identity information and classified information also has tremendous value to both their owners and malicious third parties, so it can easily be sold once obtained.

What makes digital data so powerful and yet so vulnerable is that it can be identically reproduced an infinite number of times. The cost of duplication is effectively zero, which is why digital data sharing is so popular and difficult to control. Each nation has a unique position regarding data privacy and how valuable private data should be stored and distributed. Unfortunately, given the ease at which data can be copied and disseminated across international boundaries, it is something more easily legislated than controlled or enforced. Digital piracy (i.e., the act of unauthorized distribution of protected material) is now commonplace and extremely difficult to control. Data being stored on a server in one country or jurisdiction can be viewed and copied by someone in another. Cyberspace for the most part does not recognize or align to national boundaries, making law enforcement actions all the more challenging.

15.3 Anonymity and Attribution

One of the most important aspects to remember about the internet and cyberspace more broadly is that it ultimately is just machines talking to machines. Humans may provide the input and direction, but once the keyboard characters are pressed and the mouse button clicked, it is computers that run the instructions, send the communications and perform the actions. While the intention is human, the action is machine. Why this is so important is that one of the most challenging aspects of cybersecurity is determining the attribution of an attack to a person or group. Law enforcement can potentially see the impact of a cyberattack, review any log evidence and potentially identify the identity of the machine initiating the attack, but that initiating machine is very rarely owned or managed directly by the attacker. Every computer directly connected to a network will have an IP address; for computers directly connected to the internet this address will be unique across the entire world, which is how computers are able to communicate with each other anywhere in the world. Just as with a letter sent through the post with a sender's and receiver's address on it, every packet on the internet has a source and destination IP address. Through investigation of logs and records forensic investigators can often find out the source IP address for a given cyberattack. However, knowing which computer sent the packet is not the same as knowing 'who' instructed it to be sent.

Computers run the instructions they are given. In most cases these instructions are installed by their owners (e.g., applications), so that they will operate in a known and expected manner when certain keyboard strokes are made, mouse buttons clicked or packets received. In an ideal world the actions of a computer could be directly tied to the intentions of the owner through the applications they

installed and the input they gave. Unfortunately this is not an ideal world; a computer has no ability to correctly identify that the instruction it is asked to run came from its owner or a hacker. From the computer's point of view there is no difference between a user sitting at a keyboard and malware running on the system. A computer will run any instruction given to it—no matter how it got there. This is how hackers get computers they do not own to perform actions on their behalf without their owner's knowledge or authorization.

One of the key challenges for an attacker wishing to use multiple proxy devices is that they are not always online at the same time, new anti-virus signatures may detect and remove the malware and for large botnets (a group of computers all infected with the same malware) there are thousands and sometimes millions of computers to individually manage. It becomes too risky and too time consuming for an attacker to remain constantly online controlling their proxy devices, which is why they delegate this task to a common type of proxy called a 'Command and Control' (C2) server. A C2 server stays continuously online and waits for those computers infected with malware to reach out to it. This way the attacker only needs to contact the C2 server and leave instructions on what they wish the malware to do. Then, whenever the malware checks in, the new instructions are downloaded and executed. As long as the attacker is careful about how they connect to the C2 server, and they are able to keep the C2 server up and running, it is very difficult to apprehend the attacker or prevent new malicious activity. Just like a regular crime syndicate, the foot-soldiers (i.e., malware infected computers) never speak or hear the commands directly from the boss (attacker), instead their instructions are disseminated via a series of intermediaries. Regaining control of one of the foot-soldiers is not necessarily going to be able to tell you or lead you directly to the attacker.

What makes cybersecurity and law enforcement's jobs harder is that criminals frequently hide or continuously move their C2 servers and establish them in jurisdictions and countries different from where they reside. An attacker can then make multiple hops from their country to their C2 server and from there launch their attack. Should law enforcement find and obtain the C2 server, they will still have to work with other agencies to trace back the hops from the C2 server to the attacker. Intentionally hampering police efforts by crossing national boundaries is now considered standard practice for malicious hackers (Menn 2010).

So, as we can see, cyberspace has given an attacker a much greater capability for anonymity and scalability by relying on machines rather than people to carry out their activities, and attribution for an attack is hard to determine because the machine which launches or coordinates the attack is often the first in a long proxy chain back to the attacker. Within cyberspace, just because you may own a system, it does not mean you are always in control of what it does. Cybersecurity techniques such as application whitelisting, firewalls, antivirus and intrusion detection/prevention systems are meant to prevent compromised and unauthorized access, but there is no guarantee that they will always be successful.

15.4 Malware

One of the most common weapons in a cyber attacker's arsenal is malware. *Malware* is typically the default term for a piece of malicious software running on a system that takes commands from the attacker not the owner. However, by using the term so broadly, some of the important nuances and aspects are lost.

Most modern malware is not a single piece of software; instead it is more like a criminal gang of software—made up of different specialized components (Distler 2007). In most cases there is a dropper, an escalator, a cleaner and at least one expert. The *dropper* is like the conman, great at fraudulently gaining access somewhere without raising suspicions. In cyberspace this could be a compromising website (Martin 2007), phishing email, a carelessly discarded USB stick or a Trojan application. The dropper's job is to get onto a victim's system and for the system to run it. Once the malware begins to run, it is the *escalator*'s job to embed the 'expert' into the system and give it persistence, so that it will continue to run even after the user reboots the machine or attempts to remove it. If possible, the escalator will also try and raise the privilege level of the 'expert' to allow it to do more than a typical user is able to (known as gaining root privileges). Once the expert has been successfully installed and embedded into the system, the *cleaner*'s job is to remove all traces of the other components and the 'expert's' installation, so that its presence and how it got onto the system can remain hidden. Finally, the expert piece of software is the specialist piece of software that will actually carry out the attacker's intentions.

Typical expert pieces of software include the 'remote access trojan' (RAT), which allows the attacker to gain direct access to the system and to do anything they want, from reading and copying files to grabbing screenshots and even turning on the computer's microphone and webcam. There are also more specialized ones that attempt to capture online banking details, steal usernames and passwords and even manipulate the operation of industrial control equipment such as those that run power stations and control trains. Understanding all of these components can be helpful in understanding how malware campaigns evolve and if an attack is truly sophisticated or merely a recycling of an old technique.

Just as user files and digital music can be copied and reused, malware components can be as well. Each component can be picked up and used again for another task in a different piece of malware, which is why different pieces of malware with different properties can share similar dropper or escalator components. Also once a new piece of malware is identified, researchers and attackers alike attempt to understand how it works in order to replicate its behaviour and reuse its components for themselves. There is not always honour amongst thieves and malware authors are no exception. If the current dropper is not proving to be successful, the attacker just swaps it for another one and attempts the attack again. What methods and components are available to an attacker often determines how advanced they are. Due to the concern that if discovered their components will be stolen and reused by everyone else, there is often a reticence on the part of the attacker to use their

newest and most unique components if other more well-known methods will work just as well.

This is how Advanced Persistent Threats (APTs) are denoted. Just as an attacker will check to see if a window is open before attempting to pick a door lock, a cyber attacker will attempt a more routine method of attack before escalating to using something new. Unfortunately, this means that the advanced, potentially nation state components of today, once discovered, rapidly become the regular components of the cybercriminal and hacker of tomorrow.

15.5 Encryption and Key Management

One of the most powerful tools to maintain digital data and cybersecurity is cryptography. *Cryptography* provides a variety of capabilities including encryption, hashing and signing that are relatively straightforward to implement and when combined in the right way can overcome some of the issues of data privacy and cyber anonymity. *Encryption* is the practice of using mathematical techniques to turn intelligible data into unintelligible data and back again through the use of encryption keys. If performed correctly, encryption can be used to ensure that only those who possess the correct key can decrypt the data and make use of it. This helps mitigate some of the risks of data theft should an attacker steal encrypted data; since as long as the key remains secret and the attacker does not guess it, the data will remain unintelligible.

It can be inferred therefore, that encryption only provides protection if the encryption key cannot be stolen or guessed by the attacker. This is why the most important part of any encryption system is the way of creating, distributing and securing its keys—what is referred to as *key management*. The majority of encryption algorithms are what are called ‘symmetric’ key techniques—that is to say, the key used to encrypt and decrypt is the same. Symmetric key algorithms are analogous to a mortice door lock—they use the same key to both lock and unlock and anyone with a copy of the key can both lock and unlock the door. While symmetric key algorithms such as the famous ‘AES’ are used everywhere, there is another family of techniques just as important. Much of cyberspace fundamentally relies on a certain technique called *asymmetric cryptography* that uses two keys instead of one: one that is public and the other that is kept private. This is a clever technique that can be used to identify people and devices, securely distribute AES encryption keys and provide validation of a digital document’s provenance.

While symmetric keys use the same key to lock and unlock, asymmetric keys are slightly different and instead use two: one for locking and the other for unlocking. A good analogy for this is a padlock and key. The padlock is the encryption key—you can use it to lock something, but you cannot use another padlock to unlock the first. Instead you need a key. Likewise the key can unlock a padlock, but you cannot use it to lock something—that requires a padlock. What makes this so powerful is that due to some clever mathematics, even if you have the padlock,

you cannot work out what key unlocks it; and likewise if you have the key, you cannot create the padlock. It is this simple concept that underpins everything from the security of your online banking to the ability to digitally sign documents and validate your identity. This is done by making one key 'public' and keeping the other private and secret. If everyone knows my public key then they can use it to lock something knowing that only my private key can unlock it, and likewise if I lock something with my private key then everyone with my public key can unlock it and thereby validate that it came from me.

In the real world we have multiple methods of authenticating that someone is who they say they are such as checking their identity cards, their appearance, the way they speak or asking them what they know. As we have seen in cyberspace this is much more difficult to accomplish, as all digital data can be perfectly copied; in other words a photocopy of an identity is indistinguishable from the original in every way. This is a real problem for e-commerce, as if I want to do online banking, I want to be sure that I am really speaking with my bank, and my bank wants to be sure that it is really me and not an imposter. Now with public-private keys this problem can be solved: If I know my bank's public key, all they need to do is lock some information using their private key and send it to me; if my copy of their public key unlocks the data, then by inference I can be sure I am speaking with my bank.

These simple tools have given us the means by which to create an entire e-commerce industry that is both secure and easy to use. It also provides an effective method to prove the real world identities of people, companies and devices from within cyberspace. However, this only holds true as long as entities can keep their private key secret. If you have someone's private key, then you can impersonate them at will—it is the digital equivalent of stealing and then using someone's fingerprint. This is the single biggest issue in the role of encryption within cyberspace—the ability to generate, and securely store private keys. Steal the key and you steal the identity and protection it offers. If you steal a bank's private key, you can impersonate it on the web, and the general public will not be aware that they are talking to a fraudulent site and not the real bank.

Key management in the real world is typically the biggest weakness in any encryption system and the aspect most likely to be attacked. After all if a thief wants to steal a bike, is it easier to cut through the chain, steal the key or use a duplicate? In most airports you can buy a U.S. T.S.A. approved luggage lock that can be opened by a TSA representative using a master key set. However, ensuring that only authorized TSA representatives have those keys was never going to be successful due to the wide number of people who needed authorization, how they were handled and how they were made. Which is why you can now go online and buy for yourself a set of master keys that can open any approved luggage lock, defeating one of the primary reasons for using a lock.

This is where lawful access in cyberspace is incredibly difficult, if not impossible to achieve in practice. While it is technically possible to build lawful access into a commercial system such as a smartphone that uses a lawful intercept master public-private key pair, such a system can never be operationally secured over its

lifetime. It is flawed because encryption keys are digital and therefore easily copied and reproduced, and like all digital data they are notoriously difficult to maintain control over. If there was such a key that could unlock a highly popular product, then knowledge of this key would be incredibly valuable and something that many attackers would target. One slip in the handling, distribution and use of that key will risk it to being exposed to unauthorized entities. Unfortunately a digital secret that important has always leaked in the long run, either intentionally or unintentionally, and once exposed it cannot be forgotten or changed. While the technical and political desire is there, we do not know operationally how to make a digital secret secure yet usable (Weitzner 2016; Blaze 2016).

15.6 Ransomware

Encryption is a great tool in the arsenal of cybersecurity. However, unfortunately cybercriminals have also adopted it for monetary gain. The scalability of cyber, the effectiveness of techniques such as encryption and the ease by which malware can be obtained and used has culminated in a pernicious form of malware called ‘ransomware’. *Ransomware* is a form of malware that once installed onto a system begins to systematically encrypt user files such as documents, spreadsheets, photos and movies with strong encryption and then demands payment to obtain the decryption key. Due to the strength and ease with which encryption can be implemented, these malware payloads (i.e., expert components) are incredibly effective, and so the encryption is typically impossible to break. Unless the victim has a recent unencrypted backup from which to restore their files, their only recourse is to pay the attacker and obtain the key.

The rise of ransomware has been swift, in part because of its financial model and effectiveness. By infecting a large group of people and only demanding a relatively small amount of money from each, the attackers are able to leverage the scalability of cyber and make a lot of money. Victims make the calculation that it is easier and less expensive to just pay the ransom than attempt to recover the data from backups, recreate the data or just accept its loss. The attackers know that making it easy and reliable to pay and get the decryption key helps reinforce the perception that payment is often the best recourse.

Initially the victims of ransomware were typically regular users and their home computers, but now larger organizations such as hospitals, schools, law enforcement and local governments are being compromised. Therefore, the cost and impact of these styles of attacks are growing and becoming increasingly an issue to law enforcement. And due to the staggering amount of money these schemes are generating for the attackers, there is no indication that ransomware is going away (Chandler 2016).

15.7 Cryptographic Anonymity

While ransomware could not have existed prior to the widespread knowledge and availability of strong encryption techniques, it also could not have been as successful without an easy, anonymous and universal payment system. There is no easy method of sending physical cash over cyberspace, and most other methods from credit cards to PayPal do not provide anonymity; that is, until the rise of crypto currencies such as Bitcoin. *Bitcoin* can be thought of as cash for the internet—almost impossible to forge but anonymous to use. The ownership of a Bitcoin (or piece of a Bitcoin) can be tracked from creation to the current holder, which is what provides the currency's integrity and trust. A technical description of how Bitcoin works is beyond the scope of this book, but the underlying concepts are easy enough to understand.

In crypto currencies your identity is denoted by a public–private key pair, which you create. There is no central registration service in the real world, which means there is no mechanism to associate a public key with a real person. In fact many people can and do have multiple Bitcoin public keys, which combined gives a Bitcoin identity a very strong and practical degree of anonymity in the real world. A Bitcoin transaction uses these public–private keys to digitally sign a transfer of Bitcoin, so that there is cryptographic proof that the sender authorized the transfer and the correct recipient has received it. The sender can transfer one, multiple or even a fraction of a Bitcoin to a recipient, and at certain exchanges these Bitcoins can be converted into different national currencies based on the current exchange rate.

This is how attackers were able to monetize ransomware so effectively. They required their victims to send a small amount of Bitcoins to a specific public key. The anonymous holder of the corresponding private Bitcoin key could then launder that money through other Bitcoin identities and finally through an exchange system into real money. While the ransom is being paid, law enforcement only has an anonymous public key to go on, which means there is no bank account to freeze or identities to go after. The owner of the Bitcoin wallet (what the private key and associated data is commonly known as) can travel anywhere in the world and use any exchange they wish, which makes law enforcement's job much harder in tracking the owner's identity and preventing them from obtaining the ransom money.

Bitcoin is now international with exchanges all around the world. As with all financial instruments the value of a Bitcoin is only worth what someone is willing to pay for it. Unfortunately for law enforcement there is an international demand for an anonymous currency system to facilitate both legal and illegal transactions. Accordingly there are exchanges around the world, where people are willing to pay and exchange Bitcoins to hide private, embarrassing or potentially illegal transactions. To associate a Bitcoin wallet (or private key) with a real person requires slow tracking of Bitcoin transactions, what they are used for and ultimately infer the identity of the owner.

Just as encryption can be used to hide the identity of the participants in a financial transaction, it can also be used to hide the identity of communications. The internet is a large network of computers all accessible using the TCP/IP protocol, which basically means that they are all connected and capable of exchanging data. What data they store and exchange depends on what service they support or—as an analogy—what language they speak. The largest and most common service is the World Wide Web (or web for short). You can access this service through your web browser and link to any computer speaking this language. The web is also indexed by public search engines such as Google, Bing and Yahoo. However, there are additional networks not publically indexed or easily explored without specialized software or authorized credentials. Other common networks include BitTorrent, one of the most popular methods of transferring large files across the internet.

BitTorrent is regularly used by individuals, academia and companies to efficiently distribute large files, but it unfortunately is also one of the most common methods for distributing copy written material such as films and music. BitTorrent splits up large files into tiny pieces and distributes copies of these pieces amongst many computers. When someone wants a copy of the file, instead of going to one location and copying all of it, they now go to lots of places to get small pieces of it. The benefit of this is that you do not end up with a bottleneck with everyone wanting to go to the same place (or server) to get the same file. Unfortunately, it also means that when an illegal copy of a movie or music album is shared over BitTorrent, there is not one specific server or computer that law enforcement can go after to prevent additional downloads; the file is now shared across a group of computers all over the world.

Another famous non-web service is ‘Tor’. Tor is part of the dark web, which is just a fancy word for those parts of the internet that are not publicly indexed and require specialized software to access. The dark web is so called, because it is not easily seen, rather than because of the activities you find on it; although the dark web and specifically Tor certainly help support illegal or malicious activity. To put it another way, if Bitcoin provides an anonymous currency, Tor provides the anonymous marketplace.

Just as encryption or Bitcoin are not inherently bad but can be used for malicious purposes, so can Tor. The issue with the regular world wide web is that if you want to access a website, you need to know its public IP address; and once you connect to it, the website knows your IP address in order to send you a reply. Anyone monitoring the website or the internet knows the IP address of everyone visiting that site and who else they are communicating with. For those who wish to remain anonymous this is a concern. Your public IP address is registered to a physical location and associated with a physical computer, so identifying the participants in a connection on the World Wide Web is relatively straightforward. Tor uses encryption to hide the participants in a communication so the recipients, and anyone monitoring the internet cannot tell who is speaking to whom.

The underlying concept of Tor is relatively straightforward and can be modelled using the regular postal service. If I want to write a secret letter but do not wish the postman to know who I am writing to, nor for the recipient to know who wrote it,

I use three random relays to hide my activity: I first write my letter and place it in an envelope addressed to the final destination, then I place that letter in another envelope addressed to a random relay and then finally that envelope into a third envelope addressed to another random relay. Therefore what I actually post is a letter inside multiple envelopes each addressed to a random person. So the postman sees me posting a letter to the first random recipient, who opens the envelope and finds a letter addressed to someone else, so they put the enclosed letter back in the post and it is delivered to the next random relay. This sequence is continued until the final step, when the actual recipient receives their envelope and finds the letter inside. If we use encryption to hide the contents of the letter and the enclosing envelopes then neither the postman nor each recipient relay can open the letter and peak inside at the contents. The more the number of messages and participants grow, the more anonymity is obtained as it becomes logistically harder and harder for someone monitoring the network to keep track of all the messages and potential communications.

Despite their legitimate use cases, criminals have co-opted Tor, Bitcoin and BitTorrent for their own version of e-commerce, buying and selling illegal products and services anonymously over the internet. One of the most famous recent examples of this was the so called ‘Silk-Road’. This was a criminal version of Amazon, where you could buy illicit items such as drugs and even purchase illegal services such as prostitution and murder for hire. The site became a popular destination for black market activities, and it even had rating and customer review sections to ensure a high customer satisfaction. Due to the anonymizing features of Tor and Bitcoin, despite the site being up and accessible, it took law enforcement a long time to discover the owner of it and build a case to shut it down.

Due to the strength of encryption, the anonymity cyber services can provide and the easy scalability of internet activity, law enforcement is finding that it currently takes more resources to take down illegal services and identify cyber criminals than it does for criminals to begin to use them. Hence, while they continue to provide a low risk means by which to illicitly make large sums of money, cybercrime will continue to take its toll on victims.

15.8 The Future of Cybercrime

If there are three concepts to remember when thinking about cybercrime, they are *curiosity*, *fraud* and *scalability*. Hacking for all its nefarious connotations is at its heart curiosity. It is the human desire to understand how things work and how they break that has spawned the hacking, security research and tinkering communities. As long as humans remain curious, there will always be new and innovative ways to use what they find for both good and bad purposes.

In some way, almost all cybercrime can be described as a type of fraud, whether it is criminals pretending to be your bank, hackers masking their location via proxies, malware pretending to be legitimate software or an attacker sending fake

messages instructing an electricity substation to shut off. The fact is that in cyberspace it is easier to be anonymous and to just assume knowledge of the identity of who you are talking to than to prove it explicitly. These assumptions are what are exploited time and again (Schneier 2012).

Finally just as machines have made many human and business activities more efficient and reliable, the same can be said for cybercrime. One attacker can now rob exponentially more people in one night than a professional burglar could ever dream of, and extortion is no longer restricted to a geographical area. Criminals can also reach across the world and between national jurisdictions to carry out their attacks making it more difficult for law enforcement to investigate and catch them. As with most weapons the skill required to make them is not equivalent to that required to use them. Malware and other cyber weapons can be easily deployed at scale by a single malicious actor targeting thousands of people with nothing more than the desire and knowledge of where to go to get the malware they need.

Ransomware is the perfect storm of many of these concepts. It can be pretty certain that not many, if any at all, of the attackers truly understand the technical details of the encryption algorithms or malware toolkits they use to such great effect. However, their huge success through scalability has ensured that by targeting many people for small amounts of money they can make a lot of money from victims all around the world with very little risk. This style of attack works because people value their data more than the monetary sum the attackers are asking for. Just as the internet has enabled business to be conducted around the world, it has also enabled cybercrime to do the same.

As David Autor from MIT so eloquently put it, “There is a long history of leading thinkers overestimating the potential of new technologies to substitute for human labour and underestimating their potential to complement it” (Autor 2015, p. 7). Just as society has now become completely reliant on technology and to a large degree cyberspace, criminals have realized that technology can make crime more efficient and that there is a lot of value stored or connected to cyberspace that can be exploited. Ransomware is just the first in a new wave of cybercrime, and we can expect similar techniques and fast adoption amongst criminals around the world due to the low risk and high reward cybercrime offers.

While many cybercriminals will be satisfied with just monetizing their fraud, there are others who may have different motivations from destruction to political interference. Data theft of private information (such as emails, private correspondence, documents and presentations) can have real world impacts to reputations, incur regulatory fines and impact a business’s profitability and viability, not to mention the potential to disrupt the political process. More worrying to note is that cybercrime has so far targeted traditional PCs, laptops and smartphones. However, the number of these devices are just a fraction of the total number of computers. There are vastly more smaller, embedded computers in everything from cars to power stations, trains, reservoirs and pacemakers. These embedded computers interact with the real world and attacking them, as was seen in the attack on the Ukrainian electricity sector (happened on December 17th 2015), impacts the whole society and causes real world damage, panic and political consequences.

Therefore, in addition to the concern of wide spread low level attacks (such as ransomware), there is also the concern of targeted high impact attacks on critical infrastructures and the switch to attacking more specialized embedded devices.

From a law enforcement perspective international cooperation is key. Even though cyberspace provides a great deal of anonymity it is not always complete and attackers still make mistakes. Forensics and investigative work typically focus on the areas in which cyberspace and the real world interact. For instance, how a web domain or hosting service is paid for, what email addresses are used, any meta-data in the malware code or from which internet location (e.g., web café) a web-chat or social media post came from. However, it is not always the case that the attacker and victim are in the same location or under the same jurisdiction. Evidence must be collected and processed from multiple jurisdictions in many cases.

As in all endeavours, humans are fallible and liable to make mistakes. Those criminals who are comfortable operating in cyberspace for their illegal activity are also highly likely to use it for entertainment and social activities. This gives an increased chance that they use the wrong identity (or handle) in the wrong forum or use the same IP address to buy a movie as they use to control a malware C2 server. Finding and following those digital footprints in cyberspace is often the only way to prosecute computer fraud, extortion, bullying or black-market activity.

It should be remembered that technology is blind to intentions, and those techniques often created for legitimate and good reasons can be co-opted and used to great effect for illegitimate activity. Bitcoin, BitTorrent, and Tor are three good examples of this, and there are countless others. Because of the way cyberspace works and the ease with which digital data can be replicated, it is very difficult if not impossible to ensure an idea, concept or technology once created can be forgotten or banned. Encryption is a prime example of this: despite the best intentions of law enforcement in requesting lawful access, there are plenty of freely and easily available alternative solutions on the Internet with no such access that criminals and citizens alike can use, which are unbreakable. Criminals and attackers are just as paranoid and protective of their private information as corporations and individuals, and so use similar technologies and solutions to ensure their privacy against lawful access.

Cyberspace is made up of machine-to-machine communication. We have designed machines to do exactly what we tell them to do, we just forgot to be explicit about who to listen to. This is why fraud and impersonation (spoofing) is such an important part of any cyberattack. Cybersecurity is more like counter-espionage than traditional military defence. An attacker attempts to fraudulently gain access to a system, and once they have successfully compromised it, they begin to subvert any abilities to detect and remove them. This is because, while it is easy to tell a machine to do something, it is very difficult for a machine to know who did the telling. Once an attacker is inside a system it is difficult to tell the extent of the compromise or what parts of the system can be trusted; sometimes it is very difficult to even tell that you are compromised. Therefore, even as we rely more and more on technology and computers in our lives, we should also have a

healthy dose of suspicion and scepticism of their integrity. We may be telling a machine the truth, but there is no guarantee the machine is doing the same.

One final example that best demonstrates the reliance of people on technology and the ways in which criminals can fraudulently exploit this, was the cyberattack on the SWIFT banking system in 2015 and 2016. The Society for Worldwide Interbank Financial Telecommunication (SWIFT) is a banking cyber network setup to provide a secure and standard method for issuing payment orders. Banks can issue SWIFT commands to withdraw or transfer money amongst themselves; however, it is incumbent on the bank to ensure the commands are legitimate and authentic. As there are over 15 million SWIFT messages per day people and financial institutions have become used to trusting and being reliant on the integrity of the system.

Over two years a number of cyberattacks were carried out against banks in Bangladesh, Vietnam and Ecuador to obtain legitimate SWIFT credentials and gain access to their systems. The stolen credentials were used to issue the necessary SWIFT commands to steal funds, then the attackers ensured they removed any records of those transactions. In the case of one Bangladeshi bank this even included falsifying the records sent to a printer that was setup to provide hard copies of all transactions. Close to \$100 million was fraudulently transferred to accounts the attackers controlled, and none of the banks identified the SWIFT computer messages as fraudulent while the attacks were underway. Indications are that the institutions did not know their credentials were compromised nor that the fraudulent SWIFT messages were deemed suspicious by either entity. Cyberspace has made activities such as banking more efficient and lower cost, but as a result bank robberies can be much larger and with a lot less personal risk to the robbers.

The following is a summary of the main learning points from this chapter in relation to Community Policing:

- Cyber attacks are a new and constantly growing threat, and successful Community Policing needs to be aware of the risks of cyber and how to mitigate them.
- Just as technology and computers have made business and daily life more efficient, it has also made criminal activity more efficient. Attacks can target many more people all around the world in cyberspace than they ever could in the real-world. Community Policing needs to adopt to work in this new environment.
- Most large sophisticated cybercrime is performed internationally with attacker, victims and supporting elements located in different nations across multiple jurisdictions.
- Cyberspace and cyberattacks are not just related to desktops, laptop and smartphones. They also include the embedded computers in cars, power stations, medical devices, train signalling, equipment, financial markets and communities. Hence, Community Policing needs to become ready to protect these communities.

- Those who perform cyberattacks need not be sophisticated enough to create them. It is almost much easier to launch an attack than to understand how it works.
- Employing encryption is straightforward. The most challenging aspect is ensuring the secure management of the keys. The weakness in most deployments is how the keys are managed during day to day operations.
- It is very difficult to identify clear cut evidence of attribution in a cyberattack or a cyber incident as cyberspace provides many means of ensuring anonymity. As Community Policing moves online, anonymity is one of the main challenges it has to address.

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Chapter 16

Applying Computational Intelligence to Community Policing and Forensic Investigations

Azliza Mohd Ali and Plamen Angelov

16.1 Introduction

Forensics is a science or body of knowledge using technical methods to answer questions related to criminal, civil and administrative law (Tistarelli et al. 2014). It has been used since the nineteenth century. Forensics is a post-event activity (Bera et al. 2014), i.e., the process begins after the crime took place. Forensic processes include forensic investigation, forensic evaluation, forensic intelligence, automated surveillance and forensic identity management (Tistarelli et al. 2014). Most evidence nowadays is in digital form. Therefore, digital forensics is introduced where it can help forensic investigators get reliable results. According to Pratama et al. (2014), *digital forensic science* is a method to preserve, collect, validate, identify, analyse, interpret, document and present the digital evidence derived from digital sources. The evidence has to be reliable to be presented in the court. There are clear differences between forensic and Community Policing operations. However, despite these differences, numerous methods and technologies developed for forensics could be applicable to Community Policing (CP). With the development of artificial intelligence, it is anticipated that these advances could also benefit CP operations. Therefore, it is essential to understand the basics of artificial (or computational) intelligence, get a feeling of emerging new trends and their possible application to CP operations.

Nowadays, digital forensic data (or information which are used by CP officers) are often heterogeneous in nature, consisting of different types of data such as text, number, image, signal or video. Forensic or CP data can be structured or unstructured

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(Guarino 2013). *Structured data* is easy to organize and process, while *unstructured data* does not have a common structure (e.g., social media data, images and streaming data). Unstructured data is computationally hard to combine and analyse. The challenges in the big data era are how to process and integrate such heterogeneous data (Jagadish et al. 2014). Social media data such as from Facebook or Twitter has become an issue because the data have different modalities, is noisy and often too short (e.g., data from text messaging and WhatsApp). Since the 2000s, there are many applications that have been developed to support the introduction of iPhone and Android. Thus, more digital data are being created every day. This revolution increases the number of data and creates a big data issue (Qi et al. 2014).

Face recognition is a common system used in forensic investigations and could bring significant benefits to CP operations. There have been many research studies on face recognition over the past 20 years. Face recognition is mostly applied to surveillance, identification and verification of identity (e.g., passports). To verify the identity, two face images are compared and measured, leading either a match or a non-match (Eidinger et al. 2014). The identification process compares a given image with the entire image base where the top match will result in the identity of the subject (Eidinger et al. 2014). Gender and age can be detected by face, but most research is about soft biometrics. *Soft biometric* includes physical traits, which are derived from the face (e.g., skin colour, hair colour, eye colour, beard, etc.), body (e.g., height, weight) or accessories on the body (e.g., glasses or the colour of clothes) (Dantcheva et al. 2011). Soft biometrics can distinguish individuals and help significantly in the identification and investigation in forensic processes (Dantcheva et al. 2011).

Gait recognition is another technique that recognizes how people walk. The gait is one of the behavioural biometrics, which can be used from a distance and could provide significant support to Community Policing operations. Types of gait include (Bhowmik et al. 2016):

- *Normal gait*: normal walking style
- *Propulsive gait*: stooped and rigid posture, e.g., because of drugs, Parkinson, etc.
- *Spastic gait*: foot dragging and stiff posture, e.g., because of stroke, brain tumour
- *Steppage gait*: one foot hanging and scraping the ground
- *Flexed hip and knee*: legs are flexed at the hip and knees resulting in crouching

Gait can be used in surveillance and identification systems, which can help law enforcement officers in forensic and/or CP investigation. Every biometrics (face, fingerprint, iris, etc.) have limitations, which gait can help to overcome by complementing the result from other biometrics. Sometimes the face cannot be identified, because of a cover over the face. Then gait can be critically important in helping to recognize the suspect (Bouchrika et al. 2011).

Computational intelligence can be applied to simplify the process of investigation and analysis of the criminal cases and in forensics, in that it can substitute or augment the human intelligence (Pratama et al. 2014). There are many techniques which involve computational intelligence such as knowledge representation, automated reasoning, inference, pattern recognition techniques and machine learning that can be applied to digital forensic investigation and analysis (Ali et al. 2016). Computational intelligence has a great potential in finding patterns and solving issues in cyber security and digital forensics (Mitchell 2014). Let's take for example a situation, when a crime happened. Forensic or CP investigators have to collect all possible evidence such as demographic information of the suspects, travels, phone calls and financial information. Normally, they have to find anomalies in all the types of data. Information can be overloaded, if suspects have two or three bank accounts that need to be investigated, travel a lot and make a lot of phone calls. The job for investigators becomes time consuming and tedious, if this has to be done manually. Therefore, if there is a system, which can find anomalies automatically in every type of data and later combine all suspected instances, the job becomes easier and more efficient. Finally, such a computationally intelligent system can create patterns, clusters, rules or diagrams, which can support the analysis and make the investigators' job easier in making decision and help solving the case. There is thus a need or opportunity to automate heterogeneous data processing aiming at (semi)-automatic identification or at least significantly reducing the time to identify suspects or suspected activities.

Anomaly detection is one of the most important methods to process and find abnormal data (Angelov 2014), as this method can distinguish between normal and abnormal behaviour. Anomalies can be detected locally (i.e., in part of the data) or globally (in all data). Anomaly detection has been applied in many areas such as the medical sector (Mone et al. 2015), fraud detection in finance (Kim and Kogan 2014), fault detection in machines (Costa et al. 2014), intrusion detection in networks (Zuech et al. 2015), surveillance systems for security (Nater and Leuven 2012) as well as forensic investigations (Ali et al. 2016; Kim et al. 2013). In this chapter, we propose a new method to detect abnormal behaviour in different datasets and to combine anomalies and evidence from images automatically. We demonstrate this method using an example of fuzzy rule for heterogeneous data fusion.

16.2 Proposed Method

Data can be in the form of text, numbers, images, videos or signals. In reality, data are heterogeneous, which means they often have several forms at the same time; for instance, data can include text, numbers and images. Heterogeneous data can

produce rich and better information. However, the data processing for every data type is different and becomes tedious and harder when the quantity of data is large. *Feature extraction* is the pre-processing phase before processing the data. Transformation techniques can be used as one way to do the feature extraction [e.g., PCA (Angelov 2013)]. *Clustering* can be used in pre-processing the data to produce clusters (groups) or to identify patterns in the data. Data, which is not in the group or cluster, can be considered as outliers or anomalies. In statistic data, outliers/anomalies can cause errors and sometimes are removed to get better clustering result (Canty et al. 2006). However, in forensics, outliers/anomalies provide valuable information, i.e., point to suspicious facts.

Traditional methods to detect anomalies are by assuming a deviation of 3σ from a smooth and static Gaussian distribution. A threshold value is being set based on a normal distribution of random variables. Based on traditional Chebyshev inequality, data is calculated using the average, then the threshold value is set. There are many drawbacks to this approach such as: datasets must be large, it requires strict *prior* assumptions, it relaxes conditions too much to avoid false positives to the level where it misses many true positives (the 3σ rule sometimes cannot detect obvious outliers) and one data sample is compared with the average instead of comparing pairs of data samples, therefore, the information is blurred and no longer pointwise and local (Angelov 2014).

Empirical Data Analytics (EDA) is a new theoretical framework to analyse data and detect anomalies without prior assumption (Angelov 2013, 2015). EDA touches the very foundations of data analytics for statistic and streaming data. It serves as an alternative to the classical probability theory and analytics (Angelov 2013, 2015). Applications of EDA include but are not limited to data analysis, clustering, classification, prediction and anomaly detection. Advantages of EDA are (Angelov 2013, 2015):

- It is entirely driven by the empirically observed data and based on their mutual distributions
- Free from prior assumption and predefined parameters
- No need to assume any model of data generation
- No need to assume the observed data to be independent or identically distributed
- No requirement for an unlimited number of observations (it can work with only two data samples)
- Free from some well-known paradoxes of traditional probability theory
- Quantities can be calculated recursively for many types of distance metrics.

In regards to anomalies detection, EDA proved to be more sensitive and flexible than the traditional approach (Angelov 2013, 2015). In addition, it is very important to analyse local anomalies rather than global one (Angelov 2014). Three EDA quantities employed in this chapter include *cumulative proximity*, *standardised eccentricity* and *data density* (Angelov et al. 2016).

Let us consider the data point denoted as x . Cumulative proximity is a square of the summed distance between all data points. It can be defined as (Angelov 2013, 2015):

$$\pi(x) = \sum_{j=1}^N d^2(x, x_j) \quad (1)$$

Standardised eccentricity is a measure of the ensemble property related to the tail of a distribution. It is sensitive to abnormal data and thus plays an important role in anomaly detection. It can be defined as (Angelov 2015; Angelov et al. 2016):

$$\varepsilon(x) = \frac{2N\pi(x)}{\sum_{j=1}^N \pi(x_j)} \quad (2)$$

Data density is a measure of the ensemble property related to the centre of a distribution. Density can be defined as (Angelov et al. 2016):

$$D(x) = \frac{1}{\varepsilon(x)} \quad (3)$$

Figure 16.1 shows the idea of the proposed autonomous analysis of the heterogeneous data aiming to detect anomalous behaviour. The process begins with acquiring the data. This method will accept many types of data such as signals (GPS), financial (e.g., credit card or account transactions), text (e.g., email, instant messaging) and image (e.g., video surveillance). Pre-processing will be applied to extract the important features then the selected features will be processed to detect anomalies. The anomaly detection phase will be conducted in an unsupervised manner based on empirical data analytics (EDA). Images will be processed using image processing techniques to identify the identity of a suspect aiming to verify the information from the anomaly detection. Later, all the information from the anomaly detection and image identification will be integrated using data fusion techniques. Data can be integrated using a fuzzy rule based system, thus producing contextually linked event sequences and story lines. It can be processed and analysed efficiently, because the amount of data become smaller and better organised and is represented in the form of human-intelligible information (e.g., rules, graphs, patterns, clusters, etc.). This approach can formalize expert knowledge and construct sequences of events. Based on the small amount of highly intelligible information, human experts are still required to verify the analysis and make the final decision. The significance of the proposed method is to reduce the processing time and facilitate and assist the human expert in making the right decision on time.

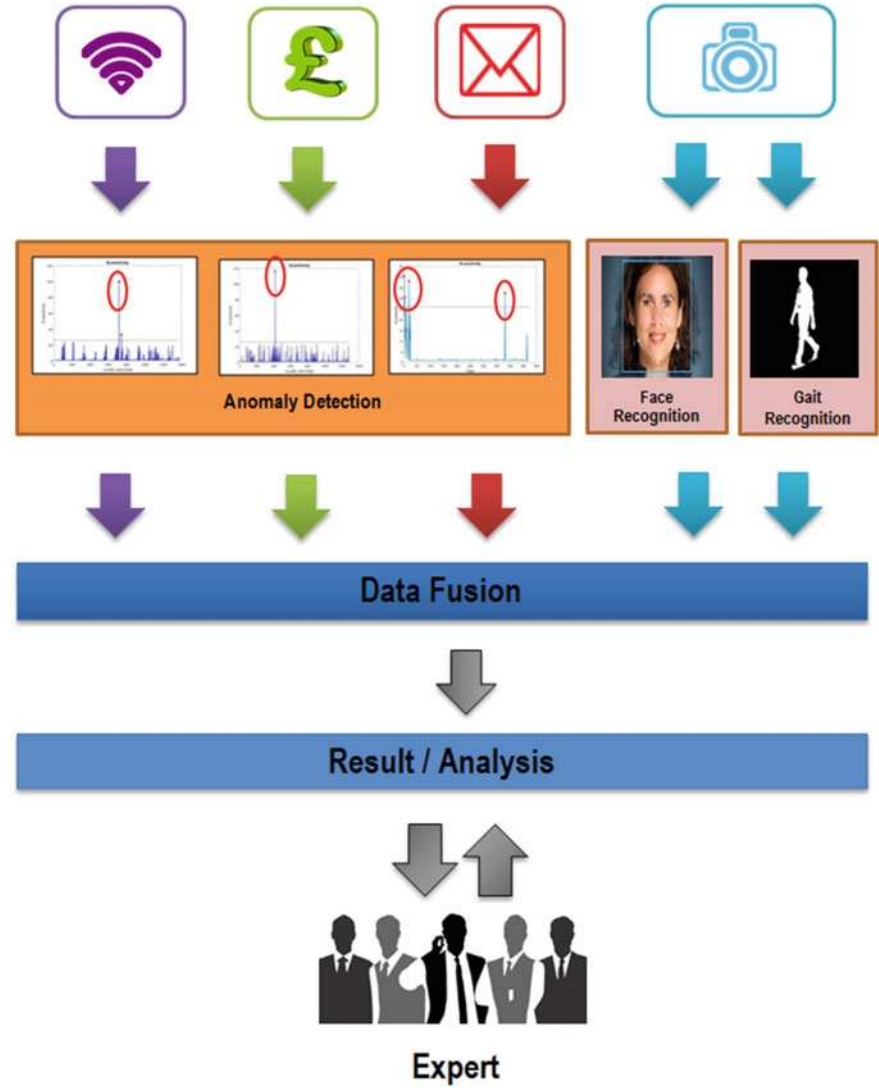


Fig. 16.1 Proposed method

16.3 Case Study

To demonstrate the method, we apply a case study based on the well-known IEEE Visual Analytics Science and Technology (VAST) Challenge 2014. The VAST Challenge is based on fictitious (virtual) data, but is quite realistic and includes many problems that need to be solved. The data are heterogeneous ranging from

unstructured text (email) to geospatial data (GPS), financial data (credit and loyalty card data) to video (streaming data). The (fictional) employees represented in the dataset have company cars in which geospatial tracking software installed without the employees' knowledge. The dataset was available for two weeks from 6 January 2014 to 19 January 2014.

16.3.1 Feature Extraction

Financial data (credit card and loyalty card data) have the same attributes. This includes timestamp, location, money spent, first name and last name. For our purposes only the money spent is being processed in the next phase, as this attribute is the most important feature in this dataset. Transactions recorded on the credit card usually go hand in hand with the transaction recorded in the loyalty card, because people will use the credit card together with the loyalty card especially when they spent more.

After processing the data, additional features can be extracted from the datasets. For example, the total spending for every person, total spends for every location, total spending for every person every day and total spending for every location every day. There are 45 staff members in the VAST datasets, therefore every spending from every staff member has to be summed up. Then new features can be extracted from the total spending for every staff member. Hence, we can easily find which staff member spends more or less. From the location information, we can find at which place people spend more and less. Further, we can extract total spends per day in two weeks as well as total spending in every location per day. This will make it easier to determine, which day and location are different from others, which person has suspicious spending behaviour, where the suspicious spending took place and when the suspicious spending happens.

There are four attributes in the GPS data, namely timestamp, ID, longitude and latitude. Of these the most important features are longitude and latitude. From these coordinates, trajectory information can be extracted such as the projection of the trajectory, average speed, distance and ratio of trajectory angle.

16.3.2 Results and Analysis

We applied Empirical Data Analytics (EDA) on the selected features in all datasets. Figure 16.2 shows the identified anomalies in the credit card transactions. There is one anomaly identified in this figure. This anomaly is the staff member no. 31 who spends \$10,000 (ten thousand US Dollars). The value of eccentricity is extremely high with more than 1378 ($>37 \sigma$). Compared to other staff members and over 14 days, only staff member no. 31 spent this much, which is abnormal (see Fig. 16.3). Figure 16.4 shows two further anomalies after we removed the first anomaly. These

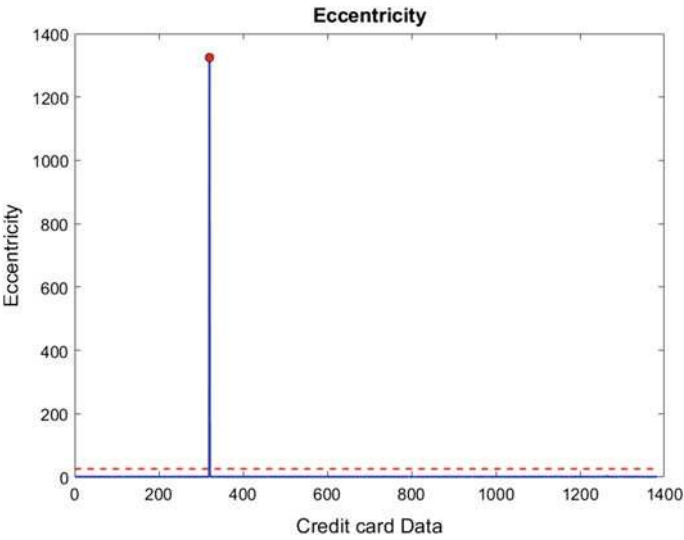


Fig. 16.2 Anomaly on credit card data

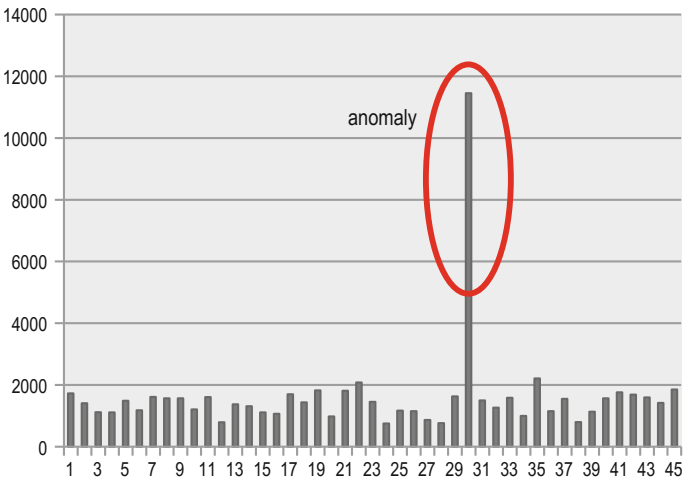


Fig. 16.3 Total spending per person using credit card data

are staff members, no. 43 and no. 40. Staff member no. 43 spent \$600 (six hundred US Dollars), which is more than 96% away from the mean (referring to Chebyshev inequality). When we process the data in loyalty cards, staff member no. 43 appears again as abnormal with the same amount (600) (see Fig. 16.5). Staff member no. 43 is the Chief Executive Officer (CEO) and staff member no. 40 is the Chief Operating

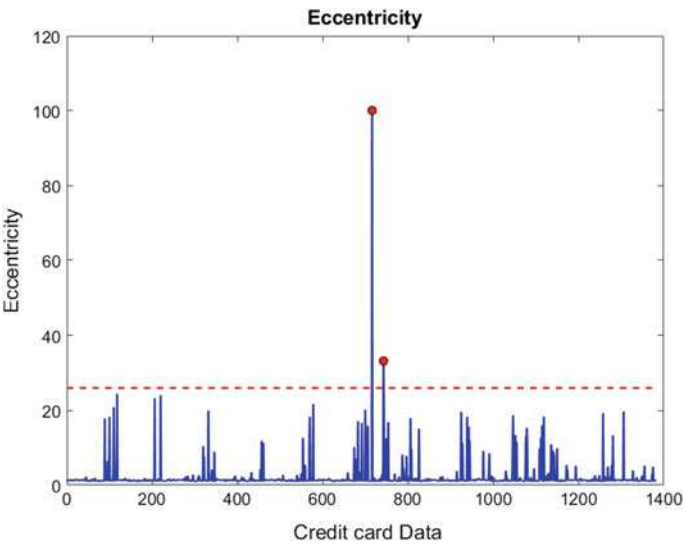


Fig. 16.4 Anomaly on the credit card after removing first anomaly

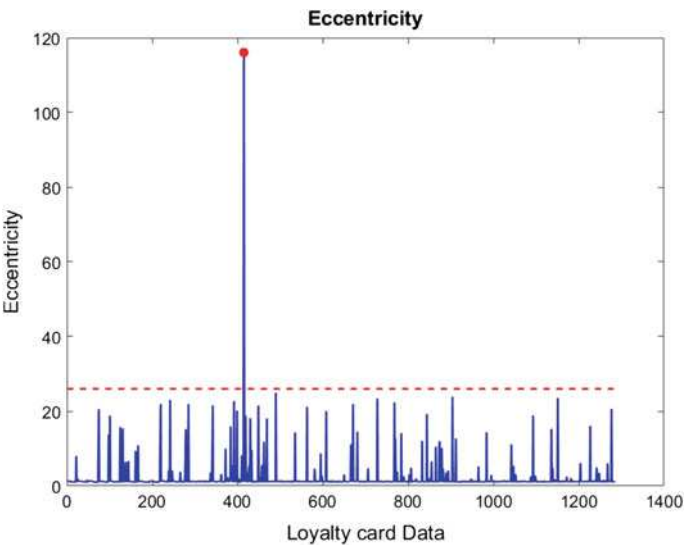


Fig. 16.5 Anomaly on loyalty card data

Officer (COO) of the company. Therefore, they can spend large amounts, as their salary is normally higher than that of other staff members.

Figure 16.6 shows the amount of spending using loyalty card: There is no anomaly detected during two weeks' time across staff members. When we compare credit card

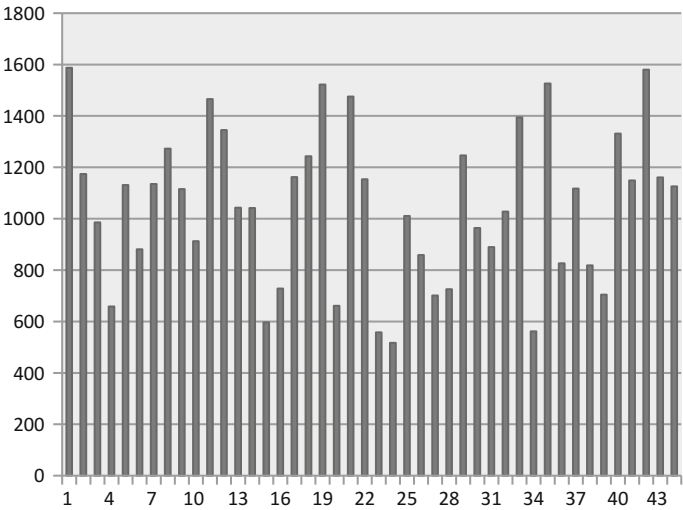


Fig. 16.6 Total spending per person using loyalty card data

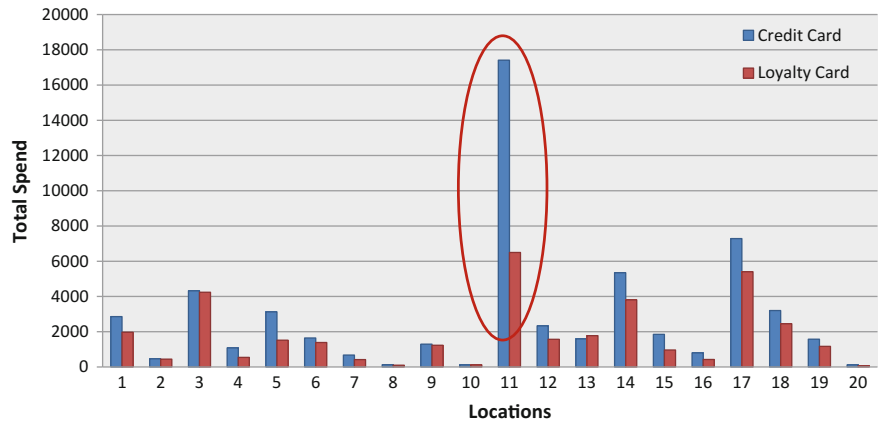


Fig. 16.7 Comparison between the usage of credit card and loyalty card from different locations

and loyalty card data, we find suspicious behaviour for staff member no. 31. The higher spending of this staff member only appears in the credit card data but not in the loyalty card data. Usually, when people use the credit card they will swipe it together with their loyalty card to get points. The more you spent, the more points you will get. The question for this transaction is why staff member no. 31 did not use his/her loyalty card. Therefore, we can make an assumption that maybe (s)he forgot to bring his/her loyalty card when spending 10,000 on the credit card.

Subsequently, we analysed the location where people spent their money. Figure 16.7 shows the comparison between credit card and loyalty card spending.

Most of the transactions for credit cards and loyalty cards indicate the same amount. Nevertheless, location no. 11, Frydos Autosupply, shows a large difference between credit card and loyalty card. Figure 16.8 shows the analysis of payments by credit card at Frydos Autosupply, which shows one anomaly at day 8. No suspicious behaviour can be identified in the loyalty card spending at Frydos Autosupply within two weeks' time (see Fig. 16.9). In the next step we analyse in detail the spending behaviour of staff member no. 31 over two weeks (see Fig. 16.10). It shows that on day 8 occurred the highest spending, as is quite obvious compared to the remaining transactions. However, considering loyalty cards, there are two

Fig. 16.8 Total spending using credit card data per day in Frydos Autosupply

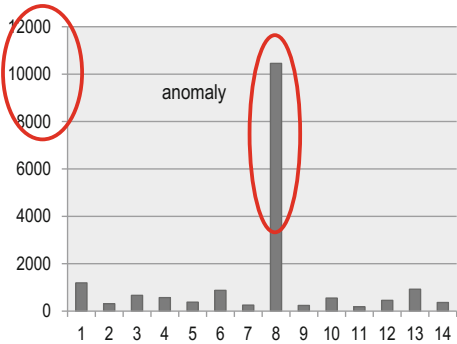


Fig. 16.9 Total spending using loyalty card data per day in Frydos Autosupply

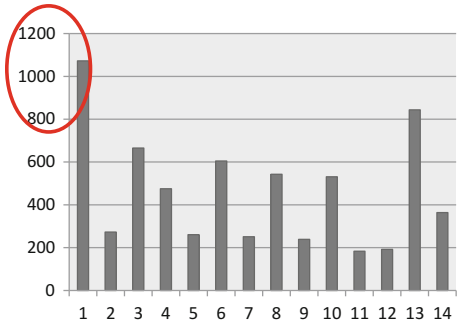
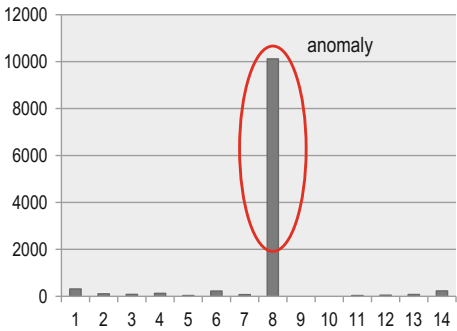


Fig. 16.10 Total spending for staff member no. 31 in 14 days using credit card data



anomalies and the amounts are not as high (about 240–280; see Fig. 16.11) compared to the credit card (where one anomaly was detected with an amount of more than 10,000) (Fig. 16.10).

The biggest dataset in this case study is the geospatial data. This data produces a large amount of useful information about the movement for staff members who have a company car. Given the data about coordinates, we can extract information about travel time, travel distance and ratio of the trajectory angle. All trajectory information is combined and normalized to make the data comparable. Figure 16.12 shows only two anomalies, which concerns staff member no. 18 with abnormal behaviour on 9 January and 17 January 2014. His/her travel pattern is abnormal compared to others,

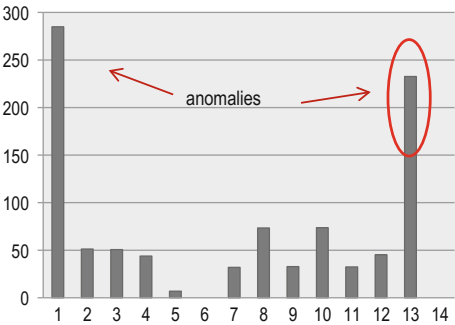


Fig. 16.11 Total spending for staff member no. 31 in 14 days using loyalty card data

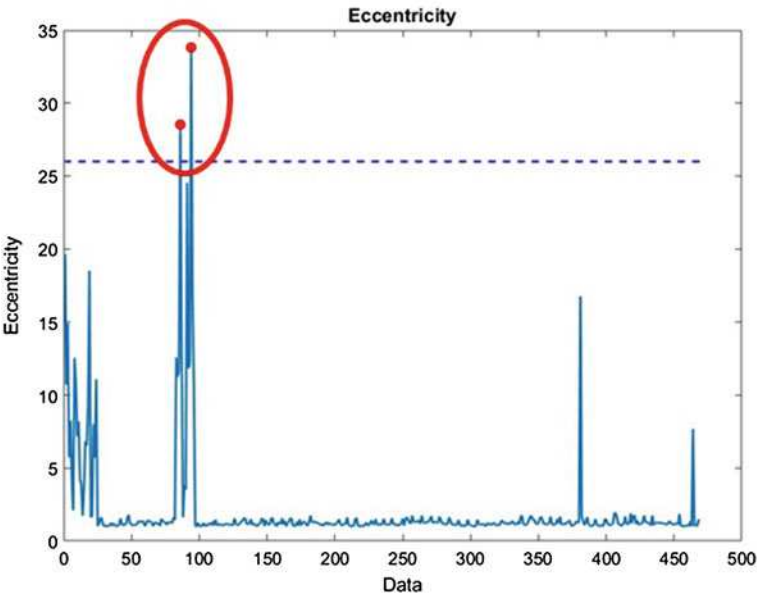


Fig. 16.12 Travel time, distance and trajectory angle

indicated by a blue line as the normal travel pattern and a purple line as the abnormal travel pattern in Fig. 16.12. When analysing the travel pattern for staff member no. 18 over time, it becomes apparent, however, that his/her travel pattern is consistent, i.e., not normal for other people but normal for this staff member. Therefore, we cannot consider staff member no. 18 as suspect.

Relating the information from credit card data to the trajectory data, we find that staff member no. 31 spent 10,000 on 13 January 2014 at 19.20 o'clock. Figure 16.13 shows the trajectory of staff member no. 31 (pink line) and staff member no. 41 (blue line) on 13 January 2014. The credit card was charged at Frydos Autosupply, but staff member no. 31 did not go to this location on this day, while at the same time we can see staff no. 41 was at that location where the card is charged (see Fig. 16.14). Our method thus detected something suspicious for staff member no. 41. Staff member no. 31 is not using the credit card until 16 January 2014 after the card was being charged for 10,000 on 13 January 2014. We can make an assumption that from 13 January to 15 January 2014, maybe his/her card was not



Fig. 16.13 Comparison between normal (blue line) and abnormal (purple line) trajectory patterns



Fig. 16.14 Trajectory of staff member no. 31 and staff member no. 41 on 13 January 2014

with the staff member. After 16 January 2014, the person starts using his/her credit card again. We can assume that maybe staff member no. 31 left his/her credit card, which was then (mis)used by staff member no. 41.

For this case study, we assumed that in addition to the data from the VAST Challenge 2014 we also have data from CCTV cameras. In this case, information regarding staff member no. 31 and staff member no. 41 can be confirmed or rejected. Streaming data from CCTV cameras can be processed using image processing techniques, which allows classifying the images with regards to face and gait recognition. The suspect can be recognised, for example, by gender and age, i.e., the system can classify between male and female and also whether the suspect is young, middle age or old using fuzzy logic techniques. Figure 16.15 shows an example of an image with people pay at the cash register. The system can detect the gender of the people in the image. Using gait recognition, the system can classify the way a suspect walks.

Once all anomalies have been detected, they have to be combined using data fusion techniques. One way of combining the data is by using fuzzy rule based systems. For example, if staff member ID is denoted as i :

$R_{\text{image } 1}$ IF (gait_image $_i$ is big_step) and (face_image $_i$ is male)
THEN (gender $_i$ is male)
 $R_{\text{image } 2}$ IF (face_age $_i$ is middle)
THEN (age $_i$ is middle)
 R_{combine} IF (credit_card_spending $_i$ is excessive) OR (loyalty_card $_i$ is used)
AND (GPS_location $_i$ is close to suspect location)
AND (gender $_i$ is male) AND (age $_i$ is middle)
THEN (staff_member $_i$ is suspect)

As the above listing illustrates, the fuzzy rules are designed based on selected features from the available datasets. There are three rules described above, which are $R_{\text{image } 1}$, $R_{\text{image } 2}$ and R_{combine} . The first rule, $R_{\text{image } 1}$ is a rule generated from face recognition. Several studies have shown that face and gait recognition can determine gender (Eidinger et al. 2014). The second rule, $R_{\text{image } 2}$, determines the age from the faces' images. Age is a fuzzy value, which classifies into 'young', 'middle

Fig. 16.15 Face recognition
—Detect gender and age.
image source Google Image



aged' or 'old'. The final rule, R_{combine} , is a combination of R_{image1} and R_{image2} together with the other datasets, which involves the process of checking credit card spending, loyalty cards, GPS location and images. The credit card spending is a fuzzy value, which can be classified into 'excessive', 'moderate' or 'low', while the value of loyalty cards is a binary number, which represents 'used' or 'not used'. The next process is to generate a fuzzy value based on GPS location using the coordinates of spending location and suspect location. The distance value is represented by 'far' or 'near'. Below is an example to illustrate the application of fuzzy rules:

If a staff member $ID = i$ uses his/her credit card *excessively* but does not use his/her loyalty card, the spending location is *far* from the suspect location; gender is *male*; age is *middle aged*, therefore, staff member _{i} is *not a suspect*.

This final output can be analysed and verified by human experts. Verification or validation of the result and analysis by experts is needed before reaching a decision or judgement. The analysis and the results can be achieved (semi)automatically. Therefore, the proposed technique can assist the expert in decision making or in simplifying their task.

16.4 Conclusion

This chapter describes a new method for the autonomously detecting of anomalous behaviour based on heterogeneous data and explains how this could be used by CP in their daily operations. The method applied EDA to detect anomalies in various heterogeneous data sets and was demonstrated using the VAST Challenge 2014 data. This data set includes credit card, loyalty card and GPS data. After analysing data on trajectory and location the suspicious person was automatically discovered. To confirm the suspect, face recognition can be applied to support information from the EDA. Then, all the information can be integrated using fusion techniques to produce the final outcome. The fuzzy rule based system can assist the forensic investigator in making decision. In the future, the proposed method may also be applied to more data sets with more complex problems. Images and text can be used and with image processing techniques and natural language processing to contribute to solving problems. This could become a very valuable tool for CP in the future.

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Chapter 17

Evaluating the Design and Implementation of CP-Support Technologies: A Participatory Framework

P. Saskia Bayerl and Gabriele Jacobs

17.1 Introduction

Modern-day European communities are increasingly diverse and multi-cultural and the policing challenges grow along with these social complexities. In order to facilitate innovative forms of Community Policing (CP), traditional communication approaches are usually complemented by ICT solutions. This started with police websites for information or online reporting and today relies heavily on social media accounts such as Facebook for awareness campaigns, Twitter or Instagram for recruitment drives or YouTube for entertainment.¹ New communication technologies run by police forces have thus become an integral part in municipalities all over Europe enabling online visibility as well as communication and information exchange between police and their communities (see also Chaps. 6, 11 and 13).

CP practices and expectations differ considerably across countries: Some communities appreciate personal, one-on-one contact with neighbourhood officers, others a more 'authoritarian stance' with a larger distance between police and public and more formal contacts; in some countries Community Policing is seen primarily as a tool for crime-fighting, while in others it is a long-term endeavour for trust building (cp. Chap. 4 and case studies in Part 2 of the book). Differences in the

¹E.g., accounts such as ggpd_recruitment by the Garden Grove Police, USA on Instagram or videos such as the #runningmanchallenge by Wales Police: <https://www.youtube.com/watch?v=qELq8w6deuU> or the Dutch National Police: <https://www.youtube.com/watch?v=vd4PUZGCgC4>, accessed Sep 26, 2016.

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understanding and impetus in Community Policing across countries and communities have an effect on the type of ICTs police officers and communities accept, the way they use it and the type of outcomes they expect from them. This chapter discusses how such considerations should and can be taken into account into the design of technologies and their use by police forces. It further offers a framework for implementers on how to evaluate, whether specific ICTs fulfil their expected role within their specific social, cultural, national and/or local context.

17.2 Information Technology Design for Community Policing in Complex Social Settings

One of the biggest challenges in ICT design and implementation is not the ‘hard’ side of technology developments, but the ‘soft’ side of social factors. Technology implementation attempts often fail because of human and organizational—rather than technological—issues, which were overlooked or underestimated in the development of ICT solutions (Griffith 1998). Technology is always ‘technology-in-practice’ and therefore co-shaped by the social context² in which it is used (Orlikowski, 2000). That is, identical technologies do not lead to the same processes and outcomes in different contexts. Such ‘soft’ factors multiply in their complexity in cross-national settings. Bayerl et al. (2013), for instance, showed how social contexts can influence the adoption and usage of technological instruments within the policing context such as automatic number plate recognition and social media depending on the legal and political European contexts in which they are applied; and also how such contexts shape implementation strategies for technologies (Denef et al. 2011).

It is important to note that the relationship between the social context and technology is not unidirectional but interdependent. Technology shapes our interactions, as can be easily witnessed in the influence of mobile phones and social media on our communication patterns. An analysis of the social context for the design of an ICT tool therefore also needs to consider that technology can be a vehicle to introduce new values in social systems. Technology “can be planted like explosives under our interactions and lead to transformations, which had barely been deemed possible before” (Magala 2009, p. 4).

This transformative power of technology is often one of the main reasons why it is introduced in organizations and communities. The basic assumption behind many ICT-implementations in CP is that the introduction of a technological tool can transform CP for the better. Clearly, a full prediction of the social consequences of a technological change is impossible. Nevertheless, a thorough analysis of the social

²Social context, also known as social environment, refers to the immediate physical setting in which people live. It includes the political, economic, cultural, technological, ecological and legal conditions of a community.

context can help to understand the parameters of the environment in which the technology will be used.

In this chapter we present a *participatory framework* that can help to make the development and implementation of ICTs for police–community interactions more effective. We base our evaluation framework on five main methodological characteristics: *consecutive piloting*, *longitudinal perspective*, *multi-stakeholder view*, *multi-level approach* and finally the *triangulation of findings* from various outcome levels. We argue for a short-, mid- and long-term evaluation approach with consecutive pilots to account for the interdependent nature of the technology and its social context. Next to this we give concrete examples for evaluation criteria of the functionality, acceptance and impact evaluation of a tool. Finally we summarize our chapter with recommendations for ICT evaluations in general.

17.3 ICT Design, Implementation and Usage as Socially Bound

In developing our framework we start from the premise that social contexts affect technologies from their design to their usage and that technologies impact their social contexts from the adaption to the usage and operation (Bayerl et al. 2013; Denef et al. 2011; Kappos and Rivard 2008). We therefore argue that the design of information systems needs to consider the social context of both the developers and users: Users' goals, values, norms and beliefs determine the required information types and processes (Choe 2004; Kappos and Rivard 2008) in a similar way as designers' goals, values, norms and beliefs affect how ICT solutions are shaped.

The social context of users requires specific design configurations, which need to be considered for the design and implementation of ICTs (Choe 2004). ICTs that are intended as collaborative support for CP efforts need to satisfy two basic requirements. First, they need to be standardized as much as possible in order to provide a meaningful tool across as many social contexts as possible (e.g., organizations, disparate social groups marked by variations in age, language, ethnicity or socio-economic status, different usage situations such as work, family, leisure, travel, etc.). Furthermore, they also need to be localized or localizable as much as needed, in order to reflect appropriately the specific needs on the supply and demand side. Knowing which tool requirements can be standardized and which can be localized is crucial for tool developments.

The social context of IT tools for CP can be analysed from three different perspectives (Kappos and Rivard 2008):

- Which elements of CP are shared across contexts and communities (e.g., do citizens and police officers across countries agree on the main tasks, goals and stakeholders of CP)?

- Which elements of CP differ across contexts, but carry a shared meaning within a community (e.g., would police officers within the UK versus Germany versus France agree on the value of entertainment videos on YouTube as valid part of Community Policing)?
- Which elements of CP are also seen differently by members within the same community (e.g., would all police officers in Belgium agree on the necessity of location tracking for Community Policing)?

In light of these complexities it is clear that the development of ICT solutions for CP is a challenging and costly task. Policy makers and the general public have a valid interest in a solid monitoring of the development and implementation of ICT solutions in CP. Next to financial concerns that tax payers' money is adequately invested, there are also far-reaching ethical and societal implications of interventions in CP (see also Hail and O'Neill 2016; O'Neill et al. 2015). ICT-facilitated communication comes with specific risks and responsibilities around privacy and data security. Connecting community members who are not (or negatively) interacting with each other in the offline world can also create tensions in terms of polarisation or hate-posts or other unintended side-effects online. Thorough evaluations of ICT interventions are needed in order to monitor the implementation and to predict (as far as possible), or at least quickly spot, the implications of the potential "explosives" (Magala 2009) planted under community social interactions.

The main challenge of ICT development for CP is the multi-contextuality of the adaptation requirements. Multi-contextuality refers to "the co-existence of different use contexts" (Henfridsson and Lindgren 2005, p. 96). Multiple contexts in CP can occur in several forms: between police and communities, across communities, among police and supporting organizations. For example, sub-communities can differ in their experiences with the police, which might result in differing trust levels or communication needs; e.g., young men of an ethnic minority might be more likely to become subject of police searches than elderly women of the ethnic majority. As a consequence, young men of this ethnic minority might become less trusting and less open towards the police than the elderly women of the ethnic majority in their environment—with consequences for their willingness to engage with police generally and with police CP tools more specifically. Equally, different professional groups may have specific expectations towards and experiences with the police. Medical experts in emergency rooms might have other communication needs with police than street workers, imams or teachers. The successful development, implementation and achievement of intended outcomes depend on the appropriate interpretation of such multiple social contexts. Hence, to understand the success of ICT innovations in CP and possible points for improvements evaluations should go hand in hand with the IT development.

Development and evaluation can accommodate for the influence of the social context in two ways:

1. *In the design phase*

- First, a systematic analysis of the expectations, needs and requirements of all (relevant) stakeholders should be conducted to provide developers with information on the relevant social contexts and their specific requirements.
- Second, the tools should be developed by a diverse team, ensuring that all (relevant) disparate perspectives are incorporated.

2. *In the implementation/usage phase*

- Evaluations should incorporate experiences and perspectives from all (relevant) stakeholders that are involved in or affected by the CP efforts or processes for which the new technology has been implemented.

This means, social context information needs to be integrated already in the tool design and development phase in order to make the technology and the social contexts more consistent with each other and facilitate the development of a tool that can lead to the intended outcomes in CP (Kappos and Rivard 2008). Thus, the development of technologies supporting CP is a step-wise procedure from concept over functioning prototype and full implementation, and evaluations are an integral part of this process at every step.

We hence advocate a *participatory evaluation design*. The premise of this approach is to include (potential) users of the technology as early as possible and optimally already throughout the design and development phase, following up with evaluations after full deployment in the field.

Conducting evaluations in this setting is not a trivial task as evaluations need to take into account that the technology develops over time, but also that the testing spans multiple contexts such as different regions or countries and user groups. Social diversity is an inherent element of CP-supporting technologies, which also has to be reflected in the evaluations. In the following, we describe a high-level framework that can guide readers in the planning and implementation of ICT evaluations specifically in complex settings such as CP.

17.4 Participatory Evaluation Framework for the Design and Usage of CP-Support Tools

Our framework is grounded in the prevalent literature and theories on change evaluations, information system design, implementation and adoption as well as CP. Its main premise is a strongly empirical focus emphasizing multi-group perspectives ranging from police, external stakeholders to developer feedback. All evaluation efforts have to take into account the specific needs, expectations and constraints of the chosen groups and the unique features of the local context (e.g., language, cultural norms, past histories in the contact with police or between specific segments of the community, special skills or vulnerabilities, etc.). This

means that an exact blueprint in which each evaluation is implemented in exactly the same way is not possible. However, an overarching framework can provide useful guidance to prepare evaluations across pilot implementations with the necessary adoptions and modifications. This starts with the analysis of Community Policing concepts and best/effective practices as necessary basis for decisions about the purposes of an ICT platform, the relevant communities and the areas and specific outcomes. Such decisions further need to be closely linked to ethical considerations. In the following, we outline the methodological basis on which the design of the framework is grounded. Then we describe the three areas—functionality, acceptance, impact—which should (ideally) be addressed during an evaluation process.

17.4.1 Methodological Basis of the Evaluation Framework

The suggested framework for evaluations is based on the following methodological characteristics:

- Consecutive piloting approach
- Consideration of changes over time
- Multi-stakeholder view
- Multi-level approach
- Triangulation of findings from various outcomes levels

17.4.1.1 Consecutive Piloting Approach

Tool developments usually follow multiple iterations to allow for adjustments and refinements in the form of pilots across several pilot sites/regions. Evaluations should be a standard part of each of these pilots creating a consecutive record of measures that allows to assess tool usage and tool features according to chosen evaluation measures (for possible measures see Sect. 17.5).³

17.4.1.2 Consideration of Changes Over Time

The evaluation needs to combine single-point and longitudinal evaluations to enable a view on how aspects vary with increasing maturity of the tool (e.g., changes in tool adoption rates or satisfaction). It further needs to take into account

³By referring to a ‘link’ between changes in tool features and evaluation outcomes we do not imply a deterministic or causal connection, as disparities in implementation processes, user characteristics, national features, situational influences, etc. across pilot sites will impact results.

that some effects may take time to materialize after the re-design or final implementation intervention (e.g., changes in trust between police and communities may occur slower than changes in the rate of incident or crime reporting).

17.4.1.3 Multi-stakeholder View

A CP platform is per definition intended for multiple communities and groups. These are (minimally) the police force(s) in the pilot regions, relevant citizen groups (such as youth, elderly, people at risk) and potentially also partner organizations that share in the responsibilities and tasks of CP (such as youth services, schools, medical services or housing). The identification of the relevant stakeholders and community groups is thus a vital part of the preparation for any evaluation. To enable a comprehensive understanding of a platform's usability and effects and to understand how it may facilitate interactions between user groups, it is vital to involve these multiple stakeholder groups simultaneously in the evaluation.

17.4.1.4 Multi-level Approach

Effects are likely to occur at different levels: starting with the individual (e.g., differences of acceptance in single users due to differences in terms of age, gender or personal experiences with police) up to the group and organizational level (e.g., variations in adoption intensity due to disparate minority cultures or organizational or national policies). Further, cross-level and inter-group effects may be expected. We therefore advocate to explicitly include multiple levels in the evaluation. Below is a list of the most important measurement levels that may be considered:

- *Individual effects*: effects that take place in individual citizens, police officers, etc.
- *Subgroup effects*: effects located in smaller sub-parts of a team or community (e.g., isolated elderly as a subgroup of elderly in a community)
- *Group/organization-level effects*: effects that affect a whole group/community and/or organization (e.g., changes in reporting practices towards police in a hospital or youth centre)
- *Cross-level effects*: effects in which characteristics on one level influence outcomes on another level (e.g., when subgroup cultures or norms affect individuals' decisions to adopt the tool)
- *Inter-group/inter-organizational effects*: effects that are located in the interaction between user collectives (e.g., changes in information sharing practices between homeless shelters and police)

17.4.1.5 Triangulation of Findings from Various Outcome Levels

Effects and impacts express themselves in various ways—from affects to changes in knowledge and skills to concrete behaviours. These various modalities (emotions, cognitions, actions, etc.) are not necessarily aligned (e.g., users personally in favour of a technology may still not use it, if peers or superiors reject it or if the environment does not provide the right infrastructure). We therefore advocate to always assess multiple modalities and to triangulate them, i.e., compare results from disparate measurements. In adapting a common evaluation framework used in training evaluations (Freeth et al. 2002), we suggest to include the following aspects in outcome measures:

- *Reactions to the technology* individuals' subjective views and experiences with the new technology (e.g., perceived usefulness of the tool for CP, satisfaction with its functions, general acceptance of or resistance against its adoption)
- *Modification of attitudes and emotions with respect to CP*: for instance, changes in the perceived value of Community Policing in general, trust in police and their work or fear of victimization
- *Acquisition of knowledge and skills* relevant for successful Community Policing: e.g., improved knowledge of relevant partners and their processes, better cross-cultural competencies or better ICT skills
- *Behavioural changes*: concrete, observable reactions such as frequency of use, increases or decreases in contacts between police and communities, amount and type of information shared
- *Changes in organizational practices* with respect to Community Policing: e.g., changes in reporting or information sharing practices, modifications to officer trainings, etc.
- *Benefits to relevant groups/organizations* such as higher effectiveness or speed of service, higher citizen participation, improved relationships, etc.

The above considerations translate into minimally two core aspects for our evaluation framework, namely a *longitudinal setup* of the evaluation and the *consecutive logic of pilots*.

17.4.2 Timeline of the Evaluation

Technology implementation and adoption is a process that unfolds over time. For a full understanding of the effects of CP-support tools, it is therefore vital to capture the temporal and changing nature of the implementation, adoption and usage processes (cf. Boudreau and Robey 2005). This implies a longitudinal approach in which repeated measurements are conducted within the same group(s) of people.

To determine whether the technology implementation did lead to changes, we advocate for a baseline measurement to capture attitudes, behaviours, performance, etc. before the implementation. Subsequent measures after the new tools have been

deployed will then be compared to this baseline to determine whether changes have indeed taken place. This setup also allows to test for causal effects. Another benefit of this longitudinal approach is that it takes into account that implementation and adoption processes generally do not progress along a neat timeline of events. Affective, cognitive and behavioural changes may occur at different times or change at different rates; for instance, in that perceptions of social aspects adapt faster or slower than perceptions of technology (Burke et al. 2002). A *longitudinal perspective* allows capturing such time-shifted reactions (McGrath and Tschan 2004).

The literature on longitudinal research does not provide clear guidelines on the optimal length of the time lags between measurement points (e.g., Ployhart and Vandenberg 2010; Ployhart and Ward 2011). Here, knowledge about the mechanisms underlying the targeted outcomes should guide the selection of intervals between measurement points. Intervals can be longer when a steady, linear effect is expected, but intervals should be shorter if a higher dynamic of effects is expected or impactful/hurtful effects may occur, which should be spotted quickly.

A possible spacing of measurement points for moderately dynamic outcomes is three or four months to cover short-term and mid-term effects. This means that the baseline measurement would be conducted three (or four) months before implementation, and subsequent evaluation rounds would follow in periods of three (or four) months. Longer time intervals may come with higher attrition rates, since people might move away or lose interest in the project; shorter intervals may lead to unwillingness and ‘survey fatigue’. A final evaluation may be added after a longer period when new processes have stabilized and become routine. This type of longitudinal setup is presented in Fig. 17.1.

17.4.3 The Piloting Approach

Often ICT innovations for CP only reach communities once the technology is deemed mature and stable enough. While on first view this may preclude immature technologies to reach end-users, it also forestalls the chance to involve (potential) end-users in the design phase and adjust to local needs and expectations, i.e., misses the chance of tailoring the technology for usage across the multiple groups and contexts that are such an integral part of CP efforts. To leverage the potential of user feedback across the design and development process, we suggest to establish

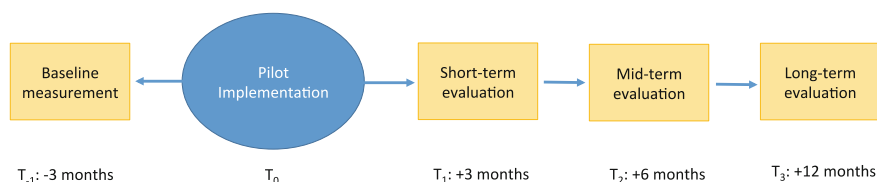


Fig. 17.1 General setup for a CP-ICT evaluation (the indicated duration between steps are only for illustration)

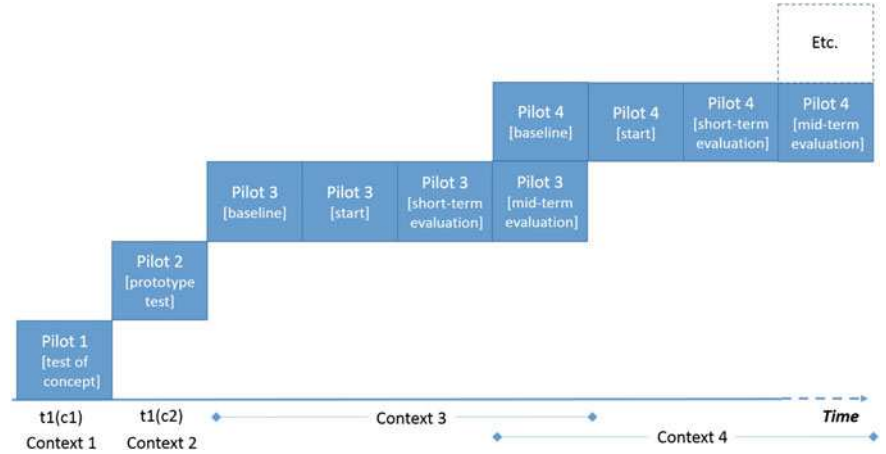


Fig. 17.2 Consecutive piloting approach

consecutive piloting implementation in parallel to rapid development cycles as used in industrial product development.

The results of the pilot evaluations form the basis for the (further) development and refinement of the CP technology. A first pilot may function as a proof-of-concept, while additional pilots test the increased maturity of functions and overall design. User involvement in the design process from concept to functioning prototype should thus remain integral part of the process and evaluations form important milestones for the improvement of the platform and/or its components. The design process consequently goes through several iterations, which ensures that the technology increases in maturity over time while retaining a focus on multi-contextually as integral part. Figure 17.2 illustrates this consecutive approach in a schematic way.

17.4.3.1 Benefits of a Consecutive Piloting Approach

This consecutive approach has the considerable advantage that it allows testing the technology directly in the field starting from the conceptual stage into a functional prototype. This guarantees that the tool is designed with direct application in mind. Further, because of the multi-stakeholder approach (simultaneously considering various user groups such as police, community groups and supporting organizations) as well as the multi-context deployment (CP tools are ideally designed around various communities to allow for data-connection), transferability across contexts is part of the design and development process. This multi-contextual design philosophy flows from the vision of a flexible and scalable Community Policing model (cp. Chaps. 3 and 5).

17.4.3.2 Considerations and Potential Challenges

While a very potent approach for the end-user driven development of CP technologies, the consecutive piloting approach also introduces challenges for a systematic evaluation of impacts and consequences.

Because of the continuous adjustments and modifications to the technology across different pilots, the data that can be collected, the reactions of users as well as the type and extent of effects on behaviours, practices and processes will necessarily change with each pilot. For this reason, statements about aspects such as acceptance, adoption, impacts and unintended consequences will largely be limited to the settings in which the data was collected. Further, establishing cross-contextual generalizability of a technological tool for the complex social phenomenon ‘Community Policing’ is a challenging and potentially time- and cost-intensive enterprise.

We propose the consecutive piloting approach to maximize *cross-contextual generalizability*. Each pilot taking place in a different context creates the prerequisites to test for the localization versus generalizability of technologies. Yet as stated above, this approach also restricts the direct comparability of assessments across pilots. This does not render assessments moot, but we are aware of the challenges for the generalization of findings across (regional and/or national) implementation contexts (e.g., issues of cross-cultural data collection for the policing context, Jacobs and Bayerl 2015).

In a full-blown evaluation approach with baseline, short-, mid-term and long-term measurements users would have a technology they can access and use on a regular basis. In our suggested methodological setup we grasp step by step context-specific constraints and directly feed this information into the next development stage of the platform. In this scenario, the first pilot is primarily intended as proof of concept, i.e., no actual technology can be deployed to users. The second pilot is intended as demonstration of a first prototype, and so on until the platform reaches sufficient maturity for full-scale deployment. In consequence, we suggest to start with the full evaluation cycle of short-, mid- and long-term assessments only, once the technology is ready to be used in a realistic (field) context, may it be with limitations. The objectives and approaches for the initial pilots would then look as follows:

- *Evaluation in pilot 1*: proof of concept through scenario-based workshop(s), no short- and mid-term evaluation
- *Evaluation in pilot 2*: test of first prototype with focus on functionality testing through scenario-based workshop(s), no short-/mid-term evaluation
- *From pilot 3 on*: deployment of the technology to the relevant communities and end-users using the full evaluation process of baseline as well as short-, mid-term and long-term evaluations.

Each pilot should take place in a different social and cultural context and therefore inform the next pilot about possible culture- specific requirements of the tool. This methodology broadens the cultural lens of the platform development.

This approach is scalable, in that it can be applied within local communities of a city or region, but also reach beyond national boundaries. That is, pilots could be employed in a European context where developers and users come from disparate countries and/or pilot implementations could be conducted sequentially in different countries. The consecutive setup with pilots moving across countries introduces considerably variation in terms of national (political, economic, legal, social and technological) contexts as well as potential disparities in terms of norms, experiences, knowledge, etc.

A complexity in handling such cross-national endeavours is that national and contextual differences challenge the comparability of concepts, processes and results across pilot sites. The task here is to establish “equivalent meaning of concepts and data in different social and cultural contexts” (Craig and Douglas 2005); firstly, when it comes to the purpose of CP tools, but equally with respect to the relevant outcomes of the tool and CP more generally.

17.5 Choosing Evaluation Criteria: Functionality, Acceptance and Impact

The following sections list possible evaluation criteria and where applicable possible operationalizations and methods. Three areas of the assessment are addressed:

- Functionality and usability testing
- Technology acceptance and adoption
- Impact evaluation

We focus especially on impact evaluation, since this part is the most crucial one from a societal perspective. Here we also suggest some operationalizations to illustrate our evaluation roadmap. In addition, we also shortly discuss unintended consequences and how to assess their effects.

17.5.1 *Functionality and Usability Testing*

Functionality and usability testing assesses whether a new technology meets the requirements that guided its design and development, whether it responds correctly to inputs, performs its functions within an acceptable timeframe, functions consistently and reliably, recovers quickly from user errors and can be installed and run in its intended environments. *Functionality testing* is generally conducted without end-user involvement, while *usability testing* evaluates a product by testing it with end-users. In this process software is tested to ensure that it conforms to all requirements as laid out by the intended end-user(s).

Once the platform has been developed to an appropriate stage, a large number of *functional testing techniques* exist, from which the most appropriate one(s) need to be chosen based on the context of the testing. These techniques include *smoke*

testing (an initial test to check whether the system is sufficiently ready/stable for further testing) and *white box testing* (to tests the internal structures or workings using test cases). Suggested methods for functionality testing include the creation of test plans together with standard, erroneous and destructive testing to ensure that the system is robust enough.

After the successful completion of this phase, applications and tools need to be tested against users' needs to demonstrate their benefits and usefulness for their intended purpose. This process verifies that a solution works for the intended end-user(s) and that they accept the solution. This step is related to questions of technology acceptance and adoption, discussed in more detail in the next section. Possible methods for usability testing are *heuristics evaluations* and *A/B testing*. The multi-contextual nature of the design and development process further offers the possibility for testing standardization versus localization of interfaces to ensure that the tool can be adapted easily to various organizational, local or situational contexts.

In addition, the integration of the tool into existing systems has to be assured through *integration testing*, which may be especially relevant on the police side.

17.5.2 Tool Acceptance and Adoption

Investigations into acceptance and adoption aim to understand:

- Whether and to what extent users are willing to adopt the newly developed tool(s)
- The factors that may influence the willingness or actual usage of the tool(s) by individuals, groups and/or organizations

Acceptance and adoption thus touch on a wide range of potential aspects how users perceive a new technology. To understand why a certain technology succeeds or fails, it is important to consider possible prerequisites to acceptance and adoption. Existing literature has studied a wide range of possible factors (cp. Jeyaraj et al. 2006; Venkatesh and Davis 2000), which fall largely into four areas:

- *Technology characteristics*: features of the technology that is implemented (e.g., type of functionalities, ease of use)
- *Characteristics of the individual*: features of the (potential) end-user such as age, gender, technological experience, computer anxiety, etc.
- *Characteristics of the organization*: features of the organization in which the technology is implemented (e.g., size, infrastructure, management structure, management support)
- *Characteristics of the environment*: features that describe the local, group, national, etc. context of (potential) users or user groups (e.g., group cultures, social pressures, communication norms, historical events, etc.)

Where ever possible, all four areas should be addressed.

17.5.3 *Impact Evaluation*

This part of the evaluation aims to understand the impact of the tool or technology, that is:

- Whether it achieves the intended results and
- Whether it leads to unintended consequences (positive and/or negative) for its users.

Areas for impact assessment can be determined in different ways:

- Theoretically based on reviews of existing literature on technology acceptance, adoption and continuance
- Empirically based on expert interviews with internal and external stakeholder of the community
- Pragmatically based on impacts that have political and/or legal priority in the community

In the following we will discuss possible areas and concrete indicators to assess the impact of CP technologies focusing on operational outcomes, relationships, acceptance of Community Policing, liveability and police-internal processes and attitudes. This selection is not intended as representative, as depending on the case additional or other areas may be more useful to assess impacts, but can provide guidance into the type and range of feasible and available measures.⁴

17.5.3.1 **Operational Outcome Criteria in Police Performance**

Operational outcome criteria describe changes in police performance in terms of potential key performance indicators. An overview of relevant concepts, their possible operationalizations and methods for their measurement are provided in Table 17.1. It should be noted that the list in Table 17.1 is only a selection in order to illustrate our arguments. Evaluations may thus include different and/or additional evaluation criteria. Further, although operational outcome criteria aim to ‘objectify’ police performance, it is well known that this is a problematic task (see for instance, Tilley 1995 on the feasibility of crime prevention indicators).

17.5.3.2 **Impact on Relationships Between Police, Community Groups and Other Stakeholders**

Citizen participation, and with this establishing and maintaining relationships between police, community groups and other stakeholders, is an important element of CP (Myhill 2012; also Chap. 4). Hence, assessing impact on various aspects of

⁴For a more extensive overview of indicators, see Bayerl et al. 2015.

Table 17.1 Possible indicators to assess operational outcomes

Concept	Possible operationalization	Possible measurement
Crime reduction	Number of crimes on a local or national level	Objective information in police data
Increase in solved crimes	Number of solved crimes on a local or national level	Objective information in police data
Faster solution of cases	Time taken for the solution of cases	Objective information in police data; self-reports through surveys or interviews
Citizens' satisfaction with police work	Degree of citizens' satisfaction with police work	Self-reports through surveys or interviews
Perception of police performance	Subjective impression of police work in terms of, e.g., effectiveness, quality	Self-reports through surveys or interviews
Reduction in wrong convictions	Number of wrong convictions	Self-reports through surveys or interviews; objective information in police data
Availability	Extent to which police officers are available for the public, e.g., in terms of ease of making contact or time spent for requests	Self-reports through surveys or interviews; objective information in police data
Visibility	Extent to which police officers are present in the public	Self-reports through surveys or interviews; objective information in police data
Crime reporting	Number of crimes reported from the relevant communities, people reporting crimes, quality of the information reported	Objective information in police data

relationships between police and these groups will often be an integral element of pilot evaluations. Relevant criteria and their possible operationalizations are summarized in Table 17.2.

17.5.3.3 Impact on the Acceptance of Community Policing

The success of Community Policing efforts is closely related to the willingness of citizens to accept Community Policing as a concept and to engage with police officers in their area. We therefore include acceptance of Community Policing as part of an impact evaluation with respect to two aspects: general acceptance as well as the willingness of the public to directly engage in Community Policing. Table 17.3 provides possible operationalizations for both aspects.

17.5.3.4 Impact on Liveability

Liveability describes the extent to which citizens consider their environment as a space that affords sufficient quality of life across various areas (e.g., work, family,

Table 17.2 Possible indicators to assess the quality of relationship between citizens, police and other stakeholders

Concept	Possible operationalization	Possible methods
Trust/Confidence	Degree of trust/confidence in police as organization	Self-reports through surveys or interviews
Legitimacy	Degree of perceived legitimacy of police as organization	Self-reports through surveys or interviews
Fairness	Degree of perceived fairness in treatment of community group members	Self-reports through surveys or interviews
Respect by and for police	Degree of reported respect towards members of community groups; number of respectful and/or disrespectful acts towards police officers	Self-reports through surveys or interviews; objective information in police data
Perceived expertise	Degree of perceived expertise of police in general and with respect to the relevant communities	Self-reports through surveys or interviews
Perceived professionalism	Degree of perceived expertise of police. In general in treatment of the relevant communities	Self-reports through surveys or interviews
Image of the police	Positive perception of police organization, degree of positive media coverage, positive feedback/comments by the public on social media	Self-reports through surveys or interviews; objective data from media analysis
Closer cooperation	Extent of collaborative activities between police, citizens and other groups or organizations, e.g. in terms of providing information and assistance; reporting (potential) crimes and disorder; becoming a police volunteer [where applicable depending on country context]	Self-reports through surveys or interviews; objective information in police and external data
Willingness to work for the police	Number of volunteers from the various communities [where applicable depending on country context]; number of applicants for police jobs [where applicable depending on country context]	Objective information in police data
Complaints about police work	Number of official complaints against police officers	Objective information in police and/or governmental data [depending on country context]
Awareness of security as common good	Degree to which individual or groups perceive the creation of security as a common tasks	Self-reports through surveys or interviews

leisure, etc.). Liveability is thus linked to the well-being of individuals, families and communities and in a more abstract sense also to those of organizations and society as a whole. Community Policing can support liveability, for instance, by increasing citizens' feeling of safety or by improving social cohesion by fostering contacts between diverse groups. Table 17.4 lists possible ways to assess liveability in communities.

Table 17.3 Possible indicators to assess acceptance of Community Policing

Concept	Possible operationalization	Possible methods
Acceptance of Community Policing	Degree to which activities for CP are accepted and supported by citizens/external stakeholders, e.g., with respect to visibility/presence of officers in public space; emergency assistance and aid; information gathering for crime prevention (in person, through IT); reaction to help requests; engaging with CP officers on the street	Self-reports through surveys or interviews
Willingness to help police	Willingness in the relevant community to share information with police, voice concerns about safety, report (potential) crimes and disorder, etc.	Self-reports through surveys or interviews

Table 17.4 Possible indicators to assess liveability

Concept	Possible operationalization	Possible methods
Feeling of safety	Extent to which citizens perceive themselves, their group or their environment to be safe	Self-reports through surveys or interviews; media analysis
Effects on society	Responsibility for and ownership of problems, crime and disorder	Self-reports through surveys or interviews
Improvements in image	Better image of a group, city, area, etc. internally, by other citizens or by police	Self-reports through surveys or interviews; media analysis
Social cohesion	Community cohesion and trust within the community	Self-reports through surveys or interviews; media analysis

17.5.3.5 Impact on Police-Internal Processes and Attitudes

As last area, we added effects within the police and for individual police officers in terms of internal work processes and officers' attitudes. While the previous sections considered primarily effects in the environment of the police, this area thus addresses changes in police processes and the police organization itself. Table 17.5 lists potential indicators to assess such changes.

17.5.4 The Challenge of Unintended Consequences

Technologies are implemented with a 'general intent' or purpose in mind regarding the "values and goals underlying a given set of structural [technology] features" (DeSanctis and Poole 1994, p. 126). Users, however, often deviate from this general intent—ignoring features designers or their organization deem important,

Table 17.5 Possible indicators to assess changes in police internal attitudes and processes

Concept	Possible operationalization	Possible measurement
Improved intelligence gathering	Amount of information/intelligence; quality of information	Objective information in police; self-reports through surveys or interviews
Efficiency	Less resources needed in terms of personnel, time, budget, etc.	Objective information in police; self-reports through surveys or interviews
Knowledge about communities	Degree of knowledge about relevant communities in terms of e.g., amount, validity, quality	Self-reports through surveys or interviews
Knowledge of problem causes	Better problem solving; improved assessment of CP effectiveness	Self-reports through surveys or interviews
CP as integral part of the police	Degree to which Community Policing is integrated in organizational structures, practices, trainings, etc.	Objective information such as structures and practices; self-reports through surveys or interviews
Localized approach	Degree of localization of Community Policing structures and practices	Objective information such as structures and practices; self-reports through surveys or interviews
Less rights violations, fewer victims of police violence	Frequency of official violations and complaints, severity of violations and complaints	Objective information in police data; self-reports through surveys or interviews

modifying them along own preferences or using them in unexpected ways. Next to this, technology can also trigger social reactions that were not foreseen. Social media provides many such examples. Facebook was originally developed as a tool to interconnect Harvard students. Within a few years it has grown into a tool that facilitates riots and revolutions, helps people in international crisis situations as well as supports criminal activities like scams, cyberbullying or the planning of robberies. Few technologies do not have at least some unintended consequences either in their usage or in social practices (McAulay 2007; Peters 2006).

Next to the intended effects, which we illustrated in our operationalization examples above, evaluations therefore should aim to capture also such unintended side-effects, or as we coined them in our introduction, “explosives under our interactions”. These include particularly impacts of ethical and societal issues such as pressures on privacy and trust, resistance from users or changes in online relationships and behaviours. For instance, more involvement with police can also lead to a decrease in citizens’ safety perceptions (Scheider et al. 2003; Zhao et al. 2002), which counteracts one of the main intentions of Community Policing. Further, users may start (over)reporting issues that are of little value to police (e.g., minor nuisances in their community or problems that are the responsibility of other organizations), while more critical issues may become under-reported (spiral-of-silence; Hampton et al. 2014).

We suggest two ways of capturing unintended side-effects: Firstly, analysing behavioural traces from tool use; secondly, conducting interviews and focus groups on a regular basis with selected users in the community, support organizations and in police forces. The first approach obtains concrete usage data to pinpoint unexpected patterns and uses, the second approach can identify users' motivations, concerns and interpretations of the tool, their rationales for (not) using it and how the tools changed attitudes, knowledge and behaviours of themselves or their group. Optimally interviews would therefore target individuals, which continue using the tools (high or low usage) and individuals who discontinued the use.

17.6 Summary and Recommendations

The successful development, implementation and usage of technologies to support CP depends on their fit with the social context in which they are going to be employed as well as their fit with the specific CP functions they are meant to support. Increasingly this means that ICTs for CP have to content with very complex contexts and various, often highly diverse communities of users—all with their own needs, requirements and expectations, as shaped by their own social context (be it local communities, police or supporting organizations).

We argue that achieving the intended outcomes of CP tools depends on the appropriate interpretation of the social context and on taking it into consideration from the very first inception of ICTs through to their continued deployment in the field. In this chapter we proposed an evaluation framework, which accommodates for the influence of the social context in ICT evaluations in two ways. Firstly, a systematic analysis of expectations and requirements across all (potential) user and stakeholder groups is needed to provide the developers with information on the various social contexts the tool will encounter. This social context information is integrated in the tool development. Secondly, the tool needs to be developed by a diverse group ensuring that various perspectives from all relevant end-user groups are incorporated. The implications of the social context for the tool development also need to be assessed in diverse settings. These reflection moments are included in order to make ICTs for CP and the social contexts more consistent with each other and to facilitate the development of technologies that can lead to the intended outcomes in CP (Kappos and Rivard 2008).

In summary, our framework can be summarized in the following recommendations:

- At the beginning of an evaluation a systematic analysis of the goals of the technological innovation is needed. These goals need to be clearly defined for the various internal and external stakeholders of the processes that will be influenced by the new technology. A clear definition of goals allows for the precise definition of performance criteria and indicators, which form the basis for functionality, acceptance and impact measurements.

- Evaluations need to acknowledge the inherent social complexity of ICT implementations. This includes a thorough analysis of the social context in which the implementation takes place as well as the consideration of possible external developments that might influence the perception of the technology in the course of its implementation and subsequent use.
- Multi-disciplinary expertise is needed to conduct evaluations. This covers ICT experts, but also experts in change, social communication and Community Policing in order to analyse the complex dynamic between ICT and the social environment. Lastly, citizens need to be taken seriously as experts in their own right and obtain a fixed part in the design and implementation of technological innovations for CP efforts.
- A focus on the outcomes of an evaluation needs to be complemented by a process evaluation, which in short-term and mid-term evaluations can capture step-by-step the impact the technology has in the community and the unintended (positive/negative) side-effects it may trigger.
- Last but not least evaluations need to capture the plurality of the social communities that will use the technology. This implies that multiple stakeholders need to be involved right from the start in the evaluation of any ICT development and implementation.

Evaluations of ICTs in communities are a complex, costly and demanding endeavour. Nevertheless we hope that they will become an integral part of ICT implementations in police, since they provide essential design and development information and can help to monitor the social effects new technologies have on communities as well as the organizations involved in CP efforts. Evaluations can significantly enhance the likelihood of successful ICT design and implementations. This, in the end, makes evaluations actually cost-saving instruments and helps communities to develop the tools they need and want.

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Chapter 18

Concluding Remarks

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In 1829 Sir Robert Peel formulated his nine basic principles of policing. Amongst them can be found the following instruction: “*To maintain at all times a relationship with the public that gives reality to the historic tradition that the police are the public and that the public are the police, the police being only members of the public who are paid to give full time attention to duties which are incumbent on every citizen in the interests of community welfare and existence.*”¹

As the preceding chapters of this volume demonstrate, this principle as well as others in the ‘General Instructions’ to officers are as alive and valid today as they were nearly two hundred years ago—although, as our authors show, they regularly undergo and may in fact require reinterpretation and adaptation to the specifics of the historical, national and cultural contexts in which Community Policing is enacted.

¹<https://www.gov.uk/government/publications/policing-by-consent/definition-of-policing-by-consent>.

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The chapters in this book have each been written towards the objective of establishing the underlying principles and social, organizational as well as technological requirements for the realisation of Community Policing (CP) from concept to deployment. We have established Community Policing as a vital element of social cohesion, whereby CP components (e.g., citizens, Law Enforcement Agencies, NGOs or civic associations) can form a social system with the security and safety of citizen as its main objective. A wide range of case studies further illustrated the practical realization of Community Policing across Europe, identifying current practices, potential challenges and possible advantages CP could deliver to European citizens. They further showcased the role of Community Policing in today's broader landscape of challenges such as radicalization, riot policing and technological innovations.

As became clear throughout this book, Community Policing is a continuously developing concept that—together with the accompanying CP practices—undergoes significant changes over time, while the speed of its emergence and the direction of its development vary from country to country. The main challenge that emerged from all contributions is the clear message that Community Policing needs to take into account regional, cultural, social, religious, etc. differences across countries (and often even across contexts within the same country), while at the same time it also needs to be harmonised across Europe to ensure that good practises can be expanded to benefit all European citizens and that cross-border cooperation can provide additional advantages to the way Community Policing is delivered.

Our introduction to this volume not only highlighted the fact that developing successful CP procedures depends on the overall socio-political context in each country, but also emphasised the importance of Community Policing as an instrument for bring communities and the police closer together to enable co-creation of safety and the development of social cohesion (see also Chap. 2). In addition, Chaps. 3 and 4" have highlighted the imperative role of 'accountability', 'partnership' and 'trust' to police by communities and their impact on the legitimatisation of police engagement and actions within communities. In various chapters of this volume, our authors have further identified and elaborated on the critical role of information and communication technologies (e.g., Chaps. 6, 12 and 15) and particularly of social media as a key facilitator and enabler of Community Policing (cp. Chaps. 11 and 13), while Chap. 5 provided a systemic perspective of Community Policing as a social system with four key components (elements, environment, structure and mechanisms).

Synthesising the disparate case studies in Chaps. 6–13 and the evaluation criteria identified in Chap. 17 we can identify critical success factors (CSFs) for the realisation of Community Policing (regardless of its implementation method), which can be summarized into six fundamental principles:

1. Trust building
2. Timely information exchange
3. Accountability
4. Prevention of crime
5. Community cohesion
6. Engagement and partnership.

We therefore argue that the adaptation of any CP model, strategy, technology or CP process for implementation within (general or specific) communities should consider the above six CSFs as underlying principles for measuring the success of Community Policing.

Many of the insights and discussions within the chapters of this volume derive from national, European and international research initiatives. Particularly the book benefited from numerous collaborative projects, sponsored by the European Union within the FP7 and Horizon 2020 Research Frameworks. These projects (UNITY, INSPEC²T, NEXES and TENSOR, to name just a few) are interdisciplinary research projects involving numerous academic institutions, industrial companies and Law Enforcement Agencies aiming to strengthen connections between the police and communities in order to maximise the safety, security, freedom, justice and quality of life of all European citizens. The projects take into account the diverse nature of European society and propose new and innovative ways of delivering Community Policing in Europe.

Yet, although the discussions and examples were framed within a European context, the conceptual considerations as well as the practical insights, experiences and lessons of this book are—in our estimate—just as valuable for practitioners and (police) scholars outside Europe; especially with respect to the more general discussions around the concept and foundations of Community Policing and its deployment and success within local contexts. With this our book provides the conceptual foundations as well as practical guidance for how Peel's requests for "*a relationship with the public that gives reality to the historic tradition that the police are the public and that the public are the police*" can be given shape in today's interconnected, multi-faceted and ever-changing world.